A COMPLETE SUMMARY OF

Church History in Plain Language

Chapter by chapter, section by section

the book by

Bruce L. Shelley

fourth edition, revised by R. L. Hatchett

NINE AGES · FORTY-EIGHT CHAPTERS · TWO THOUSAND YEARS

ABOUT THIS SUMMARY

This volume is an independent study summary of *Church History in Plain Language* by Bruce L. Shelley, in the fourth edition revised by R. L. Hatchett. It keeps the plan of the original—nine ages and forty-eight chapters—and goes through every chapter section by section, under the original section headings, so that no topic of the book is passed over. The sidebars of the original are summarized in tinted boxes, and each chapter closes with its key people, dates and terms. The foreword, the prologue, the nine part introductions and the epilogue are summarized as well; the list of popes is given in full as an appendix, and a chronology gathers the dates of all chapters in one place.

The summary is written in new words and reports what the book says; where the author takes a position, the summary says so. The reading lists and the source notes are described at the end but not reproduced, and the pictures and timelines of the original are left out. A summary is a map, not the journey: for the stories told in full, for the quotations and for the argument, read the book itself.

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The Book at a Glance

Shelley divides two thousand years into nine *ages*, because in each of them the conditions of the church's life changed. Every age opens with a short paragraph that carries the plot; the chapters then take up one issue each. Read in a row, the nine introductions give the whole story.

1 The Age of Jesus and the Apostles 6 BC–AD 70 · chs. 1–2
Jesus of Nazareth starts a renewal movement inside Judaism. After his crucifixion his teaching spreads around the Mediterranean, and Paul's message of salvation as God's gift for all people turns a Palestinian Jewish movement into a universal faith.

2 The Age of Catholic Christianity 70–312 · chs. 3–8
The faith spreads through the Roman Empire and probably as far as India. Under ridicule and persecution Christians call their movement *catholic*: universal in reach and true in teaching. It is marked by a universal vision, orthodox belief and the leadership of bishops.

3 The Age of the Christian Roman Empire 312–590 · chs. 9–16
With Constantine the church moves from the catacombs to the palace and ends the fourth century as the established religion, responsible for a whole society. Doctrine is defined and structures grow. Some see a victory, the monks see a captivity; when the western empire falls, it is the monks who win the barbarians.

4 The Christian Middle Ages 590–1517 · chs. 17–23
Out of the ruins of the western empire the church builds a new order, Europe, around the idea of Christendom, the union of empire and church. Papal power climbs to its height under Innocent III and is then corrupted, while reformers call ever more loudly for change.

5 The Age of the Reformation 1517–1648 · chs. 24–31

Reform breaks the papal leadership of the West and produces four Protestant traditions: Lutheran, Reformed, Anabaptist and Anglican. Rome recovers its fervor under the Jesuits, wars of religion ravage Europe, and the denominational idea of the church points to a new way of living with division.

6 The Age of Reason and Revival 1648–1789 · chs. 32–35

Science and human reason replace the Christian faith as the foundation of Western culture. Many Protestants answer not with argument but with the experience of conversion; evangelical Christianity spreads by preaching, and Christians learn to accept religious freedom.

7 The Age of Progress 1789–1914 · chs. 36–41

The French Revolution gives the common people new hopes, the cities fill with the poor, and evolution raises new questions about humanity. Divided over the answers and no longer carried by the state, Protestants turn to voluntary societies for social work and foreign missions.

8 The Age of Ideologies 1914–1989 · chs. 42–45

Communism, Nazism and Americanism struggle for the world, and a new paganism appeals to economics, race and individual rights. Christians suffer, think and unite in new ways: Protestants in the ecumenical movement, Roman Catholics in the renewal of their church.

9 The Age of Global Expansion and Relocation 1900– · chs. 46–48

More people have become Christians in the last hundred years than in any earlier period, most of them south of the Equator, while the old heartlands in Europe and North America decline. Whether the new centers stay faithful, and whether the West revives, is left to the future.

The book ends with an epilogue in two voices, the source notes, and a list of the popes from Leo I to the present.

Foreword and Prologue

The Dedication

Shelley dedicates the book to his church history students, "who pressed the question of significance"—the question the whole book tries to answer.

Foreword, by R. L. Hatchett

Hatchett, professor of theology and philosophy at Houston Baptist University, revised the book for this edition. He states what the revision is for: evangelical readers should come to know their own history and, through it, the wider Christian world. He credits its success to Shelley himself, to his character and concern for the church, his training and eye as a historian, his vivid prose and his long classroom experience, and to his discipline. Shelley wrote for a popular audience in plain language, chose representative stories instead of aiming at completeness, made each story readable on its own, and kept citations out of the reader's way: references are in the endnotes, and wider debts in the reading lists that close each chapter.

Hatchett kept this informal style. He added endnotes and marked the books he newly recommends with asterisks. Apart from small changes throughout, he added material on Gnosticism and its continuing relevance, on the theology of the early church and of the Reformation, and above all on the rapid global spread and transformation of Christianity since 1900, which fills three new chapters. Recent history is hard to write, he says, but the surprising situation of Christianity in the West and in the Global South needs explaining as much as retelling.

He adds a word on names and numbers. Terms such as "Global

South" and "majority world" are unsatisfactory, but he uses the common ones for want of better. The "West" means North America, England and Western Europe; the "Global South" means the Third World—South America, Africa and Asia, including places north of the equator such as China. "Far East" and "Middle East" betray the same Western point of view. His point is that evangelicals in the United States must widen their horizon if they are to share in the work now flourishing across the world. He usually cites modest figures from established sources and believes them too low: watching his late friend Walter Lumpkin try to count the non-denominational churches of Houston taught him that the mainline churches count well, while the most vital groups are the ones that are missed.

He thanks the students who helped with typing and research, several friends with wide experience of the world, the editors at Thomas Nelson who recruited him and saw the project through, and most of all his wife Debbie.

Prologue, by Bruce L. Shelley

Shelley begins with a *Peanuts* cartoon that hung on his study door. Sally, writing a school theme on church history, starts "at the very beginning": "Our pastor was born in 1930." Many Christians, he says, suffer from the same historical amnesia; for them the time between the apostles and today is a blank. God, however, cares about time: Israel was told to explain the Passover to its children and to keep a jar of manna for the generations to come.

Ignorance of Christian history has three costs. Believers fall for cults because they take a distortion for the real thing. Others, with nothing to compare themselves to, become proud and defend their own way and party as the best. And many serve in ministry without a wider context for judging how to use their time and effort. One survey will not cure all this, but history helps to separate the transient from the permanent and fads from basics.

The book is written for laypeople. Forty years in the seminary classroom have convinced Shelley that the college graduate who

begins theological study and the lay reader with a job in engineering or sales, who gets through a handful of books a year, form a single audience. He has borrowed freely from other writers with one aim, to keep the story moving; the most helpful books are listed after each chapter and the major quotations at the end.

Because clarity is the first law of learning, the story is divided into ages, each marked by a change in the conditions of the church's life, though every age carries remains of the past and seeds of the future. Whoever wants the plot will find it in the short introductions that open the nine ages. Each chapter treats a single issue, put as a question after an opening anecdote, so that it can be read alone like an encyclopedia article. This leaves gaps, and some important people and events are missing, but it shows the present-day significance of the past: many of today's issues are not new. There is much biography because readers like to meet people, so ideas are wrapped in personalities.

Is the church a movement or an institution? Shelley answers: both. He therefore tells of missionary expansion as well as papal politics and does not hold to a strict definition of "church." God's people are always pulled two ways, toward the ideal of one universal fellowship and toward the actual congregation that exists at a given place and date. Mission requires institutions (rules, officers, buildings); when these get in the way of the gospel, renewal movements appear and call the church back to its task. The book shows how often that has happened.

He closes with thanks to the helpers of the third edition: Daniel Hallock for research on the Internet, his colleague David Buschart for many titles in the reading lists and for conversation about the emerging churches, and his colleague and successor Scott Wenig for further titles, discussion and that edition's foreword.

PART ONE

The Age of Jesus and the Apostles

6 BC–AD 70

The story opens inside Judaism. Jesus of Nazareth, a Jewish teacher whose message unsettled the religious leadership of his own people, gathered a movement in Galilee and Judea and was executed by order of the Roman governor Pontius Pilate. Within a generation his followers had carried their message through the cities of the eastern Mediterranean. The decisive step was taken by the apostle Paul, who insisted that God's grace is offered to Gentiles on the same terms as to Jews. With that conviction a movement born in Palestine became a faith for every people.

IN THIS PART

1 Away with the King! *The Jesus Movement*
2 Wineskins: Old and New *The Gospel to the Gentiles*

CHAPTER

1

Away with the King!

The Jesus Movement

IN BRIEF

Christianity is the only major religion whose central event is the humiliation of its God. The chapter follows Jesus from the divided Palestine of his day, through his preaching of the kingdom of God and his clash with the Jewish parties, to the cross, and argues that the company he gathered was the beginning of the church.

THE QUESTION

Did Jesus have anything to do with founding the Christian church, and if so, how did he give it its special character?

The chapter opens at the cross. Crucifixion was a barbarous death kept for agitators, pirates and slaves; Jewish law cursed it and Cicero wanted the very word kept from Roman ears. The notice over Jesus read "Jesus of Nazareth, King of the Jews" (INRI). Pilate meant it as a last insult to the Jews, but, like the cross itself, it took on a special meaning for the followers of Jesus.

Jesus and the Church

Jesus was a Jew in family, scripture and religion, and many have doubted that he meant to found a church. Albert Schweitzer saw a man possessed by the coming end of the world, Rudolf Bultmann a prophet calling for a radical decision; others speak only of an invisible brotherhood of love. Against this anti-institutional

view Shelley points to the gospels, which show Jesus retracing Israel's steps—Egypt, the Jordan, the wilderness, twelve apostles like twelve tribes, teaching like Moses, mighty deeds—and being the faithful Son where Israel failed. He gathered disciples, taught them the life of the kingdom of God and bound them in a new covenant of forgiveness and love. That company lacked the laws, officials and creeds of the later Christendom, yet it formed a society of its own that learned to refuse rival loyalties. In that sense Jesus founded the church.

Palestine in Jesus' Day

Palestine was a crossroads: two million or more people under Rome, divided by region, religion and politics. The Jews, about half the population, hated their rulers and the Greek (Hellenistic) culture they brought, and differed only about how to resist. Popular faith, fed by the prophets and by Daniel, expected a messiah, a final struggle between God and Satan, the resurrection of the dead, a last judgment and God's everlasting kingdom.

Four parties read the crisis differently. The *Pharisees* ("separated ones") kept every detail of the law, avoided the unclean and were respected for piety and patriotism. The *Sadducees* represented the wealthy priestly families who ran the temple and the Sanhedrin, liked Greco-Roman ways and profited from Roman rule. The *Zealots*, inspired by the Maccabees, wanted armed revolt and kept guerrilla bands in Galilee. The *Essenes* withdrew from a temple they thought corrupt to monastic communities in the wilderness; scholars link them with Qumran and the Dead Sea Scrolls. Jesus had to win followers without being confused with any of them.

Jesus' Ministry

Jesus began with John the Baptist, who preached repentance and baptism at the ford of the Jordan and called himself only the forerunner of the Messiah. After his own baptism Jesus started his mission in Galilee as a traveling teacher in the village synagogues. His theme was the kingdom of God, which Shelley takes as both

SIDEBAR **Judaism Now and Then**

When the temple was destroyed in AD 70, Judaism changed. Rome's crushing of revolt ended the Zealot and Essene protests, and the Sadducees' religion vanished with the temple. The Pharisees, the "book people" who ordered all of life by the Hebrew Scriptures, survived and became today's Rabbinic Judaism.

future and present: not a territory but the rule of a personal, gracious God, already active in Jesus himself. His healings were signs of the coming age, though he told the healed to keep silent so as not to be taken for a magician. Crowds gathered, and the Pharisees, who resented a teacher not trained by their scribes, challenged his credentials.

Jesus' Message

The challenge let Jesus contrast grace with self-righteousness. In his parable of two men at prayer, the Pharisee boasts of fasting and tithing and despises others; the tax collector, compromised by his work for Rome, only begs for mercy, and he is the one justified. The Pharisees' piety rested on keeping hundreds of laws; the Jesus movement rested on trust in God's mercy. Jesus chose twelve apostles ("sent ones"), a motley group from fishing boats and tax tables, and taught them that his kingdom has another kind of greatness, governed by love and service. His popularity peaked a year before his arrest, when he fed over five thousand pilgrims and many wanted to make him king; he withdrew. Wary of messianic titles the crowds would misread, he described his role in the images of Isaiah's Suffering Servant and Zechariah's humble king.

The Last Week

Five days before the Passover of his death Jesus entered Jerusalem riding a donkey to shouts of "Hosanna," the one occasion on which he openly claimed the role of Messiah, and the next day he drove the traders from the temple. Talk of a messiah frightened the Sad-

ducees, whose position depended on Rome and who dreaded a revolt; the Pharisees saw a breaker of the Sabbath who undermined the law. The rival parties joined to have him killed and, fearing a riot, used Judas Iscariot, one of the Twelve, who agreed for thirty pieces of silver—nearly four months' wages—to lead them to him secretly.

The New Covenant

At the Passover meal Jesus gave his disciples bread and a cup and spoke of "the new covenant in my blood." Behind the words stood the Exodus and Sinai, but above all Jeremiah's promise of a covenant written on the heart, with sins forgiven: through his death a new people of God became possible. The puzzled disciples would understand within weeks. Afterward, in Gethsemane on the Mount of Olives, Jesus prayed that the cup might pass yet accepted his Father's will; Judas came with an armed crowd, and Jesus was taken to the high priest Caiaphas.

The Trial and Death

The Sanhedrin brushed justice aside, found two witnesses and condemned Jesus for blasphemy. Lacking power to execute, it took him at dawn to the Roman governor, Pontius Pilate, at the Antonia fortress. Pilate saw a petty religious dispute, but he feared a charge of sheltering a traitor to Caesar more than a festival riot, and gave Jesus to the soldiers. At Golgotha, outside the city, he was nailed to the cross under the sign naming him king of the Jews; after hours of agony, watched by a few despairing followers, he cried "It is finished" and died. Joseph of Arimathea laid him in a rock tomb in his garden and closed it with a heavy stone—for Shelley, an odd but telling opening for the story of the church.

KEY PEOPLE

Jesus of Nazareth; John the Baptist; the twelve apostles; Judas Iscariot; Caiaphas; Pontius Pilate; Joseph of Arimathea. Interpreters cited: Albert Schweitzer, Rudolf Bultmann.

KEY DATES

AD 70	Destruction of the temple; only the Pharisees' form of Judaism survives
1946	Discovery of the Dead Sea Scrolls (date as given in the book)

KEY TERMS

Kingdom of God; Messiah; Pharisees, Sadducees, Zealots, Essenes; Sanhedrin; apostles; new covenant; Suffering Servant.

CHAPTER

2

Wineskins: Old and New

The Gospel to the Gentiles

IN BRIEF

Within forty years a small Jewish sect in Jerusalem became a fellowship of many peoples spread across the Roman Empire. The chapter traces that change from Stephen's death through Pentecost, the Greek-speaking Jewish believers and the missions of Paul to the fall of Jerusalem in AD 70, when the "old wineskin" of Judaism finally tore.

THE QUESTION

How did a movement that was Jewish in its founder, its message and its first members become a faith for all peoples?

The Sanhedrin had failed to silence the "Nazarenes," who even accused it of killing the Messiah. Then Stephen went further and openly attacked the law of Moses and the temple. In his defense he retold Israel's history to show that God may be worshiped apart from the temple, that Moses had foretold the Messiah, and that his judges, like their fathers, resisted the Holy Spirit and had murdered the Righteous One. The furious council dragged him outside the walls and stoned him.

Christianity and Judaism

Shelley finds the answer to the chapter's question in the killing of Stephen, the church's first martyr. The quarrel was about how to

read the Old Testament. The scribes and Pharisees saw in it God's law for his special people, covering every part of life. Meeting Jesus made the first believers read it again, and they found a message for the whole world—God's promise to Abraham that all peoples would be blessed in him. Stephen said plainly that law and temple were temporary: they pointed beyond themselves to the Messiah who would fulfill righteousness for all people, and that Messiah was Jesus. The proof lay in what followed the crucifixion. The apostles had gone into hiding with their hopes destroyed; then women reported seeing Jesus alive, the tomb was found empty, and appearances of the risen Jesus convinced even the skeptics. In Galilee he told them to wait in Jerusalem for the baptism of the Holy Spirit.

SIDEBAR **Resurrection Faith**

Critics say that grieving, hopeful disciples produced visions of Jesus, even group hallucinations. The first-century evidence points the other way. The disciples were defeated and took Jesus for one more messiah executed by Rome; not even the empty tomb changed their minds. The encounters with the risen Jesus created resurrection faith, not the reverse.

Pentecost

Seven weeks after the crucifixion, at the feast of Pentecost, about 120 disciples were meeting in a house when the Spirit came on them, with a sound like wind and what looked like tongues of fire. They poured into the streets, and visitors to the city heard them in their own languages. At the temple Peter explained the event as the outpouring of the Spirit promised by Joel for the "last days" and traced it to Jesus: God had raised the crucified one and made him Lord and Messiah, as the Psalms had said, "and we are all witnesses." He called the crowd to repent and be baptized in the name of Jesus for the forgiveness of sins and the gift of the Spirit. About three thousand accepted. That, says Shelley, is how the church began, and Christians have held ever since that the cross,

the resurrection and the mission of the Spirit are the foundations of the faith; without the resurrection there would be neither gospel nor salvation nor church. Stephen was the first to grasp that this could not be kept inside the Pharisees' law. Jesus himself had hinted at the breach when he said that new wine is not poured into old wineskins; the tearing of the old wineskins was the most important development of the first century.

SIDEBAR **Tongue Speaking or Glossolalia**

Christians disagree about speaking in tongues. Some hold that the Spirit enables a person to give God's message in a real language never learned. Others hold that it is ecstatic speech, not a human language; in that case Acts describes a miracle of hearing, not of speaking: listeners understood in their own language.

The First Community

The first believers were Jews: Mary and other relatives of Jesus and the apostles, with Matthias chosen to replace Judas Iscariot, who had killed himself. They kept the Jewish law, worshiped in synagogue and temple, and looked like any other Jewish sect. They called their movement "the Way"; soon they used an Old Testament word for the assembly of Israel, in Greek *ekklesia*, "church," the gathering of God's people. The temple authorities arrested the apostles and forbade them to preach the resurrection, without effect; within two years the believers numbered several thousand. Two ceremonies kept the death and resurrection of Jesus at the center. Baptism, unlike John's baptism for a kingdom still to come, marked entry into a spiritual kingdom already announced though not yet fully revealed; it expressed faith in Jesus as Lord. The Lord's Supper looked back to his betrayal and death as the new covenant promised by Jeremiah and renewed the covenant of the believers with God and one another.

The Hellenists

Growth brought tension. More and more converts were Hellenists, Jews from all over the empire who had settled in Jerusalem, spoke Greek, read the Septuagint (the Greek Old Testament) and were more open to Gentiles and new ideas. When they complained that their widows were neglected in the daily distribution, the apostles appointed seven Hellenists, among them Stephen and Philip, to oversee it—perhaps the first *deacons* (servants). Stephen's preaching in the Hellenist synagogues led to the riot and his death, and vigilantes, among them the Pharisee Saul of Tarsus, began to seize Nazarenes. This first bloodshed, about AD 36, widened the gap with Judaism and turned the faith into a missionary movement. The Hellenist believers fled and founded churches in Samaria, Damascus, Antioch, Tarsus, Cyprus and Egypt. Jerusalem sent Peter and John to Samaria and Barnabas of Cyprus to Antioch, where unnamed men of Cyprus and Cyrene had taken the revolutionary step of evangelizing Gentiles. Antioch, capital of Syria and third city of the empire with half a million people, was where the disciples were first called "Christians," at first a term of scorn. It replaced Jerusalem as the center of mission, largely through Saul, who joined Barnabas there about AD 44.

The Apostle Paul

After Jesus, no one shaped Christianity more than Saul, or Paul. As a persecutor he could not believe in a crucified, and therefore cursed, Messiah. Outside Damascus a blinding light and a voice—"Saul, Saul, why are you persecuting me?"—overturned him, and Stephen's argument fell into place: the law curses all who fail to keep it, but Christ redeemed us by becoming a curse for us. The law was given for a time to show people that they cannot do God's will and to leave them only the gospel. The persecutor became the persecuted. He was a man of three worlds: trained in the strictest Judaism under Gamaliel, fluent in Greek language and thought, and a Roman citizen with freedom to travel.

His converts in Asia Minor and Greece were mostly pagans

with sordid pasts, and the question of how to teach them Christian morals divided the church. Palestinian Christians wanted Gentiles to keep the Jewish law as well as believe. Paul answered from experience that righteousness by effort ends in failure; people are accepted only by God's undeserved mercy, by grace, which comes from Christ's life, death and resurrection. To the fear that justification by faith alone would breed loose living he replied that whoever truly accepts Christ accepts his way and mind and will choose God's will. Shelley notes that this dispute between the legally minded and the champions of grace has never left Christianity.

Paul's first journey took him to Cyprus and Galatia; the second through Asia Minor to Troas and across to Europe: Philippi, Thessalonica, Berea, Athens and Corinth, where he stayed a year and a half; the third to Ephesus for more than two years. The pagan world was religious, and the mystery cults of dying and rising gods (Isis, Mithras and others), with their ideas of immortality and of a struggle between good and evil, gave him points of contact. Arrested in Jerusalem, he spent two years in custody at Caesarea, appealed to the emperor and came to Rome, where he preached while awaiting trial. After Nero's persecution in AD 64 nothing more is heard of him, though tradition speaks of a journey to Spain. By then Gentile believers were uncircumcised, ignored the food laws and worshiped on Sunday, the first day of the week and the day of the resurrection.

The Decline of Jerusalem

The Jerusalem church stayed strictly Jewish and still suffered. About AD 41 Herod Agrippa I had James the son of Zebedee killed; John may then have left the city; Peter was arrested, escaped, traveled widely and at last died with Paul in Nero's persecution at Rome. James, "the brother of the Lord," a devout keeper of the law, led the church until the high priest had him murdered in AD 62, which left it leaderless. Tension with Rome grew, sharpened by unemployment when the temple was finished in AD 64, and

in 66 the Jews revolted. After four years of war the forces of the emperor Vespasian, led by Titus, took Jerusalem in AD 70, burned the temple and destroyed the city; the synagogues of Palestine were burned in reprisal. The Jerusalem Christians, warned in a vision, had fled at the outbreak. Pious Jews called this treason, and when Christian Jews were later barred from the synagogues the break was complete. Christianity had become a Gentile movement; the old wineskin was torn beyond repair. For practical purposes AD 70 ends the apostolic age. Most of the apostles were dead, but their message would outlast persecution and become the dominant faith of the empire.

KEY PEOPLE

Stephen; Peter; John; Matthias; Philip; Barnabas; Saul of Tarsus (Paul); Gamaliel; James the son of Zebedee; James, "the brother of the Lord"; Herod Agrippa I; Nero; Vespasian; Titus.

KEY DATES

c. AD 36	Death of Stephen; the Hellenist believers scatter and begin missions
c. AD 41	James the son of Zebedee killed by Herod Agrippa I
c. AD 44	Saul joins Barnabas at Antioch
AD 62	James, the brother of the Lord, murdered in Jerusalem
AD 64	Nero's persecution of Christians in Rome
AD 66	Jewish revolt against Rome begins
AD 70	Titus destroys Jerusalem and the temple; end of the apostolic age

KEY TERMS

Pentecost; glossolalia; the Way; *ekklesia*; baptism; Lord's Supper; Hellenists; Septuagint; deacons; "Christians"; grace; justification by faith; mystery cults.

PART TWO

The Age of Catholic Christianity

70–312

Between the fall of Jerusalem and the rise of Constantine the churches multiplied in every province of the Roman Empire and beyond its eastern border, perhaps as far as India. Their members thought of themselves as one body and used the word *catholic* for it. The term carried a double claim. Against mockery and persecution it asserted that the faith was meant for the whole world; against rival versions of the gospel it asserted that this was the genuine teaching of Jesus. Under these pressures the bishop became the central figure of each church. The part therefore follows three developments: a mission without frontiers, an agreed body of belief, and leadership by bishops.

IN THIS PART

3 Only Worthless People *Catholic Christianity*
4 If the Tiber Floods *The Persecution of Christians*
5 Arguing About the Event *The Rise of Orthodoxy*
6 The Rule of Books *The Formation of the Bible*
7 The School for Sinners *The Power of Bishops*
8 Apostles to Intellectuals *The Alexandrians*

CHAPTER

3

Only Worthless People

Catholic Christianity

IN BRIEF

Between the death of the apostles and the first Christian emperor the scattered congregations grew into one body with a universal vision. The chapter takes a "flying tour" of where the faith spread, looks at the kind of people who joined it, and asks what made it grow.

THE QUESTION

How did the separate churches of the apostles' day grow into catholic Christianity—where did the faith spread, and why so rapidly?

Eusebius, the early church historian, tells how King Abgar the Black of Edessa, capital of the small kingdom of Osrhoene beyond the Roman border, wrote to Jesus asking to be healed, and how Jesus promised to send a disciple after his ascension. The story is legend, but it is a reminder that the gospel did not stop at the frontier: Osrhoene became the first Christian kingdom and a link to lands farther east. In the first century Christianity spread like a spiritual explosion, set off by "the Event," the presence of Jesus Christ. The second and third centuries channeled that power, let the church come to terms with time and gave it a lasting character: *catholic* Christianity, more than an organization, the conviction that all Christians should be one body. It carried on Jesus' commission and Paul's work. The word is not in the New Testament. Ignatius,

bishop of Antioch early in the second century, first used it: "Wherever Jesus Christ is, there is the catholic church." By the end of that century it meant the church that is both universal, as against local congregations, and orthodox, as against heretical groups. By the reign of Constantine (312–337) there were churches in every large town of the empire and as far apart as Britain, Carthage and Persia.

SIDEBAR **Did Christianity Grow Miraculously?**

The Bible reports miracles that accompanied the church's growth, but the growth rate itself need not have been miraculous. Theorists such as Rodney Stark hold that a steady rate, like that of Mormonism in America, accounts for the numbers. Christianity's greatest expansion has come in the last fifty years.

The Spread of the Faith

The tour begins with the Jews, who lived in every part of the empire and may have been 7 percent of its population. Their faith attracted many Gentiles. A few accepted circumcision; most remained "God-fearers" on the edge of the synagogue. These people knew the Old Testament, its ideas and its morals, and when Christian preachers offered them all that Judaism offered and more, without circumcision, they responded readily. No later missionary movement found a field so well prepared. Like the synagogues, the churches were local assemblies that saw themselves as one faithful Israel across the world, which helps explain the catholic outlook.

The Roman world was a world of cities, and Paul had set the pattern: settle in a great city and reach the surrounding towns through helpers. After AD 70 the center of the movement shifted north and then west. Antioch in Syria became the church's second home; by the end of the fourth century half of its half-million people were Christians. Edessa, tied to Antioch, later claimed Addai, one of the seventy disciples, as its founder, and about 200 Serapion of Antioch consecrated Palut as its bishop. From there some Christian probably went on to India. The "Thomas Christians" say it was the apostle Thomas; that is possible but cannot be proved. What is

fairly certain is that the church in India is very old.

The Move West

The main stream flowed west, along Paul's course toward Italy and Spain. Ephesus and the Greek-speaking cities of Asia Minor were fertile ground. Even rural Bithynia saw such growth that in 112 its governor Pliny wrote to the emperor Trajan about Christians of every age, class and sex in town and country, and feared the temples would be deserted—perhaps the first mass movement in Christian history. This was unusual: backward regions with their own languages generally resisted, and in the sixth century Justinian was still fighting paganism in inner Asia Minor.

In Rome the church, planted by unknown believers, grew fast. Adolf Harnack reckoned at least thirty thousand Christians there by AD 250, most of them poor, since for over a century the Roman church spoke Greek, the language of slaves, not the Latin of the upper class. With its claim to Peter and Paul and its place in the capital, it won respect and a natural leadership. Farther west and north progress was slower: a church at Lyons in Gaul by the mid-second century, known through its bishop Irenaeus; bishops in Spain by the end of the third. How the faith reached Britain is unknown; three British bishops attended the Council of Arles in 314.

North Africa

Across the Mediterranean the center was Carthage. Bishops were found in every town and in nearly every village. Here arose the first Latin-speaking churches, drawn largely from the Romanized upper class, while the Punic and Berber speakers around them made for tensions of race and language that would cause trouble in the third-century persecutions. Cyrene, to the east, appears four times in the New Testament—Simon who carried the cross, the pilgrims at Pentecost, Stephen's opponents and the first evangelists of Gentiles—and surely had churches early. Alexandria, founded by Alexander the Great in 332 BC, was the empire's second city, with a

large Jewish community whose philosopher Philo tried to explain Judaism in the terms of Greek philosophy. Christians there faced the same task in their famous catechetical school. They claimed John Mark as founder, and in the third and fourth centuries few churches had more influence. In sum, by the end of the third century no part of the empire was without a witness; it was strongest in Syria, Asia Minor, North Africa and Egypt, and in cities such as Rome and Lyons. Little is known of the countryside.

The Social Impact of the Gospel

The catholic vision also crossed social lines. For three centuries most believers were humble people: slaves, women, traders, soldiers. The critic Celsus sneered that Christians could convince "only worthless and contemptible people." Shelley praises the church for never turning from the poor; but by the end of the second century some of the keenest minds were also becoming Christians. The *apologists* (the word means defenders, as in a court) answered pagan slanders and exposed the weakness of paganism, addressing emperors but aiming at the educated public: Aristides, Justin Martyr, Tatian, Athenagoras, Theophilus of Antioch, the author of the *Letter to Diognetus* and Melito of Sardis. Irenaeus of Lyons wrote five books against the gnostic heresies and a *Proof of the Apostolic Preaching*; his biblical theology steadied the church and prepared later Christian views of history such as Augustine's. Tertullian of Carthage, born about 150, the "father of Latin theology," attacked the absurdity of persecution in his *Apology*, encouraged martyrs, fought heretics and was the first to use the Latin word *trinitas*. In Alexandria the converted Stoic Pantaenus, who probably traveled to India, was teaching by about 185, and his pupil Clement carried the school further. By the third century the church, with its travel, synods, letters and loyalty, looked like an empire within the empire.

Reasons for the Gospel's Spread

Believers stress the power of God; but God works through people, and Shelley names four human factors. First, burning conviction:

the Event had happened, and Christians could not keep the news of redemption to themselves, even in the face of martyrdom. Second, the gospel met a felt need. Stoicism sought tranquility by detachment and courage; Christians could admire its courage in suffering, its independence of worldly things and its trust in providence, and many saw that what the Stoics aimed at, the Holy Spirit produced. Third, practical love: care for the poor, widows, orphans, prisoners and those condemned to the mines, and help in famine, earthquake and war. "See how these Christians love one another," pagans said. Churches buried poor members—Lactantius insisted that God's image must not be left to beasts and birds—and from the later second century acquired burial grounds, such as the one at Catacumbas on the Appian Way, which is how Christians came to be linked with the catacombs. Even the apostate emperor Julian, trying to revive the old religion, admitted that the "godless Galileans" cared for pagan poor as well as their own. Fourth, persecution advertised the faith: "martyr" means witness, and the calm courage, courtesy and joy of the martyrs, especially the young women, moved the crowds and sometimes converted onlookers on the spot.

So the churches kept multiplying until Rome was unable either to overlook them or to put them down. The age shows, Shelley concludes, that the church is truly catholic only when the gospel drives it to bring all people to living faith in Christ.

KEY PEOPLE

Eusebius; Abgar of Edessa; Ignatius of Antioch; Pliny and Trajan; Irenaeus of Lyons; Celsus; Justin Martyr and the other apologists; Tertullian; Pantaenus; Clement of Alexandria; Philo; Lactantius; Julian the Apostate; modern scholars Adolf Harnack, Rodney Stark, Ward Gasque.

KEY DATES

332 BC	Alexander the Great founds Alexandria
c. 112	Pliny writes to Trajan about the Christians of Bithynia
c. 150	Birth of Tertullian at Carthage
c. 185	Pantaenus teaching at Alexandria

c. 200	Serapion of Antioch consecrates Palut bishop of Edessa
250	At least 30,000 Christians in Rome (Harnack's estimate)
314	Three British bishops attend the Council of Arles

KEY TERMS

Catholic (universal and orthodox); God-fearers; apologists; *trinitas*; catechetical school; catacombs; martyr ("witness"); Stoicism.

CHAPTER

4

If the Tiber Floods

The Persecution of Christians

IN BRIEF

The early church is remembered as an army of martyrs, yet before AD 200 Rome's attempts to silence Christians were halfhearted and few emperors were bloodthirsty. The chapter explains why a tolerant empire nevertheless treated Christians as outlaws: their different way of life, the slanders told about them, the charge of atheism and, above all, their refusal to call Caesar Lord.

THE QUESTION

Why did Rome persecute Christians, and why is this period remembered as the age of martyrs?

The chapter opens with Polycarp, the aged bishop of Smyrna. The governor did not want to kill him and urged him simply to swear by Caesar. Polycarp answered, "I am a Christian," scorned the threat of beasts and of a fire "that burns for an hour," and was burned at the stake while the crowd shouted against "the father of the Christians, the destroyer of our gods."

Rome's Policy

Rome was tolerant of the religions of conquered peoples. If they added homage to the emperor to their own rites, it almost never interfered, and for the Jews, with their fierce loyalty to one God, it even dropped that requirement. While Christians passed for a

Jewish sect they shared this immunity. When the Jews disowned them, the situation changed, and Rome faced a harder case than Judaism: the Jews were a closed people who did little proselytizing, but the Christians talked constantly of Jesus, meant to win the whole empire and were spreading fast. They refused to worship the emperor and urged everyone else to refuse too. From time to time, therefore, they felt the anger of the state and of the people.

Reasons for Persecution

The main cause of hatred was the Christians' distinctive way of life. The New Testament calls them *hagios*, "saints" or holy ones, a word whose root means *different*. People distrust those who are different, and without any preaching the Christian ethic was a standing criticism of pagan life. At its center was the rejection of the gods, which made Christians "enemies of the human race" and social misfits. Every pagan meal began with an offering; feasts were held in temple precincts "at the table" of a god; a Christian who declined seemed rude. Gladiator shows they rejected as inhuman, though their pull was strong: Augustine tells how his friend Alypius went with his eyes shut and ended by yelling with the rest. Fear of idolatry also cost them work—the mason on a temple wall, the tailor of priestly robes, the incense maker; Tertullian even forbade schoolteaching because the textbooks told the stories of the gods. Hospitals were under the god Aesculapius.

Cut off in this way from much of social and economic life, Christians displayed a new attitude to human life. In a society where a slave could be discarded or killed, Christian masters treated slaves kindly and gave them equal rights in the church; a former slave, Callistus, became bishop of Rome. Christians would not expose weak or unwanted infants, and a Christian mother would refuse a pagan father's order to throw out a baby girl. Against the sexual excess of a decaying society, Paul's teaching that the Spirit dwells in the believer's body as in a temple brought a strict condemnation of unchastity and a sacred view of family life.

This general hatred explains the first Roman persecution. In 64 a

fire burned for six days and laid most of Rome in ashes, and rumor blamed the emperor Nero. He turned the blame on the Christians, who were crucified, sewn into animal skins and thrown to dogs, dragged by bulls and burned as torches in his gardens. Peter and Paul probably died then: Peter, by report, crucified head down at his own request, Paul beheaded as a Roman citizen. Such outbursts were rare in the first two centuries, and there were long periods of peace; but persecution hung over the church like the sword of Damocles. An informer, a riot or a strict governor could bring it down, because a Christian, simply as a Christian, stood outside the law. As Tertullian said, public hatred asked only for the confession of the name.

Sex and Slander

A second cause was slander. Secrecy breeds distrust, and since outsiders were barred from Christian worship, rumor filled the gap. The "Love Feast" (Agape) and the holy kiss of peace gave rise to charges of orgies—the kiss was eventually almost abandoned—and the words of the Lord's Supper about body and blood gave rise to charges of cannibalism. The mob feared that such wickedness would bring the anger of the gods on everyone who tolerated it.

This gave fair-minded officials a problem. About 112 Pliny, governor in Asia Minor, asked the emperor Trajan whether the name of Christian alone was punishable. He had been sending citizens who confessed to Rome and executing the others, sure that such stubbornness deserved it; those who denied Christ and sacrificed went free. Trajan broadly approved: Christians were too many to be hunted, but when a case came before an official the crime of being a Christian had to be dealt with. Pliny at least knew the charge was not immorality or cannibalism. The letters explain why persecution was sometimes sporadic and sometimes savage.

A third cause was the charge of atheism. Most people could not understand worship without images, and the gods were seen as patrons of the city whom every loyal citizen honored at civic festivals. Christians, who would not, seemed disloyal and dangerous, since

neglected gods sent disasters. Tertullian reports the reflex: if the Tiber floods or the Nile fails to rise, if there is drought, earthquake, famine or plague, the cry goes up, "Christians to the lion."

Caesar Is Lord

The supreme cause was emperor worship, which grew slowly. Roman rule brought impartial justice, safe roads and seas, the *pax Romana*; gratitude turned the spirit of Rome into the goddess Roma, with temples in Asia Minor by the second century BC, and then saw that spirit embodied in the emperor. The first temple to an emperor was built at Pergamum in 29 BC. Early emperors hesitated—Claudius refused temples—but officials came to see in Caesar worship the answer to the empire's great problem, how to unite peoples from the Euphrates to the Irish Sea. No local faith could be universal; Rome was. Caesar worship became the keystone of imperial policy, organized in every province, and any rival allegiance came to look like a threat of chaos.

The emperor Decius (249–251) made it universal and compulsory for all except the Jews. Once a year each citizen had to burn a pinch of incense, say "Caesar is Lord," and receive a certificate; then he could worship any god he liked. It was a test of political loyalty, and whoever refused was branded a traitor. Christians prayed for the emperor but would not pray to him. The praises on Roman coins for each new emperor—Lord of the earth, invincible, worthy to inherit the kingdom—were the very language Christians used of Christ, so the question was who was worthy to rule the universe, Caesar or Christ. The one thing no Christian would say was "Caesar is Lord." To Romans this was insane stubbornness and self-confessed disloyalty; a pinch of incense would have bought freedom to worship Christ, and the Christians would not compromise. Rome therefore saw them as potential revolutionaries. In one sense, Shelley adds, Rome was right, for many Christians saw a cosmic struggle. The Revelation of John, reflecting the imperial cult in Asia Minor at the end of the first century, traces the oppression to the devil, the great red dragon, working through two beasts,

the imperial power and the imperial worship. The Christians' only defense was this: they conquered "by the blood of the Lamb and by the word of their testimony."

KEY PEOPLE

Polycarp of Smyrna; Nero; Peter and Paul; Tertullian; Callistus; Alypius; Pliny and Trajan; Claudius; Decius.

KEY DATES

29 BC	First temple to the divinity of the emperor, at Pergamum
AD 64	Fire of Rome; Nero's persecution; probable martyrdom of Peter and Paul
c. 112	Pliny asks Trajan how to treat Christians
249–251	Decius makes Caesar worship compulsory throughout the empire

KEY TERMS

Hagios (holy, different); Agape (Love Feast); kiss of peace; atheism (worship without images); *pax Romana*; goddess Roma; emperor worship; "Caesar is Lord."

CHAPTER

5

Arguing About the Event

The Rise of Orthodoxy

IN BRIEF

Catholic Christianity was orthodox as well as universal. The chapter explains what theology, heresy and orthodoxy are, shows how the apostles already drew lines against false gospels, and describes the church's first great struggle over ideas, the conflict with Gnosticism, out of which came the Apostles' Creed.

THE QUESTION

What did the first Christians hold to be true, and why would they accept no other version of the faith as orthodox?

Gandhi said he would not care if the man Jesus had never lived, since for him the truth of the Sermon on the Mount did not depend on it. Many professing Christians think the same way: they separate what Jesus said from who he was and prefer behavior to belief. The early believers called that a betrayal. The gospel was good news about the Event, so belief came first and behavior followed, and belief in who Jesus was became the test of true Christianity. Persecution was the outward enemy; a subtler danger, "another gospel," came from within.

Faith and Theology

Many dislike theology ("I love flowers but I hate botany"), often with reason, since it can be dull or ruthless. But the answer to bad

theology is good theology, not none. Theology (*theos*, God; *logos*, rational thought) is thinking about religion; religion is belief in God and the effort to live by it. Wrong thinking is heresy, which is not necessarily bad religion but may lead to it. Heretics served the church unintentionally: their attempts forced it to produce good theology, a rounded statement of biblical revelation. That theology, held by the overwhelming majority and expressed in the creeds, is called orthodox. Doctrine was hammered out by people on the church's "work crew," usually because a heresy threatened the central faith. Hence orthodoxy *developed*: revelation was given once for all, but theology is the human understanding of it, in the language and thought of each time and culture. One complication was the meeting of Hebrew thought, rooted in covenant and history, with Hellenistic reasoning. The church did not make its beliefs depend on logical demonstration; it believed because God had revealed himself. The first Christians, all Jews, proclaimed Jesus as the Messiah, stressed the resurrection as God's verdict on the crucified, and described him in Old Testament images: Passover Lamb, second Adam, Son of David, the rejected stone become the cornerstone.

SIDEBAR **Orthodoxy and Heresy**

"Orthodox" can name a branch of Christianity, right belief in general, or belief officially adopted by the church; a heretic rejects the last, as Arius rejected Nicaea's teaching that Jesus is fully divine. Official doctrine varied, and decisions such as Nicaea's were disputed in their day. Still, there was an early *functional* orthodoxy held by consensus, visible in the "rule of faith," a short statement of the Christian story. It is true that no one can break with a doctrine before it is defined, but wrong to conclude that there were no heretics before the councils: the church had already rejected Marcion, who cut Jesus off from the Old Testament God, and modalism, which made Father, Son and Spirit mere roles of God.

False Gospels

The apostles condemned rival gospels outright. Galatians curses those who add Jewish legal requirements; 1 John requires belief that Christ came "in the flesh"; 1 Corinthians makes the historical resurrection the basis of salvation. Believers met the central truths in baptism, soon given in the name of the Trinity (by Justin's time, with questions about Father, Son and Spirit), in short summaries of apostolic teaching and in hymns such as 1 Timothy 3:16. Because the worship of Jesus was central, the decisive line ran through the doctrine of Christ. John's gospel fights on two fronts: against those who doubted that Jesus was fully God, and against those who denied his real flesh and blood. Both errors are known from other sources. The *Ebionites*, a Jewish-Christian sect, held that Jesus was a mere man who became Messiah by his obedience to the Law. *Docetism* (from the Greek "to seem") held that Christ was a phantom who only seemed to suffer. God in the flesh has always seemed nonsense, and people keep trying to turn the story into a timeless myth.

Men Who Knew

The most ambitious attempt was Gnosticism, an umbrella term for movements each offering enlightenment through a teacher who possessed the *gnosis*, the knowledge of the way of life. Feelings ran high: Polycarp told how the apostle John fled the baths at Ephesus on seeing the Gnostic Cerinthus inside. Gnostics shared with the church the ideas of salvation, a supreme deity and heavenly beings, which is why they hovered at its edges and entered it, hoping to purify these ideas of a "materialistic" Christianity. Their basic belief was dualism: good and evil are two cosmic forces, and evil is matter. A creator must therefore be wicked. The supreme being is far above creation; from him came a chain of emanations, each weaker than the last, ending in one powerful enough to create and foolish enough not to see that creation is wrong—the God of the Jews. Light from heaven had become trapped in matter and needed redeeming. The Gnostic gospels show a Jesus who is one of the

lesser deities, cut off from his Jewish setting, without miracles or resurrection, passing on knowledge by sayings. Readers today often find in him a tolerant, inclusive figure like themselves, despite the saying against women that ends the *Gospel of Thomas*. The church knew these writings and rejected them: they may hold genuine sayings, but they give the wrong overall impression of Jesus. Every Gnostic denied that the Christ could be human, so the first great test of faith in the Event was a denial not of Christ's deity but of his humanity. They also taught a kind of predestination: an upper class living by knowledge, a lower class by faith, and a third incapable of gnosis.

SIDEBAR **What Gnostics Believe**

The origins of Gnosticism are disputed, but its second-century teachers, refuted by Irenaeus, Tertullian and Origen, shared five ideas: (1) a moral and metaphysical dualism, spirit pure and matter evil; (2) a supreme god who is not the creator, the material world being the work of disorder or of a lesser divinity (called the demiurge and identified with the God of the Old Testament or with Jesus); (3) a divine element in humanity, or in the chosen, which is the true self, an alien in the body; (4) a series of mediators in successive heavens; (5) salvation as the spirit's liberation from matter through knowledge.

SIDEBAR **The Gospel of Thomas**

Gnostic accounts of Jesus are late, mostly from the late second to the fifth century. The possible exception is the *Gospel of Thomas*, found in Egypt in 1945 in a fourth-century Coptic copy, with Greek fragments from about 200 onward. It was probably written in Syriac. Some date it early, but its use of Syriac traditions points to 150–200, most likely 175–200. An early date would change little: the church was actively guarding the genuine memory of Jesus.

SIDEBAR **Politics and Interpretation**

Two strategies of interpretation met in the *Gospel of Thomas*. One assumes that history's winners, here a bishop-led Christianity, wrote the losers out of the record. The other suspects that a counterfeit Christianity replaced the genuine one; Thomas Jefferson thought the four gospels a corrupted version of Jesus. Together they produce a "suppressed" Gnostic Christianity. *The Da Vinci Code* is a popular, unscholarly version, which implausibly dates the turn to traditional Christianity to the fourth century.

The Dangers of Knowing

Gnosticism is a warning to all who would free the gospel from "outmoded" Jewish ideas of God and history or lift it from faith to a higher knowledge to impress important people. The Gnostic made Christ fit the science and philosophy then in fashion, and in doing so gave up the Event and with it the gospel; nothing fades faster than the latest theories of the enlightened. Had Gnosticism won, the heritage from Judaism would have been surrendered, the message for all would have shrunk to talk among a few, and Christ would have been lost among the gods of the mystery religions. Gnostics were hard to refute because they claimed secret teaching from Jesus or special revelations.

The church's answer clarified its own convictions, best summed up in the Apostles' Creed. It was not written by the apostles but grew from a second-century baptismal confession at Rome, the Old Roman Creed. Built on the Trinity without explaining it, the Creed is concerned with how God relates to the world. "God Almighty" (later, "Maker of heaven and earth") rules out the view that matter is bad or was made by a bad god; as C. S. Lewis said, God likes matter: he invented it. "Born of the Virgin Mary," "crucified under Pontius Pilate" and "buried" affirm the full humanity of Jesus—the Gnostic stumbled at "born," as moderns stumble at "Virgin." Redemption comes by God's action in history, not by secret knowledge: not gnosis but Event. "The resurrection of the flesh" insists that a person is a whole, not a good soul in an evil body. People need salvation not

because they are imprisoned in bodies but because they willfully choose their own way; the evil is in the affections. That is why, for catholic Christianity, Gandhi is wrong: humanity needs not a teacher but a Savior. (The chapter also carries a chart, "An Overview of Gnosticism.")

SIDEBAR **Answers to Gnosticism**

The ancient church met Gnostic and similar challenges with clergy, creed and canon. *Clergy*: its leaders stood in direct connection with the men Jesus had called and taught, who handed the message on and left it in writing. *Creed*: the story was condensed early into simple summaries; those of Tertullian, Irenaeus and Origen, from different regions, agree remarkably—the Father sent the Son to reclaim the world through his death and resurrection and the continuing work of the Spirit. *Canon*: the four Gospels, firmly held by the main body of the church within the second century, give the right overall impression of Jesus.

SIDEBAR **Understanding Gnosticism Today**

Two comparisons help. The church's gospels were written thirty to sixty-five years after Jesus, as close as a professor of fifty-five is to the Vietnam or Korean wars, within living memory; the earliest Gnostic gospel stands about 140 years away, as far as that professor is from the Civil War. And reconstruction matters: books on Lincoln differ on details but share an outline, while a fantasy about Lincoln the vampire hunter replaces and supplements the old story to make a quite different one. The Gnostic versions of Jesus do the same.

KEY PEOPLE

Gandhi; the apostle John; Cerinthus; Polycarp; Marcion; Arius; Justin; Irenaeus; Tertullian; Origen; Thomas Jefferson; C. S. Lewis; Charles Bigg.

KEY DATES

c. 150–200	Probable date of the *Gospel of Thomas*
2nd century	The Old Roman Creed, ancestor of the Apostles' Creed, used at baptisms in Rome
1945	The *Gospel of Thomas* discovered in Egypt

KEY TERMS

Theology; heresy; orthodoxy; rule of faith; Ebionites; Docetism; Gnosticism, *gnosis*; dualism; emanations; demiurge; modalism; Apostles' Creed; clergy, creed and canon.

CHAPTER

6

The Rule of Books

The Formation of the Bible

IN BRIEF

Few decisions in Christian history were more basic than those of the first three centuries about the Bible, the standard by which catholic Christianity stayed orthodox. The chapter explains how the church kept the Old Testament, why it differs over the Apocrypha, and how twenty-seven Christian writings came to be set apart as the New Testament.

THE QUESTION

How did we get the Bible?

During the last great persecution, early in the fourth century, a Christian in Sicily was tried for owning a copy of the Gospels. Ordered to read from them, he read the blessing on the persecuted and the call to take up the cross, and was sent to his death. Roman officials had understood that to destroy Christianity they had to burn its Scriptures. The Bible was the foundation of the church's evangelism, teaching, worship and morality, the inspiration of its martyrs and its test against heresy: what do the Scriptures say?

The Basics of the Bible

Jerome called the Scriptures "the Divine Library," many books that are one; Greek speakers moved from *Biblia*, "the Books," to "the Book." The two Testaments are two covenants. A covenant is a spe-

cial relationship between two parties; in the Bible, the relationship between God and man that God's grace begins and sustains. The old covenant was made with Abraham and with Israel, and the Old Testament tells the story of the Jews and their worship; the new covenant was made by Jesus the Messiah with his new people, and the New Testament tells of Christ and the birth of the church. The Old promised, the New fulfilled. The church claimed the first along with the Jews and produced the second in spite of them.

The word for the special standing of these books is *canon*, Greek for a measuring rod: the list of books the church discerned to be authoritative, inspired by God. Since the first Christians were Jews, the church never lacked a canon. Jesus accepted the Old Testament as God's word, believed its statements, obeyed its commands and set himself to fulfill it, and Christians inherited his attitude and his ways of reading. Alexandrian Jews had read Scripture as *allegory*, seeking a deeper meaning beneath the literal; *typology* finds a pattern linking two stories, so that Jesus is read as a sacrifice or as a deliverer like Moses. By the third century scholars such as Origen of Alexandria defended the Christian claim to the Old Testament by allegory, speaking of an obvious meaning and a hidden one open only to those gifted by the Spirit. Pagan critics, whose case needed the literal sense, were infuriated.

The Question of the Apocrypha

Keeping the Old Testament did not settle exactly which books it held. The Apocrypha, twelve or fifteen books depending on how they are counted, are accepted by Roman Catholics and Eastern Orthodox and rejected by most Protestants. The shorter list of thirty-nine books, arranged as Law, Prophets and Writings and often called the "Palestinian Canon," seems to be the one Jesus quoted. The Greek translations made at Alexandria, chiefly the Septuagint, contained additional books and spread them widely; this larger list is the "Alexandrian Canon." Early Christians differed. In the West Augustine accepted the Apocrypha, and the Roman Catholic Church followed him; in the sixteenth century most Protestants

rejected them.

From the start Christians had more than the old covenant: first the Word made flesh, then the living apostles, whose message, spoken or written, was revered as the channel of the Lord's will. Churches read letters from the apostles in worship and used accounts of the life of Jesus; the first gospels were written no earlier than AD 60 or 70, but parts existed in writing before. How did twenty-seven of these writings cross the line from important to holy? Shelley names three factors within the life of the churches. First, the books had a self-evidencing quality, a power to transform lives: Justin Martyr, after trying the Stoics, the Pythagoreans and the Platonists, was pointed by an old man on the seashore to the prophets and became a Christian through reading Scripture, as did Tatian, Theophilus, Hilary, Victorinus and Augustine. Second, books were used in worship. Paul asked that his letters be exchanged and read, and Justin, in the first description of a Christian service, says that on the Day of the Sun the "memoirs of the apostles" or the prophets were read and then explained. Yet reading in church was not enough: the letter of Clement of Rome (about 96) was still read at Corinth eighty years later and never entered the canon. Third, and most fundamental, was a tie to an apostle: was the book written by an apostle or by someone in direct contact with their circle? As Clement put it, the apostles come from Christ as Christ comes from God.

A List of Christian Books

Events forced the pace. About 140 Marcion, a rich shipowner from Sinope on the Black Sea and the son of a bishop, came to Rome and fell under the influence of the gnostic Cerdo. He taught that the God of the Old Testament was a God of wrath, the author of evil, who cared only for the Jews, while the God of Jesus was grace and love for all. He therefore rejected the whole Old Testament and every Christian writing that seemed to favor Jews or to contradict him, keeping only a cut-down Gospel of Luke and ten letters of Paul, the one apostle who, in his view, had not corrupted the gospel; Paul, he

said, sits at Christ's right hand in heaven. Rome excommunicated him in 144, but Marcionite churches with their own clergy and rites (they used no wine at communion) spread through Italy and as far as Arabia, Armenia and Egypt, and villages near Damascus survived into the fourth century.

Marcion set the church two problems: a list of books shaped around Paul, and the loss of the Old Testament. Paul had become, as Tertullian said, the apostle of the heretics, yet he meant too much to be given up. The church restored the Pastoral Letters and the letters of the other apostles and joined all the letters to four gospels, with Acts as the bridge. And it kept the Old Testament, for two reasons. The God who creates is the God who redeems: the one who made the world chose Israel and reclaims his creation through Jesus. And Christianity is a historical religion, resting on the belief that at a particular time and place God took a hand in human affairs; faith therefore means facing life's "why, Lord?" and still trusting God's good purpose. If Marcion pushed the churches toward forming a New Testament, Montanus pushed them toward closing it.

Fresh Voices from God

Christianity is a religion of the Spirit; how then, in Tertullian's bitter phrase, was the Holy Spirit "chased into a book"? In the later second century enthusiasm was giving way to ecclesiasticism. Prophecy was fading, numbers were growing, and the line between church and world was blurring. Between 156 and 172 Montanus appeared in Asia Minor, demanding stricter discipline and sharper separation from the world. Had he stopped there he would have done good. But he and his prophetesses Prisca and Maximilla prophesied in ecstasy, as instruments on which the Paraclete played, announced Christ's speedy return and called opposition blasphemy against the Spirit; churches split. Montanus taught that a new age of the Spirit, with greater demands and higher revelations, had surpassed the ages of the Law and of the Son. In the Spirit's name he thus denied that God's decisive revelation had come in Jesus Christ.

To keep the gospel central the church set the apostolic writings apart as uniquely authoritative, the standard for all later faith and practice. It did not stop believing in the Spirit: the Spirit who had enabled the sacred books to be written now enabled people to understand, interpret and apply them. The proof is the appearance of lists. The Muratorian Canon, written about 190 and published by L. A. Muratori in 1740, names the four Gospels, Acts, thirteen letters of Paul, Jude, two letters of John and the Revelation, together with two books that did not stay, the Wisdom of Solomon and the Apocalypse of Peter. By the early third century only a few books were questioned: Hebrews in the West, Revelation in the East. Early in the fourth century Eusebius reported that some disputed James, Jude, 2 Peter and 2 and 3 John, and was puzzled by Revelation. The first list identical with today's is in the Easter letter of Athanasius of Alexandria in 367; the councils of Hippo (393) and Carthage (397) published the same list. (A chart in the chapter shows the New Testament as it gained acceptance.)

In one sense Christians created the canon; in another they only recognized the writings that had made their authority felt. Their aim was to submit to the teaching of the apostles. The faith stayed catholic, Shelley concludes, because it was apostolic.

SIDEBAR **The Logic of the Canon**

Everett Ferguson describes four steps in canonical thinking: believers recognize that some writings carry divine authority; they begin to think of a boundary, since sacred writings differ from others and may be limited in number; they move to a closed canon, an explicit list; and a consensus forms around that list.

KEY PEOPLE

Jerome; Origen; Augustine; Justin Martyr; Clement of Rome; Marcion; Cerdo; Tertullian; Montanus, Prisca and Maximilla; Eusebius; Athanasius; L. A. Muratori; Everett Ferguson.

KEY DATES

c. AD 60–70	The first gospels written
c. 96	Clement of Rome writes to Corinth
c. 140	Marcion comes to Rome
144	Marcion excommunicated
156–172	Montanus begins to prophesy in Asia Minor
c. 190	The Muratorian Canon lists the Christian books
367	Easter letter of Athanasius: first list of the 27 New Testament books
393	Council of Hippo lists the same 27 New Testament books
397	Council of Carthage confirms the list of 27 books

KEY TERMS

Bible; covenant (testament); canon; allegory; typology; Apocrypha (deuterocanonical books); Septuagint; Palestinian and Alexandrian canons; Marcionites; Montanism; Paraclete; Muratorian Canon.

CHAPTER

7

The School for Sinners

The Power of Bishops

IN BRIEF

In the apostolic age the Spirit moved freely among prophets, teachers and healers. By the middle of the third century a single bishop led each church and held the power to forgive even the gravest sins. The chapter traces the rise of the bishop's office and the crisis over sin after baptism that turned the church from a society of saints into a school for sinners—the last element of catholic Christianity.

THE QUESTION

What if a Christian sins seriously after baptism? Are there sins for which the church has no forgiveness, and who may forgive?

The first Christians knew a believer by one thing above all, rebirth through the Spirit, and baptism was its sign. The apostles were the unchallenged leaders, yet prophets, teachers, miracle workers and healers also acted in the Spirit's power, and Paul, even amid the rivalries at Corinth, would not suppress these gifts. The refusal of Montanism, with its prophecies and its moral rigor, showed the church as an institution more clearly than before. It had preached to the nations and shown its universality; it had faced heretics and stated its orthodoxy; now it struggled with sin and developed its episcopacy (from *episcopos*, bishop).

Leaders for the Churches

Paul left local leaders in his churches: *elders* or presbyters, also called bishops (overseers) or pastors (shepherds), who taught converts, led worship and kept discipline, and *deacons*, who assisted them. So the apostolic age knew both traveling leaders moved by the Spirit and resident ones. Soon after 100 Ignatius of Antioch writes as a matter of course of a single bishop in each church with his presbyters and his deacons, through whose united ministry grace flows to the flock. How this pattern arose is not known; probably one presbyter came to handle correspondence with other churches, the funds for the poor, the defense of the faith against heretical teachers and the Eucharist. It spread gradually—Alexandria had no single bishop until about 180—and unevenly: small churches in Asia Minor and Africa each had a bishop, while in Gaul the bishop of a large town supervised the surrounding congregations through presbyters.

By the late second century the bishop was the undisputed leader, and the struggle with the Gnostics strengthened him. They claimed a secret wisdom handed down through a succession of teachers from Jesus. Catholics answered by pointing to what the churches taught openly, to the rule of faith and to the bishops who presided where the apostles themselves had planted churches. Hegesippus, who journeyed from Palestine to Rome about the middle of the second century, heard the same teaching from every bishop and drew up succession lists for Corinth and Rome; Irenaeus and Tertullian argued likewise that the succession of bishops guaranteed the unbroken tradition of apostolic doctrine.

What to Make of Bishops

Nearly all Christians admit these changes took place; they disagree about their authority, and Shelley sets out three answers. (1) The early leaders sinfully departed from a divinely given pattern, and the changes should be reversed: the view of "back-to-the-Bible" and most reforming movements, which must then decide how much of apostolic practice is permanent (elders, yes; the silence of women,

too?). (2) There was no divine pattern; the leaders used their liberty, and church government may change with the times: the view of "progressives," which risks a Christianity without absolutes. (3) The Holy Spirit so guided the church that these developments are God's work and permanently binding: the view of most Catholics, which must explain why the Spirit's guidance should stop with the early centuries. These conflicting answers partly explain today's denominations.

As late as the 200s many believers suspected that the Spirit had left when the bishops took charge. Earlier Christians had looked for the power of the Spirit in lives, not in an office. Paul described the Spirit's work as the building up of the church and its fruit as love, joy, peace and self-control, and the generations after him put moral demands first, tolerated no unholy members and expelled gross sinners. The high morality of the congregations was a main argument of the apologists: Justin tried to show that Christian goodness was a power actually exercised, and Athenagoras pointed to artisans and old women who could not explain their doctrines but proved them by their deeds. Opponents agreed. Pliny found nothing criminal in the Christians he examined, and the steadfastness of the martyrs convinced Justin and won over onlookers. But early in the third century this moral fiber weakened. Montanus had not been wholly wrong: by about 220 the churches and those who led them had changed from what they once were.

What About Unforgivable Sins?

For two centuries most Christians held that baptism canceled all earlier sins, and that three sins committed afterward—sexual immorality, murder and denial of the faith (apostasy)—could be forgiven by God but never by the church. The guilty were excluded from fellowship and from the Lord's Supper, which Ignatius had called "the medicine of immortality"; to be barred from it endangered salvation. During the long calm of the early third century standards relaxed. The bishop of Rome, Callistus (217–222), was the first to readmit penitents as a policy, including those guilty of

adultery and abortion. The church, he said, is like Noah's ark, with clean and unclean beasts; and the bishop of Rome, being "close to Peter," holds the keys to bind and loose—the first such claim by a Roman bishop. Tertullian was horrified: "We do not forgive apostates, and shall we forgive adulterers?" But the future lay with Callistus, and soon people asked: why not apostates too?

In 250 the emperor Decius, a general from the Danube who blamed the empire's troubles on Christian "atheism," ordered every citizen to sacrifice to the Roman gods and obtain a certificate (*libellus*). It was the most violent persecution so far. Many complied or bought false certificates; others went to prison or to death, and the bishops of Rome, Antioch and Jerusalem were among the victims. Decius wanted apostates rather than heroes, so Christians were tortured to make them say "Caesar is Lord." Those who died were "martyrs" (witnesses), those who endured "confessors," those who gave way the "lapsed." The storm ended in 251 when Decius fell in battle against the Goths. Then the question of readmission became urgent, for in places three-quarters of a congregation had lapsed. Cyprian, bishop of Carthage, stated what was at stake: "Outside the church there is no salvation." Yet was not apostasy the unforgivable sin against the Holy Spirit?

The Birth of Saints

Martyrs and confessors were held in awe. Martyrdom, the baptism of blood, was a Christian's highest glory; the martyrs' names were recorded and their "birthdays" into eternal life kept each year at their tombs. The saints were on their way. In Carthage some held that the confessors, by their courage, had received power from the Spirit to absolve sins and could cover the faults of the lapsed with their own merits, and they pressed Cyprian for a general pardon. He refused and proposed readmission by degrees of guilt: leniency for those who sacrificed only under extreme torture, the severest penalty for those who went willingly. The church accepted this and created a graded system of penance. After a period of sorrow, the penitent came before the congregation in sackcloth and ashes, and

the bishop laid hands on him as a sign of restoration. The confessors' idea did not die: it came back centuries later in Rome's teaching about a treasury of merit and in indulgences, which likewise credit the merits of the saints to sinners in need.

The strict tradition found its voice in Rome. The presbyter and theologian Novatian argued that the church cannot forgive murder, adultery or apostasy and can only pray for God's mercy at the last judgment. Another presbyter, Cornelius, held that the bishop can forgive even grave sins. Novatian defended the older idea of the church as a society of saints; Cornelius stood for the new idea of the church as a school for sinners. The majority elected Cornelius bishop; Novatian's minority formed a network of small congregations that regarded the catholic churches as polluted—perhaps rightly, Shelley remarks, since these now offered unlimited forgiveness. From then on catholics had, beside baptism, a second sacrament, still without fixed form: penance. With the bishops' power to forgive sins, catholic Christianity was complete.

KEY PEOPLE

Ignatius of Antioch; Hegesippus; Irenaeus; Tertullian; Justin; Athenagoras; Callistus; Decius; Cyprian of Carthage; Novatian; Cornelius.

KEY DATES

c. 180	Alexandria receives a single bishop
217–222	Callistus, bishop of Rome, readmits penitent adulterers and claims Peter's keys
c. 220	Decline of moral discipline in the churches evident
250	Decius orders universal sacrifice; many Christians lapse
251	Decius killed by the Goths; dispute over readmitting the lapsed

KEY TERMS

Episcopacy; presbyter (elder), bishop, deacon; apostolic succession; rule of faith; apostasy; *libelli*; martyr, confessor, lapsed; penance; treasury of merit; Novatianists.

CHAPTER

8

Apostles to Intellectuals

The Alexandrians

IN BRIEF

As Christianity grew into the chief rival of Rome's old ways, it had to decide what to do with Greek philosophy and literature. Tertullian wanted nothing to do with them; at Alexandria Clement and Origen showed that faith and philosophy could live together when both bow to Christ, and so prepared the way for a Christian empire and for later theology.

THE QUESTION

Must Christians resist Greek philosophy as an enemy, or can it be made an ally of the gospel?

About 374 the young monk Jerome, later the translator of the Latin Vulgate, dreamed during an illness that he stood before the judgment seat and heard a voice: "You are a Ciceronian, not a Christian." He loved Christ, but he also loved Cicero, Virgil and Horace. His nightmare is typical of the early church's struggle over pagan literature and philosophy, a struggle that has never ended. As the faith spread into the world of Hellenism, new arguments and criticisms pushed Christian thinkers toward a fuller account of their teaching, and people of culture and power were asking what part Christianity would play in the affairs of men and empires.

Light in the World

The church always stands in a double relation to the world: "not of the world" yet "sent into the world." It moves to a rhythm of detachment, because the gospel comes from God, and involvement, because God sends it to be light. Christians differ over where the boundary lies; what is witness to one is compromise to another. Some therefore resisted every attempt to reconcile the faith with Greek philosophy, appealing to John's warning not to love the world and to Paul's saying that the cross is foolishness to Greeks. The fiercest was Tertullian. Philosophy, he cried, breeds heresy: Valentinus was a Platonist, Marcion a Stoic. "What do Athens and Jerusalem have in common?" Once we believe, we need nothing further. In view of the life-and-death struggle with Gnosticism, a Christianity recast to fit fashionable ideas, this was no mere bigotry.

Yet during the very century of persecution Christians were finding ways to state the gospel in Hellenic terms, and those teachers paved the way for Rome's later acceptance of the faith. The lead came from the catechetical school of Alexandria under Clement and Origen, the first of a line of scholars at home in Greek wisdom yet loyal to Christ, who tried to bring into Christianity the best of Hellenic culture, especially of the Platonists and Stoics. "The way of truth is one," said Clement, "but into it, as into a perennial river, streams flow from all sides." Shelley thinks the school began independently of the church, like the schools philosophers opened in the great cities and like Justin's lodging in Rome, where he taught all who came. About 180 the Sicilian Pantaenus founded such a school of "Christian Gnosticism" in Alexandria: gnostic because it asked the great questions of meaning, Christian because it kept orthodox answers. He won many pagans and deepened many Christians.

A Pastor to Philosophers

Pantaenus drew Clement to Alexandria, where he stayed twenty years as pupil and then as head of the school. Three of his works survive and belong together: an *Exhortation to the Heathen*, then

the *Instructor*, and the unfinished *Miscellanies*. His contemporaries knew him as a messenger of Christianity in a philosopher's cloak. "The first Christian scholar," he knew the Scriptures and the learning of his time, and he understood the students who came from Rome, Athens and Antioch dissatisfied with their teachers, many of them already touched by some gnostic theory. He took up not only the dress and language of the philosophers but their problems—the origin of the world, evil, salvation through the Word—and showed that these find their deepest answer in the Christian revelation. His aim was pastoral, not merely theological: to win people, not arguments.

It was a risky venture in a city full of Valentinian Gnosticism, where converts often seemed to face a choice between a clever heresy and a modest orthodoxy. Clement offered a third way. He gave philosophy a positive role as a preparation for Christ: it was "a schoolmaster to the Greeks, as the law was to the Hebrews." But his method was the opposite of the heretics'. They wrecked the apostolic gospel; he and Origen stayed loyal to the message of Peter and Paul. They also differed on conduct. Many Gnostics separated knowledge from character; Clement taught that insight comes to the pure in heart, who love the good for its own sake, in an ascent from faith through knowledge to the vision of God beyond this life. The decisive difference was creation: the Valentinians rejected it as the work of an evil deity, while for Clement God planted seeds of truth in all rational creatures, so that Christians can learn from the Greeks, since all truth and goodness come from the Creator. After Clement, Greek and Christian thought were joined; without that union the theology of the first great councils would have been impossible.

Origen and the Thirst for Truth

When persecution struck Alexandria shortly after 200, Clement fled and left the school to a gifted youth of eighteen. Origen was born to Christian parents; Leonides, his father, died a martyr in that persecution, and Origen sold his secular books to support the

family. He shared Clement's love of philosophy and held that the desire to know the causes of things was planted in us by God. He was often at odds with his bishop, Demetrius, whom he thought power-hungry and who found him uncooperative. About 229, on his way to Athens, Origen was ordained at Caesarea in Palestine; Demetrius treated this as insubordination and had him publicly condemned. So his career falls into the years at Alexandria (202–230) and at Caesarea (230–254).

He was a magnetic teacher to whom students traveled hundreds of miles, among them Gregory, later called the Wonder-worker for his missionary success in Asia Minor, who wrote a book in his praise. Origen set before his pupils the true goal of philosophy, the good life; ignorance, he said, is a barrier to godliness, and true philosophy centers on the Word. He formed character as well as ideas and taught, Gregory says, more by his acts than by his theories. A wealthy friend paid for seven shorthand writers, and books poured out; Jerome asked who could ever read them all. He regarded the exposition of Scripture as his first task. Almost alone among Greek-speaking Christians he studied the Old Testament in Hebrew. His *Hexapla* set six versions of it in parallel columns, and he wrote scores of commentaries and hundreds of sermons. Where the surface sense of a passage seemed unworthy of God, he took it as a sign of a deeper lesson. Hence his "allegorical interpretation" with three levels of meaning, literal, moral and spiritual, matching body, soul and mind. Above all he wanted the whole Bible to speak, against the heretics' habit of forcing a few striking texts. This work let intelligent Christians go on believing the Bible. Origen, Shelley says, saved the Scriptures for the church and protected the historical foundation of the faith.

A Theology for Thinkers

Origen was also the first to set out a whole intellectual framework of the faith rather than merely refute heresy. His *First Principles*, an early work he never needed to revise much, was written for educated readers: he did not despise the faith of simple people, but

he saw that Christianity must justify itself to the mind as well as the heart if it was to shape civilization. He held to the rule of faith and felt free to speculate where it was silent. His vision reached so far as to teach that all creatures, even the devil, would at last be restored to God and hell emptied. This doctrine brought him endless trouble. His error, Shelley judges, was to turn a dream into a doctrine: if God has character and man has choice (as Charles Williams argued), an everlasting rejection of God must remain possible.

In the persecution of Decius Origen was singled out, imprisoned, chained and tortured, but kept alive. Released when the terror ended in 251, he died of its effects at Tyre in 254, aged sixty-nine. Did Clement and Origen go too far and let Greek ideas take the gospel captive? Shelley answers that they were true to the faith as it was then understood: as Christ took on human existence, so his people take on the humanity of every civilization. "For the Hellenes one must become a Hellene," said Clement. They preserved humanism for Christianity, made possible the later work of Athanasius, Gregory of Nyssa and John Chrysostom, and showed that the best of classical culture had a home and a future in the church.

KEY PEOPLE

Jerome; Tertullian; Valentinus; Justin; Pantaenus; Clement of Alexandria; Origen; Leonides; Demetrius, bishop of Alexandria; Gregory the Wonder-worker; Decius.

KEY DATES

c. 180	Pantaenus opens his Christian school at Alexandria
185	Birth of Origen
c. 202	Persecution at Alexandria; Clement flees and Origen, aged 18, heads the school

c. 229–230	Origen ordained at Caesarea, condemned by Demetrius, settles in Palestine
254	Death of Origen at Tyre after torture under Decius
c. 374	Jerome's dream: "a Ciceronian, not a Christian"

KEY TERMS

Hellenism; catechetical school of Alexandria; Christian Gnosticism; philosophy as schoolmaster; *Hexapla*; allegorical interpretation (literal, moral, spiritual); *First Principles*; universal restoration.

PART THREE

The Age of the Christian Roman Empire

312–590

Few rulers changed the church's situation as much as Constantine. After his conversion Christians stepped out of hiding into imperial favor, and a body still hunted in 303 was Rome's official religion before 400. With the emperors' help the church held councils, defined its teaching and answered for the morals of a whole society.

Believers judged the change differently: Eusebius saw Christ triumph over Caesar, while the monks feared that the world was taking over the church. Yet when Germanic peoples overran the West, it was the monks who converted them.

IN THIS PART

9 Laying Her Sceptre Down *The Conversion of the Empire*
10 Splitting Important Hairs *The Doctrine of the Trinity*
11 Emmanuel! *Christ in the Creeds*
12 Exiles from Life *The Beginnings of Monasticism*
13 The Sage of the Ages *Augustine*
14 Peter as "Pontifex Maximus" *The Beginnings of the Papacy*
15 Somewhere Between Heaven and Earth *Eastern Orthodoxy*
16 Bending the Necks of Victors *Mission to the Barbarians*

CHAPTER

9

Laying Her Sceptre Down

The Conversion of the Empire

IN BRIEF

With Constantine the age of the martyrs ended and two developments began whose effects are still felt: the Christianizing of the empire and the emperor's interference in the church. The chapter tells how Diocletian revived the empire and then persecuted the church, how Constantine came to favor it, and what its new power gained and cost.

THE QUESTION

Why did a despised and persecuted "superstition" rise almost overnight to the spiritual leadership of the Roman Empire?

The Arch of Constantine in Rome celebrates his victory over the rival Caesar Maxentius, whose troops are shown falling from the Milvian Bridge into the Tiber. Eusebius of Caesarea, Constantine's biographer, compared the scene to Pharaoh's end in the Red Sea, and contemporaries saw in the emperor's conversion and victory a turning point of history: the opening of what the book calls the Age of the Christian Empire (312–590).

Turning Around an Empire

The story starts with Diocletian. When he took the purple in 284 the empire was collapsing: thirty emperors in the third century, the Senate ignored, armies and Praetorian Guards making and

murdering rulers. That the collapse was delayed in the West for 175 years, and in the East almost until the time of Columbus, was largely his work during twenty years of rule (284–305). Because he was the most savage persecutor he has a bad name among Christians, but Shelley ranks him with the greatest of the emperors. Born to slaves in Dalmatia, he rose through the army, removed his nearest rival with his own sword and shook the empire back to life, restoring the frontiers on the Rhine and Danube and recovering Britain and Persia. As a statesman he judged the empire too large for one ruler. He shared power with three others in four imperial courts, none in Rome (his own at Nicomedia in Asia Minor): two "Augusti," each with a subordinate "Caesar" who could hope to succeed without murder.

Christians to the Flames

For eighteen years Diocletian, a convinced pagan, ignored the Christians. Christian officials filled his court, his wife Prisca and daughter Valeria were thought to be believers, and large churches stood in the main cities. Then, two years before the end of his reign and for reasons no one knows, he purged the army and issued edicts to destroy churches, forbid worship and burn the Scriptures; bishops were imprisoned, tortured and killed. When he abdicated in 305, forcing his colleague Maximian to do the same, the persecution went on under Galerius, the new Augustus in the East, whom Christians blamed for starting it. In the West Constantius Chlorus, who had never pressed it hard, stopped it. The bloodshed sickened even pagans. Thousands had recanted, but thousands stood firm; some were so eager to die that the bishop of Carthage refused the title of martyr to those who rushed into it. In 311 Galerius, dying, grudgingly issued an edict of toleration, and Rome's last and worst persecution ended.

In the struggle for power that followed, Constantine, son of Constantius, crossed the Alps in 312 to take Italy from Maxentius. Facing a stronger army at the Milvian Bridge outside Rome, he dreamed of a cross in the sky with the words "In this sign conquer,"

and his victory on October 28 convinced him of the power of Christ. Some historians call the conversion purely political: he still plotted and murdered and kept the pagan title Pontifex Maximus. Shelley thinks his acts say otherwise. From 312 he openly favored Christianity. He exempted its clergy from taxes like pagan priests, abolished crucifixion, stopped gladiator fights as a punishment, made Sunday a public holiday in 321 and paid for splendid churches. He brought up his children as Christians and was baptized by Eusebius of Nicomedia shortly before his death in 337, after which he would wear only his white baptismal robe. Matthew Arnold pictured the victorious West that "veil'd her eagles, snapp'd her sword, and laid her sceptre down."

SIDEBAR **Care for the Dying**

Romans commonly abandoned unwanted children, especially girls. Christians, who saw every person as made in God's image, rescued them; pagans objected, and laws penalized the rescuers. Constantine ruled that an abandoned child belonged to its finder, one of many rulings that favored Christians.

A New Capital for Christianity

Constantine also gave the empire a new capital. Its enemies gathered in the east, and its religion was now eastern. He chose the old town of Byzantium on the Bosporus, a natural crossroads of Asia and Europe with a perfect harbor, and inaugurated it in 330. As Constantinople it was for most of its history the capital of the eastern Roman Empire, known as Byzantine; the Turks renamed it Istanbul in 1930.

For the church the change was immense. Outlawed until 312, it was suddenly favored and pampered, and it re-envisioned its image and mission. Eusebius spoke for most Christians when he presented the emperor as the ideal Christian ruler and a new age of salvation as begun; many saw providence in a unified empire prepared for the gospel and thought the conversion of the world near. But there was a price. Constantine ruled bishops like civil servants

and demanded obedience even in purely church matters. And the masses now streamed in: where the church had consisted of convinced believers who accepted risk, there came the ambitious, the indifferent and the half-pagan, bringing shallowness, superstition and the misuse of religion for political ends.

The Church Comes to Power

By 380 rewards for Christians had become penalties for others. In that year the emperor Theodosius commanded all his peoples to hold the faith of the Trinity and bear the name of Catholic Christians; the rest, "demented and insane," were heretics whose meeting places were not churches and who would feel both divine vengeance and his own. He assumed that his will and God's were one, an assumption built into the Christian empire. Church buildings expressed the new hierarchy: the domed, mosaic-covered interiors of Byzantine churches, a style borrowed from Persia, displayed God and the emperor as his representative on earth.

In the West, farther from court, some churchmen dared to challenge the "demigod." In 390 the people of Thessalonica murdered their governor for refusing to free a popular charioteer he had jailed. Theodosius, then at Milan, had the crowd at a later race shut in the circus and attacked; seven thousand died in three hours. Ambrose, bishop of Milan, who saw himself as the emperor's conscience, wrote to him that he must repent like any other man, since God forgives only the penitent, and refused him Communion. After staying away for a time Theodosius gave in, laid aside his imperial robes before the congregation and asked pardon, more than once, until Ambrose gave him the sacrament on Christmas Day. Ambrose had found the weapon, the threat of excommunication, with which the Western church would humble princes again and again. In Constantinople no bishop ever went so far. East and West each claimed the right form of Christianity (one could as well say "Greek Catholic" and "Roman Orthodox," as Bamber Gascoigne notes); their opposite attitudes to the Christian emperor are a symbol of their diverging destinies.

KEY PEOPLE

Diocletian; Maximian; Galerius; Constantius Chlorus; Constantine; Maxentius; Eusebius of Caesarea; Eusebius of Nicomedia; Theodosius; Ambrose of Milan.

KEY DATES

284–305	Reign of Diocletian; four-man rule; the last great persecution begins about 303
311	Galerius's edict of toleration
312	Constantine defeats Maxentius at the Milvian Bridge (October 28)
321	Sunday made a public holiday
330	Constantinople inaugurated as the new capital
337	Baptism and death of Constantine
380	Theodosius makes Catholic Christianity the religion of the empire
390	Massacre at Thessalonica; Ambrose forces Theodosius to do penance

KEY TERMS

Augustus and Caesar; edict of toleration; "In this sign conquer"; Pontifex Maximus; Constantinople (Byzantium); Christian empire; excommunication.

CHAPTER

10

Splitting Important Hairs

The Doctrine of the Trinity

IN BRIEF

The most distinctive thing Christians say about God is that he is three persons. The fourth century gave this belief its form. The chapter recounts the Arian dispute, the Council of Nicaea and its creed, the half-century of struggle in which Athanasius defended it, and the analogies by which the church learned to speak of three in one.

THE QUESTION

What did the church mean by the Trinity? What is the orthodox understanding of the triune God?

No other major religion worships a three-in-one God: the doctrine offends Jews and Muslims, Unitarians and Jehovah's Witnesses reject it outright, and most Christians admit it is a mystery. In worship believers spoke of Father, Son and Spirit; thinking about God's nature, they said he is one. In the fourth century the question was everywhere: in Constantinople, a bishop complained, the money-changer, the baker and the bath attendant all argued whether the Son is begotten or created, equal or less.

Making Sense of Mystery

Constantine hoped the church would give the weary empire new life, but only a united church could do so, and he was disturbed

that Christians who had just survived persecution now demanded that the state suppress their opponents. The worst quarrel was at Alexandria. About 318 Arius, pastor of the influential Baucalis church, taught that the Word who became flesh in Jesus was a lesser god of a different nature from the Father, neither eternal nor omnipotent: the first and greatest of created beings, but created. "The Son has a beginning, but God is without beginning." This suited many former pagans, for it resembled the supreme God and lesser beings of their old religion and made Christ an intelligible divine hero; but if the Son's nature differs from the Father's, there are at least two gods. Arius was an eloquent preacher with a gift for publicity, and his jingles were sung by dockworkers and schoolchildren. His bishop, Alexander, had a synod condemn and excommunicate him about 320. Arius won the support of Eusebius, bishop of Nicomedia, and the dispute became a contest between the political capital and the intellectual capital of the East; when he returned, there were riots.

In 325 Constantine summoned a council to Nicaea in Asia Minor. Some three hundred bishops came, many still bearing the scars of persecution, now traveling in comfort as the emperor's guests. Constantine, in the jeweled robes of an eastern monarch, opened the sessions, told the bishops that division in the church was worse than war, and left the matter to them.

SIDEBAR **Rejected Trinitarian Schemes**

The early church treated the Trinity as a mystery to be honored, not a riddle to be solved. Two "Monarchian" theories protected the one ruling God at the cost of the Father, Son and Spirit needed to tell the Christian story. *Modalism* saw the three as roles played by God in succession, like an actor's parts; it could not explain their interaction in the New Testament (as at Jesus' baptism) and left the real God hidden behind the masks. *Subordinationism* pictured a supreme God assisted by lesser deities, the Son and the Spirit. Nicaea rejected it in Arius, though the dispute lasted another half century.

True God of True God

When supporters of Arius stated his case boldly, the council interrupted in dismay: these bishops came from churches that worshiped Jesus. The hard work was to write a statement that excluded Arius. The learned historian Eusebius of Caesarea, a friend of the emperor and a halfhearted supporter of Arius, offered his own creed; the majority wanted something more exact and took another creed, probably from Palestine, adding the phrases "true God of true God, begotten not made, of one substance with the Father." The key term *homoousios*, "of one substance," was probably proposed by Hosius of Cordova, who had the emperor's ear. So arose the Nicene Creed, still the standard of orthodoxy in the Roman, Eastern, Anglican and other churches. All but two bishops signed; they and Arius were exiled. Constantine celebrated with a banquet at which bishops reclined beside the emperor among his guards—to Eusebius it seemed an image of Christ's kingdom—and he kissed the empty eye socket of the Egyptian bishop Paphnutius.

But afterward Constantine and his successors intervened again and again, banishing and recalling bishops as one church party or another gained influence at court; doctrine too often depended on the emperor's favor. The career of Athanasius shows it. Probably present at Nicaea as secretary to Alexander, he succeeded him as bishop of Alexandria at thirty-three and for fifty years, while the outcome was uncertain, defended the creed. He was banished five times, and at his loneliest stood, as the saying goes, "Athanasius against the world."

Soon a moderate group, the Semi-Arians, proposed that the Word is "like" (*homoiousios*) the Father rather than "the same" (*homoousios*). Athanasius's party insisted on the latter: if Christ were not fully God he could not fully save. Gibbon sneered that Christians fought over a diphthong. Shelley replies, with William Hordern's story of a telegram whose missing comma turned "No, price too high" into "No price too high," that a single letter can carry immense meaning. Had the iota entered the creed, Christianity would have had two gods, a Jesus neither God nor man and an

unapproachable Father—one more pagan religion.

The Mystery of the Trinity

Illustrations from nature—egg, plant, the three states of water—miss the personal character of the doctrine. Its foundation is God's own action in history: revealing himself to Israel, entering the world in Jesus, coming as the Spirit at Pentecost. Personal analogies are of two kinds. The *social* analogy starts from three persons so closely bound that they share one life; it is clear about threeness and must account for unity. The *psychological* analogy starts from one person with distinct functions; it is clear about unity and vague about threeness. Both were used in the early church, as by Leonard Hodgson and Karl Barth today.

Between Nicaea and the second general council in 381 the three Cappadocian Fathers—Basil the Great, Gregory of Nazianzus and Gregory of Nyssa—clarified the term "person." They used the social analogy but placed the distinctions solely in the inner relations of the one divine Being: there are not three gods. *Persona* originally meant an actor's mask and did not mean an individual in today's sense; Christians used it for the living communion of Father, Son and Spirit. A little later Augustine of Hippo used the psychological analogy: since man is made in the image of the Trinity, God may be compared to memory, intelligence and will in one mind—only an analogy, as he knew. Athanasius was not alone after all. He died peacefully at seventy-five, secure in his see and sure that the creed of Nicaea was the creed of the church.

SIDEBAR **Why Is the Trinity Important?**

Father, Son and Spirit are not three names among many but necessary to the Christian story. *Salvation* meant more than going to heaven: it meant being brought into communion with God, as a grandson squeezes onto the porch swing between his grandparents and is taken into their love; only if all three are divine can they bring us into that fellowship. *Worship*: Christians are baptized into the one name of Father, Son and Spirit, and Paul gives a Trinitarian blessing. *Human dignity*: against the ancient idea that whoever serves is inferior, the Son serves the Father out of love, so that service is a mark of Christlikeness, not of weakness.

KEY PEOPLE

Arius; Alexander of Alexandria; Eusebius of Nicomedia; Constantine; Eusebius of Caesarea; Hosius of Cordova; Paphnutius; Athanasius; Basil the Great, Gregory of Nazianzus and Gregory of Nyssa (the Cappadocians); Augustine.

KEY DATES

c. 318	Arius begins to teach that the Son is a created being
c. 320	Synod of Alexandria excommunicates Arius
325	Council of Nicaea; the Nicene Creed ("of one substance with the Father")
381	Council of Constantinople, the second general council; the Nicene faith prevails

KEY TERMS

Trinity; Arianism; *homoousios* and *homoiousios*; Semi-Arians; modalism; subordinationism; Monarchians; person (*persona*); social and psychological analogies; Nicene Creed.

CHAPTER

11

Emmanuel!

Christ in the Creeds

IN BRIEF

After the Trinity came the question of Christ himself: how are the divine and the human related in the one Savior? A century of debate between the schools of Alexandria and Antioch, sharpened by the rivalry of the great bishops, produced three rejected answers and, at Chalcedon in 451, the classic definition of one person in two natures.

THE QUESTION

By what steps did the church arrive at its classic statement of the incarnation, and what does that statement mean?

Near Mount Hermon Jesus asked his disciples, "Who do you say I am?" and Peter answered, "You are the Messiah, the Son of the living God." People have given a thousand other answers—rabbi of love, social revolutionary, misguided dreamer—but the church has confessed with Peter. Theologians call the mystery the incarnation; hymns praise "Emmanuel," God with us. Chalcedon declared Christ "complete in Godhead and complete in manhood," in two natures forming one person. Most Roman Catholic, Orthodox and Protestant Christians hold this as orthodox; some Christians in Egypt, Syria and India do not.

The Word Became Flesh

Christology asks who Jesus Christ was. That the question exists at all is a monument to his uniqueness: Islam has no "Mohammedology." The imperial age did not invent the question; the God-man was central to worship long before he was central to thought, and the heart of Christian experience, as J. S. Whale said, lies in the church's praise rather than its creed. Still, God in the flesh is a reality, not a sentiment. The debates did not aim to explain Christ, who fits no class, and the creeds deserve credit for leaving the mystery a mystery. The mind's revolt against them, said Charles Williams, is immature; the romantic "simple Jesus" will not serve a faith that has always believed earth and heaven meet in him.

Two schools emphasized different sides of "the Word became flesh." Alexandria stressed that the divine Word took on human flesh and risked letting the divinity overshadow the humanity. Its early voice, Origen, coined the term "God-man" and built a Platonic mysticism of the Word; Gregory of Nyssa later taught that the one divine person united two distinct natures whose attributes could be exchanged. Antioch read Scripture historically, stressed the concrete man of the Gospels and the saving value of his obedient will, and kept the two natures so distinct that they could seem two beings, the Word dwelling in the man Jesus as in a temple; its risk was to let the humanity overshadow the divinity.

Politics inflamed the debate. In the official church power gathered in a few hands: bishops of provincial capitals became archbishops, and those of Rome, Constantinople, Alexandria and Antioch were called patriarchs, each seeking to extend his see's prestige. Alexandria and Rome generally supported each other out of resentment of the upstart "new Rome"; Antioch, Alexandria's old rival, sided with Constantinople.

Major Heresies About Christ

Between 350 and 450 each heresy forced a clearer answer. The first came from Apollinaris of Laodicea, a younger friend of Athanasius. Reacting against Antioch, he held that at the incarnation the divine

Word took the place of the rational soul in a human body, giving "one enfleshed nature of the divine Word." Critics replied that the Gospels show a complete man and that a Christ without a human mind could not redeem the whole person: "What has not been assumed cannot be restored," said Gregory of Nazianzus. The Council of Constantinople in 381 silenced the teaching.

The second is linked with Nestorius, a famous preacher of Antioch made bishop of Constantinople in 428. Following his teacher Theodore of Mopsuestia, he rejected the popular title of Mary as "God-bearer, Mother of God," since God cannot be born or be three days old. He did not deny Christ's deity, but he described the union of the natures as a moral joining of wills—"I hold the natures apart, but unite the worship"—so that he seemed to teach two persons. He was condemned more for politics than doctrine. Hated in the capital for his attacks on Jews and heretics, he made an enemy of Cyril, patriarch of Alexandria (412–444), an able but ruthless theologian, who stirred up charges and won over Pope Celestine. At the Council of Ephesus in 431, called by Theodosius II, Cyril had Nestorius deposed before his Syrian supporters arrived; they, under John of Antioch, then condemned Cyril; the Roman legates sided with Cyril. The historian Williston Walker thought few quarrels in the church's past so repellent. Nestorius was expelled and died in exile in Egypt about 450; how far he was really heretical remains unclear. In his autobiography he said he only wished to stress that Jesus was born fully human.

His followers fled to Persia and founded the Nestorian Church, with vigorous monasticism, theology and missions reaching Malabar in India, Turkestan and, between 780 and 823, Tibet and central China, until the persecution of Tamerlane (1380) destroyed the Asian mission. About eighty thousand members remain in the Near East and India and twenty-five thousand in America. The church still uses Nestorius's name for the failure to see the natures as truly united. Shelley notes that some liberal views are called Nestorian, making Jesus differ from us only in degree, a model rather than a divine savior, and that evangelicals fall into the same error when they treat Jesus as a self-help example.

Establishing the Boundaries of Truth

The third heresy followed quickly. Eutyches, head of a monastery near Constantinople, taught one nature (monophysitism): Christ's humanity is absorbed in his deity like a drop of honey in the sea—which endangered the whole doctrine of redemption. Flavian, patriarch of Constantinople, condemned him, but Dioscorus of Alexandria, heir to Cyril's ideas, backed him and at a council in Ephesus in 449 had him restored. Pope Leo I called it the "Robber Council" and asked for a new one. The emperor Marcian summoned it to Chalcedon, near Constantinople, in 451. Nearly four hundred bishops indicted Dioscorus and, though reluctant to add to Nicaea, defined Christ as truly God and truly man, in two natures "without confusion, without change, without division, without separation," the properties of each preserved and coming together in one person. Thus the church said against Arius that Jesus is truly God, against Apollinaris that he is truly man, against Eutyches that the natures are not turned into anything else, and, in answer to Nestorius, that he is one person.

Many Christians in the Near East rejected Chalcedon and held to one nature. This, together with the decline of Byzantine power in the outlying provinces, produced the Monophysite churches: the Coptic Church of Egypt with its sister church in Ethiopia, and the Jacobite Church of Syria, whose members are now mostly in South India. Chalcedon did not explain how deity and humanity unite; the event is unique and resists explanation. Its merit, Shelley concludes, is the boundary it set: it built a fence and said that the mystery of the God-man lies inside it. We may wish for clearer terms, but we dare not say less.

KEY PEOPLE

Origen; Gregory of Nyssa; Apollinaris; Gregory of Nazianzus; Theodore of Mopsuestia; Nestorius; Cyril of Alexandria; Pope Celestine; Theodosius II; John of Antioch; Eutyches; Flavian; Dioscorus; Pope Leo I; the emperor Marcian.

KEY DATES

381	Council of Constantinople rejects Apollinaris's teaching
428	Nestorius becomes bishop of Constantinople
431	Council of Ephesus deposes Nestorius
449	The "Robber Council" of Ephesus restores Eutyches
451	Council of Chalcedon: one person in two natures
780–823	Nestorian missionaries reach Tibet and central China
1380	Tamerlane's persecution destroys the Nestorian mission in Asia

KEY TERMS

Incarnation; Christology; God-man; God-bearer (Mother of God); patriarch; see; Apollinarianism; Nestorianism; monophysitism; Chalcedonian definition; Coptic and Jacobite churches.

CHAPTER

12

Exiles from Life

The Beginnings of Monasticism

IN BRIEF

When the empire turned Christian, the hero of the faith was no longer the martyr in the arena but the hermit in the desert. The chapter follows the monastic movement from Anthony and the Egyptian hermits through the common life of Pachomius and Basil to the Rule of Benedict, and weighs what the monks gave the church against the flaw in their view of human life.

THE QUESTION

How does the monks' renunciation relate to the gospel: is it salvation by works, or a legitimate form of repentance?

Athanasius's *Life of Saint Anthony* tells how Satan sent the wild beasts of the desert against the praying monk, who told them to attack if God permitted and otherwise to be gone, "for I am a servant of Jesus the Conqueror"; Satan fled like a sparrow before a hawk. That was the new ideal. Moderns, like Gibbon scoffing at "unhappy exiles from social life," hardly know what to make of it, and Christians disagree. Roman Catholics hold that the church has room both for ascetics who strive for perfection and for weak members. The Reformers, led by the former monk Luther, objected that monasticism teaches a higher and a lower road to God, whereas the gospel knows one way, faith in Christ active in love. All agree that the monks were ascetics who believed that renouncing the

body frees the soul for God.

The Monastic Ideal

Ascetic notes sound in John the Baptist, in Jesus' word to the rich young man and in Paul's conflict of flesh and Spirit. About 140 the *Shepherd of Hermas* already distinguished the precepts binding on all from advice for those who want to do more. Praise of self-denial, especially celibacy, grew; penance, as then practiced, rewarded deeds of unusual virtue; Tertullian, Origen and Cyprian supported a higher level of sanctity, and long before Constantine many took vows of abstinence while still living in the cities.

The first monks were hermits (from the Greek for desert), and the flight began in Egypt, where the desert lies close on either side of the Nile. Anthony, born about 250 in the village of Koma, gave away his wealth at twenty in obedience to Christ's word to the rich young ruler and lived in solitude, at first in a tomb, battling temptations that legend pictures as devils, beasts and women; he is said to have lived 105 years. He had hundreds of imitators. The surge coincided with the sudden popularity of Christianity. Constantine's conversion lowered commitment: half-converted pagans replaced the martyrs, and Christians now fought each other for the prizes of the church. The hermit fled not so much the world as the world in the church. Against the great institution he set the soul face to face with God, which exposed him to individualism and to the inner temptations of pride, rivalry and eccentricity. In Egypt and Syria some ate only grass, lived in trees or never washed. Simeon Stylites, to escape the crowds, lived more than thirty years on top of a pillar, from which he preached and converted thousands.

The Move to Community Life

About 320 Pachomius, a former soldier, founded the first monastery. In place of hermits who were each a law to himself he set up a regulated common life (*coenobitic* monasticism, from *koinos bios*) with fixed hours, manual work, uniform dress and strict discipline. It checked idleness and eccentricity and opened the monastic life

to women. "To save souls you must bring them together." From Egypt the movement spread to Syria, Asia Minor and western Europe. Basil (died 379), with the two Gregories, won Asia Minor and wrote the Rule under which Greek Orthodox monasticism is still organized.

In the fourth and fifth centuries the ideal seized all levels of the Christian population. It replaced the heroism of the age of persecution, revived the enthusiasm and end-time piety of earlier days, and turned the spirit of martyrdom into total commitment and the ascetic imitation of Christ. To live for God alone the monks took a threefold vow of poverty, chastity and obedience, giving up what we call basic rights—property, marriage, freedom of choice—as roots of the ego. Once the early extravagances passed and livable rules prevailed, monasteries took on tasks of great benefit. In the fifth and sixth centuries almost every church leader was a monk or close to the monks, and the cell became a study. The pioneer of monastic scholarship was Jerome (340–420), who began as a hermit in the Syrian desert, mastered his temptations by learning Hebrew, taught Bishop Damasus and a circle of noble ladies in Rome, and finally withdrew to Bethlehem, where he translated the Bible from the original languages into Latin: the Vulgate, the authorized Bible of Roman Catholicism until recent years. Athanasius brought monasticism to the West when he was banished to Trier in 335 with two monks, and his *Life of Anthony* spread the idea. Ambrose and Augustine were eager supporters; Augustine wrote the first western rule for his clergy at Tagaste and Hippo, and in 415 John Cassian, who had visited Egypt, founded St. Victor near Marseille.

The Genius of the West

The constitution of Western monasticism came from Benedict, born at Nursia, northeast of Rome, late in the fifth century. He broke off his studies in Rome to live three years as a hermit in a cave. Monks nearby chose him as their abbot, found his discipline irksome and tried to poison him. In 529 he founded on Monte Cassino the house

from which the Benedictine order sprang, in time Europe's best-known monastery, wrote his Rule for it and lived there until his death in 542. Williston Walker denies him learning but credits him with a Roman's talent for administration, a firm belief in monasticism and a deep knowledge of people. Seeing that monasticism's evils came from lack of discipline, he made discipline fundamental yet bearable for ordinary men; this combination of restraint with some freedom is the mark of his Rule.

He thought of the monastery as a garrison of Christ in a hostile world. A candidate tried the life for at least a year before taking the lifelong vows of poverty, chastity and obedience. The abbot was owed absolute obedience, but he was elected by the monks and had to consult the whole body on major matters. Each house was to supply all its own needs—cloth, wine, carpentry, masonry—since wandering outside was a danger to the soul. Worship filled the day: seven services, brief and made up mostly of Psalms, and a vigil at two in the morning. Most fruitful was the rule on work: "Idleness is hostile to the soul," so the brothers spent fixed hours in manual labor and in religious reading, more in the fields in summer, more with books in winter and Lent. A true Benedictine house was a little world of worship, labor and study with its own library, and the monks soon copied the Latin classics as well as the church fathers, which is why these survived.

Some Pros and Cons

The Rule spread quickly over western Europe, and the service of the monks after the ruin of Roman civilization can hardly be exaggerated. Their houses gave the Middle Ages their only chance for study, protection in constant war and rest; they were powerful missionaries, and they reminded a rough people of the saying that man does not live by bread alone. The faults are equally plain. While monks vowed poverty, monasteries grew rich in land; discipline slackened, and medieval history is full of reforms and new foundations meant to correct the old. Above all, Shelley judges with Walker, the monastic idea of the Christian life was unnatural: it

abandoned ordinary social relationships, marriage and the home, and rested on a false view of man, the soul chained to the flesh like a prisoner to a corpse, which is not the Bible's view. Those faults were not visible to the people of the declining empire and the Middle Ages, for whom the monk's calling seemed the truest Christian life, and they should not lead us to underrate what the monks did for Christianity and civilization in a hard age.

KEY PEOPLE

Anthony of Egypt; Athanasius; Simeon Stylites; Pachomius; Basil; Jerome; Damasus; Ambrose; Augustine; John Cassian; Benedict of Nursia.

KEY DATES

c. 140	The *Shepherd of Hermas* speaks of a higher and a lower morality
c. 250	Birth of Anthony, regarded as the first monk
c. 320	Pachomius founds the first monastery with a common rule
335	Athanasius, exiled to Trier, brings monasticism to the West
379	Death of Basil, author of the Rule of Eastern monasticism
415	John Cassian founds the monastery of St. Victor near Marseille
529	Benedict founds Monte Cassino and writes his Rule

KEY TERMS

Asceticism; hermit; celibacy; coenobitic (common) life; poverty, chastity, obedience; abbot; Rule of Benedict; vigil; Vulgate.

CHAPTER

13

The Sage of the Ages

Augustine

IN BRIEF

When Rome fell to the Visigoths in 410, Augustine, bishop of Hippo in North Africa, set out to explain it. The chapter tells of his long road to conversion, his answers to the Donatists on the church and to Pelagius on sin and grace, and his vision of two cities, which gave Christendom its philosophy. Roman Catholics still draw on his doctrine of the church, Protestants on his teaching on sin and grace.

THE QUESTION

What had brought Rome down, and would Christianity, or the world itself, go down with the Eternal City?

For 620 years, since Hannibal, no foreign enemy had stood before Rome. In 410 Alaric and his Arian Visigoths besieged and plundered it, sparing only the churches, to which Alaric had the sacred vessels carried. Rome's glory was gone. "The city that took the whole world captive is itself taken," said Jerome. Pagans asked whether the old gods were angry at being abandoned for the Christian God. Watching the refugees arrive at Hippo, Augustine decided to answer.

Preparation for Greatness

Augustine was born on November 13, 354, at Tagaste in Numidia (today's Algeria), son of an easygoing pagan, Patricius, and an ar-

dent Christian, Monica. Schooled at home and at Carthage, he gave way to sexual temptation and lived thirteen years with a woman who bore him a son, Adeodatus; he always felt sex to be his defiling passion, and it colored his idea of sin. At nineteen a treatise of Cicero persuaded him to seek truth, but the Bible seemed crude to him. For nine years (374–383) he was a Manichean. Mani, crucified in Persia in 276 or 277, had taught an eternal conflict of good and evil in which man's spirit is good and his body evil; the good is freed by prayer and abstinence. Like the Gnostics, Manicheans denied that Jesus had a real body or really died and rejected the Old Testament. Augustine taught grammar at Tagaste and rhetoric at Carthage, moved to Rome in 383 and in 384 became professor at Milan. At thirty, at the height of success, he was deeply unhappy: he sent away his mistress to become engaged to an heiress and still could not master his passions.

In Milan the preaching of Bishop Ambrose showed him that Christianity could be eloquent and intelligent and that hard Old Testament stories could be read as allegories. The story of Anthony and the Egyptian hermits shamed him: unlearned men conquered where he, with all his education, failed. In agony in his garden he heard a child's voice chant, "Take it and read it," opened the New Testament at Romans 13:13–14, and felt "the light of peace" pour into his heart. Ambrose baptized him, with Adeodatus and his friend Alypius, at Easter 387. On the way home his mother died near Rome, and in 388 his son died at Tagaste. He wished to withdraw from the world, but at Hippo he was ordained priest by popular demand, then made assistant to Bishop Valerius and soon his successor. From the age of forty-three until his death in 430 he stood at the center of the storms of his time.

The Donatist Controversy

North African Christianity had been split for almost a century. The Donatists, named after Donatus, bishop of Carthage (313–355), stood for a holy church, strict discipline and resistance to unworthy bishops. They charged that under Diocletian Catholic bishops had

surrendered the sacred books to the fire, an act of apostasy, so that clergy ordained by them were no true clergy and the Donatists alone were the true church. In some districts they were the majority. Augustine rejected the idea of a pure church: until the judgment the church is a mixed multitude of good and bad, as in the parable of the wheat and the tares (though that parable, Shelley notes, speaks of the world, not the church). He also denied that a sacrament's validity depends on the minister's morals. The sacrament belongs to Christ, and the acts of a properly ordained priest are God's acts. This made the priest the channel of grace and lent Augustine's weight to the priestly (sacerdotal) view of the church that went to unfortunate extremes in the Middle Ages. At first opposed to coercion, he came step by step to accept the use of force against the Donatists, citing "Compel people to come in"; his prestige later served those who justified the Inquisition.

Of Sin and Grace

The Pelagian debate brought out his teaching on grace. Pelagius, a British monk who came from Rome, and his disciple Coelestius found no welcome in Augustine's Africa and went east, where churches were more receptive. Pelagius denied that sin is inherited from Adam. Man is free to do right or wrong; Adam harmed his descendants only by bad example; death is not the penalty of his sin; it is possible not to sin, and some have lived without it. God predestines only in the sense of foreseeing who will believe. Forgiveness comes by "faith alone," but the forgiven have power in themselves to please God, so the special help of the Spirit is hardly needed. It was practically the Stoic ideal of self-control.

Augustine's experience said the opposite: only irresistible divine power had rescued him, and only constantly renewed grace kept him. In Adam the whole race fell and became a "mass of corruption" incapable of any saving good and deserving damnation. All power to do good is God's free gift, grace. From the fallen mass God chooses some to receive it, through Christ's work and ordinarily through the church and its sacraments; baptism gives regenerating

grace. The rest are lost, and no one can be sure of salvation, since only those given the further grace of perseverance are finally redeemed. Salvation is wholly of God. Augustine launched a literary campaign; the emperor Honorius banished the Pelagians by 419, and the Council of Ephesus condemned them in 431. The Reformers later built on Augustine's view of human helplessness, grace and predestination, while setting aside his tie between grace and the sacraments. In the following century, however, the church kept its distance from irresistible grace and predestination; critics called them an innovation against the long-held belief in human freedom, and Vincent of Lerins insisted that Christians should believe what has been believed "always, everywhere, and by all."

The City of God on the Ruins of Rome

Augustine was fifty-six when Rome was sacked. He housed the refugees and preached that cities are men, not walls: Rome, unlike Sodom, was chastised but not destroyed. Then for sixteen years he worked on the deeper question, the relation between earthly cities that rise and fall and the everlasting City of God. The result, *The City of God*, shaped Christian thinking about God and Caesar for fifteen centuries. From Adam to the end, humanity forms two cities: the godless, united by love of temporal things, and the spiritual, born of grace and bound together by the love of God. The Romans' great deeds were driven by love of glory, which let a man live on after death in what others said of him; the heavenly city outshines Rome, offering truth instead of victory, holiness instead of rank, eternity instead of life. The church is the only human community that builds the City of God. The state has its place in restraining crime and keeping peace, but because sin is the ground of its power it owes obedience to the church's laws. The book gave a spiritual meaning to the miseries of the age: the golden age lies ahead in God's kingdom, not behind in a crumbling empire.

Augustine's last years were hard. In his seventy-sixth year the Vandals crossed the Straits of Gibraltar and swept toward Hippo. He had the penitential psalms fixed to the wall beside his bed and

believed the end of the world near. He died on August 28, 430. The siege lasted fourteen months; when the Vandals broke in in August 431, most of the inhabitants were dead of hunger or dying of it.

KEY PEOPLE

Augustine; Monica; Patricius; Adeodatus; Alypius; Ambrose; Mani; Donatus; Pelagius; Coelestius; Honorius; Vincent of Lerins; Alaric the Visigoth; Jerome.

KEY DATES

354	Birth of Augustine at Tagaste (November 13)
374–383	Augustine a Manichean
387	Augustine baptized by Ambrose at Milan
410	Alaric and the Visigoths sack Rome
419	The emperor Honorius banishes the Pelagians
430	Death of Augustine (August 28) during the Vandal siege of Hippo
431	Council of Ephesus condemns Pelagianism; Hippo falls

KEY TERMS

Manicheanism; Donatism; mixed church; validity of the sacraments; sacerdotal view; coercion; Pelagianism; original sin; grace; predestination; perseverance; *The City of God*.

CHAPTER

14

Peter as "Pontifex Maximus"

The Beginnings of the Papacy

IN BRIEF

No institution has been so loved and so hated as the papacy. The chapter separates the early honor of the Roman church from the later authority of its bishop, shows how councils, patriarchates and the emperor's move to Constantinople prepared the ground, and presents Leo I, who gave the papal claim its biblical basis and twice stood between Rome and the barbarians.

THE QUESTION

On what does the pope's office rest, and at what point in history was that basis established?

In June 452 Attila the Hun, the "scourge of God," crossed the Alps and advanced on Rome. At the Po he received an embassy and found in it Bishop Leo, acting for an emperor who did nothing to defend the old capital. Disease and famine in his army had probably already decided Attila to turn back, but no one knew that; he granted the bishop's plea, spared Rome and left Italy. The bishop of Rome had taken a new role and staked a claim on the future. Some revere the pope as Vicar of Christ and others denounce him as Antichrist, but all agree that Leo marks a stage in an institution that has adapted to the Roman Empire, the Germanic kingdoms, the modern nations and now the developing world.

The Roman Catholic Claim

The Roman Catholic Church teaches, as defined at the First Vatican Council (1870), that Christ founded the papacy in Peter and that the bishop of Rome, his successor, holds supreme authority (primacy) over the whole church. Eastern Orthodox and Protestants deny both points. Shelley's concern is history, and history shows that papal rule was established by slow and painful stages; because Leo first supplied its biblical and theological basis, talk of a papacy before him is misleading. The title *papa*, "father," was used of any bishop and was reserved for Rome's only in the sixth century.

Honor must be distinguished from authority. The Roman church was honored early because it was the church of the capital, the largest and richest in the West, with a name for orthodoxy and charity; because of its size (by the mid-third century some 30,000 members, 150 clergy and 1,500 widows and poor); and because writers from Irenaeus onward named Peter and Paul as its founders, a bishops' list reaching back to them being a safeguard against gnostic secret traditions. Yet Irenaeus and Cyprian disagreed with Rome when they thought it wrong, and before Constantine there is no conclusive evidence that its bishop exercised jurisdiction outside Rome: honor, yes; jurisdiction, no.

Rome's rise was part of a growing church structure. Provincial councils of bishops met yearly from the third century; in theory all bishops were equal, in practice those of apostolic churches and large cities led. The church copied the map of the empire: the provincial town became the bishop's town, the bishop of the metropolis supervised the province, and the great regions looked to Rome, Carthage, Alexandria or Antioch. Country churches were served by priests (from *presbyter*), consecrated and controlled by the city bishop. General councils began after Constantine: Arles in 314 for the West, Nicaea in 325 for the whole church. At Nicaea the sees of Alexandria, Antioch and Rome were acknowledged as first in their own regions, with an honorary primacy for Jerusalem. The system of patriarchates was thus confirmed.

The Imperial Move East

In 330 Constantine moved his residence to Constantinople, the New Rome. Political weight shifted east, and the bishop of the new capital gained standing. Theodosius made Christianity the state church, forbade sacrifices and closed the temples. In May 381 he opened a council at Constantinople to which only eastern bishops were invited; Damasus of Rome sent no one. It renewed the Nicene Creed and decreed that the bishop of Constantinople ranks immediately after the bishop of Rome "because his city is the New Rome." The West saw a political move. Damasus objected that a church's rank does not depend on a city's status or a council's decree, and a Roman synod the next year declared that the Roman church holds the primacy by the Lord's words, "Thou art Peter, and upon this rock I will build my church"—the first mention of the "primacy of the Roman church."

From then on the two churches went different ways. Constantinople relied on its political position and its patriarch grew less independent as religion and politics intertwined. In the West the weakness of the empire left the bishop of Rome without a rival and increasingly independent; unable to argue from Rome the imperial city, he argued from Scripture and tradition, the primacy of Peter. Damasus (366–384) fused Roman civic pride with Christianity and pointed to Constantine's basilicas over the graves of Peter and Paul: by their martyrdom Rome had the better right to claim them as citizens.

Leo's Case for Primacy

Leo, a nobleman from north of Rome, was on an imperial mission in Gaul when the Roman clergy elected him. In his first sermon he praised the glory of Peter, "in whose chair his power lives on." Appealing to three gospel texts (Matthew 16, Luke 22, John 21), he laid the theoretical foundation of primacy: Christ founded the church on Peter as its lasting rock, and Peter's authority passes to each bishop of Rome. Where Constantine had used the church as a tool, Leo raised the Roman bishop's office as far, in theory, as

it could go. Shelley notes three difficulties. The Gospels say that leadership among Christ's followers is humble service, not lordship. Peter remained unstable, rebuked as "Satan," denying his Lord and criticized by Paul. And the texts nowhere tie the authority to an office, the bishopric of Rome.

The argument nevertheless suited the hour. The court at Ravenna, pressed by the barbarians, needed any authority that could hold the West together, and in 445 the emperor Valentinian III decreed that bishops who would not come to the papal court be compelled, grounding the primacy of the Apostolic See on Peter, on the dignity of Rome and on an unnamed "Holy Synod." Leo's claim became law. At Chalcedon in October 451 his letters dominated, and the 350 bishops cried, "Peter has spoken through Leo." Yet on October 30 the council also ruled that Constantinople's bishop, since his city was the New Rome, should have the same authority as Rome's. Leo's legate protested in vain. Christianity now had two heads, the Roman church of the West and the Greek church of the East.

Standing Amidst the Ruins

Three years after Attila came the Vandals, a Scandinavian people driven across Gaul and Spain and settled in North Africa. At the end of March 455 their king Gaiseric sailed with a hundred ships and landed north of the Tiber. Rome panicked, the troops mutinied, and the emperor Maximus was killed by his own bodyguard while fleeing. On June 2 the Vandals entered without resistance. Leo, at the head of his priests, met Gaiseric at the gate and begged him to restrain his men and not to burn the city. The king answered, "Fourteen days' looting!" The Vandals stripped the palaces and temples, took the gilded roof of the Capitol and the vessels of Solomon's temple, and carried the empress, her daughters and senators off to Carthage for ransom. But the city was not burned, there was no massacre, and only a few churches were plundered.

At the thanksgiving service few came. Leo rebuked the absent for valuing "the devils higher than the Apostles" and for crediting their deliverance to the stars rather than to the mercy of God, who had

softened the barbarians. He did not mention himself and did not need to. He had taken over the old pagan title Pontifex Maximus, once borne by the chief priest of the empire's religion, and its meaning escaped no one: the Eternal City was now in the care of Leo and not of the emperor. Peter, Shelley says, had come to power.

KEY PEOPLE

Leo I (the Great); Attila the Hun; Damasus; Theodosius; Valentinian III; Gaiseric, king of the Vandals; the emperor Maximus; Irenaeus; Cyprian.

KEY DATES

314	Council of Arles, a general council of the western churches
325	Nicaea recognizes the leading sees of Alexandria, Antioch and Rome
381	Council of Constantinople ranks its bishop next after Rome's
382	A Roman synod first speaks of the "primacy of the Roman church"
440–461	Leo I bishop of Rome
445	Valentinian III makes the primacy of the Roman see imperial law
451	Chalcedon: "Peter has spoken through Leo"; Constantinople made equal to Rome
452	Leo persuades Attila to spare Rome
455	The Vandals plunder Rome for fourteen days; Leo prevents burning and massacre
1870	First Vatican Council defines papal primacy

KEY TERMS

Papacy; primacy; *papa*; honor and jurisdiction; patriarchates; general council; New Rome; "Thou art Peter"; Pontifex Maximus.

CHAPTER

15

Somewhere Between Heaven and Earth

Eastern Orthodoxy

IN BRIEF

Eastern Orthodoxy is the least known of the three great divisions of Christianity in the West, where it is often taken for Roman Catholicism without the pope. The chapter explains its distinctive outlook through the icon, its union of church and empire from Constantine to Justinian, the long conflict over images, and the widening breach with the West that became final in 1054.

THE QUESTION

What is Eastern Orthodoxy, and how did it come to differ from the Christianity of the West?

One summer afternoon in 1054 Cardinal Humbert and two other legates of Pope Leo IX walked into the Church of Holy Wisdom at Constantinople as a service was about to begin, laid a bull of excommunication on the altar and left, the cardinal shaking the dust from his feet: "Let God look and judge." A deacon ran after him begging him to take it back; it was dropped in the street. The scene has long counted as the beginning of the great division, as Luther's theses do for Protestantism, but it came at the end of a long process. Protestants and Catholics disagree about the answers but share the questions: how salvation is received, what the church is, and who has authority. In Orthodoxy the questions themselves are different.

SIDEBAR **Important Events in Early Orthodoxy**

(1) Orthodoxy honors the Greek tradition of the early church: the New Testament, the Septuagint and the first creeds are Greek, while the West was shaped by Latin. (2) It converted the Slavs; Prince Vladimir was baptized in 988, and Orthodoxy shaped that people for a thousand years. (3) In 1054 the Catholic and Orthodox leaders broke communion. (4) The East bore the brunt of Muslim expansion; the crusades hurt it instead of helping; in 1453 Constantinople fell to the Turks, under whom the Orthodox were tolerated as inferior subjects.

The Clue to Orthodoxy

Orthodoxy today is about fifteen churches, mostly in Eastern Europe, joined by a common faith and history. The best way in is not doctrine but the icon. The worshiper entering church kisses the icons on the iconostasis, the wall of paintings between sanctuary and nave; at home icons hang in the eastern corner and are greeted before the host. They are regarded not as human works but as windows between earth and heaven through which the heavenly beings unite with the congregation.

The idea of image is the key. Man is made in the image of God and carries God's icon within. Western Christians tend to see the relation of God and man in legal terms: salvation is about obtaining God's righteousness, and the same Roman sense of law appears in the papal claim to jurisdiction. For Orthodoxy the great theme is the incarnation and the re-creation of man. Sin does not break a legal relationship; it wounds the divine image. Salvation is the restoration of that image by Christ, the incarnate God: rebirth, re-creation, transfiguration. The church is not a formal institution but the mystical body of Christ, renewed by the Spirit, a community of love in which people are made ready to share the fellowship of Father, Son and Spirit. This is *theosis*, deification. The phrase "becoming gods" troubles Westerners, but it does not mean becoming Father, Son or Spirit; it pictures believers transformed into fit companions for God. As Athanasius put it, he became man so that

men might become gods.

These differences are old, but distinctively Eastern Christianity appeared under Constantine, who first allied state and church and made purity of doctrine a concern of the empire. Some see in this the enslavement or fall of the church; for Eastern Christians Constantine is the holy founder of the Christian world. Rome had been turning into a religious monarchy, with the emperor as the link between God and the world and, since Aurelian, the cult of the Invincible Sun as its religion. Then Constantine's victory placed the emperor under the cross and in direct dependence on Christ.

God's Will in Human Society

Constantine was thus converted as an emperor and not as a private man: through him God bound the empire to himself. The church did not use the gospel to moderate imperial absolutism; absolutism became part of the Christian view of the world, with the state as the bearer of religion and the expression of God's will in society—an outlook far from the modern individual with rights that limit the state. Its symbol was Constantinople, home of the Eastern tradition and of Byzantine civilization for a thousand years. Constantine meant it as a holy city: in the Church of the Twelve Apostles he prepared a thirteenth tomb for himself among the twelve, whence the title "equal to the apostles." Anxious that God would hold him responsible for Christian quarrels, he gathered the leaders of the whole church to define the true tradition, and this became Eastern practice. From Nicaea in 325 to the seventh council at Nicaea in 787 the emperor called and presided over every general council; the Orthodox call themselves "the Church of the Seven Councils." The councils produced the writings of the Fathers and the creeds, but they also enlarged the role of the state. The sign of the parting ways came in 395, when Theodosius on his deathbed divided the empire between his sons, Honorius in the West and Arcadius in the East.

Justinian and the Removal of Boundaries

Under Justinian (527–565) the Byzantine mixture of Christian faith, Roman law and Greek philosophy, with a touch of the Orient, reached its height. Byzantine art subordinated the visible world to the transcendent, nowhere more than in Hagia Sophia, the Church of Holy Wisdom, which Justinian rebuilt and consecrated in 538, boasting that he had outdone Solomon. Its dome seemed to hang from heaven, and its mosaics showed Constantine and Justinian offering city and church to the Mother of God. Justinian made no distinction between Roman tradition and Christianity. The pious emperor's mission was to keep the faith pure and protect the church, and the empire was God's instrument for guarding and spreading Christianity. The early church had seen itself as a new people, distinct from every natural community and belonging to the age to come. In Byzantine doctrine the state itself was the God-given body embracing all of life, with the emperor as God's visible representative, so that the old boundaries faded, the church dissolved into Christian society, and the sense that it is alien to the world vanished from official thinking.

The Conflict over Icons

The balance of imperial power, state concern for doctrine and popular faith in icons collapsed in the iconoclastic controversy, which lasted over a century. Beneath the dispute about pictures lay the question of what is holy enough to be revered. From the sixth century church and state had encouraged both icons and the veneration of holy men, not foreseeing that their multiplication would tie devotion to local shrines and blur the line between the object and the reality it represented. There was precedent in the emperor's image, honored as if he were present; icons of Christ and Mary gradually replaced it, on the Bronze Gate of the palace and on coins. Leo III (717–741), perhaps reading military defeats and an earthquake as punishment for idolatry, declared against icons after repelling the Muslim attack on Constantinople in 717–18. The official sent to replace the Christ over the Bronze Gate with a cross

was murdered by a mob, provinces rebelled, mosaics were gouged out and a compliant patriarch installed. The iconoclasts ("image breakers") allowed as holy only the cross, the Bible, the elements of the Supper, ordained clergy and dedicated buildings. Monks and the uneducated public mostly defended the icons.

The reasoned defense came from John of Damascus, a monk in Arab-ruled Palestine and the last of the Eastern Fathers. An image is never of the same substance as its original; it is a copy and reminder. To deny that Christ can be pictured is to deny the incarnation. Icons are not to be worshiped but honored like the Bible or the cross, as aids to the worship of Christ. With Patriarch Tarasius the seventh general council, 350 bishops at Nicaea in 787, condemned iconoclasm and adopted John's view. A synod in 843 finally confirmed it, and the Orthodox still keep the first Sunday in Lent as the Feast of Orthodoxy.

East Against West

Meanwhile East and West drifted apart over an insertion in the Creed, the customs of Lent and the bread of the Eucharist. Two ambitious men made the break permanent. In 1054 Leo IX sent the firebrand Humbert with terms sure to fail; the patriarch Michael Cerularius answered his intolerance in kind, and Humbert left the bull on the altar. Later the empire of Constantine and Justinian was whittled away by barbarians and Islam until Constantinople itself fell to the Turks in 1453. Christians became a minority under Muslim rule and looked to the patriarch as their political head. Today only Greece and half of Cyprus remain Greek Orthodox. But a corridor lay open to the north: Boris of Bulgaria was converted in the ninth century and Vladimir of Kiev in the tenth. His envoys, after the liturgy in Hagia Sophia, reported, "We know not whether we were in heaven or on earth." Russia made Orthodoxy's beauty its own, and Moscow came to see itself as the "third Rome" after Rome and Constantinople, its ruler bearing Caesar's title, *tsar*.

KEY PEOPLE

Cardinal Humbert; Pope Leo IX; Michael Cerularius; Constantine; Theodosius; Justinian; Leo III; John of Damascus; Patriarch Tarasius; Boris of Bulgaria; Vladimir of Kiev; Athanasius.

KEY DATES

395	Theodosius divides the empire between East and West
527–565	Reign of Justinian
538	Hagia Sophia consecrated
717–741	Reign of the emperor Leo III; the attack on icons begins
787	Seventh general council (Nicaea) approves the veneration of icons
843	Final restoration of the icons: the Feast of Orthodoxy
988	Baptism of Vladimir of Kiev
1054	Humbert's bull of excommunication: break between East and West
1453	Constantinople falls to the Turks

KEY TERMS

Icon; iconostasis; image of God; *theosis* (deification); "equal to the apostles"; Church of the Seven Councils; Byzantine; iconoclasm; Feast of Orthodoxy; third Rome.

CHAPTER

16

Bending the Necks of Victors

Mission to the Barbarians

IN BRIEF

When the Germanic tribes overran the Roman West, the civilization that rose on the ruins was Christian because the invaders gave up not their weapons but their gods. The chapter describes who the barbarians were and how they were won: through Arian missionaries, through Irish and British monks, through the mass conversion of the Franks under Clovis, and through the Roman mission to England and Boniface's work in Germany.

THE QUESTION

What led the Germanic conquerors to adopt the religion of the people they had defeated?

The tribes of the northern forests sacrificed animals and worshiped nature spirits, and a missionary had to show that the Christian powers were stronger. In the eighth century Boniface took an axe to the sacred oak of Thor in Germany; at the first stroke, the story says, a wind from God brought it down, the pagans were converted, and he built a chapel to St. Peter from the wood. A miracle here and a victory in battle there: that is how Europe became Christian.

The Coming of the Barbarians

With the year 476 the Christian empire of Rome ceased to exist in the West. Real power already lay with German mercenaries.

In 475 their commander Orestes made his young son Romulus Augustulus emperor; in 476 another German, Odovacar, killed Orestes, deposed the boy and ruled in his own name. No one was shocked. The shock had come a generation earlier with Alaric, Gaiseric and Attila.

The "barbarians," so called because they spoke neither Greek nor Latin, were tribes whose homes lay in Scandinavia or close to it, among them Goths, Vandals, Burgundians, Lombards, Franks, Angles and Saxons. They lived between herding and farming and counted wealth in cattle. Tacitus describes heavy drinkers and gamblers but praises their courage, respect for women and freedom from Roman vices; their gods survive in our Wednesday and Thursday. They lived to fight, each warlord surrounded by warriors bound by a personal oath, for whom outliving a fallen chief was lifelong disgrace. For centuries Romans and Germans traded and fought across the Rhine and Danube. Germans entered the empire as slaves, settlers and soldiers, and by the late fourth century the western army was almost wholly German.

Mass invasion began with the Huns, who crossed the Volga and subdued the Ostrogoths. The frightened Visigoths were admitted across the Danube as allies in 376, were mistreated by corrupt officials and rose in revolt; in 378 the emperor Valens lost his army and his life at Adrianople, a battle that ended the legend of the invincible legions. Theodosius I held them for a time, but after his death in 395 they moved under Alaric into Italy and sacked Rome in 410. To defend Italy the Romans withdrew their troops from the Rhine in 406 and from Britain in 407, and the tribes poured in: the Vandals through Gaul and Spain to Africa, from where they sacked Rome in 455; the Burgundians into the Rhone valley; the Franks across northern Gaul; the Angles, Saxons and Jutes into Britain. Only the Frankish and Anglo-Saxon kingdoms lasted more than a few centuries. The invasions were less catastrophic than once thought. Most of the land taken was vacant or imperial, the Germans were a minority, and in time they lost their customs, religion and speech, which is why Italy, France and Spain keep hardly a trace of Germanic language.

Missions to the North

Nominal conversion was not hard, for the tribes wanted a share in the grandeur of Rome and saw Christianity as the Roman religion. To tame, educate and teach them, and to instill even a little Christian behavior, was another matter. They came to orthodoxy by two roads, directly from paganism or through Arianism. The missionary Ulfilas worked among the Visigoths for forty years, half a century after Nicaea, and translated the Bible into Gothic—except the books of Kings, too warlike for so fierce a people. From the Goths Arianism spread to other tribes. It was more a matter of church structure than theology: Christ was a glorified warlord, the churches belonged to the clan, and there was no center like Rome, whose authority these peoples resisted even after turning orthodox.

Some of the first northern Christians lived outside the empire. The Celtic Irish trace their conversion to Patrick, early in the fifth century, who was not Irish. Raised in a Christian family in Britain, he was carried off by Irish raiders, came to living faith as a slave herding swine, escaped after six years, and returned as a missionary after a dream in which the children of Ireland called him back. A century later the Irish church was mainly monastic, a form that suited a rural Celtic society, and it became a base for mission. Columba founded the monastery of Iona off Scotland, which gave new life to preaching in Britain; Columbanus and others went on to the Continent and founded houses such as St. Gall and Bobbio in Germany, Switzerland and northern Italy. The independent spirit of these Celtic monks later troubled Roman Christianity.

The Gospel Among the Franks

Roman Catholic influence began among the Franks of northern Gaul, the tribe destined to shape Christian Europe. Their founder Clovis (481–511) was the first important barbarian chief to accept orthodox Christianity. His Burgundian wife Clothilda urged the faith on him; their first son died in his baptismal robes, a second recovered after her prayers. Facing defeat by the Alamanni, Clovis vowed baptism in return for victory, and won. The bishop of

Rheims told him, "Bend your neck. Worship what you burned and burn what you worshiped." Three thousand of his warriors were baptized with him.

This first of many medieval mass conversions raises the question of the paganizing of Christianity. Individual conversion after instruction, the method of nineteenth-century Protestant missions, uproots converts from their culture. Mass conversion, which won Europe, leaves people in their culture but brings their superstitions and conduct into the church. For Clovis Jesus was a tribal war-god. The Franks admired Peter for drawing his sword, and military saints flourished, such as St. George for England and St. James for Spain. The saints, each with a specialty—pigs, hens, toothache, fever, sore throats—may have meant more to people than Christ, and tales of their relics abounded, like that of the lame and the blind beggar who fled the relics of St. Martin for fear of being cured and losing their alms.

Passage to England

Shallow as it was, the Franks' conversion opened a way to Britain, where the hatred between Britons and Anglo-Saxon invaders ruled out any mission from the Britons. The initiative was Rome's. Pope Gregory the Great, in 596, sent Benedictine monks under Augustine, later called Augustine of Canterbury, to Kent. Queen Bertha, a Christian, obtained a hearing from King Ethelbert—outdoors, for fear of the stranger's magic—and the king granted land at Canterbury, ever since the seat of England's religious leader. Gregory made Augustine the first archbishop. As the Roman mission moved north it met the Celtic mission moving south. King Oswy kept the Celtic date of Easter while his queen kept the Roman one. At the Synod of Whitby in 664, hearing that Peter holds the keys of heaven, Oswy chose not to offend the doorkeeper and adopted the Roman practice. From then on the British Isles moved into the orbit of Rome.

Rooted in England, Christianity returned in strength to the Continent. Winfrid of Devonshire, known as Boniface, received from

Pope Gregory II in 729 the task of evangelizing Germany. He converted great numbers, brought the Irish and British monks and their converts into closer relation with Rome, and left behind a church firmly bound to the central authority. As archbishop of Mainz he could have ended in peace, but he went back to the still pagan Frisians and died a martyr, probably in 754, when the Frankish prince Charles, the future Charlemagne, was twelve.

KEY PEOPLE

Boniface (Winfrid); Odovacar; Romulus Augustulus; Alaric; the emperor Valens; Ulfilas; Patrick; Columba; Columbanus; Clovis and Clothilda; Gregory the Great; Augustine of Canterbury; Ethelbert and Bertha of Kent; King Oswy.

KEY DATES

376	The Visigoths cross the Danube into the empire
378	Battle of Adrianople: the emperor Valens killed
406–407	Roman troops withdrawn from the Rhine and from Britain
476	Odovacar deposes Romulus Augustulus: end of the empire in the West
481–511	Clovis, king of the Franks, the first orthodox barbarian king
596	Gregory the Great sends Augustine to England
664	Synod of Whitby: England adopts Roman practice
729	Boniface commissioned to evangelize Germany
754	Martyrdom of Boniface in Frisia

KEY TERMS

Barbarians; Visigoths, Vandals, Franks, Anglo-Saxons; Gothic Bible; Arian Christianity; Celtic monasticism; Iona; mass conversion; cult of the saints; archbishop of Canterbury.

PART FOUR

The Christian Middle Ages

590–1517

The Europe that rose from the wreck of the western empire was largely the church's work. Amid the Germanic kingdoms it kept law, learning and the arts alive, and it supplied the ideal that held the new order together: *Christendom*, a single Christian society in which church and empire worked as one. Charlemagne gave the ideal political shape around the year 800. Over the next four centuries the popes claimed an ever larger share of authority, and under Innocent III (1198–1216) the papacy acted as overlord of kings. Such power did not leave it unharmed. The last medieval centuries are a story of decline at Rome and of ever sharper calls for reform.

IN THIS PART

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18 The Search for Unity *Charlemagne and Christendom*
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CHAPTER

17

God's Consul

Gregory the Great

IN BRIEF

Europe rose from the ruins of the empire, and more than any other force Christianity brought order out of the chaos. Its instruments were the missionary monks, the papal office and the theology of Augustine, and no one mastered all three better than Pope Gregory I. The chapter follows his life, his practical rule of Rome and Italy, his mission to England and the popular faith he handed on to the Middle Ages.

THE QUESTION

What did Christianity bring to the devastation to build the new order called Christian Europe?

Early in 590 Rome, already struck by floods and war, was ravaged by plague. Carts were piled with the dead, and Pope Pelagius II himself died in agony. For six months there was no pope. The clergy then elected the monk Gregory, who fled and hid in the forest until he was dragged back and consecrated on September 3, 590. Fifty, balding and frail, he began with a public act of penitence, three days of processions through the streets. The plague at last subsided, and legend told that the archangel Michael sheathed his sword above Hadrian's mausoleum, ever since called the Castle of St. Angelo.

Gregory's Place in History

The church enlisted Celtic and Benedictine monks as a spiritual militia, turned to the papacy for a stable structure and kept Augustine's ideals as its framework of meaning. Gregory's *Pastoral Care* teaches that a spiritual leader must neither lose the inner life in outward cares nor neglect outward duties for the inner life: Christ prayed on the mountain and worked miracles in the cities. The words describe their author. When he died in 604 his epitaph called him "God's Consul": wholly God's, yet ruling church and world like a Roman statesman. He was soon called "the Great" and ranked with Augustine, Ambrose and Jerome as a Latin Father. In intellect he hardly belongs with them, but he joined great executive ability to warm sympathy, and no one represents the early Middle Ages better.

Born about 540 into an old senatorial family and trained for government, Gregory grew up while Rome changed hands repeatedly. Narses became Justinian's viceroy of Italy in 554; after a few years of peace the Lombards began burning churches, killing bishops and laying the fields waste. The city of the caesars was becoming the city of the popes. At thirty-three, in 573, he was appointed prefect of Rome, responsible for grain, poor relief and public works. Uneasy with worldly power, he resigned after a few years. On his father's death he founded seven monasteries, gave the rest of his fortune to the poor, turned the family palace into the monastery of St. Andrew and lived as a monk with such austerity that he ruined his health; yet he called those years his happiest. In 579 Pelagius II appointed him as one of the seven deacons and sent him as ambassador to Constantinople. He returned in 585 and became abbot of St. Andrew, until the plague carried off the pope.

Picking Up the Pieces of a Shattered World

Soon after his election the Lombards besieged Rome, and Gregory broke off his sermons on Ezekiel in grief. Like other serious men he believed the end of the world was near: cities destroyed, fields waste, people carried off or killed. "If we love such a world, we

love not our joys, but our wounds." The Roman church was almost the only organized institution in the West to survive. Though he regarded his election as a punishment, Gregory threw himself into the work. He wrote sharp, practical letters to the managers of his estates and to his bishops and set out the principles of ministry in his *Pastoral Rule*. Nothing was too great or too small for his attention, though gout often kept him in bed: "I am daily dying, but never die." The prestige of the medieval papacy rests in large part on this practical government.

The Roman church owned wide lands around Rome, in southern Italy and in Sicily, the "patrimony of St. Peter," some 1,800 square miles, which made it the richest landowner in Italy. When the Lombards destroyed the imperial administration, the officials of the patrimony fed the people and collected the taxes, with Gregory at their head. He also organized the defense of central Italy, appointed a military governor and made peace with two Lombard leaders, so that after 595 the pope counted for more in Lombard politics than any imperial officer. From then on the pope was a political figure as well as a Christian leader.

His view of the office appears in his clash with John IV, patriarch of Constantinople, who used the honorary title "universal bishop," confirmed by a synod of 588. Gregory denounced it as proud, profane and diabolical, threatened to break communion and appealed to the emperor. For himself he chose "servant of the servants of God," which became a standing papal title, and he refused to be called universal pope. Yet he claimed and exercised, so far as he could, oversight of the whole church, and his successors took prouder titles without scruple. Pride haunted him. His *Moralia* on Job calls it the root of the vices, a disease that corrupts the whole body, and Shelley suggests that his restless activity sprang from the struggle against his own pride, a struggle in keeping with his monastic calling.

Missionary Statesman

With Gregory monasticism first ascended the papal throne. He kept a monk's simplicity, chose monks as his companions, bishops and envoys, had a Roman council endorse Benedict's Rule and protected the liberty and property of the monasteries. A story, part fact and part fiction, tells how before he was pope he saw English boys for sale in the Roman market. Told that they were Angles, he said that they looked like angels and should be heirs with the angels; that coming from Deira they should be saved from God's wrath (*dei ira*); and that in the land of King Aella Alleluia must be sung. Prevented from going himself, he later sent the Benedictine Augustine with forty monks to England. The success of that mission in Kent links all Anglo-American Christianity with the early church.

Defender of Orthodoxy

Gregory's teachers were Ambrose, Augustine and Jerome. He added no new ideas, but he gave shape to what people of his day commonly believed, including the crude and sometimes pagan notions of the unlettered, lent it his authority and so made it part of the faith of the Western church. Medieval thought cannot be followed without him. Adam's fall, he taught, weakened human freedom without destroying it. Moved by grace, a person can cooperate with it and gain merit by good works, the joint product of grace and will. Baptism forgives freely, but sins after baptism must be atoned for by penance, in which the sinner punishes himself rather than leave it to God. Penance requires sincere repentance, confession and meritorious works involving sacrifice, such as alms, ascetic practices and prayer, and whether one has done enough cannot be known before death.

Sinners have help. Gregory made central the older belief in the intercession of the saints, who are ready to be advocates before the severe judge Jesus and "entreat that they may be entreated." He encouraged the collecting and veneration of relics—hair, fingernails, pieces of clothing—believed to have great powers. What is not atoned for in this life can be purged in purgatory, a place of

purification and suffering for those who die neither perfectly holy nor wicked but with minor sins still to pay for. The supreme miracle is the Eucharist. The bread and wine truly contain Christ's body and blood, and the Eucharist is a sacrifice offered by the priest for the sins of those who take part or for whom it is offered. It works like penance, replacing suffering otherwise due, and helps the dead in purgatory as well as the living. In his *Dialogues* Gregory tells of Justus, a monk who died punished for hoarding money. Gregory ordered Mass said for him on thirty consecutive days; on the thirtieth Justus appeared to his brother Copiosus, who knew nothing of the Masses, and said that he had that morning been admitted to communion. The doctrine was widely accepted in the West from then on and gave medieval Christianity its particular tone.

KEY PEOPLE

Gregory I (the Great); Pope Pelagius II; Narses; the Lombards; John IV, patriarch of Constantinople; Augustine of Canterbury.

KEY DATES

c. 540	Birth of Gregory the Great in a senatorial family of Rome
573	Gregory, the future pope, prefect of Rome
579	Gregory sent to Constantinople as papal ambassador
590	Gregory the Great consecrated pope (September 3)
595	Gregory makes peace with the Lombards; the pope a political force in Italy
604	Death of Gregory the Great, "God's Consul"

KEY TERMS

Patrimony of St. Peter; "servant of the servants of God"; universal bishop; Latin Fathers; *Pastoral Care*; merit; penance; intercession of the saints; relics; purgatory; sacrifice of the Mass.

CHAPTER

18

The Search for Unity

Charlemagne and Christendom

IN BRIEF

The Middle Ages knew neither the secular sovereign state nor the church as a voluntary society. Drawing on Augustine's *City of God*, Charlemagne grafted the universal church onto the Roman idea of empire and produced Christendom, one society blending eternal and temporal concerns. The chapter traces the rise of the Franks, the alliance with the papacy, the decline into feudalism and the reform that set pope against emperor.

THE QUESTION

How could the kingdom that Jesus said was "not of this world" become so much a part of worldly power?

On April 25, 799, armed men attacked Pope Leo III as he led a procession through Rome, pulled him from his horse and carried him off. Supporters of the previous pope, Adrian I, accused him of perjury and adultery. Rescued by night, Leo appealed to the papacy's traditional protector, the king of the Franks. Charles crossed the Alps and presided over a great assembly. On December 23, 800, the pope cleared himself by oath, and on Christmas Day, as Charles knelt at St. Peter's, Leo set a golden crown on his head while the congregation hailed him as Augustus, "crowned by God." The Christian Roman Empire was restored. Shelley explains it by two things: an idea that would not die and a kingdom that grew strong.

Ideas Die Slowly

Long after its fall the Roman Empire ruled the imagination. Amid many warring kingdoms people longed for the old unity and expected a new Roman Empire. The Franks seemed destined to restore it. Clovis, with the support of the Catholic Church, had made them dominant, but his Merovingian dynasty decayed through the Germanic custom of dividing the kingdom among the king's sons, with civil war, murder and intrigue as the result. Power passed to the landed aristocrats and above all to the "mayor of the palace." In 714 Charles Martel, Charlemagne's grandfather, took that office and left the kings as figureheads. Muslims from North Africa had invaded Spain in 711 and destroyed the Visigothic kingdom by 718. In 732 Charles met their raiders near Tours and drove them back, which earned him the name Martel, "the Hammer"; they never again seriously threatened central Europe.

His son Pepin the Short (741–768) wanted the title that matched his power and asked the pope to rule that whoever held actual power should be the legal ruler. With papal blessing Boniface crowned him king in 751, the last Merovingian was put away in a monastery, and three years later the pope crossed the Alps to anoint Pepin in the Old Testament manner. The pope needed a protector. The Lombards had taken Ravenna, seat of Byzantine government in Italy, and threatened Rome. In 756 a Frankish army forced the Lombards to give up their conquests, and Pepin conferred the territory on the pope. This "Donation of Pepin" made the pope temporal ruler of the Papal States, a strip across Italy from coast to coast. The alliance had lasting effects. It widened the gap between Latin and Greek Christians by giving the papacy a western ally in place of the Byzantines; it created the Papal States, a factor that counted in Italian politics until late in the nineteenth century; and the anointing gave western kingship a religious sanction that fed the later rivalry of pope and emperor. When Charles succeeded in 768 he wanted three kinds of power: armies to defeat his enemies, religion to guide souls and learning to train minds. His success made Europe nominally Christian for a thousand years.

Architect of an Empire

His biographer Einhard pictures a tall, strong horseman, a warrior-king who campaigned every year and also wanted effective government. He added four regions by force. In Spain, after a first crossing of the Pyrenees in 778, he pushed the Muslims back to the Ebro and set up the Spanish Mark around Barcelona. He conquered the Bavarians and, in thirty-two campaigns, the pagan Saxons between Rhine and Elbe, dividing Saxony into bishoprics, building monasteries and punishing with death such offenses as eating meat in Lent, cremating the dead or pretending to be baptized; his brutality was extreme by any measure. In six campaigns he crushed the Avars and founded the East Mark on the Danube, later Austria. And in Italy, at the pope's request, he defeated the Lombards in 774, made himself their king and confirmed the Donation of Pepin.

That was the prelude to 800. The pope needed protection and Charlemagne divine sanction. He claimed not to have known of the plan, but he lived up to the title, styled himself Roman Emperor and Augustus, had all officers swear to him as Caesar, and in 812 won the recognition of Constantinople. The coronation showed how alive the memory of Rome was; it also began a long struggle. In theory church and state were two aspects of one Christendom, one securing spiritual blessings, the other justice and welfare. In fact pope and emperor were rivals. The papal party argued that time depends on eternity and so the emperor on the pope; the imperial party, that God ordained the Christian state too, and that an emperor may even correct a negligent pope. In his lifetime Charlemagne left no doubt who ruled. His *missi dominici*, pairs of envoys, usually a bishop and a lay noble, inspected local government everywhere. He fostered a revival of learning, decreeing in 789 that every monastery keep a school and founding a palace school at Aix-la-Chapelle under the Anglo-Saxon Alcuin, who wrote textbooks on grammar, spelling, rhetoric and logic. From a new center in the north he extended Christian civilization, restored a measure of order after three centuries and revived an imperial ideal that lasted until Napoleon ended the Holy Roman Empire in 1806.

The Decline into Feudalism

The empire was only a breathing space. Under weak successors it broke up in civil wars and new invasions, and as the Vikings came, people gave their lands and themselves to local lords for protection. Feudalism was government exercised locally by private persons. It fused three elements: the personal bond of lord and vassal, the fief (usually land) given to the vassal, and the private exercise of government over vassals and fiefs. In the act of homage the vassal knelt and became the lord's "man"; in the oath of fealty he swore loyalty; in investiture he received a symbol of his jurisdiction. The contract was sacred. The lord owed protection and justice, the vassal chiefly military service, forty days a year.

SIDEBAR **Praying Hands**

By the end of the eleventh century the vassal knelt, joined his hands and held them out; the lord clasped them, raised him and kissed him. Hands joined and extended have become the posture of prayer.

The church was drawn in. Threatened by Vikings and Magyars, bishops and abbots became vassals of the barons in France and the kings in Germany, holding fiefs and owing service, which strained their loyalty to the pope. In the tenth and early eleventh centuries the papacy itself was a prize of the Roman nobles. On the positive side the church tried to add Christian virtues to chivalry and to limit warfare through the Peace of God, which barred from the sacraments those who plundered holy places or harmed noncombatants, and the Truce of God, which closed certain days and seasons to fighting; both were largely ineffective. Some unity returned when the German king Otto the Great revived the empire in 962, but with it came the old rivalry, for the German kings interfered even in papal elections. The quarrel centered on lay investiture. In theory a bishop received spiritual authority from the church and civil authority from the king; in practice kings and lords controlled both, above all in Germany, where the church was in essence a state church.

Setting in Order the House of God

The church first had to reform itself. The impulse came from the Benedictine house of Cluny in Burgundy, founded in 910. Its program began with the monasteries and went on to demand clerical celibacy and the end of simony, the buying and selling of church office (named after Simon the magician in Acts 8). Its final aim was to free the whole church from secular control and place it under the pope. About three hundred monasteries tied to Cluny escaped the control of laymen, and from 1059 a College of Cardinals chose the popes. The man behind this was the archdeacon Hildebrand. As Gregory VII (1073–1085) he aimed at a Christian commonwealth under papal control, with the spiritual power supreme over the temporal. In 1075 he forbade lay investiture on pain of excommunication, virtually declaring war on Europe's rulers.

The clash came with the emperor Henry IV, who had installed his own archbishop of Milan. Summoned to Rome, Henry had a synod of German bishops declare Gregory a usurper in 1076. Gregory excommunicated and deposed him and released his subjects from their oaths. Faced with a revolt of his nobles, Henry came in January 1077 to Canossa and stood three days barefoot in the snow as a penitent until the pope absolved him. The humiliation did not end the quarrel, and contemporaries made little of it, but the papacy had gained. The Concordat of Worms settled investiture in 1122: the church elects, with the emperor or his delegate looking on. The popes after Gregory hardly went beyond his theory that Christian society is organized under the pope, who is kept from error by Peter's presence in his successors. Many of these claims now seem intolerable, yet Shelley holds that they stood for two principles no Christian can contest: the spiritual has primacy over the secular in human loyalties, and humanity finds true unity only in Christ. In the Middle Ages Europe first came to think of itself as one, and the church reached a power over people's lives, for the most part used helpfully, that it has never had since.

KEY PEOPLE

Charlemagne; Pope Leo III; Charles Martel; Pepin the Short; Boniface; Einhard; Alcuin; Otto the Great; Hildebrand (Gregory VII); Henry IV.

KEY DATES

732	Charles Martel defeats the Muslims near Tours
751	Pepin the Short crowned king of the Franks
756	Donation of Pepin: origin of the Papal States
768	Charlemagne becomes king of the Franks
800	Charlemagne crowned emperor by Leo III on Christmas Day
910	Monastery of Cluny founded
962	Otto the Great revives the empire in the West
1059	College of Cardinals created to elect the pope
1073–1085	Pontificate of Gregory VII
1077	Henry IV does penance at Canossa
1122	Concordat of Worms settles the investiture dispute

KEY TERMS

Christendom; mayor of the palace; Donation of Pepin; Papal States; *missi dominici*; feudalism; vassal, fief, homage, investiture; Peace and Truce of God; Cluny; simony; lay investiture; College of Cardinals.

CHAPTER

19

Lifted in a Mystic Manner

The Papacy and the Crusader

IN BRIEF

In the twelfth and thirteenth centuries the papacy tried to build a perfect society on earth and rose to a power it never held before or since. Like the Gothic cathedrals of the same years it reached for the impossible, cracked and fell. The chapter shows the papal monarchy under Innocent III and then the crusades: their causes, their course and their meagre results.

THE QUESTION

How much may Christians expect of human society, and what would the earth be like if God's will were done there as it is in heaven?

Notre Dame in Paris was built between 1163 and 1235, while students argued theology and traded news of the crusades on the nearby bridge; one of them became Pope Innocent III. It was one symptom of a fever of building: from 1170 to 1270 France alone saw over five hundred great Gothic churches rise. The style first appeared in the abbey church of St. Denis, rebuilt between 1137 and 1144 by Abbot Suger, who felt himself "lifted in a mystic manner" from the lower toward the upper sphere. Lift, reach, aspiration are the words for an age that was far from dark.

Thy Kingdom Come

Gothic builders sought the greatest possible height. Chartres rises as high as a thirty-story building, Strasbourg as high as forty, and towers often fell. Flying buttresses replaced massive walls with slender pillars, and even the carved saints were elongated so that everything seemed to soar. So with the papacy. As unified national states reduced the empire to the sovereignty of a cluster of German kingdoms and city republics, the papacy, building on Gregory VII's reforms, became the most powerful office in Europe, a centralized universal monarchy. Every bishop took an oath of loyalty to the pope; founding a religious order required his consent; his court heard appeals from all Christendom; his legates supervised his orders in every country.

Innocent III (1198–1216) was a new kind of pope, trained not as a monk but as a canon lawyer. The successor of Peter, he said, is the Vicar of Christ, a mediator "below God but beyond man," who judges all and is judged by none. The papacy is the sun and kings are the moon, shining with borrowed light. His weapons were spiritual, and effective because hardly anyone doubted heaven and hell or the pope's control of the grace needed to reach one and escape the other. Excommunication cut an individual off from the church: a bell tolled, a book was closed, a candle was put out. The excommunicated could not be judge, witness or party to a contract and were refused Christian burial. The interdict fell on whole nations, suspending public worship and all sacraments except baptism and extreme unction; Innocent used or threatened it eighty-five times. Many states acknowledged the pope as feudal lord. King John of England, at odds with him over the archbishop of Canterbury, was excommunicated and his realm put under interdict, until he became the pope's vassal, received England back as a fief and paid tribute. Philip Augustus of France was forced to take back the queen he had divorced. In Germany Innocent intervened in a civil war and secured the throne for his ward Frederick II. Under him and his successors Christianity reached its peak of political and cultural influence. Its soaring dreams, and delusions, appear above all in

the crusades and in Scholasticism (the subject of the next chapter).

Taking Up the Cross for Christ

Islam began with Muhammad, born in 570. A keeper of camels, he came at twenty-five to manage the affairs of a wealthy widow fifteen years his senior, who married him and was his only wife while she lived. At forty he began to withdraw to a cave to meditate, and reported that an angel had commanded him "to recite"; hence the Koran. His wife was his first follower. After battles and wars he won a vast following in Arabia, and within a hundred years Jerusalem, Damascus and Cairo were Muslim. His death in 632 without a named successor divided the movement: Sunnis held that the caliph should be elected, Shiites that he must come from the prophet's bloodline, beginning with Ali, his cousin and son-in-law. By the eighth century half of all Christians lived under Islamic rule. Whatever other motives are suggested—adventure, gain, spiritual advantage—and however few would now defend the crusades, Shelley insists on one plain fact: Christians were trying to counter a remarkable military conquest and keep their remaining strongholds.

Pilgrims had long traveled to the Holy Land, and Islam at first did not stop them; a German pilgrimage of 1065 numbered about seven thousand. In the eleventh century the Seljuk Turks, new and fanatical converts, seized Jerusalem from fellow Muslims and swept into Asia Minor. At Manzikert in 1071 they captured the eastern emperor and scattered his army, and Byzantium lost its main source of revenue and troops. Tales of mistreated pilgrims, partly propaganda, inflamed Europe. In 1095, after an appeal from the emperor Alexius I, Pope Urban II proclaimed the First Crusade at the Council of Clermont, promising material as well as spiritual gain: your land is too narrow and poor; take the road to the Holy Sepulchre and win that land for yourselves. The crowd roared "*Deus vult!*" ("God wills it!"), which became the battle cry. Every great and colorful figure of the age was caught up in the cause, from Peter the Hermit, who inflamed the First Crusade, to the saintly

Louis IX of France, who inspired the Sixth and Seventh.

The crusaders' motives were mixed. "Crusade" means taking the cross, which they wore on the breast going out and on the back coming home. They knew the promised rewards, including full forgiveness of past sins, and most felt deep reverence for the ground Christ had walked. For the popes it was a new kind of war, a holy war. Augustine's rules for a just war—waged by the state, to defend life and property, with respect for noncombatants and prisoners—evaporated: the church called the war, its aim turned from freeing fellow Christians to conquering the infidel, and the cause excused every cruelty. The crusades began with attacks on Jews; fellow Christians were robbed and raped; atrocities against Muslims went as far as cannibalism.

Events of the Crusades

Between the late eleventh and the late thirteenth century the popes launched seven major crusades and many smaller expeditions. The First, made up of nobles from France, Germany and Norman southern Italy, went overland to Constantinople, where Alexius, who had expected mercenaries, hurried the unruly horde on. With no more than five thousand men it beat the divided Turks and took Jerusalem amid a slaughter in which, a chronicler wrote, men rode in blood to their knees; that evening the victors knelt weeping for joy at the Holy Sepulchre. They founded the Latin kingdom of Jerusalem, whose last remnant fell in 1291. When the kingdom tottered in 1147, Bernard of Clairvaux preached the Second Crusade, which achieved nothing and melted away after two years.

The first zeal had cooled, and the cause was being corrupted by money. In medieval practice a confessed sin was forgiven, but the priest imposed a penance; what was not performed in life was completed in purgatory. This was "temporal" punishment, and the church claimed power to remit part of it. Urban at Clermont offered the first complete remission, or indulgence, to those who went to Jerusalem out of pure devotion. It was a small step to grant the same to those who paid for a substitute, and fund-raising for

hospitals and cathedrals followed.

In 1187 Saladin, sultan of Egypt and Syria, retook Jerusalem. The Third Crusade (1189) was led by three famous kings. Frederick Barbarossa drowned in Asia Minor, Philip Augustus quarreled with Richard the Lion-Hearted and went home, and Richard was left to face Saladin, who proclaimed a *jihad* but remained a patient and chivalrous statesman; he even proposed that Richard marry his sister and receive Palestine as a wedding gift. They agreed on a three-year truce and free access for pilgrims, which Saladin would have granted anyway. The Fourth Crusade, called by Innocent III, showed how far the ideal had sunk. Unable to pay Venice for shipping, the knights sacked the Christian town of Zara for the Venetians in 1202 and were excommunicated; then they took and ravaged Constantinople itself, set up a Latin Empire there in 1204 and forgot the Holy Land. Innocent raged at the outrage, then appointed a Latin archbishop. The Latin Empire lasted until 1261; the conquest widened the schism with the Greek church and hastened the city's fall to the Turks in 1453. Later crusades changed nothing, and the era ended in 1291 when Acre, the last Christian stronghold, fell.

Results of the Holy Cause

If the aims were to win the Holy Land, check Islam and heal the schism with the East, the crusades failed miserably. They created three military orders that combined monasticism and warfare to protect pilgrims and fight Muslims: the Templars (white robe, red cross), the Hospitalers (black robe, white cross) and the German Teutonic Knights (white robe, black cross), whose castles guarded the roads of the Crusader States. (The chapter carries two charts, "The Age of Crusades" and "The High Middle Ages.") The most significant result was added splendor for the papacy, which launched and inspired the expeditions and for a time had the new orders and the bishops of the Holy Land and Constantinople under its protection. In the holy war the popes were grasping at rule over a single church of East and West. But Europe took Syria and Jerusalem

in a fit of enthusiasm and could not keep them, and when trade and towns turned people to new interests the popes clung to the old ideal. They never grasped, Shelley concludes, two truths: the deepest joys of the faith are not tied to holy sites, and God does not spread Christ's church by force of arms.

KEY PEOPLE

Innocent III; Abbot Suger; King John of England; Philip Augustus; Frederick II; Muhammad; Urban II; Alexius I; Peter the Hermit; Bernard of Clairvaux; Saladin; Richard the Lion-Hearted; Frederick Barbarossa; Louis IX.

KEY DATES

570	Birth of Muhammad
632	Death of Muhammad
1071	Battle of Manzikert: the Seljuk Turks defeat Byzantium
1095	Urban II proclaims the First Crusade at Clermont
1147	Second Crusade, preached by Bernard of Clairvaux
1163–1235	Notre Dame of Paris built
1187	Saladin recaptures Jerusalem
1189	Third Crusade
1198–1216	Pontificate of Innocent III
1204	Fourth Crusade captures Constantinople; Latin Empire founded
1291	Fall of Acre: end of the crusades

KEY TERMS

Gothic; Vicar of Christ; excommunication; interdict; canon law; crusade; holy war and just war; indulgence; temporal punishment; *jihad*; Sunni and Shiite; Templars, Hospitalers, Teutonic Knights.

CHAPTER

20

The Nectar of Learning

Scholasticism

IN BRIEF

As the crusades sought to extend God's rule over Muslim lands, the new universities sought to understand God's truth wherever it could be found. The chapter describes the schools and their great teachers, the method called Scholasticism, and the two services the universities rendered the papal monarchy: a body of canon law and, in Thomas Aquinas, a theology that joined reason and revelation in one system.

THE QUESTION

How was the life of the mind brought under God's rule, and reason put to work for faith?

The Gothic cathedral moves in two directions. Pillars, arches and steeples point upward like man aspiring to heaven; through the great windows of colored glass, made possible by the outside buttresses, light descends to the lowly, telling how God saves, from the first day of creation to the day of judgment. Light is the Bible's image of God and of Christ, "the light of the world." In stone the building says what the schoolmen said in words about reason and revelation: man reaches up while God comes down.

The Rise of Universities

Fittingly, the universities grew out of cathedral schools. The period is called Scholasticism for its distinctive method and its distinctive theology. The Schoolmen had two aims: to reconcile Christian doctrine with human reason, and to arrange the church's teaching in an orderly system. A free search for truth was not intended, since the chief doctrines were fixed; discussion was to show that they are reasonable and to draw out their implications. Curiosity drove it on. Olbert of Liège, in the eleventh century, flew to every famous master and returned like a bee "gorged with the nectar of learning" to live "religiously in a studious manner."

The aim of medieval education was salvation, and at first it was mostly for clergy. Benedict required his monks to read; Charlemagne ordered every monastery to keep a school and set up a palace school. The best opportunity for laymen came from the cathedral schools in the towns, founded to train parish priests and gradually opened to all. They taught the seven liberal arts—grammar, rhetoric, logic, arithmetic, geometry, music and astronomy—from a few texts: Cassiodorus's *Handbook of Sacred and Secular Learning*, the *Consolation of Philosophy* that Boethius wrote in prison under King Theodoric, Augustine, Gregory the Great and a few other fathers. These were the *auctores*, authorities not lightly contradicted.

The Magnetism of an Able Teacher

Universities were born from the drawing power of great teachers. The first, as Anne Fremantle describes them, was Gerbert, who led the school attached to the cathedral of Rheims shortly before the year 1000, a serf's son who died as Pope Sylvester II (999–1003). Sent as a young monk to study mathematics in Spain, he met the inquiring spirit of Muslim scholarship, the first of several Muslim contributions to the Christian awakening. At Rheims he declared that quoting the authorities was not enough, had his pupils read the Roman classics in the original, and collected a library at a time when a manuscript took a year to copy.

The liveliest figure was Peter Abelard (1079–1142), eldest son of

a minor noble of Brittany, who gave up his inheritance for learning, wandered among the masters, challenged them in class and became a celebrated lecturer in Paris. His *Sic et Non* ("Yes and No") set out 158 questions and answered each with conflicting quotations from Scripture, the fathers and the pagan classics. "By doubting we come to inquiry, and by inquiry we arrive at the truth." A council at Soissons condemned his book on the Trinity in 1121 and he was confined to a monastery. A year later he was allowed to live in the wilderness southeast of Paris, where students flocked to him, built him a shelter and tilled his land. He fell foul of Bernard of Clairvaux, for whom "the faith of the righteous believes; it does not dispute." At Bernard's urging a council at Sens condemned him for heresy in 1140, and he spent his last two years at Cluny.

The seed he had sown could not be stifled. Within a century universities flourished at Paris, Orleans and Montpellier, at Oxford and Cambridge, at Bologna and Padua. Their flowering was marked by the grouping of scholars into guilds, each called a *universitas*, the name for any corporate body. In Italy, where the students were mature men studying law and medicine, the students' guilds hired and paid the teachers and fined lecturers who skipped a chapter. In France and England, where students were younger, the masters ruled, forbidding swearing and gambling and prescribing table manners. There were no buildings: lectures were given in sheds, cloisters and squares, later in rented rooms with straw on the floor, and a university at odds with the townspeople could simply move. Besides the lecture the method was the disputation, in which masters debated texts by Abelard's questions and answers. Scholasticism came to mean the painstaking reaching of logical conclusions by questioning, examining and arranging. Wars of logic ran for years amid stamping and whistling, but students were learning to think, and even Christian doctrine was being examined.

Support for the Papal Monarchy

All this went on under the eye of the papacy, which saw to it that the outcome supported the papal monarchy. The first support was

canon law, the church's law, administered in every church court from the bishop's to the pope's. Its center was Bologna. About 1140 Gratian, a monk there, published his *Harmony of Discordant Canons*, arranging earlier collections by subject. It became the standard manual and the base of the Body of Canon Law, which stayed in force until its revision in 1918. Canon law intervened in wars and protected widows, fixed fasts and feasts, required confession and communion at least once a year and defined what brought excommunication. Through baptism and marriage it reached the most intimate relations of men and women, and it bound plowman and prince alike. Shelley sees in this zeal to control every part of life a Christian legalism that shrank human freedom to a minimum and forgot that freedom prepares the way for true faith. But canon law gave the papacy a rational legal basis that no medieval state yet had, and with it an international standing above any kingdom. Innocent III preached at his consecration on Jeremiah 1:10, "I have this day set thee over the nations," and acted on it.

The second support was a rational theology of Christian society. In the thirteenth century lost works of Aristotle, preserved among eastern Christians and especially Muslims, returned to the West. Theologians since Origen and Augustine had assumed Plato's framework: an eternal realm of perfect, immaterial ideas and below it a material world of imperfect, perishable copies. Aristotle held that the forms are present in concrete things and are found by studying the created world, so that thought and matter fit together. Many knew him only through the Muslim commentator Averroes, who stressed the independence of reason from revelation and followed Aristotle to conclusions that contradict Christian teaching, such as the eternity of matter. Thomas Aquinas's life work was to insist that sound thinking never leads away from God's truth. Revelation surpasses what reason can reach but never contradicts it: "All truth is God's truth."

The Peak of Rational Reach

Thomas Aquinas (1224–1274), a Dominican of noble birth from Aquino, brilliant, tireless and gentle, was sent from Italy to Paris to deal with these controversies. His *Summa Theologica* treats the whole universe from the standpoint of God. Philosophy and theology, reason and revelation, are distinct but both come from God. Reason starts from the visible creation and reaches "the vestibule of faith." It can prove God's existence, for the chain of causes leads back to a First Cause. Revelation, which is more certain, gives the full knowledge of God, such as the Trinity, and of man's origin and destiny.

Man is a sinner in need of grace. Christ's sacrifice won reconciliation; the church applies it. Christians need a constant infusion of "cooperating grace" that stirs the virtues, above all love, and enables works that earn merit. This grace comes only through the sacraments entrusted to the visible Roman church under the pope, submission to whom Aquinas held necessary for salvation. Following Peter Lombard, author of the standard textbook, he counted seven sacraments (baptism, confirmation, penance, the Lord's Supper, marriage, ordination and extreme unction). The greatest is the Supper, a true sacrifice continuing that of the cross, in which the substance of bread and wine is changed into the body and blood of Christ while the appearance remains—transubstantiation, of which Thomas gave the classic statement. Penance, the sacrament of healing, consists of contrition, confession to the priest and satisfaction. With some cautions he accepted indulgences: the merits of Christ and the saints form a "treasury of merit" on which priests may draw for those with too little of their own. At death the wicked go to hell and the faithful who have used the means of grace to heaven; the great mass must be purified in purgatory, where the prayers of the church can relieve them.

None of this was new, but Thomas set it in a grand, almost cosmic framework that, like the cathedral, harmonized human aspiration and divine light and gave the papal monarchy a supernatural view of this world and the next. Here, Shelley says, is the peak of ecclesi-

astical aspiration and arrogance: pope and priests reaching beyond the grave. Like the crusades, Scholasticism may have claimed too much. Against Innocent's boast to stand "below God and above man," a growing number of unlettered laymen remembered the apostle's words, "There is one God and one Mediator."

KEY PEOPLE

Gerbert (Sylvester II); Peter Abelard; Bernard of Clairvaux; Cassiodorus; Boethius; Gratian; Aristotle; Averroes; Thomas Aquinas; Peter Lombard; Innocent III.

KEY DATES

999–1003	Gerbert of Rheims reigns as Pope Sylvester II
1079–1142	Peter Abelard
1121	Council of Soissons condemns Abelard's book on the Trinity
1140	Council of Sens condemns Abelard
c. 1140	Gratian's *Harmony of Discordant Canons*
1224–1274	Thomas Aquinas, author of the *Summa Theologica*

KEY TERMS

Scholasticism; Schoolmen; seven liberal arts; *auctores*; *universitas*; disputation; canon law; First Cause; cooperating grace; seven sacraments; transubstantiation; treasury of merit; purgatory.

CHAPTER

21

A Song to Lady Poverty

The Apostolic Lifestyle

IN BRIEF

Against Innocent III's vision of Christ ruling the world through his vicar stood the older image of the Savior who had nowhere to lay his head. In the twelfth and thirteenth centuries wandering preachers of voluntary poverty—Arnold of Brescia, the Waldenses, the Cathari, Dominic and Francis—challenged a wealthy church, some within its bounds and some outside them, and the church answered with preaching, crusade and Inquisition.

THE QUESTION

Where is true Christianity found: in an institution with sacraments or in a life of self-denial?

The troubadours of the twelfth century sang of courtly love. Francis of Assisi, "Christ's very courageous knight," sang of Lady Poverty. A story tells how he sought her in the mountains and found her on "the throne of her neediness." She had lived with Adam in Paradise, wandered homeless after the fall, been chosen by Jesus and embraced by the monks, until Avarice made them rich and drove her out. Francis took her as his bride. She had many other admirers. Growing numbers of laypeople read the Bible in their own language and vowed to obey the word, "Sell what you have, give to the poor, and come, follow me." Some stayed orthodox and some became heretics, with at times only a knife edge between the two.

Poverty, Heresy, and Violence

The poverty movement is a lasting reminder that political Christianity is only partial Christianity. What good are canon law, crusades and disputations if ordinary people ask for bread and receive a stone? The movement fed on resentment of a corrupt and neglectful priesthood and was often joined to social restlessness, but its heart was spiritual hunger. Pastoral care was a lost art. Robert Grosseteste, bishop of Lincoln (1235–1253), blamed the greed and immorality of the clergy on the Roman court, which appointed "not pastors but destroyers of men." Reformers since the tenth century had called for a return to apostolic poverty, but such appeals had always been channeled into a new monastic reform. Now some preachers would not stay within the church's bounds.

Moderns, who hold faith to be a private choice, find the medieval attitude to heresy hard to grasp. In Christendom faith was the cement of society and its life-giving soul; to deny a doctrine was close to treason, and heresy was no more tolerable than cancer in the body. Heresy meant a baptized person's denial of any revealed truth, and since those truths included the church's unity and the pope's appointment by God, disobedience was itself heresy. The church aimed to convert the heretic and to protect society. But how far may it go? Here it fell into its gravest inner conflict. By creating the Inquisition, which not only executed heretics but tortured them, it chose a course that cannot be reconciled with the kingdom it sought; in driving out one devil it let in seven. Few saw the contradiction then. Almost everyone agreed that a pure church was God's will.

The Poor in the Kingdom

But where is the pure church: in the papal palace, or among the hungry who are fed? One of the first to ask was Arnold, an abbot at Brescia in northern Italy, who preached that the vices of the clergy came from the church's attempt to rule the world. It should hand its property and secular power to the state and return to apostolic simplicity. Banished by Innocent II in 1139, he studied

in Paris under Abelard and was denounced by Bernard. After five years he appeared in Rome, where the people, dreaming of the ancient republic, had seized power, and he became leader of the new secular government, calling the College of Cardinals a den of thieves. After about ten years Hadrian IV put Rome under interdict, Frederick Barbarossa captured Arnold, and in 1155 he was burned and his ashes thrown into the Tiber.

Peter Waldo (c. 1140–1218), who had grown rich as a merchant in Lyons, was struck by a troubadour's ballad of Alexis, who left his bride on their wedding night for the Holy Land and returned to die unrecognized as a beggar in his parents' courtyard. A priest pointed Waldo to Jesus' word to the rich young ruler, the text that had moved Anthony. He provided for his wife, placed his daughters in a cloister and gave the rest to the poor. He had two priests translate parts of the Bible into French, memorized long passages and taught common people to imitate Christ. His innovation was to apply poverty, discipleship and preaching to every true Christian and not to monks alone. He sent followers out two by two; they called themselves the "Poor in Spirit," and we call them Waldenses. Forbidden by the archbishop of Lyons to preach, Waldo answered, "We must obey God rather than men," and was excommunicated. At the Third Lateran Council (1179) the Waldenses were mocked by the Englishman Walter Map. Pope Alexander III found no heresy in them but allowed them to preach only at the invitation of bishops. They preached anyway, spread into southern France and Italy, and in 1184 Lucius III excommunicated them.

Their aim was a purer church, recovered by living as simply as the apostles had, which meant giving up worldly power; Rome could not renounce its sacraments, its priesthood or its authority. The Waldenses increasingly held that only Christ's teaching binds and Scripture must rule. To survive they accepted two levels of commitment, the vowed "Poor" and a circle of "friends" who remained Catholics and supplied recruits and support. Evangelicals have often called them reformers before the Reformation. Their appeal to the Bible does sound like Luther or Calvin, but they pictured salvation as a penitent and poor life, without the Reformation's

clear note of grace.

The Peril of New Heresies

Most troublesome were the Cathari ("pure ones"), also called Albigenses after the town of Albi in southern France. What is known of them comes mostly from their enemies. They probably entered Europe from Bulgaria, where a branch was called Bogomiles. Like the Gnostics they taught an eternal conflict of a good and an evil power. Matter and the body are the work of the evil power, the god of the Old Testament, who imprisoned the soul. The true Cathar avoided marriage, sexual intercourse, meat and possessions: a radical poverty, but rooted in the nature of the universe rather than the example of Jesus. Christ was not human but a life-giving spirit who taught the way, like a Buddha; salvation by his death on the cross was unthinkable. Arnold and Waldo had refused obedience; the Cathari rejected basic Christianity, seeking escape from evil by liberating the pure self rather than by repentance and faith. By 1200 they enjoyed the protection of the princes of Toulouse and were spreading fast. The church had three weapons: preaching, crusade and Inquisition.

Rise of the Dominicans

The pope's preachers failed until the Spaniard Dominic Guzman (1170–1221) saw why in 1206. They relied on pomp, which the Albigenses took as a mark of false religion. Dominic went among them poor, barefoot and begging. His peaceful mission lasted only two years before Innocent III turned to force, but he gathered like-minded men and went on elsewhere, and in 1220 the order was approved. The Dominicans were mendicants (beggars) and friars (brothers), who, unlike monks, lived among the people to preach and teach; as monasteries had served the countryside, the friars served the towns. Innocent meanwhile called a crusade against Christian heretics. The northern French, eager to seize the separate country of the south, came pillaging and murdering with a brutality

that shocked even the pope. By 1215 Toulouse had been cleared of Albigenses and northern lords held the ruined south.

Enter the Inquisitor

The scattered heretics had to be hunted out, and that was the work of the Inquisition, a name that still stands for the miscarriage of justice. It began in 1184, when Lucius III required bishops to "inquire" into their people's beliefs. In 1215 the Fourth Lateran Council under Innocent III provided for punishment of heretics by the state, confiscation of their property, excommunication of those who would not act and full forgiveness for those who cooperated. In 1220 the pope transferred the Inquisition from the bishops to the Dominicans, and in 1229 the Synod of Toulouse fixed a procedure that left the accused almost no rights. The inquisitor answered only to the pope and was prosecutor and judge; the trial was secret; the accused had to prove his innocence without counsel and without knowing his accusers. In 1252 Innocent IV authorized torture, which earlier popes and theologians had rejected with horror. Because canon law forbade a cleric to shed blood, the condemned were handed to the civil power, usually to be burned. Almost everyone since Augustine agreed that a rotten limb must be cut off to save the body.

Crusade and Inquisition ended Catharism before the century was out. The Waldenses, whom the Inquisition also hunted, held out in the Italian Alps until the Reformation, which they greeted as an ally. The Inquisition's weakness was that it could amputate but not heal. Healing came from Assisi, north of Rome. Francis (1182–1226), born Giovanni Bernardone, son of a rich cloth merchant, sought military glory until capture, illness and visions turned him around. He gave up wealth and honor, embraced the lepers who had once repelled him, and in a ragged cloak with a rope belt wandered with a few companions, asking alms of the wealthy, passing them on to the needy and praising the happiness of a life as poor as the apostles'.

Founding the Franciscans

In 1209 Francis drew up a simple Rule made up mostly of sayings of Christ (the call to carry one's cross, the counsel given to the rich young ruler, the orders for the apostles' mission), and took it to Innocent III. The scene repeated Waldo's in 1179, but Innocent saw his predecessors' mistake and approved the little band. Francis called them Friars Minor, "lesser brothers"; we call them Franciscans. His vision was for the world. After failed attempts to reach Syria and Morocco he went with a crusading army to Egypt in 1219, tried to convert the sultan and visited the holy places. In his absence the brothers divided between those who wanted more organization and those who clung to the original poverty. Francis was a model, not a manager. He asked for Cardinal Ugolino as adviser and handed the administration to Peter de Cataneo. Ugolino, later Pope Gregory IX, saw the movement as an instrument for restoring Roman authority where Arnold, Waldo and the Cathari had undermined it; Francis wanted to reform the world by Christlike humility. In 1223 Honorius III confirmed a new Rule that allowed an elaborate organization and made begging fundamental. Franciscans thus joined Dominicans in a great mendicant counteroffensive. Francis died at Assisi on October 3, 1226, singing.

Herbert Workman wrote that the Sermon on the Mount was, briefly, actually lived; then the dream faded for all but a few. For another century the order was split between the Conventuals, who let the church hold property for their use, and the Spirituals, who held complete poverty to be a mark of the true church. Lady Poverty went on rebuking a rich and powerful church, but like Innocent's universal dominion she proved impossible for the whole church for all time.

KEY PEOPLE

Francis of Assisi; Robert Grosseteste; Arnold of Brescia; Peter Waldo; Alexander III; Lucius III; Dominic Guzman; Innocent III; Innocent IV; Cardinal Ugolino (Gregory IX); Honorius III.

KEY DATES

1155	Arnold of Brescia burned at Rome
1179	Waldenses appeal to the Third Lateran Council
1184	Lucius III excommunicates the Waldenses and orders bishops to "inquire" into heresy
1209	Francis of Assisi wins approval for his first Rule
1215	Fourth Lateran Council provides for the punishment of heretics; Albigenses crushed in Toulouse
1220	Dominican order approved; Inquisition entrusted to the Dominicans
1223	Honorius III confirms the new Franciscan Rule
1226	Death of Francis of Assisi (October 3)
1252	Innocent IV authorizes torture in the Inquisition

KEY TERMS

Apostolic poverty; heresy; Waldenses ("Poor in Spirit"); Cathari or Albigenses; Bogomiles; dualism; mendicant; friar; Dominicans; Franciscans (Friars Minor); Inquisition; Conventuals and Spirituals.

CHAPTER

22

Sleeping Men and the Law of Necessity

The Decline of the Papacy

IN BRIEF

The fourteenth century opened with a triumphant Jubilee and within three years saw the greatest insult ever offered a pope. The chapter follows the fall of papal sovereignty: the defeat of Boniface VIII by the new national monarchies, seventy-two years of popes at Avignon, the Great Schism with two and then three popes, and the councils that ended the schism and claimed authority above the pope.

THE QUESTION

What made rulers and peoples turn against the popes' claim to worldly power?

On February 22, 1300, Boniface VIII (1294–1303) proclaimed the first Holy Year, promising "a full and copious pardon" to all who came to the churches of St. Peter and of St. Paul; Paul VI echoed him in announcing the Holy Year of 1975. Pilgrims poured in, and at St. Paul's two priests were kept busy day and night raking together the offerings. Boniface loved pomp. He appeared in imperial robes crying, "I am Caesar, I am emperor," and wore a crown heavy with jewels. With the example of Innocent III before him he expected to command kings as his predecessors had.

Sleep and Change in the Kingdom

In Jesus' parable the seed grows night and day while the sower sleeps and does not know how. Great changes often happen unnoticed, and so it was in the fourteenth century: the papacy carried on as usual while new ideas and social forces altered Christianity's face. The years 1300 to 1500 are called the decline of the Middle Ages, since Christendom, the idea that had held a thousand years together, now came under attack. Christendom had two pillars, a Christian empire and a Catholic Church. The empire had already faded as the papacy rose; now papal prestige fell as well. People were getting used to thinking of themselves as English or French and of their state as working without papal guidance—in modern terms, of a secular realm alongside a sacred one.

Europe was leaving feudalism behind. Cash counted for more than land, and rulers needed wider powers to tax. Edward I of England and Philip the Fair of France, at war over English lands in France, both decided to tax the clergy. In 1296 Boniface answered with *Clericis laicos*, threatening to excommunicate any ruler who taxed clergy and any cleric who paid without papal consent. Edward replied by withdrawing legal protection from clergy who refused; Philip forbade the export of gold, silver and jewels, cutting off the papal income from France. Boniface retreated and explained that he had never intended to forbid contributions for defense in dire need. Since the kings decided what that meant, they had won.

A New Voice in Christendom

Encouraged by the Jubilee, Boniface took the reverence shown him as reaching to civil matters too and added a second circlet to his crown as a sign of temporal sovereignty. Philip represented a new voice: Christ had left the church no power in worldly affairs. In 1301 the king had a French bishop jailed for treason. Boniface demanded his release and withdrew his concession on taxes. Philip summoned nobles, clergy and townsmen in 1302—the first Estates-General—and won their unanimous support. "My master's sword is made of steel; the pope's is made of words," said one of his ministers.

Boniface then issued *Unam sanctam*, the most extreme claim of papal power in history: "It is altogether necessary for every human being to be subject to the Roman pontiff."

Philip prepared to have him deposed on the ground that his election was illegal, adding charges of heresy, simony and immorality, and sent the lawyer William of Nogaret, a master of the trumped-up charge, to bring him to France for trial. Nogaret and his troops broke in on the pope, now eighty-six, in his bedroom at Anagni, his birthplace, abused him and held him for several days until the townspeople rescued him. Humiliated, Boniface died within weeks. "He crept in like a fox, reigned like a lion, and died like a dog." Anagni showed that Europeans no longer accepted papal interference in what they considered political matters, even though the outrage was widely resented. Boniface was not loved; Dante put him in hell. Yet few could imagine Christianity without the pope. People were beginning to distinguish secular from religious authority and to grant each its rights. As Canossa had marked the rise of papal power, Anagni marked its descent. In 1305 the cardinals chose the French archbishop of Bordeaux, who became Clement V. He never set foot in Rome.

The Captivity of the Holy Father

So began the seventy-two years called the Babylonian Captivity of the papacy. After Clement six more popes, all French, lived at Avignon on the Rhone, just across from Philip's lands, which grew into a city of eighty thousand with a huge bureaucracy and a sumptuous palace. Rome stood for the succession from Peter and for western universality; Avignon looked like the tool of one power-hungry nation. Germany resented it bitterly. In 1324 the emperor Louis the Bavarian appealed against John XXII to a general council. Marsilius of Padua, who had fled the University of Paris, and John of Jandun presented him in 1326 with the *Defender of the Peace*. It taught that the church is the community of all believers and the priesthood is not superior to the laity. Popes, bishops and priests have no special function from Christ but are agents of the

community, which is represented by the general council. The pope becomes the council's executive officer. This theory is conciliarism.

Most anger at Avignon concerned money. With revenue from the Papal States fallen, the popes multiplied fees and taxes: the annat, the first year's income of a newly appointed bishop, collected more often by transferring bishops from see to see; the reservation, by which the pope left an office vacant and kept its income; and above all indulgences, granted for the slightest reasons with ever larger claims, while payment was demanded under threat of excommunication. By 1360 it was clear that Avignon could not last. In 1377 the aged Gregory XI returned to Rome and died within a year. The cardinals, still mostly French, gave way to a Roman mob and chose an Italian, Urban VI, crowned on Easter Sunday, April 18, with all of them present. His dictatorial ways brought second thoughts. In August they declared the election forced and invalid. Urban created an almost new college of cardinals; the French cardinals elected one of their own, Clement VII, who went back to Avignon.

The Great Papal Schism

For thirty-nine years there were two lines of popes, each with its own cardinals, each claiming to be the true Vicar of Christ and excommunicating the other's followers. There had been schisms before, but now the Church of Rome itself was both promoting and rejecting its own pontiff. The only witnesses, the cardinals, flatly contradicted themselves, so that universities, kings and bishops had to decide. France and Scotland followed Clement; Italy, the empire and England followed Urban; every country had minorities. There were riots, burnings and even crusades. In 1395 professors at the University of Paris proposed a general council. But canon law said that only a pope could call a council or ratify its decisions—and which pope? In effect the law forbade Christendom's reunion. Did necessity rank above the law?

A New Pope Elected

In 1409 most cardinals of both sides decided that it was. Meeting at Pisa, they deposed both popes and elected Alexander V. Neither deposed pope gave way, so there were now three, one of whom preached a crusade against another and sold indulgences to pay for it. The spectacle forced action. In 1414 the Holy Roman Emperor gathered the most impressive council of the age at Constance, with even Greek Orthodox representatives. For the first time voting was by "nations"—German, Italian, French, English and later Spanish, each with one vote—and laymen took part, a sign that the church was reluctantly recognizing the new national alignment of power. (A chart in the chapter is headed "The Decline of the Middle Ages.") In 1417 the council persuaded one pope to resign, deposed the other two and elected Martin V. Benedict XIII at Avignon would not give up his claim, but the schism was over.

Necessity had triumphed and was at once denied. Martin, who reigned only by the council's act, repudiated all its acts except his own election, for the council raised the question whether a council that makes a pope is greater than the pope. The conciliar movement wanted a limited monarchy; Constance decreed that general councils are superior to popes and must meet regularly. The popes called this heresy, and since later councils failed to bring reform, they had discredited the movement by 1450. They then busied themselves with Italian politics and patronage of the arts, unsure whether they were successors of Peter or of Caesar. Corruption reached its depth under Roderigo Borgia, Alexander VI (1492–1503), grossly immoral and bent on enriching his children. Constance could be denied but not forgotten. People had begun to think of national churches and of a church governed by representative bodies. The ground for the Protestant Reformation was prepared.

KEY PEOPLE

Boniface VIII; Philip the Fair; Edward I; William of Nogaret; Dante; Clement V; Louis the Bavarian; John XXII; Marsilius of Padua; John of Jandun; Gregory XI; Urban VI; Clement VII; Alexander V; Martin V; Benedict XIII; Alexander VI (Roderigo Borgia).

KEY DATES

1296	*Clericis laicos*: Boniface VIII forbids taxing the clergy
1300	Boniface VIII proclaims the first Jubilee (Holy Year)
1302	Boniface VIII's *Unam sanctam*; Philip the Fair calls the first Estates-General
1303	Boniface VIII seized at Anagni; he dies within weeks
1305	Clement V elected: the Avignon papacy ("Babylonian Captivity") begins
1326	Marsilius of Padua's *Defender of the Peace*
1377	Gregory XI returns the papacy to Rome
1378	Two popes elected: the Great Schism begins
1409	Council of Pisa elects a third pope
1414–1417	Council of Constance ends the schism; Martin V elected
1492–1503	Pontificate of Alexander VI (Roderigo Borgia)

KEY TERMS

Jubilee; plenary indulgence; *Clericis laicos*; *Unam sanctam*; Estates-General; Babylonian Captivity; Avignon; annat; reservation; Great Schism; conciliarism; council of "nations."

CHAPTER

23

Judgment in the Process of Time

Wyclif and Hus

IN BRIEF

The Avignon exile and the Great Schism had exposed deep flaws in the papal church, yet after the councils failed no real reform came from within. Two men, the Englishman John Wyclif and the Czech John Hus, dared to think of the church as something other than a visible organization headed by the pope. Both were condemned, and Hus was burned, but they pointed the way to the Reformation.

THE QUESTION

Who were Wyclif and Hus, and in what ways did they anticipate what was to come?

Herbert Butterfield observed in *Christianity and History* that human systems rise, thrive and fall because time itself carries a built-in judgment: institutions that look worthy crumble as the centuries bring out their flaws. The idea that the papacy is the channel of God's will died slowly, for the pope seemed essential both to religion and to the sanctioning of political rule, the center of Christian society. Wyclif and Hus saw that the time was ripe for judgment on the house of God.

The English Zealot, Wyclif

Wyclif was a zealot who despised neutrality, and he has been praised to heaven or consigned to darkness ever since. Little is

known of the man, who buried his character under pages of scholarly argument. Raised in northern England, he took his doctorate at Oxford in 1372 and at once became its leading professor. The burning question was dominion, the right to rule. All agreed that it comes from God. Some held that it is just only when it comes through the Roman church, to whose pope God gave universal dominion; others, that it depends on the ruler's being in a state of grace. Wyclif's teacher Richard FitzRalph asked why grace should be demanded of lay rulers only: do churchmen have the right to rule while living in mortal sin? Wyclif added that the English government has a God-given duty to correct abuses in the church within its realm, to remove churchmen who persist in sin and even to seize the property of corrupt officials. The pope condemned this teaching in 1377, but powerful friends kept the condemnation to threats.

The lasting importance of the doctrine is its link with the Reformation. "Dominion founded on grace" was Wyclif's way of asserting the spiritual freedom of the righteous: "God gives no lordship to his servants without first giving himself to them." Priest and layman stand equal before God, the personal relation with God is everything, and character is the only basis of office. A mediating priesthood and sacrificial masses are no longer essential. In this Wyclif anticipates Luther's justification by faith alone.

The decisive year was 1378, when the Great Schism began. Wyclif's view of the papacy had been shaped by apostolic poverty: the "Bible papacy" is a poor and humble life of service, shepherding and preaching, with no room for temporal power, luxury or politics. At first he welcomed the schism as proof of the office's spiritual bankruptcy; as it dragged on he came to call the pope Antichrist, a title two popes merely shared. Christ is truth, lived in poverty and refused temporal dominion; the pope is the principle of falsehood and seeks magnificence and power. He scorned the argument from Peter's death in Rome, by which a Muslim might rank a "prelate of Jerusalem" above the pope. Christ alone is head of the church.

From Reformer to Protestant

With this step Wyclif passed from an orthodox preacher of reform to a Protestant, to use a later word. He kept the old division of the church into the triumphant in heaven, the militant on earth and those "asleep in purgatory," but he defined the church on earth as the whole number of the elect. So strict was his predestinarianism that not even a pope can know whether he belongs to it; yet each should hope that he does, and each who is damned is damned by his own guilt. From this invisible church of the elect he drew practical conclusions. The church knows no papal primacy or hierarchy and no "sects" of monks, friars and priests, and the salvation of the elect cannot depend on masses, indulgences, penance or other devices of priestcraft. He went on to challenge pardons, absolutions and pilgrimages, image worship, the cult of the saints, the treasury of merits and the division of sins into venial and mortal. He kept purgatory and extreme unction, though he could not find the latter in the Bible; he tolerated images that aid devotion and prayers to saints; he valued voluntary confession and called compulsory confession "the bondage of Antichrist." Preaching, he said, "is of more value than the administration of any sacrament."

His standard was Scripture. No saint, not Augustine or Jerome, is to be accepted except where he rests on the Bible, and Christ's law "is best and enough." The New Testament is open to the understanding of simple people in everything needful for salvation, for Christ wrote his laws in human hearts. Nothing roused such hostility as his attack on transubstantiation. In mid-1380 he issued twelve theses contending that the consecrated bread and wine are effective symbols: Christ is present sacramentally, not materially, and the aim of the sacrament is his presence in the soul. His support at Oxford shrank. The chancellor forbade him to lecture, a council under Archbishop William Courtenay condemned ten of his doctrines as heretical, and by 1382 he was silenced at the university.

By then he had turned to the people. With a few Oxford scholars he translated the Latin Bible into English and, copying Francis and the friars, sent out "poor priests" in russet robes, barefoot and with

staff in hand, depending on their neighbors for food and carrying pages of his Bible, tracts and sermons. Their enemies called them Lollards, "mumblers," and they became a power in the land; one alarmed observer said that half the men he met belonged to them. Wyclif's legacy was thus carried mostly by lay preachers of a simple dependence on the Bible, an example, Shelley notes, of the power of Scripture read in the people's language. His followers were hunted, expelled from Oxford or forced to recant, but he himself was left in peace in his parish of Lutterworth, where he died in 1384.

The Passage to Bohemia

The movement survived under restriction in England and found a wider field in Bohemia. The marriage of Anne of Bohemia to Richard II in 1383 linked the two countries, and students moved between Oxford and Prague. In Bohemia it joined a strong national party led by John Hus. Born of peasants at Husinetz in southern Bohemia, he took his bachelor's (1394) and master's (1396) degrees at Prague and taught in the faculty of arts. As rector and preacher of Bethlehem Chapel he came upon Wyclif's religious writings and adopted his view that the church is the body of the elect and that its head is Christ and not the pope. The chapel, founded in 1391 to foster the national faith, had wall paintings contrasting pope and Christ: the pope on horseback, Christ barefoot; Jesus washing feet, the pope having his kissed. Hus's fiery sermons in Czech won wide popular support, and students rioted for and against Wyclif. On the pope's orders Archbishop Zbynek excommunicated Hus, and tumult followed. When Hus attacked the pope's sale of indulgences to finance a war against Naples, he lost the support of King Wenceslas; Prague was placed under interdict, and he withdrew to southern Bohemia, where he wrote his chief work, *On the Church*, drawing heavily on Wyclif. At the urging of the emperor Sigismund he agreed to appear at the Council of Constance, hoping to present his views. Instead he found himself before the Inquisition.

Its rule was simple. If enough witnesses testified to guilt, the accused had to confess and renounce his errors or be burned; the

SIDEBAR **Inquisition**

Inquisition is a procedure from Roman law: a trial before a panel of judges, all of whom question the witnesses, which lessens the risk of false testimony. In capital cases Roman law required a confession or two eyewitnesses; where these were lacking and circumstances suggested guilt, the accused was sometimes tortured to obtain a confession. The church adopted this arrangement.

reward of confession was life imprisonment. The judges believed the witnesses and condemned Hus for heresies he had never taught.

Away with Heretics

Hus was ready to submit to the church if shown from Scripture where he was wrong, but he could not recant what he had never held. For him truth was supreme: he would not depart from it "for a chapel full of gold," and his chief fear was that liars would say he had slipped back from what he preached. For eight months he lay in prison at Constance; the letters and prayers of his last month, asking for "a fearless heart, a right faith, a firm hope, a perfect love," rank among the greatest in Christian literature. On July 6, 1415, on the way to the stake he passed a bonfire of his books and laughed. Asked a last time to recant, he answered that the evidence against him was false, that he had preached only to win people from their sins, and that in the truth of the gospel he would gladly die.

The Bohemian revolt did not die with him. Its moderates, the Utraquists, asked for communion in "both" bread and cup. Its militants, the Taborites, named after their stronghold, fought the Roman church and the German empire until wars wore them down. An independent church survived, the *Unitas Fratrum* or Unity of the Brotherhood, a root in dry ground until Luther came. When the 1400s closed, nothing was left of what Marsilius had hoped for, the conciliar reformers were repudiated and the revolts of Wyclif and Hus crushed. For Shelley the period shows that the papal church could not be reformed from inside, and that judgment was now

due.

KEY PEOPLE

John Wyclif; Richard FitzRalph; Archbishop William Courtenay; John Hus; Anne of Bohemia and Richard II; Archbishop Zbynek; King Wenceslas; the emperor Sigismund.

KEY DATES

1372	Wyclif takes his doctorate at Oxford
1377	The pope condemns Wyclif's teaching on dominion
1380	Wyclif's twelve arguments against transubstantiation
1382	Wyclif silenced at Oxford
1384	Death of Wyclif at Lutterworth
1415	John Hus burned at Constance (July 6)

KEY TERMS

Dominion founded on grace; invisible church of the elect; Antichrist; authority of Scripture; Lollards ("poor priests"); Bethlehem Chapel; Inquisition; Utraquists; Taborites; *Unitas Fratrum*.

PART FIVE

The Age of the Reformation

1517–1648

The reform that the late Middle Ages had demanded arrived suddenly in the sixteenth century. It ended the pope's hold on the Western church and produced Protestantism in four chief branches: Lutheran, Reformed, Anabaptist and Anglican. Rome answered with a renewal of its own, in which the new Society of Jesus took the lead. Then came a century of religious wars. Only after they had exhausted Europe did the two sides accept that the old unity would not return, and a handful of thinkers began to describe the church in a new way, as one body existing in several denominations.

IN THIS PART

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CHAPTER

24

A Wild Boar in the Vineyard

Martin Luther and Protestantism

IN BRIEF

The differences between Catholics and Protestants go back to the age of Luther, the Reformation (1517–1648). Protestantism gave new answers to four old Catholic questions, and those answers first took shape in one German monk's struggle of soul and his conflict with Rome. The chapter follows Luther from the monastery to the Ninety-five Theses, the break with the pope, the Diet of Worms and the making of a Lutheran church.

THE QUESTION

What is Protestantism? How is a person saved, where does religious authority lie, what is the church, and what is the essence of Christian living?

In the summer of 1520 a papal bull went through Germany in search of Martin Luther: "Arise, O Lord, and judge thy cause. A wild boar has invaded thy vineyard." It condemned forty-one of his beliefs and gave him sixty days to repent. Luther received it on October 10. When the time ran out in early December he led his students outside Wittenberg and burned the canon law, some medieval theologians and, as if by afterthought, the bull itself: "They have burned my books; I burn theirs."

The Meaning of Protestantism

Ernst Troeltsch called Protestantism a "modification of Catholicism" in which the Catholic problems remain but receive different solutions. The four questions it answered anew concern salvation, authority, the church and Christian living. Reformers all over Europe reached similar convictions, but the answers emerged first in Luther.

Born in 1483, son of a Saxon miner, Luther meant to be a lawyer until in 1505 a bolt of lightning near Stotternheim threw him to the ground and he cried, "St. Anne, save me, and I'll become a monk." Two weeks later he entered the Augustinian monastery at Erfurt. No monk was more zealous: he fasted for days, slept without blankets in winter, and said that monkery, if it ever took anyone to heaven, would have taken him. He was driven by a sense of his own sinfulness and of God's majesty. Saying his first mass he was terror-stricken, and no penance or advice quieted his conviction that he was doomed. "I do not love God! I hate him!" he once burst out.

He found what he sought in Scripture, as professor of biblical studies at the new university of Wittenberg. Christ's cry of forsakenness on the cross made him ask whether Christ had shared humanity's estrangement in order to bear the punishment of sin. In 1515, pondering Romans 1:17, "The just shall live by faith," he grasped that the justice of God is the righteousness by which God in sheer mercy justifies us through faith, and he felt reborn, as if he had gone "through open doors into paradise." A person is saved only by faith in the merit of Christ's sacrifice. This is justification by faith alone, and it clashed with Rome's justification by faith and good works. The consequences reached far. If faith in Christ is all that saves, a faith fed by the Word written and preached, then the intercession of priests, monks, masses and prayers to the saints are unnecessary, and the mediation of the Roman church crumbles.

Luther's Attack on Papal Authority

A flagrant abuse of church finance drove him further. Indulgences, begun in the crusades, remained a favorite source of papal income. In return for a meritorious work, often a gift of money, the church released the sinner from acts of penance by drawing on the "treasury of merits." Preachers made them seem a kind of magic and ignored sorrow for sin. In 1517 the Dominican John Tetzel was selling them through Germany for the building of St. Peter's in Rome, promising release even for souls in purgatory: "As soon as the coin in the coffer rings, the soul from purgatory springs." On October 31, 1517, Luther posted ninety-five theses for debate on the door of the Castle Church. The theses held that an indulgence takes away no guilt, has no effect in purgatory and lulls the buyer into false security. That was the spark.

The German Dominicans denounced him to Rome, and a Vatican theologian declared criticism of indulgences to be heresy. Luther began to demand proof from Scripture. In an eighteen-day debate at Leipzig in 1519 John Eck drove him to say that a council may err and that articles of faith cannot be laid down by church or pope but only drawn from Scripture. This was his second conviction: Scripture is the standard, and not popes or councils. Eck, noting the likeness to Hus, pressed Rome to condemn him, and Luther appealed to the German people in three pamphlets of 1520. The *Address to the Nobility of the German Nation* called on the princes to correct abuses, strip bishops and abbots of wealth and worldly power and create in effect a national German church. *The Babylonian Captivity of the Church* charged that Rome's sacramental system holds Christians captive and denies them direct access to God by faith. A sacrament must be Christ's own institution and belong to Christians only; by that test only baptism and the Lord's Supper remain, and these belong to the community of believers, not to an exclusive priesthood.

SIDEBAR **Important Theological Themes for Luther**

Justification by faith. Catholics followed Augustine in teaching that righteousness is imparted, an inner possession acquired over a lifetime. Luther taught imputation, a bookkeeping term: God credits the righteousness of Jesus to the believer, who remains a sinner in experience and can begin to become righteous only after being declared so. Protestants call the declaration justification and the growth that follows it sanctification. A table in the book, "Summary of Righteousness," compares the two models:

Augustine (Catholic model)	Luther (Protestant model)
The faithful are made righteous in the course of the spiritual pilgrimage	Believers are declared righteous; only then can they grow holier in experience
Righteousness comes gradually, as a process	Righteousness comes at once, as an event
It is imparted	It is imputed
It is an inner state, infused or implanted	It is external to the believer
Being justified and being made holy are one thing	Being justified and being made holy are kept apart

Law and Gospel. Luther found two orientations throughout the Bible, and both promise blessing. The Law's promise depends on keeping the covenant's conditions; it torments those who cannot, yet it exposes spiritual bankruptcy and the need of grace. The Gospel's promise is greater and unconditional, because God in mercy meets every condition. Gospel passages occur in both Testaments, most of all in Isaiah, John and Paul, and not at all in James.

Theology of the cross. To an eyewitness the crucifixion looked like God's defeat; only later is it seen as his victory over evil. The cross reverses values: grace is for humble sinners who know their incapacity, not for the disciplined and decent. God makes sinners saints and the dead alive. Catholic theology, confident that man can ascend toward God, Luther called a theology of glory.

Luther thus set aside the church as a sacred hierarchy under the pope and returned to the community of believers in which all are priests. His third pamphlet, *The Freedom of a Christian Man*, the best

introduction to his thought, argues that the inner freedom given by the certainty of faith leads to good works: "Good works do not make a man good, but a good man does good works." The essence of Christian living is to serve God in one's calling, secular or ecclesiastical; all useful callings are equally sacred. Monasticism was no longer necessary.

Heretic, Outlaw, and Hero

Leo X issued his bull in June 1520, and in January 1521 he declared Luther a heretic and expelled him from the church. The young emperor Charles V, sworn to defend the church, summoned him to the Diet of Worms. There Luther refused to recant: "My conscience is captive to the Word of God. . . . Here I stand, I cannot do otherwise." Charles declared him an outlaw. He was saved by Frederick the Wise of Saxony, who hid him in the Wartburg Castle, where, disguised as "Junker George," he spent nearly a year and translated the New Testament into German.

Meanwhile the revolt spread. Towns removed statues and abandoned the mass, more radical reformers appeared, and princes defied the ban. In 1522 Luther returned to Wittenberg and carried through a reform that much of Germany copied. The office of bishop disappeared; clergy, monks and nuns married, and he himself married a former nun, Katherine von Bora, so that a new figure appeared, the married pastor with his family. He translated and revised the liturgy, gave the laity both bread and wine as the Hussites had asked, and moved the center of worship from the sacrifice of the mass to the preaching of the Word.

In 1524 the cost of his alliance with the princes appeared. The peasants, applying Christian freedom to their social condition, rose against their lords with twelve demands, among them the abolition of serfdom. Luther at first admitted the justice of their complaints, but when they turned violent he urged the princes, in *Against the Thievish and Murderous Hordes of Peasants*, to "knock down, strangle, and stab." In 1525 the revolt was crushed at a cost of perhaps one hundred thousand lives. The survivors thought Luther a false

prophet, and many returned to Catholicism or joined the radicals. He held that the equality of all before God is spiritual, not social. That view pleased the princes, many of whom became Lutheran partly because it let them control the church in their lands. (A chart in the chapter shows the "Major Traditions of the Reformation.")

Luther's Lasting Influence

By 1530 leadership was passing from Luther. Still an outlaw, he could not attend the meeting at Augsburg, where Philip Melanchthon, a young professor of Greek, wrote the Augsburg Confession, to which the Lutheran princes and theologians put their names; the emperor remained unmoved. Luther's last years are hard to defend. He approved the bigamy of Philip of Hesse, abused reformers who disagreed with him as he had once abused the papacy, and wrote of the Jews in terms that would be excessive in a Hitler. At his death in 1546 he was, says Roland Bainton, an irascible and coarse old man. These faults do not lessen an achievement that changed Christianity and Western civilization.

Charles V set out to crush the heresy. The Lutheran princes formed the Schmalkald League in 1531, and from 1546 to 1555 there was intermittent civil war. The Peace of Augsburg (1555) let each prince decide the religion of his subjects, permitted no Protestantism except Lutheranism, and required Catholic bishops who turned Lutheran to give up their property. Lutheranism became a state religion in large parts of Germany and spread to Scandinavia, and a subject had to hold the faith of his prince. Luther's greatest contribution was religious. A person is saved not by works but by faith alone; authority lies not in the visible Roman institution but in the Word of God in the Bible; the church is the whole community of believers, all of them priests; and Christian living is serving God in any useful calling, ordained or lay. Any classical account of Protestantism echoes these four answers.

KEY PEOPLE

Martin Luther; John Tetzel; John Eck; Pope Leo X; Charles V; Frederick the Wise; Katherine von Bora; Philip Melanchthon; Philip of Hesse.

KEY DATES

1483	Birth of Martin Luther
1505	Luther enters the Augustinian monastery at Erfurt
1515	Luther grasps justification by faith from Romans 1:17
1517	Luther posts the Ninety-five Theses (October 31)
1519	Luther debates John Eck at Leipzig
1520	Papal bull against Luther; his three great pamphlets; he burns the bull
1521	Luther excommunicated; "Here I stand" at the Diet of Worms; Wartburg
1525	The Peasants' Revolt crushed
1530	Augsburg Confession drafted by Melanchthon
1546	Death of Luther
1555	Peace of Augsburg: each ruler decides the religion of his territory

KEY TERMS

Reformation; papal bull; justification by faith alone; imputed righteousness; sanctification; Law and Gospel; theology of the cross; indulgences; authority of Scripture; priesthood of all believers; calling; Augsburg Confession; Schmalkald League.

CHAPTER

25

Radical Discipleship

The Anabaptists

IN BRIEF

The Anabaptists were the radicals of the Reformation, calling the moderate reformers to cut deeper. They wanted churches of committed believers, baptized on their own confession and free of the state, and for that they were hunted by Catholics and Protestants alike. The chapter tells of their birth in Zurich, their persecution, the disaster at Münster, and the four convictions by which they became forerunners of nearly all modern Protestants.

THE QUESTION

How could people who only wanted to recover the church of the New Testament end up so far in advance of their age?

On the snowy night of January 21, 1525, a dozen men made their way through Zurich to the house of Felix Manz near the Great Minster. That day the city council had ordered Conrad Grebel and Manz to stop their Bible classes; four days earlier it had ordered every infant baptized by the eighth day, on pain of the parents' banishment. After prayer the former priest George Blaurock asked Grebel to baptize him in the apostolic way, on confession of personal faith. Grebel did, and Blaurock baptized the others. Anabaptism was born. Its direct descendants are the Mennonites and Hutterites, of whom only the Old Order Amish keep to horse and buggy. What unites them is a set of beliefs, many now shared by Baptists, Quakers and Congregationalists. Like the Benedictines, Shelley observes,

they show how often the people most devoted to the next world are the ones who alter this one.

Basic Beliefs of Anabaptists

Most revolutions produce radicals who want to reform the reformation. Like other countercultural movements, the Anabaptists had no single body of doctrine and no common organization. Even the name, "rebaptizers," was fastened on them by enemies in order to link them with ancient heretics and expose them to persecution, which it did. They themselves denied rebaptizing, since they did not regard the sprinkling of infants as baptism at all, and would have preferred to be called Baptists. What was really at stake was what the church is and how it stands toward the civil power.

They reached their convictions through Scripture, taking Luther at his word that common people may search the Bible for themselves. In the New Testament they found no alliance of church and state and no Christendom, but companies of people who had each decided freely to follow Jesus—a revolutionary idea in the sixteenth century. For all Luther's stress on personal faith, Lutheran churches were established churches, counting the whole population as members and living on state support; official Protestantism seemed little different from official Catholicism. The Anabaptists aimed at the "restitution" of apostolic Christianity. Only those who had experienced spiritual regeneration are fit for baptism; infant baptism was a device for perpetuating a nominal Christian society. The true church is a community of saints, disciples in a wicked world, shaping society by example and if need be by death. They refused to bear arms, hold political office or take oaths, which looked to their age like sedition or treason. By mid-century there were three groups in German-speaking Europe: the Swiss Brethren at Zurich, the Hutterites in Moravia and the Mennonites in the Netherlands and North Germany.

Radicals in the Swiss Alps

Grebel and Manz, educated men of standing, began as supporters of Ulrich Zwingli (1484–1531). In 1519 Zwingli became people's priest at the Great Minster and started the reformation in Zurich not with theses but with biblical sermons. Influenced by Erasmus, he revered the New Testament; a young hearer, Thomas Platter, felt as if he were being lifted by the hair of his head. In one respect Zwingli was stricter than Luther. Luther allowed whatever the Bible does not forbid; Zwingli rejected whatever it does not prescribe. So Zurich stripped away candles, statues, music and pictures, the spirit later called Puritanism in England.

Following Zwingli's own method, Grebel and Manz saw the difference between the apostolic churches and their own. In Zurich, as everywhere, every child was baptized and church and society were identical, whereas the New Testament church was a fellowship of the few, true believers ready to live and die for their Lord. They wanted such a church, free of the state. Zwingli, who needed the city fathers, refused. In the fall of 1524 the Grebels declined to have their newborn son baptized, and other parents followed. After a public debate on January 17, 1525, the council declared Zwingli the winner and gave the parents a week. The baptisms of January 21 were the answer. The little company withdrew to the village of Zollikon, where the first Anabaptist congregation was formed, the first free church of modern times.

The authorities arrested and imprisoned them, but on release they sought converts in neighboring towns. On March 7, 1526, the council decreed death by drowning for anyone who rebaptized: heretics who wanted water were to have it. On January 5, 1527, Felix Manz was drowned in the Limmat, the first Anabaptist martyr, and within four years the movement around Zurich was nearly wiped out. Those who fled to Germany and Austria fared no better. In 1529 the imperial Diet of Speyer declared Anabaptism a heresy punishable by death, and during the Reformation years four to five thousand died by fire, water or the sword. To us they seem to have asked only for the right to their own beliefs; to their age they

seemed to destroy the fabric of society. The chapter quotes a letter of 1573 from a young mother in an Antwerp jail, spared just until her child was born, to her daughter born days before. Her husband had been put to death earlier. She begs the child not to be ashamed of her parents, for theirs is the way the prophets and apostles went.

George Blaurock carried the message east to the Tyrol, where he was burned on September 6, 1529. Persecution drove many north to Moravia, where tolerant princes sheltered them. There they founded the *Bruderhof*, a Christian commune modeled on the apostolic community and useful for survival, to show that in God's kingdom brotherhood comes before self. Under Jakob Hutter, who died in 1536, these groups became the Hutterites.

Kingdom Building Gone Mad

Fear of the radicals deepened with the rebellion at Münster, a bishop's city in Westphalia. The Reformation spread there in 1532, at first in a conservative Lutheran form. Then immigrants, apostles of Jan Matthijs, brought fanaticism, and many expected the Lord's earthly kingdom to be set up in the city; such belief in a thousand-year earthly reign of Christ is called chiliasm. When the bishop besieged the city, these Anabaptists, uncharacteristically, took up arms. In mid-1534 Jan of Leiden, who had kept an inn, took control, claimed new revelations, introduced polygamy and took the title "King David." He lived in splendor with his harem and kept up morale in spite of hunger until the city fell on June 24, 1535. For centuries afterward the word Anabaptist meant Münster and wild-eyed fanaticism to Europeans.

The dispirited Anabaptists of the lower Rhine took heart again through Menno Simons (about 1496–1561), a former priest who, always in danger, traveled among the scattered groups of northern Europe and preached to them by night. He was unbending in requiring pacifism, and though he did not found the movement, most descendants of the Anabaptists bear his name: Mennonites.

Pioneers of Modern Christianity

Living as outlaws, the Anabaptists had little chance to state their beliefs together. They did so once. In 1527 they met at Schleitheim, on today's Swiss-German border, in the first synod of the Protestant Reformation, led by the former Benedictine Michael Sattler, who was burned four months later. Their "Brotherly Union," the Schleitheim Confession, came to be accepted by most Anabaptists within a decade. John H. Yoder and Alan Kreider summarize it in four convictions.

The first is discipleship. The Christian's relation to Christ must go beyond inner experience and doctrine to a daily walk in which his teaching and example transform life: "No one can truly know Christ except he follow him in life." Where most Christians think that one must understand before obeying, the Anabaptist instinct is that only obedience brings understanding. Hence, for example, their refusal of oaths, because Jesus said, "Do not swear at all"; truth has no degrees. The second is love. Toward outsiders they were pacifists who would not go to war, defend themselves against persecutors or share in the state's coercion; among themselves they practiced mutual aid and the redistribution of wealth, in Moravia even communal living. The third is the congregational view of authority, toward which Luther and Zwingli had leaned in their first years. All members are believers baptized voluntarily; each is a priest to fellow believers and a missionary to unbelievers. Decisions rest with the whole membership, Scripture is interpreted by the consensus of the local gathering, and discipline is exercised together. The fourth is the separation of church and state. Christians are a "free, unforced, uncompelled people." Faith is God's gift, and rulers exceed their competence when they "champion the Word of God with a fist." The church is distinct from society even when society calls itself Christian. It is a pilgrim people. The Anabaptists were thus the first in modern times to preach thorough religious liberty, meaning the freedom to worship with fellow believers while the state neither funds nor punishes it. Their descendants lost much of this over the centuries. The search for a pure church often turned

legalistic, and for the sake of survival they gave up evangelism and became known as good farmers, the "Quiet in the Land." Revival and growth came only in the late nineteenth century, and by the late twentieth their worldwide membership passed half a million. Far beyond their own communities Christians now hold one or more of the principles for which the first radicals were willing to die.

KEY PEOPLE

Conrad Grebel; Felix Manz; George Blaurock; Ulrich Zwingli; Erasmus; Jakob Hutter; Jan Matthijs; Jan of Leiden; Menno Simons; Michael Sattler.

KEY DATES

1519	Zwingli begins preaching reform at the Great Minster in Zurich
1525	First believers' baptisms in Zurich (January 21); first free church at Zollikon
1527	Felix Manz drowned (January 5); Schleitheim Confession
1529	Diet of Speyer makes Anabaptism punishable by death; Blaurock burned
1534–1535	The Münster rebellion under Jan of Leiden
1536	Death of Jakob Hutter, organizer of the Hutterites
1561	Death of Menno Simons

KEY TERMS

Anabaptist ("rebaptizer"); believers' baptism; restitution; free church; Swiss Brethren; Hutterites; *Bruderhof*; Mennonites; chiliasm; discipleship; pacifism; congregational authority; separation of church and state; religious liberty.

CHAPTER

26

Thrust into the Game

John Calvin

IN BRIEF

John Calvin, a shy French scholar pressed into service at Geneva, shaped the third tradition of the Reformation: Reformed or Calvinistic Christianity, to which Presbyterians, the Reformed churches of Germany and the Netherlands, and many Congregationalists and Baptists belong. The chapter traces his life, his disciplined Geneva, his central belief in the sovereignty of God, and the spread of Calvinism to France, the Netherlands and John Knox's Scotland.

THE QUESTION

What are the distinctive features of Reformed Christianity?

War between France and Spain had closed the road to Strasbourg, so in July 1536 the young scholar had to pass through Geneva, intending to stay one night. The pleasure-loving city had thrown off the Duke of Savoy and the pope and was torn by factions. William Farel had preached there for four years and the mass had ceased, but Geneva's Protestantism rested on political hostility to its bishop rather than conviction, and no one had shaped its institutions on biblical lines. Farel called on the visitor and urged him to stay. When Calvin pleaded his studies, Farel warned that God would punish him for seeking his own interest. Terror-stricken, Calvin stayed. By nature "a bit antisocial and shy," he later said, God had thrust him into the limelight and made him "get into the game."

The Meaning of Reformed Christianity

As Luther's central doctrine was justification by faith, Calvin's was the sovereignty of God. Both had an overwhelming sense of God's majesty; for Luther it set off the miracle of forgiveness, for Calvin it guaranteed the certainty of God's purpose. Calvin (1509–1564) shared the four Protestant answers but was born a generation later in another country and was a different man. Luther was a peasant, monk and professor; Calvin a scholar and lawyer called to public ministry in a thriving commercial city. Their foundations were the same, the structures they built at Wittenberg and Geneva different.

Calvin built on Zwingli. The Zurich reform spread quickly through German-speaking Switzerland: Bern in 1528, Basel in 1529, then Appenzell, St. Gall and Schaffhausen. In Strasbourg Martin Bucer (1491–1551), second in influence in Germany only to Luther and Melanchthon, sympathized with Zwingli. But conflict between Protestant and Catholic cantons led on October 11, 1531, to the battle of Kappel, in which Zwingli was killed. Heinrich Bullinger succeeded him at Zurich, and by the 1540s French-speaking Geneva had become the international center of Reformed Christianity.

Calvin grew up in a small town of northern France, some sixty miles from Paris. He entered the University of Paris at fourteen and acquired a brilliant style and a skill in argument, so that people might dislike what he said but could not mistake it; he took his master's degree in 1528. At his father's wish he studied law at Orléans and Bourges, and after his father's death in 1531 he returned to Paris and the classics. There he met reforming ideas and experienced what he called an "unexpected conversion," more than enlightenment: he surrendered his will to God, gave up his scholar's career and joined the Protestant cause. In the autumn of 1533 his friend Nicholas Cop, rector of the university, gave a strongly Protestant address that some thought Calvin had written, and Calvin had to flee. At Basel in March 1536, he brought out the first edition of the *Institutes of the Christian Religion*, which no other Protestant statement of doctrine in that age matched for clarity, logic and readability. It made him famous overnight, and he

enlarged it all his life without changing its substance. Its preface, a letter to King Francis I defending the French Protestants, made him a leader of their cause.

Geneva: Home of Calvinism

Appointed Professor of Sacred Scriptures, Calvin went to work at once. He drew up a confession of faith to be accepted by every citizen, planned education for all, and insisted on excommunication, exclusion from the Lord's Supper, for those whose lives fell short. It was the strictest moral discipline in Protestantism and more than the city fathers had bargained for. The dispute turned on who may excommunicate, church or magistrates. After a year Calvin and Farel lost, and in April 1538 they were ordered out. The three years that followed in Strasbourg were probably his happiest. He was pastor of the French refugee church, taught theology, represented the city at religious conferences in Germany and married a widow with two children, his companion until her death in March 1549.

When his friends regained power, Geneva begged him back, and in September 1541 he returned reluctantly, almost on his own terms. The church constitution provided four offices: pastors, teachers, elders and deacons. Twelve elders with the ministers formed the Consistory, which supervised the city's morals, dealing with everything from absence from worship to drinking, adultery, gambling and dancing. Opposition continued, and Calvin was often near banishment, but the stream of religious exiles, mostly French, steadily enlarged his following. In 1553, at a low point in his influence, the brilliant and erratic Spanish physician Michael Servetus, fleeing Catholic persecution for denying the Trinity, arrived in Geneva. Calvin wanted a more merciful death than burning but supported silencing him; Servetus was burned, and later generations remembered Calvin as "the man who burned Servetus." Two years later his position was secure. He saw Geneva as a refuge for the persecuted, a model of Christian community under discipline, and a school for ministers. Students came from all over Europe to what John Knox called "the most perfect school of Christ that ever was

on earth since the days of the Apostles."

The Sovereignty of God

What they learned flowed from God's absolute sovereignty. God is the "Governor of all things," who from eternity decreed what he would do and by his power carries it out. This is not general guidance or fate but personal direction of individual lives: no sparrow falls unknown to the Father. If Luther's text was "The just shall live by faith," Calvin's was "Thy will be done, on earth as it is in heaven." Predestination was an old doctrine, held by Paul, Augustine and Luther, and Calvin found in it a spur to devotion: election to eternal life is the deepest ground of confidence, humility and moral power. He did not claim to know who the elect are, but three tests were a fair measure for a disciplined church: participation in the two sacraments, an upright life and a public profession of faith.

More than for Luther, faith for Calvin issues in strenuous effort to bring in God's kingdom on earth. The Christian is no longer judged by the law but finds in it the pattern of moral character; no one is justified by works, yet no justified person is without them. This pursuit of righteousness made character the test of real religion and explains Calvinism's social activism. Sovereignty also shaped its view of the state. Luther tended to treat the state as supreme, and German princes decided where and how the gospel was preached. Calvin taught that no man, pope or king, may claim absolute power. He never preached a right of revolution, but he encouraged representative assemblies and their right to resist tyranny, a key factor in the growth of constitutional government. The church is subject to secular rulers only in secular matters and must guide them in spiritual ones. His followers left Geneva, which they saw as God's beachhead, like a spiritual conspiracy against false religion and restrictive government, and Calvinism quickly became international.

In France the Calvinists, called Huguenots, were a minority made important by converts among the nobility. They were close to seizing leadership when thousands were massacred on

St. Bartholomew's Day in 1572, and from then on they no longer endangered the Catholic monarchy. In the Netherlands Calvinism rallied the resistance to Catholic Spain, with ministers among the first leaders. William the Silent, head of the national party in the north, joined the Reformed church in 1573 and helped fashion a Dutch republic; the national anthem was written for his followers. In Scotland the Calvinists created what no other country of the century had: a nation that held one religion under a ruler who held another.

John Knox's Scotland

That ruler was Mary Queen of Scots, eighteen years old, living abroad and married into the French royal house, so that Scots and English feared she would hand Scotland to France. John Knox, a restless activist, had worked for Calvinism in England until 1553, when the country returned to Catholicism under Henry VIII's daughter Mary I, whose persecutions earned her the name Bloody Mary. On the Continent he worked out the theory that Protestants may resist, by force if necessary, a Catholic ruler who hinders their worship and mission. That went further than Calvin, but it appealed to many Scottish nobles. When civil war broke out in 1559 Knox hurried home. By the summer of 1560 the Calvinists held Edinburgh, and he drafted the articles of religion by which parliament abolished Roman Catholicism. The next year Mary, now a widow of nineteen, came back to a Protestant kingdom. Knox and the queen came to symbolize the conflict of the age: Protestant against Catholic, and the democratic claims of Calvinism against the crown's power to appoint bishops. Events went Knox's way. Mary's heirs tried to undo his work, but no country on earth stayed more firmly Calvinist than Scotland. A reformed Geneva was the least of what Calvin left behind at his death in 1564. Across Europe, and soon in America, his followers carried on the game.

KEY PEOPLE

John Calvin; William Farel; Ulrich Zwingli; Heinrich Bullinger; Martin Bucer; Nicholas Cop; Francis I; Michael Servetus; William the Silent; John Knox; Mary Queen of Scots; Mary I ("Bloody Mary").

KEY DATES

1509	Birth of John Calvin
1531	Zwingli killed at the battle of Kappel (October 11)
1536	First edition of Calvin's *Institutes*; Farel keeps him in Geneva
1538	Calvin and Farel expelled from Geneva
1541	Calvin returns to Geneva
1553	Michael Servetus burned in Geneva
1560	The Scottish parliament adopts Knox's articles of religion
1564	Death of Calvin
1572	Massacre of Huguenots on St. Bartholomew's Day

KEY TERMS

Reformed (Calvinistic) Christianity; sovereignty of God; predestination and election; *Institutes of the Christian Religion*; Consistory; pastors, teachers, elders, deacons; Huguenots; resistance to tyranny.

CHAPTER

27

The Curse upon the Crown

The Church of England

IN BRIEF

The Lutheran reformation began in a monk's cell, the Anabaptist in a prayer meeting and the Calvinist at a scholar's desk; the English reformation began in affairs of state, with the succession to the throne. Under Henry VIII England rejected Rome without changing doctrine. The chapter follows the break, the English Bible, the swings under Edward VI and Mary, and Elizabeth's middle way, the background of Episcopalians, Congregationalists and Baptists.

THE QUESTION

Why did England, without any great theological issue, overthrow the long-standing authority of the Church of Rome?

On a Saturday afternoon in June 1533 Anne Boleyn rode through London in a chair draped in silver and gold, on her way to be crowned queen at Westminster Abbey. Behind the procession lay the events that carried England into the Reformation in its own way. England in a sense had two reformations, the first under Henry VIII (1509–1547), who changed the constitution of the church, and the second nearly a hundred years after him under the Puritans, who changed its theology. In the first, England foreshadowed what Christianity would become in modern nations: belief became almost entirely a private affair, and religious practice a tool of the state, what later generations called civil religion.

England's Break with Rome

The break grew out of the marital problems of Henry, whom Dickens called "a blot of blood and grease on the history of England." The English church had been drifting out of Rome's control for centuries, and patriotic Englishmen felt their faith to be distinctive. Cardinal Thomas Wolsey (1474–1530) symbolizes this: archbishop of York, cardinal of Rome and chancellor of the realm, yet in every office the king's man. The headline is that Henry revolted against the pope because he desired Anne Boleyn, a lady of the court. The substance is the succession. Henry had mistresses and an illegitimate son; what he lacked was a son by his queen, Catherine of Aragon, daughter of Ferdinand and Isabella. Of her five children only the princess Mary survived, and England, whose one earlier queen had brought wars of succession, would not accept a girl. By 1525 Catherine was forty, and Henry asked whether he lay under God's curse, for she had briefly been the wife of his dead brother Arthur, and Leviticus says that a man who takes his brother's wife shall be childless. Pope Julius II had given a special permission for the marriage.

In 1527 Henry asked Clement VII to revoke that dispensation and declare the eighteen-year marriage void. But Catherine was the aunt of the emperor Charles V, whom the pope could not afford to offend, and he stalled. At the suggestion of Thomas Cranmer, Henry put his case to the universities of Europe; their answers were mixed but gave him cover. He married Anne in secret in January 1533, an English church court annulled the first marriage in May, and in September Anne bore a child—a girl, Elizabeth. The pope excommunicated him. Henry knew that antipapal feeling ran high (the Cambridge inn where Luther's admirers met was called "Little Germany") and judged that he would meet little resistance if he renounced the pope and left doctrine alone. Using a fourteenth-century law against dealings with foreign powers, he forced the clergy to stop dealing with Rome. In 1534 the Act of Supremacy declared the king "the only supreme head in earth of the Church of England." England now had a national church. Its head was no

priest. He could appoint bishops but not consecrate them, defend the faith but not formulate it, and for the priestly functions he looked to the archbishop of Canterbury, Thomas Cranmer.

Henry's Dual Policy

The only religious issue was papal supremacy. Henry meant to keep the old faith and thought himself its guardian. In 1521 he had answered Luther with a *Defense of the Seven Sacraments*, calling him a "poisonous serpent," and the pope had named him "Defender of the Faith," a title English monarchs still bear. What he wanted was an English Catholic church in place of a Roman one. The Statute of Six Articles (1539) upheld clerical celibacy, the private mass and confession to a priest.

Two things did change. The first was the suppression of the monasteries. Monks were neither popular nor devout, and when the smaller houses were closed in 1536 fully half chose secular life over another cloister. The monastic lands, almost a tenth of the nation's wealth, refilled the treasury and were given or sold to barons and gentry; the monks received pensions. At one stroke Henry reduced opposition and made friends. The second was the English Bible in the churches. Rome did not object in principle to authorized translations, but versions made from Hebrew and Greek were bound to offend, since important doctrines rested on doubtful renderings in the Latin, such as "do penance" where the Greek says "repent." After Erasmus's Greek New Testament of 1516, with its preface urging translation, versions in German, French and English fed national feeling and Protestant conviction.

William Tyndale's Bible

The pioneer was William Tyndale. Amazed at the ignorance of the clergy, he told a fellow priest that if God spared him he would make "a boy behind the plow" know more Scripture than he did. Unwelcome in England, he fled to the Continent after study at Oxford and Cambridge, printed his New Testament there, and early in 1526 began smuggling copies home. He went on to parts of

the Old Testament and an improved New. In 1536 he was caught, and after seventeen months in prison he was burned, praying, "Lord, open the king of England's eyes."

The answer was already coming. While he was in prison Miles Coverdale published the first complete English Bible, basically Tyndale's work filled out from Latin and German versions. A year after his death the Matthew Bible appeared, a careful compilation of Tyndale and Coverdale by John Rogers, who left his own name off. At Cranmer's request Henry authorized this version, revised by Coverdale and called the Great Bible, to be bought and read throughout the realm. The excitement was such that Henry soon limited Bible reading to wealthy merchants and aristocrats, but wider freedom was only a matter of time.

The Swing to Protestantism

Henry died in 1547 and was followed by his only son, the frail ten-year-old Edward VI, child of Jane Seymour, whom Henry had married after executing Anne Boleyn for adultery. The advisers who governed for Edward favored the Reformation, and policy swung sharply. The Six Articles were repealed, priests were allowed to marry, and the Latin service gave way to an English one, Cranmer's *Book of Common Prayer*. In 1553 Cranmer's Forty-two Articles defined the church's faith on Protestant lines.

Edward died that year, and Catherine's daughter Mary, a devout Catholic, tried to lead England back to Rome. In four years she outdid her father in intolerance and sent nearly three hundred Protestants to the stake, Cranmer among them. John Foxe's *Book of Martyrs* (1571) fixed a lasting horror of Catholicism in the English mind and gave her the name Bloody Mary. Probably the only truly pious English monarch of the century, she blundered in making martyrs. After a generation free of Rome the country saw betrayal in her piety and in her wedding with Philip of Spain, and she died broken.

Under Anne Boleyn's daughter Elizabeth I (1558–1603) the Anglican church took on its distinctive character, neither Roman nor

Reformed. Needing religious peace, she worked for a compromise. The church stayed a state church under the monarch, but she exchanged the title Supreme Head for the humbler Supreme Governor. Her Thirty-nine Articles (1563) were essentially Protestant, taking the Bible as final authority and recognizing only baptism and the Eucharist as sacraments instituted by Christ, yet many were worded to satisfy both sides. Much that was Catholic stayed in the liturgy, and government lay with bishops in apostolic succession, for Elizabeth, like later monarchs, believed a church led by bishops easier to control. Churchmen came to call this the *Via Media*, the middle way. Some of the exiles who returned from the Continent after Mary's reign were not convinced. They had read their Bibles, had their own idea of a true reformation, and cried out against "the ease in Zion." These were the Puritans.

KEY PEOPLE

Henry VIII; Anne Boleyn; Catherine of Aragon; Cardinal Wolsey; Clement VII; Thomas Cranmer; William Tyndale; Miles Coverdale; John Rogers; Edward VI; Mary I; John Foxe; Elizabeth I.

KEY DATES

1521	Henry VIII named "Defender of the Faith" for writing against Luther
1526	Tyndale's English New Testament smuggled into England
1533	Henry VIII marries Anne Boleyn; his first marriage annulled
1534	Act of Supremacy: the king supreme head of the Church of England
1536	Smaller English monasteries suppressed; Tyndale burned
1539	Statute of Six Articles upholds Catholic doctrine in England
1547	Death of Henry VIII; Edward VI turns England toward Protestantism

1553	Forty-two Articles; Mary I restores Catholicism in England
1558–1603	Reign of Elizabeth I
1563	Thirty-nine Articles of the Church of England

KEY TERMS

Act of Supremacy; civil religion; Defender of the Faith; dissolution of the monasteries; Great Bible; *Book of Common Prayer*; Thirty-nine Articles; Supreme Governor; *Via Media*; Puritans.

CHAPTER

28

"Another Man" at Manresa

The Catholic Reformation

IN BRIEF

Rome was slow to answer the Protestant revolt, but when it did it called up new spiritual warriors, convened a militant council and reformed the papal office, and by 1600 it had confined Protestantism to roughly the northern third of Europe. The chapter describes the revival of Catholic piety, the reforming pope Paul III, Ignatius Loyola and the Jesuits, and the Council of Trent, which gave modern Roman Catholicism its shape.

THE QUESTION

What answer did the Roman church give to the challenge of the Protestants?

In 1521, the year of Luther's stand at Worms, a cannonball shattered the leg of a young Spanish nobleman fighting the French at Pamplona. In his long convalescence he read, out of boredom, a book of saints' lives and a life of Christ, and his conversion began. At the abbey of Montserrat he put on a pilgrim's dress in place of a gentleman's and left his sword and dagger at the shrine of the Black Virgin. For nearly a year at Manresa, north of Barcelona, he begged, wore a barbed girdle, fasted and passed through depression to the edge of suicide, until one day by the River Cardoner a wave of illumination made Ignatius Loyola (1491–1556), in his own words, "another man." Out of that rebirth he made a plan of spiritual discipline, and out of the plan came the Society of Jesus,

which did more than any other force in Rome's campaign to win back what Protestantism had taken. Some call the movement a Counter Reformation, an attack on Protestantism; others a Catholic Reformation, a genuine revival. Shelley says it was both: its roots are older than Luther, but its form was largely determined by the Protestant attack.

SIDEBAR **Facets of the Counter Reformation**

(1) Ignatius became a major voice of Catholic spirituality and organized the Jesuit order. (2) Other spiritual voices emerged, among them Teresa of Avila. (3) Catholics answered Protestant scholarship with work on the languages, especially in Spain, and with training for priests. (4) The Council of Trent stated doctrine in reaction to Protestant teaching. (5) The church began a global missionary expansion. (6) The Inquisition, adapted from Roman legal procedure, proved an effective but brutal way to detect and stop heresy.

Return to the Spiritual

Mystical experience was a large part of the recovery. Catholic saints of very different kinds belong to this century: Thomas More, the English lawyer and statesman; Francis of Sales, cheerful missionary to the Calvinists; Charles Borromeo, the somber reforming archbishop of Milan; the Spanish mystic Teresa of Avila; and Loyola. Even before Luther's theses a group of aristocrats in Rome had formed the Oratory of Divine Love, convinced that the reform of church and society begins in the individual soul. It numbered perhaps fifty but stirred reform in the old orders and supplied leaders: Jacopo Sadoleto, who debated Calvin; Reginald Pole, who tried to bring England back under Mary; and Gian Pietro Caraffa, later Pope Paul IV.

Yet through the 1520s and 1530s Rome took no real step. One reason was politics. Luther had called for a council as early as 1518, and the emperor and the German princes supported the idea, but the popes remembered Constance and Basel and knew that many Germans wanted a council without the pope. The popes

were also absorbed in worldly affairs. Clement VII (1523–1534) put the Papal States above everything and allied himself with France against Charles V. The enraged emperor sent troops toward Rome. Their commanders were killed, and on May 6, 1527, leaderless Spanish and German mercenaries stormed the city and plundered and murdered for weeks, while the pope fled to the fortress of Sant'Angelo and then endured half a year of imprisonment. Many saw the sack of Rome as a visitation of God on a worldly papacy.

Serious reform began with Paul III (1534–1549), an unlikely reformer with three illegitimate sons and a daughter, whom the sack seems to have sobered. He began with the College of Cardinals, appointing champions of reform, among them Sadoleto, Pole and Caraffa. Nine of them formed a commission under Gasparo Contarini, a peacemaker who favored reconciliation with the Protestants and a return to the faith of the apostles. Its report of 1537, *Advice Concerning the Reform of the Church*, traced the church's disorder to a papal office grown too secular and demanded an end to the buying of high office, the misuse of indulgences, the dodging of canon law and prostitution in Rome.

Call for a General Council

Paul acted on some of this, but his chief answer was to call a general council. He and the emperor agreed on Trent, a town in northern Italy under imperial control. Francis I of France, fearing that a council would strengthen Charles, did all he could to prevent it and even incited the Turks against the emperor. Two wars delayed the opening until 1545, almost three decades after Luther's theses. By then Rome was under a new austerity. The pope instituted the Roman Inquisition and the Index of prohibited books, which listed all the Reformers' works and Protestant Bibles; in Spain mere possession of a banned book long carried the death penalty. Revised editions of the Index appeared as late as 1959, before it was abolished by Paul VI.

Ignatius Loyola

This militant Rome and this pope approved the Society of Jesus, whose members promised to go wherever the pope sent them, "to the Turks or to the New World or to the Lutherans." As a boy Ignatius had left the castle of Loyola near the Pyrenees for a noble's court and grown into an engaging playboy fond of military games and romances of chivalry. Manresa changed that. Luther came out of his struggle convinced that the will is enslaved and God alone must deliver; Loyola came out of his believing that God and Satan stand outside man, who has power to choose between them, and that the disciplined use of the imagination can strengthen the will to choose God. One exercise makes hell real to every sense: hear the shrieks, smell the sulphur, taste the tears, feel the flames. The same method can picture the Nativity or the glories of heaven.

For Ignatius surrender to God meant more schooling. He sat with boys half his age in Barcelona to learn Latin and studied at Alcalá, where he concluded that study is useful only when it is organized, the seed of the Jesuits' famous plan of studies. His zeal brought him more than once before the Inquisition. He then spent seven years at the University of Paris, became "Master Ignatius" and gathered his first companions, six in number, among them Peter Faber, Diego Laynez and, above all, Francis Xavier. With them he shared his *Spiritual Exercises*, four "weeks" of meditation that move from sin, death, judgment and hell to Christ's life, death and resurrection. They prescribe rigorous examination of conscience, penance, and then a resolute forgetting of guilt once God's forgiveness has been met. They became the basis of every Jesuit's spirituality and were later used for ordination candidates and lay retreats. James Joyce's Stephen Dedalus, terrified by a sermon on hell, finds after confession that "the past was past." So Ignatius intended: "Send no one away dejected. God asks nothing impossible." His followers became apostles of the possible.

The Society of Jesus

Paul III approved the order in 1540. Its members were to be soldiers of Jesus, mobile and versatile. To vows of poverty and chastity they added obedience to their superiors and a fourth vow of special loyalty to the pope, and they were commanded by a general elected for life, the first being Ignatius. Their aim was to restore the Roman church to the spiritual power and worldly influence it had held under Innocent III, for Ignatius believed that the living Christ dwells exclusively in the institutional church. Their most striking trait was the risky attempt to be fully active in the world and yet not belong to it, all things to all men. They have had defenders who give them the highest places in heaven and critics, such as John Adams writing to Jefferson in 1816, who thought them deserving of perdition. The first generation set out to convert the heathen and reconvert Protestant Europe. Francis Xavier went from India to Southeast Asia to Japan, which had never heard the Christian message. More than anyone else the Jesuits halted the Protestant advance in France, the Low Countries and Central Europe, and in places rolled it back. At the death of Ignatius in 1556 the order numbered nearly a thousand and worked on four continents.

No mission mattered more than the one to the Council of Trent. It opened with only thirty-one fathers and three papal legates, yet became the most important council between Nicaea and Vatican II (1962–1965). The Jesuits Laynez and Salmeron steered its agenda. It met in three periods, 1545–1547, 1551–1552 and 1562–1563. Italians dominated; France was underrepresented; attendance was never large. Some Protestants attended the second period, with no result.

The Shape of Modern Catholicism

Trent rejected, almost violently, everything the Reformation stood for. Against justification by faith alone it refused even a compromise that would have combined an external righteousness credited to the believer with an internal one infused in him, and tied justification firmly to the process of becoming righteous. Against grace alone it taught grace together with human cooperation; as Ignatius put

it, pray as though everything depended on God, act as though it depended on you. Against Scripture alone it asserted that the Bible needs an interpreter and that this is the teaching office of the Roman church, exercised by popes and bishops. The pope, the seven sacraments, the sacrifice of the mass, saints, confession and indulgences all remained. The council narrowed the options that medieval Catholics had had, in an unmistakably anti-Protestant tone.

Europe only slowly grasped that its religious unity was gone for good. Shelley distinguishes three stages. At first each side believed that it was the one true church and that the other must soon yield or wither; that was also the spirit of Trent. In the second stage people admitted, bitterly and without accepting it, that there was a stalemate. Most still held that truth lay wholly on one side and that error damned souls and destroyed society, so they fought it with inquisitions, civil wars and persecutions. Calvinists and Jesuits, each a militant organization claiming a loyalty above nation, led the fight. The third stage, toleration that fully accepts more than one religion in the same nation, appeared before 1600 only as hints among mystics, Christian humanists such as Erasmus, radical Protestants such as the Anabaptists and practical politicians such as Queen Elizabeth. Political and economic forces pushed the same way, as small lordships merged into nation-states that needed Protestant and Catholic citizens to live together. Some already proposed a general idea of God as the public standard, with distinctive beliefs tolerated as private devotion. It was a whisper, but it was the voice of the future, and no Christians resisted it more stubbornly than the Jesuits.

KEY PEOPLE

Ignatius Loyola; Francis Xavier; Teresa of Avila; Thomas More; Francis of Sales; Charles Borromeo; Clement VII; Paul III; Gasparo Contarini; Sadoleto; Reginald Pole; Caraffa (Paul IV); Diego Laynez; Alfonso Salmeron; Charles V; Francis I.

KEY DATES

1521	Ignatius Loyola wounded at Pamplona; his conversion begins
1527	Sack of Rome by the emperor's troops (May 6)
1534–1549	Paul III, the first reforming pope
1537	Report of the papal reform commission under Contarini
1540	Paul III approves the Society of Jesus
1545–1563	Council of Trent, in three periods
1556	Death of Ignatius Loyola

KEY TERMS

Catholic Reformation and Counter Reformation; Oratory of Divine Love; Society of Jesus (Jesuits); *Spiritual Exercises*; fourth vow; Roman Inquisition; Index of prohibited books; Council of Trent; cooperation with grace; teaching office; toleration.

CHAPTER

29

Opening the Rock

America and Asia

IN BRIEF

Between 1500 and 1650, while Europe split into Catholic and Protestant, Roman Catholic monks and friars carried the faith to the Spanish colonies of Latin America and the Portuguese ports of Africa and Asia. The chapter follows this "age of global expansion" through the conquistadores and Las Casas, Francis Xavier in India and Japan, and Matthew Ricci in China, and the lasting tension between two missionary policies, conquest and adaptation.

THE QUESTION

Should the peoples of the new lands be won to the faith by love or by force? How does the gospel relate to culture?

On Thursday, October 11, 1492, Christopher Columbus sighted land in what we call the West Indies. The next morning he named the island San Salvador, "Holy Savior," claimed it for Ferdinand and Isabella of Spain and gave the people red caps and glass beads, judging from their pleasure that they could be "converted to our holy faith by love" rather than by force. That alternative troubled missionaries through the whole age of discovery. Sometimes a selfless Franciscan or Jesuit won people by patient love; sometimes conquerors forced baptism at sword point. Behind it lay the question of what heathenism is: humanity stumbling in search of the true God, or humanity organized in resistance to the gospel? Should the missionary look for the good in other religions and build on

it, the policy of adaptation, or suppress them in order to plant the true faith, the policy of conquest?

The Gospel and Culture

The church is always in danger of identifying the gospel with the cultural form in which it has made its home. The first Jewish Christians believed the faith inseparable from Hebrew rites and sabbaths, and only when it broke free could it take root in the Greco-Roman world; it had to find new ways again when the Germanic tribes destroyed Roman institutions. In the Middle Ages the rise of Islam cut European Christians off from their fellow believers in Asia and Africa and confined Christianity almost entirely to Europe. The crusades were Europe's convulsive attempt to break through by force, and the long war to drive the Moors from Spain and Portugal bred an especially militant attitude toward the unbeliever. Conquest and evangelization became intertwined, and few saw a difference.

The new age of missions opened with the great discoveries. From the middle of the fifteenth century the Portuguese and Spaniards sailed south, soon followed by the French, Dutch and English. The Portuguese reached the Cape of Good Hope in 1486, and Vasco da Gama went on around Africa to the Malabar Coast of India, where Arab merchants had for centuries collected spices, gems, ivory, cottons and silks for the Mediterranean. The Portuguese drove the Arab ships from the Indian Ocean, made Goa the center of their eastern empire, and pushed on to the Malay Archipelago and the Moluccas, reaching China by 1516 and Japan by 1543. Unlike the Spanish they sought no large conquests or colonies. They wanted a monopoly of trade and therefore control of the seas. Their trading ports, each with a small Catholic church, dotted the coasts of West Africa, the Congo, Angola and Mozambique, of India, Ceylon and Malaya, and of Brazil.

Spaniards in the New World

Columbus made three more voyages in a vain search for a way to Asia. On the second, with seventeen ships and 1,500 men, he found gold on Haiti, and despite an oath of secrecy the news set off the most violent gold rush in history. Half a century was enough for the Spaniards to overrun and loot the Americas from California to the far south of the continent; the word *conquistadores* comes from these brave and brutal men. By 1521 Hernando Cortes, with horses, armor and gunpowder, had destroyed the Aztecs' empire in Mexico; by 1533 Francisco Pizarro had, by treachery, killed Atahualpa and brought the Inca empire to its knees. All this happened in Luther's lifetime. Charles V, before whom Luther stood at Worms, was heir to this wealth and took comfort in the treasure ships while Germany slipped from him.

It was not only a race for spices and gold. Merchants and conquerors alike were zealous to extend the Roman Catholic faith, and hardly a ship left without friars of the Dominican, Franciscan or Augustinian orders, or Jesuits, on board. Their sacrifices were extraordinary. There were no furloughs, and a third of the Jesuits who set out for China between 1581 and 1712 (127 of 376) died on the way. So the century in which "catholic" ceased to mean united saw Christianity become catholic in a new sense, in its mission to distant peoples. To prevent rivalry the pope drew a line from pole to pole west of the Azores: everything to the west belonged to Spain, everything to the east to Portugal, which is why Brazil speaks Portuguese. By papal commission the two kings were to evangelize the lands their soldiers conquered. They sent and maintained the missionaries, controlled them exclusively and named the bishops. The governing idea was an extension of the Christian prince, the divinely appointed guide who removes idolatry from his lands and brings his subjects under Christ through the Catholic Church.

Spain's devotion to the church and its long struggle with Islam gave its expeditions the fanaticism of a crusade. Cortes carried a statuette of the Virgin, prayed and heard mass daily, and

marched under flags bearing the cross and Mary's picture. Spain's first policy, the *encomienda*, assigned Indians to colonists to work mines and plantations in return for protection and instruction in the faith. Because the Indians practiced idolatry and human sacrifice, the Spanish thought their wars righteous, like Israel's against the Canaanites. In 1531 Bishop Zumarraga reported from Mexico that over five hundred temples had been destroyed, and twenty thousand idols with them.

Champion of the Oppressed

The Indians' champion was Bartholomew de Las Casas, whose father had sailed with Columbus on the second voyage. At first he shared in Christian imperialism like any other colonist. In his middle thirties he was converted and ordained, the first ordination in the New World, and began to preach against the cruelties around him: how could God ordain brutality as a means of conversion? Many thought him a visionary and a menace. Some missionaries held that barbarous peoples cannot be brought to the faith without force, and colonists warned that ending the encomienda would ruin the colonies. Las Casas crossed the Atlantic fourteen times to plead his cause. Partly through him Charles V issued the Laws of the Indies in 1542, which softened the system and established the principle that Indians too have human rights. But law in Spain was one thing and practice in Mexico another. In a famous debate at Valladolid in 1550 Las Casas argued for the Indians' equality and freedom and for conversion only by peaceful preaching and holy example. His opponent, the theologian Juan Ginés de Sepúlveda, appealed to Aristotle's teaching that some peoples are born to slavery. Christian imperialism went on and hampered the gospel.

The Indians accepted the faith readily and abandoned it as readily. In seven years, from 1524 to 1531, Franciscan friars baptized over a million people in Mexico, a mass baptism recalling the early Middle Ages. One story tells how Cortes left a town with orders that its people worship the Christian God and look after his lame horse; the people fed the horse fruit and flowers until it died, and

Franciscans later found them worshiping its image as a god of storms. The Portuguese in the East likewise held the king responsible for his subjects' souls. Goa became a city of baroque churches with an archbishop for all East Asia, and no idolatry was allowed on Portuguese territory. But Asia confronted them with advanced civilizations and old religions of a strength the Aztecs and Incas had never had. In India, Japan and China the policy of conquest was modified or abandoned for adaptation, and the Jesuits in particular asked which local customs were merely social and which were incompatible with baptism.

Francis Xavier

The pioneer in the Far East, Francis Xavier (1506–1552), Loyola's associate, landed at Goa in 1542 a legate of the pope employed by Portugal's king. In a few months he stirred a moral revolution in that rough seaport, then went to the southern tip of India. There, in 1534, the Paravars, some thirty thousand fisherfolk harassed by robbers, had accepted baptism in return for Portuguese protection, and for eight years no one had taught them. Xavier went from village to village across the burning sand, ringing a handbell, reciting Creed, Commandments, Lord's Prayer and Rosary, and baptizing by the hundreds until his arms gave out. In three years he left an organized church. Because it was confined to one caste, it remained an island in the sea of Hinduism, but the Jesuits who followed gathered the Paravars into villages centered on the church, and in time all memory of their not being Christian faded.

Catholics and Protestants alike praise Xavier's zeal and charm, but he was a man of his age. In 1546 he asked the king of Portugal to set up the Inquisition in Goa against the Muslims, and it lasted there until the early nineteenth century. That year he moved on to Malaya, and in 1549 he sailed for Japan, landing on August 15 with two companions. The moment was favorable. Japan was ruled by feudal barons eager for trade, Buddhism had lost favor, and there was no national religion to bar the way. Japan changed his mind about missions. In India he had held, like most missionaries

in Latin America, that heathenism has nothing in common with the faith and must be leveled before anything Christian can be built. Among so noble a people he saw that the gospel must transform and refine but need not discard everything in their life and culture. The Jesuits who followed developed a quality quite untypical of the Counter Reformation, compromise in religious matters. They adapted to local customs wherever they could and trained Japanese leaders as fast as possible. In 1579 they founded Nagasaki as a home for converts, and by the end of the century they counted 300,000 converts, two colleges and churches by the hundred. Early in the seventeenth century new rulers, fearing that foreign missionaries meant foreign invaders, turned to persecution. Between 1614 and 1642 there were 4,045 martyrs, by sword, stake and boiling cauldron, and no more than a remnant lived on in the hills around Nagasaki.

The Door to China

After two years in Japan Xavier set out for China. Hoping to smuggle himself into Canton, he reached an island off the south coast, fell ill and died there in 1552. The door opened to Matthew Ricci (1552–1610). Macao became a Portuguese colony in 1567, but the Ming dynasty wanted no contact with the outside world. The Chinese thought of themselves as givers of culture, and Confucianism governed state, family and ethics. In 1579 the Jesuit leader Alessandro Valignani, looking toward the coast from his window, cried, "Oh, Rock, Rock, when will you open?" He sent for Ricci, an Italian Jesuit trained in mathematics, astronomy and cosmology. Ricci learned the language and customs at Macao and in 1583 was allowed to settle in the provincial capital, Chaoch'ing. Dressed as a Mandarin, he won the respect the Chinese give the scholar, made them a map of the world and introduced the new science of the calendar. Convinced that China could not be won from a province, he moved step by step to Peking, which he entered in 1600. His gift of two clocks delighted the emperor, and since only Ricci could keep them running he remained ten years as astronomer and mathematician. Notable families and scholars were baptized, and at his death the

church numbered two thousand.

His successor Adam Schall won the scholars' admiration by predicting an eclipse of the moon and became director of the Imperial Astronomical Service. He built a public church in Peking in 1650 and gained freedom for Christianity throughout the empire in 1657; at his death there were almost 270,000 Christians. An imperial edict of toleration in 1692 rewarded the Jesuits' services. The mission was then damaged from within. Ricci had presented Christianity not as something new but as the perfection of traditional Chinese devotion: the "Lord of Heaven" long revered was God, and reverence for ancestors was a social, not a religious, act. A Franciscan and a Dominican who came to Peking in 1631 were shocked to find the mass translated by the word for the ancestor ceremony and, after attending such a ceremony in disguise, reported to Rome. The quarrel over "the rites" lasted a century, one pope approving and another forbidding, until the mission fell into decline. The conflict between adaptation and conquest goes on today, Shelley adds, with conquest now usually economic. But this age produced some of the most creative missionaries of any time.

KEY PEOPLE

Christopher Columbus; Vasco da Gama; Hernando Cortes; Francisco Pizarro; Charles V; Bartholomew de Las Casas; Sepúlveda; Francis Xavier; Alessandro Valignani; Matthew Ricci; Adam Schall.

KEY DATES

1492	Columbus lands in the West Indies (October 12)
1521	Cortes destroys the Aztec empire
1533	Pizarro overthrows the Inca empire
1542	Francis Xavier lands at Goa; Charles V issues the Laws of the Indies
1549	Xavier lands in Japan
1550	Las Casas debates Sepúlveda at Valladolid
1552	Xavier dies off the coast of China
1583	Matthew Ricci allowed to settle in China

1600	Ricci enters Peking
1614–1642	Persecution in Japan: 4,045 martyrs
1692	Chinese imperial edict of toleration for Christianity

KEY TERMS

Age of discovery; adaptation and conquest; *conquistadores*; *encomienda*; Christian prince; Laws of the Indies; mass baptism; Paravars; Nagasaki; rites controversy.

CHAPTER

30

The Rule of the Saints

Puritanism

IN BRIEF

Puritanism, England's second reformation (about 1560–1660), joined an inward experience of converting grace to a public program: a church and a nation ordered by the Bible. The chapter follows it through three periods—the attempt to purify Elizabeth's church, resistance to James I and Charles I, and the Civil War and Cromwell's rule—and notes the Separatists, Pilgrims and first Baptists who broke away.

THE QUESTION

What was Puritanism originally, and is the popular picture of the joyless Puritan fair?

In 1630 more than four hundred emigrants gathered at Southampton to sail for the New World. John Cotton preached their farewell sermon on 2 Samuel 7:10, "I will appoint a place for my people Israel, and will plant them." Like ancient Israel, he said, they were God's chosen people bound for a land he had prepared, where they could labor undisturbed for his glory. That is Puritanism in miniature: the Bible as guidebook for the conversion of the individual and the construction of society; the church, pictured as a new Israel, as the agent of reform; and the nation ordered to serve God's purpose in history.

Puritanism: New Life and New World

Later Christians have often renewed the Puritan experience of the soul, but no later movement has had the vision or the chance to apply God's law to the life of a nation. Today "puritan" means a self-righteous, repressed killjoy; H. L. Mencken called Puritanism "the haunting fear that someone, somewhere may be happy." Shelley thinks this unfair. The Puritans were no killjoys; their movement meant change and the hope of a new age. Its plans grew from the conviction that spiritual conversion is crucial. This rebirth set the Puritan apart from the mass of mankind and gave him the privileges and duties of the elect. The church may prepare for it and guide afterward, but the reception of grace is beyond the church's control.

The movement passed through three periods. In Elizabeth's reign (1558–1603) its aim was a Church of England cleansed after Geneva's pattern. Under the first two Stuarts, James I and Charles I (1603–1642), it opposed what the crown demanded for itself and suffered pressure to conform to a high-church Christianity. During the Civil War and Cromwell's rule (1642–1660) it had its chance to shape the national church and failed through its own divisions. Its inward side made it a taproot of later evangelical, born-again Christianity; its stress on a disciplined "nation under God" helped form the American character.

It began with a new kind of preaching, aimed at the heart rather than the head, by a "spiritual brotherhood" (William Haller's phrase) that included Greenham, Rogers, Chaderton and Dod. Many had been exiles under Bloody Mary and had found in Geneva a center of international subversion, a "Protestant Moscow" sending out students on fire to overthrow Catholicism at home. John Knox succeeded in Scotland in 1560, and the English hoped for the same. They returned under Elizabeth convinced that the Bible gives specific guidance for personal life, church structure and society. The explosive issue was who chooses ministers: the Puritans said the people, the queen said the crown, through bishops. Elizabeth let these dogs bark so long as they did not bite. They could complain

of set prayers, clerical dress and the sign of the cross in baptism, and lecture on preaching and the office of elder, but the church stayed in the hands of bishops and so of the crown.

A People of the Book

Puritan zeal was fed by the Geneva Bible, the work of English exiles in that city, among them Miles Coverdale, translator of the first complete English Bible in 1535. Its numbered verses, clear prose, improved scholarship, prologues and marginal notes made it the most widely used English Bible until the King James Version of 1611 replaced it, and the Puritans took it to America. With it went a sense of destiny drawn from another product of the exile, John Foxe's *Book of Martyrs*. Foxe traced a trail of suffering witnesses down the centuries to England and the reign of Mary, and so suggested that the English had been given a part of their own in God's saving purpose. Next to the Bible no book did more to shape the English mind, and the Puritans carried it too across the Atlantic.

So they began to see themselves as a new Israel of God. The key is the biblical idea of covenant. The most basic is the covenant of grace, the spiritual contract binding true Christians to God. God sovereignly elects, yet anyone may by personal faith in Christ be added to the covenanted company. By grace they become his people and he their God. The bond obliged the saint to walk in all God's ways as made known in his Word, and it opened Scripture as a source of strength and of the rugged determination for which Puritans became famous.

Conflicts with the King

Elizabeth died without an heir in 1603. James VI of Scotland, whose mother was Mary Queen of Scots, took the English throne as James I and so joined the two crowns. Hopes that he would bring Presbyterianism south were soon dashed. He had struggled with Presbyterian ministers for years and held that a Scottish presbytery "agrees with monarchy as well as God and the devil." At the Hampton Court Conference in 1604 he rudely dismissed the Puritans' pro-

posals, granting only a new translation of the Bible, the King James Version. Ceremonies, Prayer Book and bishops would stay, and the Puritans would conform or be driven from the land. To Parliament he preached the divine right of kings, who are "God's lieutenants upon earth." He dissolved it in 1611 and ruled ten years without it, so that Puritans and champions of Parliament drew together against royal power.

Some would not wait. Soon after Hampton Court small groups began to worship as they believed the Bible taught, apart from bishops and prayer books. This was Separatism. Two such congregations, at Scrooby and Gainsborough in northern England, had by 1608 moved to Holland, the first to Leyden, the second to Amsterdam. After ten years the Scrooby group under Pastor John Robinson saw their children losing touch with England and even its language, yet did not want to return to English society. They had heard of the Virginia colony planted in 1607. A small number went back to England, joined others of like mind, and in September 1620 about a hundred sailed from Plymouth in the *Mayflower*. In November they sighted New England, and the Pilgrim Fathers landed at what is now Plymouth, Massachusetts.

The Gainsborough group was helped in Amsterdam by Mennonites, with whom they compared confessions. Their pastor John Smyth, a Cambridge graduate, found no infant baptism in his Greek New Testament and concluded that churches should be constituted by confession of faith. In 1609 he baptized himself and then some forty members by pouring, forming the first Baptist church. Whether Baptists are to be understood simply as English Separatists or as Separatists who mingled with Anabaptists remains, Shelley notes, an open question of their origins and identity.

Attack upon the Lord's Anointed

Most Puritans found separation too drastic. But hope in earthly rulers vanished in 1625 with Charles I, who meant to practice the divine right his father had only theorized about and whose wife, Henrietta Maria, was a French Catholic princess. His instrument

was Archbishop William Laud, who believed that God ordained bishops to govern the church. Laud's party restored stained glass, crosses and crucifixes, raised the communion table, named it an altar, and enforced the Prayer Book. Some Puritans turned Separatist; others crossed the ocean. Within ten years of Laud's appointment there were twenty towns and churches and sixteen thousand people in Massachusetts Bay.

The breaking point came when Charles tried to impose the *Book of Common Prayer*, which Milton called "the skeleton of a Mass-book," on the Presbyterian Scots. They bound themselves in a national covenant and took up arms. To raise an army Charles had to call the Parliament he had ignored for over a decade. It split into Royalists and a Parliamentary majority that agreed on Puritan principles but was divided between Presbyterians and Independents (Congregationalists). United in hatred of Laud, they had him tried and beheaded. When Charles moved against their leaders, civil war began, the Royalist members left, and Parliament was free to reform the church. The Westminster Assembly of Puritan theologians (1643–1649) wrote the Westminster Confession of Faith, meant to take the place of the Thirty-nine Articles, and a Larger and a Shorter Catechism, still used by many Presbyterians and Congregationalists. In 1645 Parliament ordered presbyteries and elders throughout the land, but the system was never fully in force, for Parliament never ruled the whole country, and after the king's defeat power lay with the Army.

The Rule of the Saints

The war brought forward Oliver Cromwell (1599–1658), a country gentleman who proved a military genius. His regiment, the Ironsides, was never beaten, partly because he gave his men discipline and a sense of Christian mission. He rose to lead the New Model Army, twenty-one thousand men who saw the war as a crusade and went into battle praying and singing hymns. By the end of 1646 Charles had surrendered. For two years he played off the Scots, the Presbyterians of Parliament and the Independents of the Army

against one another and made a secret alliance with the Scots. War broke out again in 1648. The Army won, purged the Presbyterians from the Commons, and the remaining Rump Parliament set up a court to try the king, and in January 1649 Charles was beheaded before the palace of Whitehall.

It was a rash act and a sign of Puritanism's coming fall, for it gave the royalists a martyr. A widely circulated picture showed the king kneeling by a Bible, his crown on the floor, a crown of thorns in his hand and his eyes on a crown of glory. It turned a king executed by rebels into a martyr persecuted by fanatics, and that is how many Englishmen remembered the Puritans. (A chart in the chapter is headed "The Reformation in England.") For the moment the saints ruled. The Commons abolished the House of Lords and proclaimed a republic, the Commonwealth. In 1653 the Army, still distrusting Parliament, replaced it with the Protectorate, with Cromwell as Lord Protector, in effect a military dictator. He sought a religious settlement by granting liberty to Presbyterians, Independents, Baptists, Quakers, Levellers and others, but found the task impossible, and his last years were full of disappointment. His death in 1658 ended the saints' rule in old England. By 1660 the country had welcomed back the king, and with him the bishops. On the far side of the ocean, though, saints in their tens of thousands were building the kingdom of God in the wilderness of New England.

KEY PEOPLE

John Cotton; John Foxe; Miles Coverdale; Elizabeth I; James I; John Robinson; John Smyth; Charles I; Archbishop William Laud; Oliver Cromwell.

KEY DATES

1603	James VI of Scotland becomes James I of England
1604	Hampton Court Conference
1609	John Smyth forms the first Baptist church in Amsterdam
1611	King James Version of the Bible
1620	The Pilgrims sail in the *Mayflower* and land at Plymouth
1625	Charles I becomes king of England
1630	Great Puritan migration to Massachusetts Bay begins
1643–1649	Westminster Assembly: Confession and Catechisms
1649	Charles I executed; the Commonwealth proclaimed
1653	Cromwell becomes Lord Protector
1658	Death of Cromwell
1660	Monarchy and bishops restored in England

KEY TERMS

Puritanism; conversion; the elect; covenant of grace; new Israel; Geneva Bible; *Book of Martyrs*; divine right of kings; Separatism; Pilgrims; Presbyterians and Independents; Westminster Confession; New Model Army; Commonwealth; Protectorate.

CHAPTER

31

Unwilling to Die for an Old Idea

Denominations

IN BRIEF

Critics call denominations a scandal, yet they remain the institutional hallmark of modern Christianity. Christians are divided today partly because they are free to differ, as they were not in earlier centuries. The chapter shows how the wars of religion wore out the old rule of one religion for one territory, how the American colonies made room for many faiths, and how a group of seventeenth-century Puritans worked out the denominational idea of the church.

THE QUESTION

By what path did the denomination become the usual form of church life in the modern world?

Anyone reading the New Testament feels the distance between the church of the apostles, one temple of God, and today's menagerie of sects, denominations and isms. It ought not to be so, yet denominations will not soon disappear, because removing them would cost more than most people are willing to pay: we are shocked by the fruit but will not lay the ax to the root. One clear difference between the sixteenth century and the seventeenth is the acceptance of religious differences. "I disapprove of what you say, but I will defend to the death your right to say it" is a sentiment most Christians now accept, and they accept it as modern people rather than as Christians.

Suppression of the Nonconformist

The saying is probably Voltaire's (1694–1778). Neither Luther nor Loyola could have said it. In the Reformation dissent was neither a virtue nor a right, and Reformers were as eager as Catholics to suppress it, for both believed that Christian truth holds society together and that only one side has it. That God's Word might lie on either side of a battle line gained a hearing only when both sides were exhausted. In Germany Lutheran princes fought the Catholic emperor to a stalemate, and the Peace of Augsburg (1555) adopted the territorial principle: the ruler of each region decides whether his subjects are Lutheran or Catholic. This offshoot of the idea of the Christian prince guaranteed some people their worship and also the prince's right to persecute those who disagreed. It foretold the death of Christendom, for if one prince can impose one religion and another, a dozen miles away, a different one, the norm of Christian truth is shattered.

Events ran ahead of ideas, and more wars followed on the old principle. From 1562 to 1598 France suffered civil wars between Catholics and Huguenots, ended in fatigue by the Edict of Nantes (1598), which gave the Huguenots religious freedom and political control of parts of the country while Catholicism stayed the official religion. Between 1560 and 1618 the Calvinist Dutch won independence from Catholic Spain, while the southern provinces, today's Belgium, remained Catholic and Spanish much longer.

The Thirty Years' War

These were the prelude to the last and worst of the wars of religion (1618–1648). At the start religion was the cause and politics the accompaniment; at the end it was a savage contest for power in which religion was only the accompaniment. That makes it an apt sign of the passage from the age of the Reformation to that of reason and revival. Augsburg had ignored the Calvinists, and early in the seventeenth century Protestant and Catholic princes formed rival leagues. Fighting broke out in 1618. Ferdinand II, Jesuit-educated, king of Bohemia and soon Holy Roman Emperor,

tried to uproot Protestantism in Bohemia. The Protestant nobles revolted and offered the crown to the Calvinist Frederick V of the Palatinate. In 1620, near Prague, the imperial forces, charging to the cry "For the Virgin Mary," crushed the Bohemians, confiscated the rebels' estates and gave the Jesuits the University of Prague, once the home of Hus.

Christian IV of Lutheran Denmark then entered the war, eager also for German territory, and was routed in the Harz Mountains in 1626. Next came Gustavus Adolphus of Sweden, moved by deep conviction and by the emperor's hold on the Baltic shore. The "Lion of the North" won a series of victories that carried him as far as Munich, but at Lützen in 1632, though his army won, he was killed. The war dragged on with the outcome already plain: Catholics could not subdue the Protestant north nor Protestants the Catholic south. In its last years religion hardly mattered, as France and Spain, both nominally Catholic, fought over the Rhineland.

Germany lay in ruins, divided into three hundred independent states, and the emperor's dream of revived authority was gone. Out of sheer futility zeal cooled and people began to question the territorial idea. The Peace of Westphalia (1648) recognized Calvinism alongside Lutheranism and Catholicism, allowed princes for the first time to tolerate both Protestants and Catholics in their lands, and shut the pope out of German religious affairs. Innocent X condemned the treaty and was ignored by both sides; after more than a thousand years the state did its affairs as if there were no pope. The real victor was the nation-state. Christians in the West would now live under governments whose citizens belonged to various churches. Some states came to require a general belief in God for office or university, while being Catholic or Presbyterian became a private matter.

The New Way in America

Across the Atlantic the English colonists set out to build distinctly religious societies. In time the aim of a holy city that nurtures holy people became a city where people could be holy, for new arrivals,

an indifferent second generation and the open frontier all worked against uniformity. Permanent settlement began at Jamestown, Virginia, in 1607. The Pilgrims landed in 1620, and about twenty-five thousand Puritans followed to New England from 1629 to 1642. Outside Virginia the English authorities did not try to impose religious uniformity. The colonies were commercial ventures that needed settlers, and the promise of toleration was a strong inducement. Quakers came to Pennsylvania, Catholics to Maryland, Dutch Reformed to New York, and later Swedish Lutherans, French Huguenots, English Baptists and Scottish Presbyterians.

The great exception was Congregational Massachusetts Bay, which intended a new Zion with "a due form of government both civil and ecclesiastical," in Governor John Winthrop's words. Its charter happened to omit the clause requiring the company's headquarters to be in England, so the saints took the charter with them and ran what was in effect an independent republic. For two generations they enforced conformity, punishing absence from church, denial of Christ's resurrection or irreverence toward the Bible. Yet Puritanism carried its own impulses toward toleration. One was its devotion to Scripture. Pastor John Robinson had told the Pilgrims that "the Lord hath more truth yet to break forth out of his holy Word," and New England kept producing dissenters who appealed to what the Bible had shown them, such as Roger Williams and Anne Hutchinson. Another was the wilderness. Dissenters did not need to go underground; they could move on, across the river or over the mountain. With English policy these undercut Puritan intolerance. The colony lost its charter in 1684, and in 1687 the royal governor seized Boston's Old South meeting house for Anglican worship.

The Idea of Denominations

This diversity required a new understanding of the church. The word *denomination* came into use about 1740, in the early years of the revival led by Wesley and Whitefield, but the theory was worked out a century earlier. In its original sense it is the reverse

of sectarianism. A sect holds that Christ's authority belongs to it and to no one else, and so shuts others out by definition. A denomination is an inclusive term: the group called, or denominated, by a particular name is one member of a larger body, the church, in which every denomination has a place. No one structure can claim to be the true church; each denomination is one form, in worship and organization, of the church's wider life.

The Reformers planted the seed. Luther held that the true succession is of believers, not bishops, and that the outward forms of the church should give the Word free course rather than block it; Calvin wrote that no one can draw the precise boundaries of the church or number the elect. But neither followed this through, and both suppressed dissent. The real architects were the Independents, or Congregationalists, the minority at the Westminster Assembly, where the Presbyterian majority wrote the Confession and Catechisms. Anxious not to divide "the godly Protestant party," these Dissenting Brethren stated four truths. Because human beings do not always see the truth clearly, disagreement over the church's outward form cannot be avoided. Such differences, though not about fundamentals, are not matters of indifference, since every Christian must practice what he believes the Bible teaches. Since no church understands God's truth completely and finally, a single structure can never stand for the whole of the true church. And separation is not in itself schism: Christians may differ on many matters and remain one in Christ.

The theory thus sought unity in an inward religious experience and allowed diversity in its outward expression. It did not spring from indifference to doctrine. The Independents limited the one true church to people who agreed about the essentials of the faith. In England the idea found limited acceptance, for the Church of England kept its favored place even after the Act of Toleration (1689) gave Presbyterians, Congregationalists, Baptists and Quakers freedom of worship. In the American colonies it won growing acceptance as God's answer to multiplying faiths. Its authors never imagined the hundreds of groups now sheltered under the word and did not mean to reduce Christianity to vague sincerity. They

only knew that bigotry and bloodshed in Christ's name were not the way forward. The denominational form has marked recent centuries, Shelley concludes, since nothing better has yet been proposed, and not because it is the ideal.

KEY PEOPLE

Voltaire; Ferdinand II; Frederick V of the Palatinate; Christian IV of Denmark; Gustavus Adolphus; Innocent X; John Winthrop; John Robinson; Roger Williams; Anne Hutchinson; the Dissenting Brethren of Westminster.

KEY DATES

1555	Peace of Augsburg: each ruler decides the religion of his territory
1598	Edict of Nantes grants the Huguenots freedom
1607	Jamestown, Virginia, the first permanent English settlement
1618–1648	Thirty Years' War
1632	Gustavus Adolphus killed at Lützen
1648	Peace of Westphalia: Calvinism recognized; the pope excluded from German affairs
1684	Massachusetts Bay loses its charter
1689	Act of Toleration in England
c. 1740	The word "denomination" comes into use

KEY TERMS

Denomination and sect; territorial principle; wars of religion; nation-state; toleration; Independents (Congregationalists); Dissenting Brethren; denominational theory of the church.

PART SIX

The Age of Reason and Revival

1648–1789

The quarrels of the Reformation were quarrels between believers over how a person is saved. The age that followed asked whether revealed religion was needed at all, and it made science and reason, rather than the Bible, the foundation of Western thought. The most effective Protestant reply was not a counterargument. It was a series of revivals in which preachers called for a personal conversion and in which the heart counted for more than the creed. Evangelical Christianity grew out of these awakenings and spread through preaching, without the backing of governments. In the same years many believers concluded that the faith could do without an established church, and they made their peace with religious liberty.

IN THIS PART

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33 The Heart and Its Reasons *Pascal and the Pietists*
34 A Brand from the Burning *Wesley and Methodism*
35 A New Order of the Ages *The Great Awakening*

CHAPTER

32

Aiming at the Foundations

The Cult of Reason

IN BRIEF

After a century of religious wars something deep in Europe revolted. The Age of Reason (1648–1789) put reason in the place of faith and happiness in this world in the place of preparation for the next; it was the birth of secularism. The chapter traces its roots in the Renaissance, the wars of religion and the new science, its moderate first generation (Locke) and its radical second (the deists, Voltaire and the *philosophes*), and the Christian reply.

THE QUESTION

How did the spirit of the Age of Reason take root, and what did its attack on the foundations of Christianity leave behind?

If Americans believed in saints, Benjamin Franklin would be one: a practical, down-to-earth, friendly and witty man who prized tolerance above all. Shortly before his death he told President Ezra Stiles of Yale that he had "some doubts" about the divinity of Jesus but had never studied the question and expected soon to know the truth "with less trouble"; he saw no harm in the belief if it made Jesus' teachings better respected and observed. That is the spirit of the age. Dogma seemed hardly worth fretting about; what mattered was behavior, tolerance and respect for those who differ. These attitudes live on in the values of the Western world. The Reformation had shown once more how dangerous the mixture of faith and power is. Christians who held power used it to compel

conformity, and tens of thousands died.

The Spirit of the Age of Reason

The revolt, also called the Enlightenment, was an intellectual revolution, one that changed how people saw God, the world and themselves. In Charles Williams's words, national interests and mental relaxations combined "to exclude metaphysics from culture." The Middle Ages and the Reformation were ages of faith, meaning that reason was faith's servant and the mind obeyed authority, the church's for Catholics and the Bible's for Protestants. God's Word came before human thought, and the chief concern of this life was preparation for the next. The Age of Reason reversed this. The human mind, not faith, emotion, myth or superstition, is the best guide to happiness here and now. Baron von Holbach stated the program: scatter the clouds of ignorance, teach man to respect his own reason, to base his morals on his own nature and the advantage of society, and to seek his happiness by promoting that of others, so that he becomes "a virtuous and rational being, who cannot fail to become happy."

The Renaissance

The seeds lay in the Reformation era itself. *Renaissance* means rebirth, the recovery of the values of classical Greece and Rome in literature, politics and the arts. Its humanism sought human flourishing, the well-rounded person, and held that reading the ancient texts, best of all in the original languages, was a conversation with author and culture that builds the soul. The Reformation is unthinkable without it, for every major Reformer came to believe that he must meet the Bible in its original tongues. Its best representative was Erasmus of Rotterdam (1467–1536), whose best-selling satires, above all *Praise of Folly*, mocked monasticism and Scholasticism with irony and common sense. His admirers said he laid the egg that Luther hatched. But in 1524 his *Diatribe on Free Will* exposed the gulf between them. Luther held that the will is enslaved and cannot love or serve God without enabling grace; Erasmus thought

this a dangerous doctrine that relieves man of moral responsibility. The difference between Reformation and Renaissance lies in how they saw man. The Reformers taught original sin and a fallen world. The Renaissance thought well of human nature and the universe, and that confidence flowered in the Enlightenment.

A second root was the century of religious conflict (1550–1650): the English Civil War, the persecution of the Huguenots, the Thirty Years' War. Common decency rebelled against fanatical clerics and against the burning or drowning of an old woman accused of witchcraft or heresy. Religious prejudice came to seem a greater danger than atheism, and a thirst spread for tolerance and for truths common to all.

SIDEBAR **Enlightenment**

The Enlightenment was really a series of enlightenments, reaching England, France and other lands before it began in Germany. Its basic insight belongs to the first French thinkers, who were fascinated by England. There they saw more prosperity and more liberty, and institutions of church and state that restricted individuals less and left them freer to reason for themselves. They drew a central conviction: people freed from the burden of cultural tradition and allowed to reason for themselves will prosper. Freedom to think independently of tradition yields truth and prosperity, an insight since extended in endless varieties.

The third root was a new faith in law and order, born of modern science. Copernicus (1473–1543) put the sun, not the earth, at the center. Kepler (1571–1630) concluded that a force from the sun moves the planets in their courses. Galileo (1564–1642) examined the planets through a telescope and proved that falling bodies accelerate at a constant rate. Isaac Newton (1642–1727) united these discoveries. His *Mathematical Principles of Natural Philosophy* (1687) brought all motion, in heaven and on earth, under one master principle, the law of gravitation, and showed the universe as a great machine running by unalterable laws.

The Wonder of the World-Machine

Europe's readers were captivated. The medieval world of angels and demons came to seem implausible or superstitious beside a sun-centered universe explained by mathematics. Some felt that man had been displaced from the center of creation, and God with him, since a world that runs by discernible laws seems to need no sustainer. Shelley reminds the reader that modern science depended on Christian convictions and was carried on by minds trained in Christian institutions, and that in these debates God was reimagined as one more actor on the stage instead of the Lord of the whole. The vast universe dismayed some. Pascal (1623–1662) recoiled from "the terrifying expanses which engulf us as a fleeting atom." Others rejoiced with Alexander Pope: "God said, 'Let Newton be!' and all was light." If the universe is a machine with one grand design, man has only to think clearly to find meaning and happiness. That confidence in the senses and reason gave the age its name. Not every blacksmith or village priest turned intellectual; many kept their fathers' faith to the end of their lives. But the direction of Europe had changed.

For twelve hundred years Augustine's ideas had ruled: man is an enslaved sinner in need of supernatural grace, and God ordained the state to protect truth and punish error. Now intellectuals said that man is no sinner but a reasonable creature who needs common sense more than grace. Christians met two climates. At the end of the seventeenth century, especially in England, some tried to harmonize reason and faith: Christianity is wholly reasonable, with some truths, such as God's existence, reached by reason and others, such as Christ's resurrection, by revelation. After 1700, especially in France, confidence in reason soared and appeals to Scripture were dismissed as superstition.

John Locke (1632–1704) best represents the first climate. His *Essay Concerning Human Understanding* calls God's existence "the most obvious truth that reason discovers," yet his God hardly resembles the one who acts in the Exodus or the resurrection. Attempts to justify Christianity rationally, Shelley observes, often end by revising

it to fit what seems rational at the time. Christians do not believe as the conclusion of a long argument but because they have received the testimony of the first eyewitnesses, vindicated by God's continuing power; reason may serve revelation but cannot replace it. To his credit Locke accepted revelation, with fulfilled prophecy and miracles as proof of Jesus' authority. But he found few dogmas necessary, all of them simple and plain to ordinary people. Christianity has one essential doctrine, that Jesus is the Messiah, and one demand, a good life, which Jesus reinforced with rewards and punishments, as reason itself requires. Most traditional theology he set aside as irrelevant.

The Rise of the Radicals

The next generation felt less obligation to the Christian past and simply set revelation aside. Whatever in the Bible agrees with reason is superfluous; the parts that contradict it, myths, miracles and priestly mumbo jumbo, are untrue. Eighteenth-century Paris became the capital of a cosmopolitan culture in which the leaders of Europe and the American colonies shared one community of thought. There the *philosophes* brought the age to its climax. They were not academic philosophers but men of letters who analyzed society's evils and urged reforms, aiming to spread knowledge and free the human spirit.

Atheism was not fashionable among them. Most of the famous "infidels" believed in a supreme being but thought it superstition to say that he interferes with the world-machine. This is deism, especially popular among English speakers, a halfway house on the road to atheism. Its God is the watchmaker who made the world, wound it up and let it run. Being a perfect workman, he has no need to intervene, so miracles and special revelation are rejected. Deists held that theirs was mankind's original religion and that all others are distortions of it, invented by priests to enlarge their own power.

The most influential propagandist was Voltaire (1694–1778), the embodiment of French skepticism. In histories, plays, pamphlets,

essays, novels and some ten thousand letters he popularized Newton's science, fought for personal liberty and a free press, and spread the cult of reason. No one attacked the established churches, Catholic or Protestant, more persistently; he was sickened by their intolerance and petty quarrels. Yet he did not aim to destroy religion: if God did not exist, he said, it would be necessary to invent him. His only rival was the French *Encyclopedia* in seventeen volumes, the great collective work of the *philosophes*, whose editor was Denis Diderot (1713–1784). It proclaimed the new science, defended tolerance, attacked superstition and set out deism; its article on Christianity professed respect for the religion of Jesus while leaving the reader with contempt for its social failures. Unlike earlier critics, who were heretics or dissenters attacking the church in Christ's name, these men attacked from outside, and aimed not at one dogma but at the ground on which all Christian truth rests.

Christianity on Trial

They called Christianity a plot to hand the earth to a priestly caste, a scheme to exploit the ignorant. Voltaire named it "the infamous thing" and pointed to the thousands of victims of its intolerance. They judged it by simple human standards of good and evil: a church that sanctioned the slaughter of fellow Christians for purity of doctrine was a wicked institution and an obstacle to peace and progress. Shelley notes the irony that these "human" standards were themselves a legacy of Christian teaching. Their weapon was truth: teach men, said Diderot, to hold as true only what they have verified and proved. That standard excluded Christian doctrine from the start, since arguments from the authority of Bible or church were not counted as reasonable. Miracles fared no better. Once in the supernatural, Diderot argued, there are no limits: one man feeds five thousand with five loaves, the next with one, and a third with the wind. The critics knew they were making a revolution in Europe's beliefs, and Voltaire reported each triumph like a general.

The Futility of Empty Confidence

In Catholic countries such as France the reply was weak. Church leaders asked the authorities to censor dangerous books and seldom understood the questions raised. In England several writers answered deism effectively, above all Bishop Joseph Butler (1692–1752), whose *Analogy of Religion* all but closed the argument for thoughtful readers. The deists assumed they could read God's wisdom and purpose plainly in nature. Butler did not argue for God's existence, which they granted, nor reject reason, man's natural light; he challenged its sovereignty. Reason gives no complete system, and in ordinary life it offers only probabilities. Nature is full of obscurities and unexplained mysteries. If we meet difficulties there, we should not be surprised to meet them in religion; and since we trust and act on the probable knowledge that experience gives us of nature, it is reasonable to do the same in religion.

In the end deism fell by its own weakness. Its optimism was false: it had no explanation for evil and disaster, and when asked why people do not always see the religious truths in nature it could only blame the lies of priests, which convinced few. Its fall did not restore Christianity to the center of Western culture. The negative work of the age endured. Art, education and politics were freed from formal Christian influence in a deliberate attempt at a religiously neutral civilization, with faith confined to church, home and heart, as in secular societies today. Christians are left with a basic problem. How far may believers go, as citizens, in getting the state to enforce Christian standards of conduct? And if they give that up, what norm should they seek to make binding on everyone?

KEY PEOPLE

Benjamin Franklin; Baron von Holbach; Erasmus; Copernicus; Kepler; Galileo; Isaac Newton; Blaise Pascal; Alexander Pope; John Locke; Voltaire; Denis Diderot; Bishop Joseph Butler.

KEY DATES

1524	Erasmus's *Diatribe on Free Will* marks his break with Luther
1648–1789	The Age of Reason
1687	Newton's *Mathematical Principles of Natural Philosophy*
1694–1778	Voltaire
1704	Death of John Locke
1752	Death of Bishop Joseph Butler, author of *The Analogy of Religion*

KEY TERMS

Age of Reason; Enlightenment; secularism; Renaissance humanism; world-machine; law of gravitation; deism; watchmaker God; *philosophes*; *Encyclopedia*; "the infamous thing"; probability; religiously neutral civilization.

CHAPTER

33

The Heart and Its Reasons

Pascal and the Pietists

IN BRIEF

Reason ruled the age, yet the soul's hunger still demanded an answer. The Catholic Blaise Pascal and the mostly Lutheran Pietists belong together because both held that the heart is essential to knowing God. The chapter tells of the Jansenist protest against the easy morals taught by French Jesuits, of Pascal's conversion and writings, and of Spener, Francke and Zinzendorf, whose Pietism became the fountain of modern revivals.

THE QUESTION

How, in the Age of Reason, did Pascal and the Pietists sustain the life of the soul?

A few days after Pascal's death a servant noticed a bulge in the great scientist's jacket. In the lining was a parchment in his hand, with a scribbled paper copy: "The year of grace 1654. Monday, November 23rd, from about half past ten in the evening until about half past twelve. God of Abraham, God of Isaac, God of Jacob, not of the philosophers and scholars. Certainty, certainty, feeling, joy, peace… Renunciation, total and sweet." It recorded two hours spent before God. He had kept it secret for eight years, stitching it into every new coat, his private memorial of the coming of grace. With faith under attack, old labels meant less. Pascal's critique showed that the thinkers of the Enlightenment could not defend their narrow, technical idea of reason without large assumptions, leaps of faith

of their own; his witness rested not on a self-sufficient reason but on the deeper wisdom that links reason to the heart.

Appeals to "Cheap Grace"

The Catholic church of the seventeenth century had its heroes in Europe and overseas, but in France it guarded its alliances with power. The higher clergy shared with nobles and king the nation's revenues and the splendor of the court. The Jesuits, teachers of the wealthy and confessors of the powerful, became expert psychologists. They learned to soften the thunder of Sinai and to ease remorse by casuistry, the discipline that settles for the conscience what is permitted and what is not. A confessor had to know what is mortal sin, venial sin or no sin, when the letter of the law may yield to its spirit, and when a Christian might lie, kill or steal in a good cause. Some casuists were strict; the Jesuits were very lenient. They made so many allowances for human weakness that earnest people protested against "cheap grace," forgiveness without contrition.

SIDEBAR **Mental Reservation and Probabilism**

Wide mental reservation lets an ambiguous statement deceive the hearer. When Roman soldiers were chasing Athanasius, his friend told them he was "not far away," though the bishop was hidden in the boat, and the soldiers hurried on. Strict mental reservation lets the speaker mislead by a qualification kept in his own mind, for example that a lie told for a very noble reason need not be admitted. Jesuits argued that such an answer is neither a lie nor a sin. They also proposed probabilism, the theory that an act is justified if there is even a remote probability that it is morally acceptable.

The strongest opposition came from Jansenism. Cornelius Jansen (1585–1638), a Dutchman, came to hold Augustine's doctrine of sin and grace while at Louvain university. He believed the best defense of Catholicism against Calvinism was a return to Augustine and a rigorous moral code for the clergy. He opposed the Jesuits first as a professor of Scripture in Louvain and afterward from the bishop's seat at Ypres, and left a great treatise, *Augustinus*, published in 1640,

which became the platform of Jansenism in France. It taught that God chose before the foundation of the world those who would be saved, and that good works cannot earn salvation without grace, because the will is not free and human nature is corrupt beyond self-rescue. Only God's grace, available through Christ's death, saves. The church had never repudiated these doctrines but had let them slip into the background, and after Trent the Jesuit defense of free will so magnified human works that, as Jansen saw it, it cheapened Christ's redemption. The Jesuits made too much of reason and too little of trusting faith.

Jansenism at Port-Royal

Jansen's friend Jean DuVergier, abbot of Saint-Cyran, brought the message to France in 1633 as confessor of Port-Royal, a Cistercian convent sixteen miles from Paris. Its young abbess, Jacqueline Arnauld, led her nuns in wholehearted and humble devotion, and its reputation drew other women and a group of devout laymen, the Solitaries, who sought holiness in the marshy valley around it. Her brother Antoine Arnauld, of the Sorbonne, the theological faculty of Paris, took over the leadership after Jansen's death. In 1643 he attacked, without naming the Jesuits, the idea that frequent confession can make up for frequent sinning. The Jesuits persuaded the pope that Jansenism was Calvinism in Catholic dress, and in 1653 he condemned five propositions said to be taken from *Augustinus*. Arnauld attacked again in two *Letters to a Duke and Peer*, and the Sorbonne moved to expel him. He needed a defender and turned to Blaise Pascal (1623–1662).

Pascal had known little but trouble. His mother died when he was three, and his father Stephen educated the three children, Gilberte, Blaise and Jacqueline, and took the boy to meetings of the Academy of Science. Before he was twenty-seven Blaise had won the admiration of the mathematicians of Paris, invented a calculating machine for his father, a tax collector, and worked out the laws of atmospheric and hydraulic pressure. He met Jansenism through an accident. In January 1646 Stephen fell on icy ground

while hurrying to stop a duel and put his hip out of joint. Both of the physicians who attended him were Jansenists, and they won the son. They taught that bodily suffering illustrates a religious truth: man by himself is helpless and miserable. Blaise, who had seldom passed a day without pain, felt the force of it. He also learned from them how deeply the Bible speaks to the human condition and began to study it as he had studied air pressure. In 1651 his father died; his sister Jacqueline entered Port-Royal, and he was left alone in Paris. He took a richly furnished house, servants and a coach and four and pursued polite society as he had pursued geometry. After a year he felt only "great disgust with the world" and thought himself abandoned by God.

Certainty, Joy, Peace

In that darkness he turned to the seventeenth chapter of John, and the Fire came, as his memorial records. Late in 1654 he joined his sister in the community of Port-Royal, where Arnauld found him. Pascal answered with eighteen *Provincial Letters*, exposing Jesuit theology and practice with eloquence and sarcastic wit. They were instant best sellers and made an obscure convent the center of public attention. The pope condemned them; all educated France read them, and went on reading them for two centuries. After the last letter, in March 1657, he planned a book on the evidences of Christianity but never finished it. He fell violently ill in June 1662 and died on August 19, aged thirty-nine.

Eight years later friends published his notes on faith and reason as the *Pensées* (*Thoughts*). Here he cuts across doctrine to the moral problem of man. Nature, he insisted, is no sure clue to God: he sees "too much to deny and too little to assure." In this ambiguous universe man is the greatest mystery, part angel and part beast, like the Chimera of Greek myth: "a novelty, a monster, a chaos, a contradiction, a prodigy! The glory and refuse of the universe." Reason is no sure guide either. Trusting it alone we would doubt everything except pain and death, yet the heart tells us that life cannot be meaningless. It is the heart that must sense God and life's

meaning: "The heart has its reasons which reason does not know." Three centuries later people still take their bearings from him. After his death the church and Louis XIV together drove Jansenism from France: Port-Royal was razed, and what remained of the movement found shelter in Holland.

Other lands needed heart as much as France did. A religion that turns into the custom of a majority tends to go flat, and so it was in much of Lutheran Germany.

SIDEBAR **Protestant Scholasticism**

In the hundred years after Luther and Calvin the Protestant movement changed. The early call to entrust oneself to the mercy of God, which changes people, was overshadowed by doctrinal discussion that seemed abstract and lifeless. Luther went to the Bible for its living testimony to Jesus, whereas the Protestant Scholastics built long arguments on the logic of Aristotle, which Luther had condemned. When they appealed to Scripture they lifted out statements as isolated bits of logical data and lost the great flow of God's story. Scripture came to be seen as a self-sufficient body of material, a source, no longer a witness made alive by the Spirit. Theology was shaped by the schools more than by the church, and sermons sounded like lectures. What the Reformers might have said on speculative questions counted for more than what they had said. All this did not distinguish Protestants from unbelievers or even from Catholics but from one another, and the church was split further and further by its creeds and confessions.

After the creative Reformation came the cautious period called Protestant Scholasticism or confessionalism. Luther's robust justifying faith became, among his followers, a mental exercise: formal assent to doctrines set out by scholars in place of surrender to the mercy of God in Christ. The Christian life became membership in the state church, and the marks of a good Christian were regular attendance and reception of the sacraments from orthodox ministers. Pietism arose against this hardening, as Jansenism had against cheap grace. It had two aims. First, personal faith. The Pietists left behind the dreams of Catholic Christendom and Puritan common-

wealths and began with the individual, so that for the first time the conversion of baptized Christians, and not only of pagans, came to the fore; the essence of faith is in essence the heart's own experience of the grace of God. Second, they wanted to move the center of Christian life from the state churches into which people were born to close fellowships of those with living faith, from which renewed laymen would carry the Word to all classes. Three men mark its history.

The Soul's Return to Life

Philip Jacob Spener (1635–1705) was raised on the writings of Johann Arndt, a German mystic, and of the English Puritans, and at the University of Strasbourg learned to understand justification by faith as a spiritual rebirth. After three years as a pastor there he was called to Frankfurt, where conditions shocked him. He left the prescribed texts, preached from the whole Bible and called for repentance and discipleship. Nothing remarkable happened until 1669, when his sermons on the Sermon on the Mount brought sudden conversions and changed families. Twice a week he gathered a small company in his house for Scripture reading and religious conversation. People called them in scorn "gatherings of the pious," and Pietism was born. His introduction to an edition of Arndt's sermons, *Pious Desires*, recommended Bible study groups for spiritual growth, a strenuous and rather ascetic life, more care for the character of theological students, and simpler, more spiritual preaching. A cell of experiential Christians in each congregation would be leaven for the whole, and only those born again through conscious conversion were fit for the ministry. In 1686 he became court preacher at Dresden, where his plain preaching brought trouble, and in 1692 he moved to Berlin at the invitation of the elector of Brandenburg. The same year, with wisdom and humility, he had August Hermann Francke (1663–1727) called to the new University of Halle. Francke soon led the movement, though Spener wrote and preached until his death in February 1705.

Francke came from Leipzig, where his spiritual emphasis had

caused tension with colleagues. His zeal went back to a conversion after two years of doubt. Writing a sermon on John 20:31, he fell to his knees and begged the God he did not yet know or believe in to save him, if he existed; sadness left him in "a flood of joy," and afterward he found it easy to live righteously and gladly. At Halle he made the university the hub of Pietist work: a school for the poor, an orphanage, a hospital built on the site of a tavern he bought, a Latin school for gifted boys, homes for widows and single women, a dispensary, a bookstore, a press and a Bible house. When Frederick IV of Denmark wanted to found one of the earliest Protestant missions, in India in 1705, he found his first missionaries among Francke's students.

The Carpenter and the Count

The later phase belongs to Count Nikolaus von Zinzendorf (1700–1760), an ardent, emotional man who held that real Christianity means trusting like a child in the blood of Jesus, and who sang of the soul's relation to Christ in vivid, almost erotic images. His grandfather, a nobleman, had given up his Austrian home for his faith, and he was raised by a devout grandmother who admired Halle. He studied law at Wittenberg for three years, but his heart was in ministry. His opportunity came through the remnant that survived from the Hussites, the so-called Bohemian Brethren or *Unitas Fratrum*, who had flourished at the Reformation, been nearly crushed in the Thirty Years' War and were still persecuted. Stirred by revival under a Moravian carpenter, Christian David, they sought refuge in Protestant lands and found it on Zinzendorf's estate, where in 1722 David founded Herrnhut, "The Lord's Watch." Devout people of many backgrounds flocked there. The Moravians intended a town of Christians only, set apart from the world as a true communion of saints—a free, social monasticism without celibacy.

From 1727 Zinzendorf was its guiding spirit, and ten years later he was ordained in the reorganized church of the Moravians, also called the United Brethren. His impulses were always missionary, and under him the Moravians grew into the earliest Protestant

body to send out missionaries in large numbers. At the coronation of Christian VI in Copenhagen in 1731 he came across a black man from Denmark's West Indian colonies and was struck by the needs of the enslaved. In 1732 Leonhard Dober and David Nitschmann left Herrnhut for St. Thomas, and missions followed quickly in Greenland, Lapland, among the Indians of Georgia, on the Guinea Coast, among the Hottentots of South Africa, in Guiana, Ceylon and Algeria. Zinzendorf's religion ran to sentiment, yet some of his hymns, such as "Jesus, still lead on," are widely sung, and few have shown such devotion to Christ: "I have only one passion. It is He, none but He."

View from a Rearview Mirror

Pietism gave much to Christianity worldwide. It turned eighteenth-century churches from controversy to the care of souls, made preaching and pastoral visiting central to the Protestant ministry, enriched Christian music and showed how much a revived church needs a spiritual laity. Its greatest legacy may be the small group and the devotional reading of Scripture. Personal copies of the Bible were more available than ever before, personal engagement with it became the focus of discipleship, and groups would dwell on a word from Scripture reinforced by a well-chosen hymn. Under all this lay its dominant theme, regeneration, meaning not a doctrine but the indispensable experience of every Christian, the true fulfillment of the Reformation: in the heart doctrine becomes reality. Its intensely personal language made Christianity a drama of the soul, the heart a battlefield where good and evil fight. Pietism is in that sense the fountain of all modern revivals, and evangelical Christianity is unthinkable without it.

Evangelicals inherited two of its traits. First, emotion played so large a part that reason was endangered. The whole meaning of faith was loaded onto the feelings, so Pietism said next to nothing about how God is at work in nature and history and offered little resistance to secularism; Evangelicals often share the weakness. Second, Pietism took the institutional church for granted and did

not attack it, but it moved what is essential, rebirth and life in the Spirit, out of the state churches into fellowship groups and voluntary associations. In the United States, which had no dominant state church, Evangelicals allied this with the denominational idea and multiplied movements devoted to evangelism or one side or another of Christian living. Pietism lives on in the Moravian church and more widely, among the evangelical Christians who are heirs of John Wesley and George Whitefield.

KEY PEOPLE

Blaise Pascal; Cornelius Jansen; the abbot of Saint-Cyran; Jacqueline Arnauld; Antoine Arnauld; Louis XIV; Johann Arndt; Philip Jacob Spener; August Hermann Francke; Count von Zinzendorf; Christian David; Leonhard Dober and David Nitschmann.

KEY DATES

1640	Jansen's *Augustinus* published
1653	The pope condemns five Jansenist propositions
1654	Pascal's night of fire (November 23)
1662	Death of Pascal
1669	Spener's preaching at Frankfurt brings the first Pietist gatherings
1692	Francke called to the University of Halle
1705	Death of Spener; Halle Pietists go as missionaries to India
1722	Herrnhut founded on Zinzendorf's estate
1732	First Moravian missionaries sail for St. Thomas

KEY TERMS

Casuistry; mental reservation; probabilism; "cheap grace"; Jansenism; Port-Royal; *Provincial Letters*; *Pensées*; Protestant Scholasticism (confessionalism); Pietism; *Pious Desires*; regeneration; Herrnhut; Moravians.

CHAPTER

34

A Brand from the Burning

Wesley and Methodism

IN BRIEF

In the Age of Reason a spiritual renewal, the Evangelical Awakening, changed three regions: Germany through Pietism, the British Isles through the Methodists and the American colonies through the Great Awakening. The chapter follows John Wesley from his strict upbringing and his failure in Georgia to his heart-warming at Aldersgate, field preaching, the organization of the Methodist societies and their separation into a new denomination.

THE QUESTION

Who were the Evangelicals, and what made them so important for the later history of the faith?

Late in January 1736 the ship *Simmonds*, bound for Savannah, ran into violent Atlantic storms. A slight young Anglican clergyman on board, John Wesley, was frozen with fear; he had preached salvation to others but was afraid to die. He was awed by a company of Moravians from Herrnhut who, as the sea split the mainsail, calmly went on singing psalms. Asked afterward whether they had been frightened, one answered that even their women and children were not afraid to die. Wesley called it the most glorious day he had seen. He had the form of godliness but not yet its power.

The Evangelical Awakening

The Methodist revival explains the origin of a denomination that now numbers over twenty million and also throws light on evangelical Christianity as a whole. The singing Moravians represent its Pietist wing; the main body came from Britain and its colonies. In the 1730s a sudden concern to preach to the unconverted broke out in several places at once. Wesley was not the first: Jonathan Edwards (Northampton, Massachusetts), the brothers Ebenezer and Ralph Erskine (Scotland), Howel Harris (Wales) and George Whitefield (England) preached revival before him. Most evangelical beliefs were Puritan: human sinfulness, Christ's atoning death, unmerited grace, the salvation of the true believer. But the Puritans were more concerned with politics and the holy commonwealth. The Evangelicals, less detached from politics than the Pietists, had one controlling passion, the conversion of the lost, and cared less for reforming churches than for preaching to everyone: nominal Christians, scoffers and heathen.

England was an unlikely place for it. Among the rich and educated the Enlightenment had pushed religion to the edge of life, and in the Anglican church as in the Nonconformist bodies, Baptist and Congregationalist, Puritan zeal seemed a thing of the past. The country had had its fill of holy causes and wanted moderation. Voltaire described an English sermon as a solid, sometimes dry dissertation read without gesture. Ministers passed over human sinfulness and approached God with gentle awe and cheerfulness, as in Addison's hymn "The Spacious Firmament on High." The Latitudinarians, a large party in the Church of England that included John Tillotson, archbishop of Canterbury (1691–1694), denounced "enthusiasm," meaning any emotion stirred by fervent preaching, and stressed proper conduct, which meant generosity, humanity and tolerance, and no bigotry or fanaticism.

The Little Giant

John Wesley (1703–1791) was raised in a household of decency and order that joined Anglican and Nonconformist piety. His fa-

ther Samuel was a learned high-church rector at Epworth in Lincolnshire. His mother Susanna, daughter of a Nonconformist minister, bore nineteen children, of whom John was the fifteenth; she taught them "to fear the rod and cry softly" and gave each child separate religious instruction every week, which required method. When he was six the rectory burned, and he was rescued from an upper window by a neighbor standing on another's shoulders. Ever after he called himself "a brand plucked from the burning" and never doubted God's hand on his life.

At seventeen he went to Oxford, to Christ Church and later Lincoln College. He read widely. From the early Greek fathers he learned that the Christian life aims at perfection, understood as love under discipline, always in progress and never a finished state; Jeremy Taylor, Thomas à Kempis and William Law taught him that it is the consecration of the whole person in love to God and neighbor. They convinced him "of the absolute impossibility of being half a Christian," and he listed his weaknesses and made rules against them. In 1726 he was elected a fellow of Lincoln, which gave him standing and an income; two years later he was ordained and for a time assisted his father. On his return to Oxford he learned that Charles, his brother, alarmed by deism, had gathered a few students who meant to take religion seriously. John became their leader, and they adopted a rule of prayer, Bible reading and frequent Communion. Other undergraduates jeered at the Holy Club, the Bible moths, the Methodists; the last name stuck. They gave to the poor and visited prisoners, and were joined by the bright and brash George Whitefield of Pembroke College. But John admitted that a real Christian's inner peace was missing in him.

Then a friend, Dr. John Burton, suggested Georgia, General James Oglethorpe's new colony, with Charles as the general's secretary and John as chaplain. Hoping to preach to the Indians, the brothers sailed in October. The venture was a fiasco. John found the noble savages "gluttons, thieves, liars and murderers," and the colonists disliked his stiff high-church manner, his unwillingness to bury a Nonconformist and his ban on fine dresses and gold jewelry in church. An unhappy love affair made things worse. So-

phy Hopkey, eighteen years old and niece to the chief magistrate of Savannah, tired of his indecision and eloped with a rival; Wesley barred her from Communion, and her husband sued him for defamation. After six months of harassment he fled. "I went to America to convert the Indians," he wrote on the way home, "but, oh, who shall convert me?"

The Holy Heart Warming

He landed in England on February 1, 1738, discredited and unsure of his faith. Twelve years of toiling toward perfection had ended in spiritual bankruptcy. The one good thing from Georgia was the Moravians, and he set out to learn their secret. In London Peter Böhler, a young Moravian preacher, pressed on him his need of a new birth, a personal faith that overcomes sin; justification by faith is not only a doctrine but an experience of God's forgiveness. On May 24, 1738, Wesley went "very unwillingly" to a society in Aldersgate Street where Luther's preface to Romans was being read. About a quarter to nine, he wrote, "I felt my heart strangely warmed. I felt that I did trust in Christ, Christ alone, for salvation; and an assurance was given me that he had taken away my sins, even mine." His journal shows a continuing insecurity that gave way only when God used his preaching to great effect, but he had found the assurance and the message that sustained fifty years of unmatched energy. He still needed a method.

That summer he visited Herrnhut. He met people who showed "the full assurance of Christian faith," but he also noticed self-righteousness and was repelled by the cult around Zinzendorf: "Isn't the Count all in all?" He owed the Moravians the message of justification by faith and the system of small groups, but he could not be one of them. Back in London his preaching was as zealous and as fruitless as before. Then, walking from London to Oxford, he read Jonathan Edwards's account of the conversions at Northampton. It struck him with great force, a direct influence of the American awakening on the English one. Within weeks came an invitation from George Whitefield. Nine years younger,

Whitefield had followed Wesley to Georgia in 1738 and returned to be ordained. Eager to reach the masses, he went out in February 1739 into the fields near Bristol and preached to coal miners who rarely entered a church, and saw "the white gutters made by their tears" on their blackened faces. His preaching was unforgettable. He could make hearers ache over their sin and dread hell and then weep with him for forgiveness; the actor David Garrick said he would give a hundred guineas to say "Oh!" like Mr. Whitefield. He urged Wesley to follow him into the fields. Wesley hesitated, an Oxford scholar and gentleman so attached to decency and order that he would have thought "the saving of souls almost a sin if it had not been done in a church."

To the Fields, to the World

Against Charles's opposition John went to Bristol feeling more like a martyr than like the bearer of good news. He preached in the open air to more than three thousand, and all around him people were converted as genuinely as in New England. The Methodist revival had begun. The effect on Wesley was as great. Böhler had told him to preach faith until he had it. At Aldersgate hope had become possession; from Edwards and Whitefield he had learned that faithful preaching produces results that can be seen; and now the faith of his hearers confirmed his own. The anxious, insecure man became a firebrand. That June he wrote, "I look upon all the world as my parish."

He preached in jails, in inns, on ships to Ireland; to thirty thousand in a natural amphitheater in Cornwall; and, when refused the church at Epworth, to hundreds in the churchyard, standing on his father's tombstone. He reckoned his travel at no less than 4,500 miles a year, a quarter of a million in his lifetime, mostly on horseback, reading or preparing sermons with the reins slack. In the early years he was pelted with stones and sometimes beaten by mobs set on by a hostile squire or parson, but he feared no one and often awed a crowd by sheer presence. In time the violence stopped, and before he died china statuettes of him were sold in large numbers.

In 1751 he married Molly Vazeille, a London merchant's widow who had nursed him after a fall on the ice. She tried for two years to accompany him on his journeys, until health and nerves gave way and she went. When she died in 1781 he did not know of it and was not at the funeral. She had married a man wedded to his mission.

Alone among the leaders of the Awakening, Wesley preached what are now called Arminian beliefs, named for Jacob Arminius (1560–1609), the Dutch professor who tried to modify Calvinism. He owed Arminius no special debt, but he firmly opposed predestination, which seemed to him to make God arbitrary. God wills the salvation of all, and people can accept or refuse his grace. This nearly broke his friendship with Whitefield, who defended predestination as the guard of God's sovereignty and feared that Arminianism dulled the sense of sin. They agreed to differ with mutual respect, and at Whitefield's funeral in 1770 Wesley spoke of his "most generous and tender friendship." But the Methodists divided into Arminian societies following Wesley and Calvinist ones following Whitefield.

The Methodist Structure

Whitefield had no taste for organization; Wesley was an administrative genius. Methodist societies sprang up behind him across England, Ireland and Wales. They were not yet congregations. Most members were Anglicans, and Wesley sent them to their parish churches for worship and Communion. But the center of their Christian life was the society, in which members admitted their sins to each other, accepted the discipline of their leader, and prayed and sang. Charles Wesley, who had found forgiveness three days ahead of John, composed more than seven thousand hymns for these meetings, among them "Jesus, Lover of My Soul"; some think the hymns the revival's greatest legacy.

On the Moravian model John divided the societies into classes of about twelve. The word, from the Latin *classis*, a division, has nothing to do with school. The classes began as a means of collect-

ing a penny a week, but he soon saw that the collector could be a spiritual guide and the members could encourage one another, and the class meeting for testimony and prayer became one of the most successful features of Methodism. As the work grew he used laymen as preachers and assistants. He would not call them ministers or let them administer the sacraments; they were his personal helpers, answerable to him as he was to the Church of England. When by 1744 he could no longer keep in touch with all of them, he created the Annual Conference, which helped shape policy and doctrine, always as Wesley decided. He moved his preachers about like a militia and held them to one task, evangelism and Christian nurture. They were not, he said, the leaders of a sect but messengers to those who are "Christians in name but heathens in heart and life."

By 1748 the "people called Methodists" were, like the Pietists, a church within the church. For forty years Wesley resisted every pressure toward separation: "I live and die a member of the Church of England." Near the end the needs of America forced his hand. Francis Asbury had gone to the colonies at his direction, and the first American Methodist conference met in Philadelphia in 1773, but the societies needed ordained leaders, and the bishop of London would not help. So Wesley appointed two of his lay preachers, Richard Whatcoat and Thomas Vasey, for America and commissioned Dr. Thomas Coke as superintendent, a clear breach of Anglican order. The Christmas Conference at Baltimore in 1784, which chose Coke and Asbury as superintendents, made the Methodist Church in America a distinct denomination.

Wesley preached almost to the last and died in London on March 2, 1791, nearly eighty-eight, leaving 79,000 followers in England and 40,000 across the Atlantic. Afterward the English Methodists also separated from the Anglican church. But the revival reached far beyond Methodism. It brought new religious life to England and to its colonies, raised the life of the poor, and stimulated the overseas missions and the social concern of Evangelicals in the next two centuries.

KEY PEOPLE

John Wesley; Susanna Wesley; Charles Wesley; George Whitefield; Peter Böhler; Jonathan Edwards; Count von Zinzendorf; John Tillotson; Jacob Arminius; Francis Asbury; Thomas Coke.

KEY DATES

1703	Birth of John Wesley
1736	The Wesleys sail to Georgia; the storm and the Moravians
1738	Wesley's heart "strangely warmed" at Aldersgate (May 24)
1739	Whitefield and Wesley begin field preaching near Bristol
1744	First Annual Conference of Methodist preachers
1770	Death of George Whitefield
1773	First American Methodist conference, Philadelphia
1784	Christmas Conference at Baltimore: American Methodism a separate church
1791	Death of John Wesley (March 2)

KEY TERMS

Evangelical Awakening; Evangelicals; Latitudinarians; "enthusiasm"; Holy Club; Methodists; new birth; assurance; field preaching; Arminianism; societies; class meeting; lay preachers; Annual Conference.

CHAPTER

35

A New Order of the Ages

The Great Awakening

IN BRIEF

In the American colonies the churches entered a new order: no single church could be established, so each had to win converts and support itself without the state. The Great Awakening, the first of the American revivals, convinced Christians that this voluntary system could work. The chapter describes the Puritan background, the revival under Edwards and Whitefield, and the alliance of revivalists and rationalists that produced religious freedom.

THE QUESTION

What was the Great Awakening, and why did so much in American Christianity depend on it?

On July 4, 1776, Franklin, Adams and Jefferson were appointed to design a seal for the United States. Franklin proposed Moses with Pharaoh's army drowning in the Red Sea and the motto "Rebellion to tyrants is obedience to God"; Jefferson, the children of Israel led by cloud and pillar of fire. Little of this survived, but it is telling that these patriots, themselves distant from their Jewish-Christian heritage, looked to the Bible for symbols to unite and interpret their people. The Latin of the seal, still on American currency, means roughly: "one out of many; God has smiled on our undertakings; 1776; a new order of the ages."

New Order for the Churches

For thirty generations Christians had lived by the idea of Christendom: people were born and baptized into a Christian society in which the church dispensed saving grace and the state kept Christian law and order. The Reformation shattered it without meaning to, leaving denominations in place of one church, while national princes kept church and state allied within their own realms, in churches that swung between repression and laxity. In America the variety of nations and faiths ruled out an established church except in a handful of colonies; as early as 1646 eighteen languages were heard along the Hudson alone. Each group wanted liberty to proclaim its own view, and it became plain that it could have that liberty only by granting it to the rest. The settlers had arrived intending a government that would make people holy; they settled for a society in which people could still practice holiness. The churches were therefore on their own in evangelizing and nurturing, with no state support or protection. This condition is voluntaryism. Anyone was free to take the gospel or leave it, and each denomination had to find its own converts and its own money.

The Great Awakening proved that voluntaryism could work, and many came to see revivals as God's gift for creating a Christian nation; Jonathan Edwards went so far as to preach that the millennium would dawn in America. Resistance was strongest in New England, where Puritanism established by law stood for the old order. Yet Puritanism carried the seeds of revival. Its church rested on the covenant of grace and was to be, as far as possible, a church of visible saints, so the first generation required conversion before membership, a rule reaffirmed in the Cambridge Platform of 1648. The doors of the church do not stand open to "all sorts of people good or bad"; applicants must be examined for repentance and faith and usually gave a personal, public account of God's work in their souls.

God's Will in Society

Massachusetts was more than a string of congregations. The Puritans, as the Pilgrims had done in the Mayflower Compact, meant to knit the whole community together by a civil covenant: a Christian people must walk in God's ways in its government too. God's will was embodied in "wholesome laws," drawn from Scripture, nature and right reason, which bank the raging sea of human sin; the test of a law was whether it advanced the public good, that is, God's will in society. Holding the charter, the Puritans allowed only freemen to vote and required freemen to be church members, so the churches controlled the vote and public morals. This legislating of morality is one reason later Americans, who prize personal freedom above the character of society, came to hate them.

The "holy experiment," which joined a church of the truly converted to a Christian state, seemed bound to fail. As the founders' zeal cooled, fewer people could testify to grace. To keep the churches from shrinking, many accepted in 1662 the Half-Way Covenant, which gave the "unawakened" a partial membership: they could have their children baptized and share in church life but not take full Communion. That was enough for most social and political purposes, and the saints shrank to a small minority. Once the charter of 1691 tied the vote to property instead of church membership, New England stood at a crossroads. Soon two kinds of Puritan heirs appeared. The spiritual heritage went to the children of the Awakening, with its call for personal conversion. The "worldly puritans" kept the sense of civic responsibility and lawful government and still believed that empires rise and fall as they obey or disobey Providence, and that God smiles on the quest for liberty.

For twenty years (1720–1740) the awakening came as regional breezes. Whitefield named Theodore J. Frelinghuysen, a Dutch Reformed minister in New Jersey, "the beginner of the great work": his impassioned appeals to the farmers of the Raritan valley brought a large ingathering. The wind passed to the Scotch-Irish Presbyterians. William Tennent of Pennsylvania trained zealous ministers

in a small school that bookish clergy mocked as the "Log College," and its graduates carried revival through New Jersey. A quarrel over "educated" versus "converted" ministers split the Presbyterians into New Side men, for the revival, and Old Side men, against it. The New Side sent missionaries south, where Samuel Davies planted revivalist Presbyterian churches in Virginia, and Baptists multiplied in Virginia and the Carolinas under unschooled, zealous preachers whose leader was Shubael Stearns. The New England breeze rose at Northampton, Massachusetts, where Jonathan Edwards had charge of two hundred families sunk in "extraordinary dulness in religion." In December 1734 "the Spirit of God began extraordinarily to set in." Scarcely anyone in town was left unconcerned about eternal things, and souls came "by flocks to Jesus Christ."

The Great Revivalist

The winds stayed regional until George Whitefield, the father of modern mass evangelism, arrived in 1739 and preached his way from Georgia to New York. He preached in the open air at Philadelphia and impressed even Benjamin Franklin, who marveled that hearers admired a man who assured them they were "half beasts and half devils," and who heard psalms sung in house after house. In 1740 Whitefield went north and joined the New England revival to the revivals of the South and of the Middle Colonies. Boston ministers invited him, setting the precedent that successful revivalists make for the largest cities. He spoke in Boston, at Harvard and four times in Edwards's church, then passed through Connecticut, where people rode in from the farms "like a steady stream of horses and their riders." He left after a month, and the breezes had become a hurricane, the Great Awakening. Edwards and fellow ministers took to preaching in neighboring towns. At Enfield, Connecticut, his sermon "Sinners in the Hands of an Angry God" was merciless: God holds sinners over the flames as one holds a loathsome spider over a candle; the ground under them is a rotten floor over a blazing pit. Sobs and gasps sometimes drowned his

voice. The sermon was almost his undoing, for later Americans remembered him, wrongly, only as a hellfire preacher and forgot the keen psychologist, the gifted theologian, and the man who became Princeton's third president. By 1741 every element of revival was present: visiting preachers, warnings of perdition, traveling spellbinders, prayer meetings and a rush of new members, along with controversies and church splits.

The life of a Connecticut farm boy shows the change. Isaac Backus was taught that good order rests on the churches' training and the colony's laws. In 1741 the Awakening reached Norwich. His mother was converted, and Isaac, seventeen, was "born again" while mowing alone in a field, without unusual emotion: by "divine light" he saw Christ's perfect righteousness and the riches of his grace. This "new light," the witness within, explains the New England revival. The revivalists argued that the founders had quit the Church of England because admitting the unconverted to the church is contrary to the Word of God, and that the Awakening was a call to a new reformation. New Lights separated from the parish churches and formed congregations in the founders' way, hearing testimonies of conversion and signing a covenant as visible saints. Backus became an itinerant evangelist in southeastern New England, came to Baptist convictions and with a few others founded a Baptist church, the first in Middleborough, Massachusetts.

Advocate of Religious Freedom

More than anyone else Backus formulated and publicized the evangelical view of church and state that eventually prevailed. In 1769 New England Baptists formed the Warren Association, and two years later its grievance committee, of which he was the key member, took up the cause of religious freedom. He wrote tracts and petitions, collected evidence of persecution, testified in court and fought in newspapers, debates and letters. His mother, his brother and an uncle had been jailed in Connecticut, and that experience, with his own pietist convictions, made him a passionate opponent of establishment. The Baptists held that every direct tie between

the state and institutional religion must be cut so that America might become truly Christian. Like Jefferson and Madison, Backus believed that "truth is great and will prevail," but the truth he had in mind was the doctrine revealed in Scripture. God has appointed two kinds of government, civil and ecclesiastical, "which ought never to be confounded." Legislators are elected for civil affairs and have no mandate in religion, and in any case "religion is a voluntary obedience unto God which force cannot promote."

The revivalists did not give up the dream of a Christian America. God's kingdom would come if a majority could be persuaded to submit voluntarily to his laws, and revivals were his means. By 1760 this was no empty hope. From 1740 to 1742 the Awakening had brought between 25,000 and 50,000 people into membership of New England's churches, and between 1750 and 1760 a hundred and fifty new Congregational churches were formed, besides the multiplying Baptists. Yet the message marked a break with the past. By concentrating on the individual's need of salvation, the Awakeners neglected what the Puritans had cared about, the gospel's bearing on politics and society. Once the covenant of grace covered only twice-born individuals, the idea of a covenant people slid from the church to the American people, and its mission from a holy commonwealth to the struggle for liberty.

Others favored voluntaryism too. Many Sons of Liberty, such as Jefferson, Franklin and Madison, shared the Enlightenment's trust in reason and held that a person can be moved only by the weight of the evidence as his own mind sees it; to coerce opinion, said Jefferson, had made "one half the world fools, and the other half hypocrites." Here the reasonable men and the revival men met, though the revivalist's freedom was freedom "in Christ," under the Spirit and checked by Scripture. As Sidney Mead put it, the revivalist "did not have the heart" and the rationalist "did not have the head" to justify enforced uniformity any longer. Their temporary alliance succeeded in the First Amendment: "Congress shall make no law respecting an establishment of religion, or prohibiting the free exercise thereof." A century later Lord James Bryce, in *The American Commonwealth*, noted that Americans think of the church

as a spiritual body with spiritual purposes, so that it never occurs to them that state churches should exist; such a body wants no state help or privilege. Of everything new in the young republic, this was the newest.

KEY PEOPLE

Jonathan Edwards; George Whitefield; Theodore J. Frelinghuysen; William Tennent; Samuel Davies; Shubael Stearns; Isaac Backus; Benjamin Franklin; Thomas Jefferson; James Madison; Lord Bryce.

KEY DATES

1648	Cambridge Platform: conversion required for church membership
1662	Half-Way Covenant in New England
1691	New Massachusetts charter bases the vote on property
1734	Revival begins at Northampton under Jonathan Edwards
1739–1740	Whitefield's preaching tour unites the regional revivals
1741	Height of the Great Awakening; conversion of Isaac Backus
1769	New England Baptists form the Warren Association
1776	American independence; the seal's "new order of the ages"

KEY TERMS

Christendom; voluntaryism; covenant of grace; civil covenant; visible saints; Half-Way Covenant; Log College; New Side and Old Side; New Lights; revival; religious freedom; First Amendment.

PART SEVEN

The Age of Progress

1789–1914

The nineteenth century kept the intellectual questions of the Enlightenment and added social ones. The French Revolution taught ordinary people to expect a share of power. Industry gathered them into great cities, and Darwin's theory seemed to make humanity one more outcome of natural processes. Christians gave conflicting answers to both challenges. Since Protestants could no longer count on governments, they organized voluntary societies, which served the urban poor, fought slavery and sent missionaries to every continent.

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CHAPTER

36

The Restoration of Fortresses

Catholicism in the Age of Progress

IN BRIEF

The fall of the Bastille opened the Age of Progress (1789–1914), whose creed was human progress and whose watchwords were liberty, equality and fraternity. The Roman Catholic Church, bound to the old order, lost much in the storm and answered by trying to turn back the clock. The chapter follows the French Revolution's attack on the church, the popes' war with liberalism, the loss of the Papal States and the First Vatican Council's definition of papal infallibility.

THE QUESTION

Why was the Catholic Church so afraid of the popular movements of the age?

On the eastern edge of Paris stood the Bastille, an old fortress used as a prison, which propaganda had made a symbol of royal tyranny. On the morning of July 14, 1789, a crowd gathered before it. Patriots cut the drawbridge chains, and Governor de Launay, with 110 soldiers, agreed to surrender in return for safe withdrawal. When the inner gates opened the mob rushed in and murdered him. In its cells the crowd found just seven prisoners, five common criminals and two lunatics. The sordid facts were soon turned into heroic legend.

Birth of a New Age

The Bastille stood for the Old Regime: absolute monarchs and a feudal society of church, aristocrats and powerless commoners. The crowd stood for the nineteenth century and the rights of the common man. Few doubted that history moves upward and that the race is growing better and happier. Christianity made its way through the period under adverse conditions, and Rome, long tied to the old order, saw many of its treasures swept away. The democratic gospel of the Revolution glorified man rather than God, and Rome saw more clearly than most Protestants that the devil can be democratic when it suits him. Ten thousand people telling a lie do not make it true, Shelley remarks. Votes and schooling do not bring utopia, because the flaw in human nature lies deeper than any fault in institutions. Alexis de Tocqueville, in *Democracy in America*, warned that equality itself may produce a "tyranny of the majority," rule by shifting public moods. Unhappily Rome, in resisting the gospel of the common man, tried to build a medieval fortress on the road of progress, and the secular masses passed by on the other side.

Liberty meant individual freedom in politics and economics, though the word is used in confusing ways, by Ronald Reagan and Ted Kennedy alike, who differed about what it looks like and how to reach it. The early liberals spoke for the middle class. They wanted the vote, representative government, and freedom to build factories and gather wealth without interference (*laissez faire*). *Equality* meant the rights of men whatever their birth or wealth. Peasants and urban workers sought equality with the middle class through socialism, to be reached by evolution within democracy or by revolution on the Marxist pattern. *Fraternity* meant the sense of brotherhood that became nationalism, the ambition of a people to be masters of their own territory and destiny, which swept Europe in the nineteenth century and Asia and Africa in the twentieth.

On the eve of the Revolution the church basked in the old order, which it had sanctified for a thousand years, blessing kings and nobles and giving little thought to peasants or the rising middle

class. Of France's twenty-five million people only two hundred thousand, nobles and clergy, were privileged, yet they controlled nearly half the land and the best offices. The peasants, who made up 80 percent of the population, bent under the taxes of church and state together. The middle class was rich, educated and capable, yet had no office, no authority and no recognition to match.

The Revolutionary Fever

The Enlightenment had created a ferment, mostly of words. From the 1760s political unrest spread through states small and large, with the same demands everywhere: participation, the vote, freedom of expression. The American Revolution inspired Europe's radicals. The colonists seemed true men of the Enlightenment, and their success proved its ideas in the laboratory of experience. In France bankruptcy loomed. The government borrowed heavily and falsified its accounts, churchmen lived high, and the wine harvests failed. In 1789 Louis XVI summoned the Estates-General, the assembly of clergy, nobility and commons, which had not met for 175 years. The upper estates wanted to vote by estate, which would keep control with them; the Third Estate, now half the membership, wanted to vote by head. When the king refused, the commoners broke away and formed the National Assembly. After July 14 the crown could no longer keep order. By the end of August most feudal privileges were gone and the "Declaration of the Rights of Man and of the Citizen" was law. It declared the natural rights of "liberty, property, security, and resistance to oppression" sacred, guaranteed free expression, forbade arbitrary arrest, and proclaimed France a sovereign nation that belongs to its people, not to its monarchs. Within ten years France had formed a republic, executed its king, passed through a revolutionary regime and a time of confusion, and ended with the coup that brought General Napoleon Bonaparte to power, all the while at war with the rest of Europe.

The church was a special object of rage. In the early 1790s the National Assembly reformed it on Enlightenment lines, giving pastors a decent income and redrawing dioceses, which was to the good.

But when it abolished papal control and imposed a loyalty oath, it split the church. In almost every town the constitutional clergy who swore faced the non-constitutional who refused, and thirty to forty thousand priests were driven into exile or hiding. The Revolution then took on a religion of its own. A new calendar removed every trace of Christianity. Parish churches became Temples of Reason, and in Notre Dame an actress was enthroned on the high altar to represent the Goddess of Reason, while in the provinces girls dressed as Reason, Liberty or Nature led processions. By 1794 the parody was spent, and a decree early the next year guaranteed the free exercise of religion; Catholics returned to the altar. But Rome never forgot that liberty had meant the worship of the Goddess of Reason. Napoleon's Concordat of 1801 restored Catholicism to a special place as "the religion of the great majority of Frenchmen," but its power was gone for good. Europe would not return to the alliance of throne and altar, and Rome never acquired a taste for liberalism.

Catholicism versus Liberalism

Jesus and the apostles said little about personal independence or the right to one's opinions. From the Middle Ages through the Reformation an axiom of Augustine had ruled: liberty comes by grace, not grace by liberty. To be truly free a person must be in a state of salvation, so Christians had felt little enthusiasm for freedom in the merely political sense. In the nineteenth century the idea was in the air that everyone should be as free as possible.

John Stuart Mill defined the possible: "the liberty of each, limited by the like liberty of all." Everyone may hold, spread and act on his opinions so far as others may do the same. In practice this meant constitutional government with civil liberties for all, including freedom of worship. The popes despised the thought. After Napoleon's fall in 1815 absolutist kings tried to recover their ground and met liberal resistance everywhere. Risings in Spain and Italy were put down, but the restored French kings were overthrown in 1830, and in 1848 liberal revolution briefly triumphed

SIDEBAR **Liberty in an Ancient Sense**

In many ancient settings liberty meant more than an individual's power to choose. It was tied to nature. Human beings have a nature or essence, and liberty meant being able to live up to it. A man crawling in slop would win no praise on the ground that he had chosen to act like a pig. Freedom was noble because it allowed a person to reach his potential, and barriers to that should be removed. Today people often understand liberty apart from nature, as the power to choose what they want to be. In the same way the ancients tied happiness to goodness, whether achieved or pursued, and not merely to pleasant feelings, and Aristotle would have found it odd to be content that someone feels good without being good. The American founders assumed this older idea when they spoke of life, liberty and happiness. Present notions of liberty are often poor beside it.

in almost every capital. Leo XII, Pius VIII and Gregory XVI, who reigned in these years, were decent men, but they refused to join their century. They defended the past and never learned how to fight the new world or how to convert it. Liberalism for its part refused the church's help and denied it any right to speak about public morals: Christian ethics, it held, has no say in politics, and Catholics are private citizens and nothing more.

The plainest sign of the papacy's tie to the past was the Papal States, where the pope was an earthly sovereign. Italy had for centuries been only a geographical expression, seven states besides the papal territory that ran northeast from Rome across the peninsula. In mid-century the *risorgimento* ("rebirth"), arising in Sardinia, aimed to expel foreign powers and unite the peninsula, and it could not tolerate a medieval, absolutist state in the middle. After 1849 the Papal States were so hated that only French bayonets could hold them. Liberals at first welcomed Pius IX (1846–1878), a warm and kindly man who on March 14, 1848, gave his states a constitution; some imagined a federation of Italian states with the pope at its head. Then Count Pellegrino Rossi, his prime minister, was murdered by revolutionaries, Rome rose in revolt, and Pius fled.

Restored by French troops, he returned to absolutist rule. The national movement under Victor Emmanuel II of Sardinia became an avalanche. In 1859–1860 most of the Papal States fell, and Victor Emmanuel became king of Italy by proclamation in March 1861. When the Franco-Prussian War drew off the French garrison, the nationalists bombarded Rome, which surrendered on September 20, 1870. After more than a thousand years the Papal States were at an end.

Pius withdrew into the Vatican. The king moved to Rome in June 1871, ignoring protests and excommunications. The government offered an annual subsidy and the free exercise of all spiritual functions; Pius angrily refused and called himself the "prisoner of the Vatican." He forbade Italian Catholics to take part in elections, which only left the field to the radicals and made the government more anticlerical. This "Roman Question" was settled only in February 1929, when Mussolini concluded the Lateran Treaty: the pope renounced the old territories and was recognized as sovereign of the tiny Vatican State.

The Infallibility of the Pope

The year 1870 saw both the end of the pope's earthly rule and the declaration of his supreme authority and infallibility. The First Vatican Council was the climax of ultramontanism, devotion to Rome "across the mountains." After the upheavals of revolution and empire some French Catholics praised the papacy as the one remaining guarantee of public order and morals. Only a clergy independent of the state and led by an infallible pope, undisputed master of the church, could protect spiritual freedom from political tyranny. The church must be a monarchy, and infallibility is to the pope what sovereignty is to a king. By mid-century this had a large following, which the pope encouraged. A Jesuit journal explained that when the pope meditates, God is thinking in him; hymns were addressed to Pius IX, and some called him "the vice-God of humanity."

On December 8, 1854, Pius declared as dogma the traditional be-

lief in the immaculate conception: Mary was from the first moment of her conception preserved free of the stain of original sin by a special grace. The belief was not new. The manner was: fifty-four cardinals and 140 bishops attended, but the decision was the pope's alone, a definition *ex cathedra*, "from the chair." Could the pope define dogma without a council? Ten years later, in December 1864, as the nationalists closed in on his states, Pius sent the bishops an encyclical with a *Syllabus of Errors* listing eighty evils of modern society. He condemned rationalism and socialism, a free press, religious liberty, state schools, Bible societies and the separation of church and state, and denied that the Roman pontiff "can and ought to reconcile himself" to "progress, liberalism, and modern civilization." There would be no peace talks. The church must close ranks around its leader.

To strengthen his hand Pius prepared a general council. He appointed a preparatory body of cardinals in 1865, announced his plan to more than five hundred bishops in 1867, when Rome marked eighteen hundred years since Peter and Paul were martyred, and opened the council in Rome on December 8, 1869. Catholics did not doubt that Peter's successor has special teaching authority. The question was how far it extends, whether it can be used apart from councils and the college of bishops, and on what conditions. The opposition to a definition was led by Bishop Hefele of Rottenburg, the learned historian of the councils, and Bishop Strossmayer of Djakovar, supported by many others, including most of the Germans. In the first ballot, on July 13, 1870, 451 voted for the definition, 88 against and 62 with reservations; many opponents thought only that the time was wrong. To avoid scandal fifty-five bishops left Rome, with the pope's consent, before the final vote on July 18: 533 in favor and two against.

The council thus asserted two things. First, primacy: the pope succeeds Peter, represents Christ and heads the church, and so holds complete and immediate authority over the church as a whole and over every bishop, in faith and morals and also in discipline and administration. Second, infallibility: when the pope speaks *ex cathedra*, that is, in his office as teacher, and settles a question once

and for all for the whole church in a matter of faith and morals, that decision is of itself infallible and unchangeable and needs no prior consent of the church. The Franco-Prussian War, which broke out the next day, sent many fathers home, and the occupation of Rome ended any hope of resuming. The vital work was done. The council had, so to speak, restored the Bastille. Surrounded by liberalism, socialism and nationalism, Rome chose safety behind the walls of an exalted, infallible papacy, a strategy that shaped Catholic life for generations. But fortresses, Shelley concludes, grow stuffy. They allow no enlargement of thought, and those inside come to imagine that the only world that matters lies within the walls.

KEY PEOPLE

Louis XVI; Napoleon Bonaparte; Alexis de Tocqueville; John Stuart Mill; Pius IX; Count Pellegrino Rossi; Victor Emmanuel II; Bishop Hefele; Bishop Strossmayer; Mussolini.

KEY DATES

1789	Fall of the Bastille (July 14); Declaration of the Rights of Man
1801	Napoleon's Concordat with the pope
1848	Liberal revolutions across Europe; Pius IX flees Rome
1854	Pius IX defines the immaculate conception of Mary
1861	Victor Emmanuel II proclaimed king of Italy
1864	Pius IX's *Syllabus of Errors*
1869–1870	First Vatican Council: papal primacy and infallibility
1870	Rome falls to the Italian nationalists (September 20); end of the Papal States
1929	Lateran Treaty creates the Vatican State

KEY TERMS

Age of Progress; Old Regime; liberty, equality, fraternity; liberalism; *laissez faire*; socialism; nationalism; cult of Reason; Concordat; *risorgimento*; Papal States; "prisoner of the Vatican"; ultramontanism; *ex cathedra*; infallibility; *Syllabus of Errors*.

CHAPTER

37

A New Social Frontier

Nineteenth-Century England

IN BRIEF

Nineteenth-century England changed at a pace that left many fearful and others hopeful. Two small movements helped millions of believers adjust, and they answered the social crisis in opposite ways. The Evangelicals of the Clapham Sect went out to reform society and ended the British slave trade and slavery; the high-church men of the Oxford movement drew in to defend the sanctity of the church. Between them they stand for mission and worship.

THE QUESTION

How are Christians to view the world?

"Lead, kindly Light, amid th' encircling gloom" was written in 1833 by John Henry Newman on his way home from Sicily. Its somber mood belongs to many troubled souls of the time; a decade later Newman fled to Rome for safety. The same gloom sounds in the Evangelical Henry Francis Lyte's "Abide with Me": "Change and decay in all around I see." Neither movement of this chapter was large at first, a reminder of Gilbert Murray's remark that "the uplifting of man has been the work of a chosen few." Evangelicals still look to Clapham as a model of social concern, and high-church Anglicans to Oxford as a wellspring of devout churchmanship.

Evangelicals in the World

The church has a double commission. God sends his people out to announce salvation and to serve the needy, and he calls them out of the world, to adore him and be taught by him. Without worship, mission may turn into hollow service, and worship without mission careless religion, so the church is always saying yes here and no there. In England, where society changed so fast, Protestants could not always tell friend from foe among those they addressed.

SIDEBAR **Evangelicals**

Current descriptions often rest on David Bebbington's four characteristics: conversionism; activism; biblicism (trust in the Bible as the source of devotion, guidance and theology) and crucicentrism (stress on the sacrificial character of the cross). To these Thomas Kidd adds a stress on the Holy Spirit, shown in revivals, outpourings of the Spirit and meetings with God's love that change a life.

The century was in many respects a British one. The Industrial Revolution had begun in England, and London was the largest city on earth and its financial center, British commerce and the navy were everywhere, and by 1914 Britain ruled the largest empire ever made. The growth left many breathless. Some, remembering the French Revolution, feared the future; others hailed change as progress. English Protestants were either in the established Anglican church or in the Nonconformist bodies: Methodists, Baptists, Congregationalists and a few smaller ones. But the striking movements did not run along denominational lines. The liberties of the age let Christians form a host of religious societies for particular objects, such as distributing Bibles or relieving the poor, groups of individuals with no sacraments, creeds or ordained ministers of their own.

The greatest power in English religion was the evangelical movement that came from Wesley and Whitefield. It was known by an intense personal piety, which usually began in a conversion, and energetic service in the world, both fed by devotion to the Bible and directed by the themes of the revival: God's love in Christ, salvation

through faith, and the new birth by the Holy Spirit. A significant minority of Anglican pulpits and a majority of Nonconformist ones preached it. Anglican Evangelicals were loyal to their church and its bishops but glad to work with Nonconformists, because for them preaching the gospel mattered more than sacraments or styles of ritual, a position called "Low Church." In the ills of British society they heard a summons to service.

The Clapham Community

Their headquarters was Clapham, then a village three miles from London and the country home of a circle of rich and fervent Evangelicals who practiced "saintliness in daily life." Historians call them the Clapham Sect, but they were less a sect than a close family. The parish minister, John Venn, was their spiritual guide, and they met for Bible study, talk and prayer in the oval library of the banker Henry Thornton. Their unquestioned leader was the parliamentarian William Wilberforce (1759–1833). Around him were John Shore (Lord Teignmouth), who had governed India; Charles Grant, who chaired the East India Company; James Stephen, undersecretary for the colonies; Zachary Macaulay, editor of the *Christian Observer*; the abolitionist Thomas Clarkson; and others.

Wilberforce had been converted at twenty-five through a book, *Rise and Progress of Religion in the Soul* by Philip Doddridge. He had wealth, a liberal education and unusual gifts. William Pitt had met no one more naturally eloquent, and some called him "the nightingale of the House of Commons"; many spoke of his gift for friendship and his principles. "My business is in the world," he said, "and I must mix in the assemblies of men or quit the part which Providence seems to have assigned me." In what they called their "Cabinet Councils" the friends discussed the country's wrongs and the battles to be fought, and then in and out of Parliament acted as one body, each doing what he did best. His biographer Reginald Coupland says there has been nothing like it since in British public life.

Evangelicals and Social Issues

From Clapham came a stream of societies: for missions (the Church Missionary Society, 1799), for Bibles (the British and Foreign Bible Society, 1804), for relief of the poor and for prison reform. Its greatest effort was the campaign against slavery, beginning with the slave trade, the capture of Africans for sale in the West Indies. England had entered the trade in 1562, when Sir John Hawkins sold a cargo from Sierra Leone in St. Domingo. After 1660 Charles II chartered a company that carried three thousand slaves a year, and by 1770 British ships carried more than half of the hundred thousand taken yearly from West Africa. Many thought the trade inseparable from the nation's commerce and security.

Wilberforce first spoke against it in the Commons in 1789. He saw that eloquence alone would not defeat the commercial interests and turned to his friends for reliable facts. Two years later, after exhaustive preparation, he sought leave for a bill to stop the import of slaves into the West Indies: "Never, never will we desist till we have wiped away this scandal from the Christian name." Oratory again fell short, but support grew, and the abolitionists saw that they must appeal to the people as well as to Parliament. Step by step they learned the two things democratic politics requires: shaping public opinion and then turning it into pressure on those who govern. They gathered petitions, published good literature, lectured, and campaigned on billboards. Nonconformists rallied to them, and for the first time women took part in a political contest. Then Wilberforce and four Clapham colleagues, the "Saints" in the Commons, carried the fire into Parliament.

The End of Slave Trade

On February 23, 1807, the opposition broke. When one member contrasted Wilberforce with Napoleon, the House rose and cheered as it seldom had, while Wilberforce sat bowed with his head in his hands and tears on his face. The legal trade was ended, but the slaves were still in chains. He fought on for emancipation until age and ill health took him from Parliament, and then enlisted a young

Evangelical, Thomas Fowell Buxton, to lead the "holy enterprise." The Emancipation Act, which freed the slaves of the whole British Empire, was certain to pass by July 25, 1833; Wilberforce died four days later. Coming before the European powers partitioned Africa, the act mattered enormously. G. M. Trevelyan wrote that on the last night of slavery the West Indian slaves climbed the hills to watch the sun rise on their freedom, while in the forests of Africa no one marked the day; yet it was Africa that was most deeply affected, for the most powerful of the nations that would shape its future had resolved that black and white should not meet as slave and master. It is above all for this that people still point to the Clapham Sect when they want to show how a few able and devoted people can influence a society, perhaps the world.

The Oxford Movement

The Oxford movement was a contrasting response. Like the evangelical movement it appealed to the heart more than to the head, but its leaders watched the course of English society with alarm. To them the government's reforms were attacks on the Church of England as a sacred body, and resolved to resist the world's intrusion. "Now each man attempts to judge for himself," Newman wrote to his mother in 1829; "the talent of the day is against the Church." The church's strength had rested on landed aristocrats powerful in Parliament, while the new industrial towns such as Manchester and Birmingham had no representatives. The Reform Act of 1832 shifted power from the gentry to the middle class, so that many members of Parliament who were not Anglicans now had power over the church. Were profane politicians to lay hands on holy things?

On July 14, 1833, John Keble, fellow of Oriel College, preached at Oxford on "National Apostasy": a nation denies God's sovereignty when it shows disrespect to the successors of the apostles, the bishops, and appeals only to popularity or expediency. He was joined by John Henry Newman (1801–1890), the University Church's vicar, and by Edward Pusey, professor of Hebrew, and the three turned a

protest into a movement. The church's authority, they held, does not come from the state but from God, and bishops hold office by apostolic commission, not social position; even wholly cut off from the state, the English church could claim Englishmen's allegiance. In 1833 they began the "Tracts for the Times," whence the name Tractarians. The tracts expounded one article of the Creed, belief in "one, holy, Catholic and apostolic Church." They stressed the apostolic succession of bishops and the authority God gave the church to teach truth and rule lives, ascribed real saving power to the sacraments, and held up as the ideal the undivided church of the first five centuries. Some of this history was fanciful, but they believed it ardently. They called themselves Catholics and shunned the name Protestant because it spoke of division. Public worship was vital to them. Symbolic acts such as turning to the altar, kneeling and raising the cross have religious value, and because worship asks for the response of the whole person it should appeal to the senses, with rich vestments, incense and trained voices. Tractarianism was High Church religion at its most zealous, and the Oxford men drew closer to Rome with each step. Then came the thunderclap. In 1841 Newman's Tract 90 argued that the Thirty-nine Articles are not necessarily Protestant and can be read in a Catholic sense. In the storm that followed, the bishop of Oxford forbade him to publish any more. Newman decided that no one could be fully Catholic outside the Church of Rome, which he joined in 1845, and in the next six years hundreds of Anglican clergy followed. Dublin's new Catholic University made him its rector, and in 1877 he was named a cardinal. Most Tractarians, however, stayed, and more and more clergy adopted their views. For many, religion centered on ritual, priesthood and sacraments, and the concern for beauty improved church architecture, music and art. In time people spoke of Anglo-Catholics rather than of Tractarians or the Oxford movement, meaning Anglicans who value their unity with the catholic tradition of Eastern Orthodoxy and Rome but accept the supremacy of neither patriarch nor pope.

Both views of Christianity's place in society are still alive, if not always well. Few generations have a Wilberforce or a Newman,

but their convictions last because mission and worship are basic to Christianity in any age. Jesus prayed for his disciples not that they be taken out of the world but that they be kept from the evil one: "As you sent me into the world, I have sent them into the world."

KEY PEOPLE

William Wilberforce; John Venn; Henry Thornton; Zachary Macaulay; Thomas Clarkson; Thomas Fowell Buxton; John Keble; John Henry Newman; Edward Pusey; Henry Francis Lyte.

KEY DATES

1789	Wilberforce's first speech against the slave trade
1799	Church Missionary Society founded
1804	British and Foreign Bible Society founded
1807	Parliament abolishes the British slave trade
1832	British Reform Act shifts power to the middle class
1833	Emancipation of slaves in the British Empire; death of Wilberforce; Keble's sermon and the first "Tracts for the Times"
1841	Newman's Tract 90
1845	Newman enters the Roman Catholic Church

KEY TERMS

Clapham Sect; Evangelicals; Low Church; religious societies; abolition; emancipation; public opinion; Oxford movement; Tractarians; apostolic succession; High Church; Anglo-Catholic; mission and worship.

CHAPTER

38

To Earth's Remotest People

Protestant Missions

IN BRIEF

In 1800 Protestant Christianity hardly existed outside Europe and America; a century later it was in almost every land. The nineteenth century was the great age of Christian expansion, in sheer scale without parallel in history. The chapter tells of William Carey, the "Father of Modern Missions," of the pioneers who followed, of David Livingstone in Africa, and of the voluntary society, the new instrument that made a world mission possible.

THE QUESTION

What accounts for the sudden burst of Protestant effort to win the whole world for Christ?

Late in the eighteenth century, in an English village, a sign over a humble workshop read "Secondhand shoes bought and sold." Inside, William Carey mended boots and, when he could, studied Latin and Greek. Over the bench hung a rough map of the world on which he had written facts from the voyages of Captain Cook and other travelers. A friend called the shop "Carey's College." Bench and map stand for the awakening interest in distant peoples. At the time Asia was almost untouched by the gospel, apart from traces in India and the Dutch East Indies, and Africa, except for the ancient Copts of Egypt and Ethiopia, was the "dark continent." After eighteen centuries Christianity was far from a world religion. Kenneth Scott Latourette, the leading historian of its expansion,

judges that never before had any set of ideas, religious or secular, been spread so far by so large a body of full-time workers supported by the free gifts of so many millions.

The Pioneer in Modern Missions

In Protestantism's first century the Catholic powers Spain and Portugal led Europe's expansion, and its outstanding missionaries were Xavier, Las Casas and Ricci. New lands opened to Protestants only after the Spanish Armada was defeated (1588) and Britain and the Netherlands rose as colonial powers. The first to go were the Pietists. The Moravians, however, sought out individuals in some European colony, and the groups they gathered were tiny islands in a sea of heathenism. Carey thought on a larger scale: the evangelization of whole countries and the results of an entire people turning Christian. In his view the missionary from abroad can do only a little, so that developing a local ministry is the first of all missionary concerns, and that the faith has to strike root in the customs and culture of the country that receives it.

He was an unlikely candidate for greatness: a cobbler married to a poor, uneducated girl, often without enough to eat, but with a ravenous hunger for knowledge, who would skip a meal to afford a book and whose heroes were Columbus and Cook. Converted in 1779 through a fellow shoemaker and baptized as a believer in 1783, he became pastor of the Baptist chapel at Moulton, supporting his family by teaching and shoemaking. Among the Baptists he met Andrew Fuller, a strong Calvinist who broke with those who thought earnest evangelism inconsistent with election and who complained that preachers had sunk into "a compromising way of dealing with the unconverted." From Fuller's teaching that all are obliged to repent and believe, Carey drew the inference that those entrusted with the gospel are obliged to take it everywhere. In 1792 he published his *Enquiry*, which argued that Christians are obliged to use practical means to convert the heathen, an epoch-making book. It answered the five objections commonly raised: the heathen lands' distance, their barbarism, the danger, the difficulty

of support and the unknown languages. None of these stopped the merchants. It needs only, he wrote, as much love for the souls of our fellow creatures as traders have "for the profits arising from a few otter skins." He ended with practical proposals. Carey and Fuller read Jesus' command to preach to all the world, and Paul's word that every knee shall bow, as addressed to themselves. In October 1792 they and eleven colleagues founded the Baptist Missionary Society, and the Carey family left for India the following year. His wife Dorothy, who had meant to stay behind, yielded to a last appeal, regretted it almost at once, and spent the rest of her days confined to her room, embittered and possibly insane.

The British East India Company, virtual ruler of India since 1763, cared for profits and thought sending missionaries the maddest and most dangerous of projects. Refused leave to live in Calcutta, Carey settled at Serampore under the Danish flag and worked in Bengal as foreman at an indigo works, a post that occupied three months of the year and left the rest for oriental languages. In 1799 Joshua Marshman and William Ward joined him, and for a quarter of a century the three built a network of stations in and beyond Bengal. They plunged into Hindu thought, which they considered essential equipment and no distraction: the preacher must be understood, and the thought-world of a nation, like its souls and bodies, is to be brought captive to Christ. By 1824 six whole Bibles and portions in twenty-four further languages had been translated under Carey's direction, and he had published grammars, dictionaries and translations of Eastern books.

The Contagion of Missionary Service

The example of the Serampore trio was contagious. The major churches had thought missions needless and hopeless; now voices everywhere declared it every Christian's duty to share in the conversion of the world, for the gospel is not the private possession of Europeans. The pioneers number hundreds: Henry Martyn and Alexander Duff (India), Robert Morrison (China), John Williams (the South Seas), Adoniram Judson (Burma), Allen Gardiner (Tierra

del Fuego), Robert Moffat in South Africa. Scores more are forgotten because they died within months of fever or at the hands of hostile tribes.

For three decades the effort was almost wholly evangelical, and naturally so. Traditional churchmen saw the minister's task as nurturing the faith planted at baptism in the whole parish and could not imagine preaching in a tribal society, while holders of a rigid predestination gave no thought to the elect in India or China. For Evangelicals to preach was to summon sinners to God by faith in Christ, and they saw no difference in principle between "baptized heathen" in Britain and non-Christians overseas. It was only in the 1820s and 1830s that missions became a normal part of British church life, as evangelical values spread and Britain came to be seen as a Christian nation with responsibilities abroad. Thousands of sermons and hundreds of hymns carried the vision, such as "From Greenland's Icy Mountains" by Reginald Heber, who gave his life as bishop of Calcutta.

Two emphases produced this world vision. One was evangelical: people who lack faith in Christ are lost, and Christ has charged each generation to spread the news of salvation. The other was prophetic. Following Jonathan Edwards, many believed that the whole earth would come to know the Lord, as the prophets had promised, in preparation for Christ's coming reign on earth, a belief called millennialism. Joined to the optimism of the Age of Progress, the goal seemed attainable, and the Student Volunteer Movement took as its watchword "the evangelization of the world in this generation." The vision was kept fresh by reports from the field, none more stirring than those of David Livingstone (1813–1873) on the spiritual darkness of Africa and the horrors of the Arab slave trade. He came of hardy Scottish stock, resolved at nineteen to give his life to "the alleviation of human misery," trained as a doctor, and went out drawn by the fame of Robert Moffat.

Livingstone in Africa

He arrived in 1841 and for ten years did ordinary mission work. But he had an explorer's mind and was always drawn on by "the smoke of a thousand villages" that had never seen a missionary. His first great journey took him through the jungle to Angola on the Atlantic and then, since he refused to desert his African carriers, back over the whole breadth of Africa to Quilimane on the Indian Ocean. His patience with Africans spared him any resort to force, and he recorded what he saw of science and geography with great precision. With that single journey the interior of Africa was opened to the modern world. Yet he was never only a traveler. "I place no value on anything I have or may possess," he wrote, "except in relation to the kingdom of Christ." What moved him most was "this open sore of the world," the slave trade of central Africa. In 1857 he told the students of Cambridge, "I go back to Africa to try to make an open path for commerce and Christianity." That did not make him a forerunner of colonial exploiters. He saw that the trade depended on African participation: where slave raiding was the road to wealth, the temptation to raid weaker neighbors was constant. Only if Africans could be drawn into legitimate commerce, exchanging the produce of their fields and forests for the goods of the white man, would the wicked trade stop.

How was the vision turned into action? The denominations were governed by bishops, presbyteries or congregations, each claiming the Bible, and people had suffered and bled for each form. But none of them could launch a world mission. Its supporters were driven to another form of cooperation.

Creation of the Voluntary Society

Again Carey was the pioneer. Asking what a trading company would do, his *Enquiry* proposed a company of serious Christians, laymen and ministers, with a committee to gather information, raise funds and find suitable missionaries. The voluntary society, whose early form was the missionary society, transformed nineteenth-century Christianity. Devised to meet a need, not for theological

reasons, it nevertheless weakened the existing systems of church government. It allowed action across denominations, since Baptist, Methodist, Anglican and Congregationalist could join forces for a defined purpose without raising questions of church structure. And it shifted power toward the laity: ordinary men, and later women, held key posts unthinkable elsewhere in the church. The London Missionary Society declared in 1795 that its design was not to send "Presbyterianism, Independency, Episcopacy or any other form of church government" but the gospel; one founder called for "the funeral of bigotry." Through the societies the enthusiast who collected a penny a week and passed round the missionary magazine shared fully in the work, and from such circles candidates came forward. As the American Rufus Anderson wrote in 1834, only in this century were the evangelical churches really organized for the conversion of the world.

In the United States the first society for work abroad, the American Board of Commissioners for Foreign Missions, dates from 1810 and owed its start to students at the Congregational Andover Theological Seminary. Their leader, Samuel J. Mills, had started at Williams College a small society whose members pledged their lives to missionary service; at Andover it included Adoniram Judson. Students then, as often later, laid the foundation of an advance. Baptists, Presbyterians and others soon formed their own agencies, and the conversion of the heathen became a major concern of congregations everywhere, kept alive by local societies and women's organizations, children's days, visits of missionaries on furlough, special offerings and finally a place in the regular church budget. By the end of the century almost every Christian body, from the Russian Orthodox Church to the Salvation Army, and nearly all countries had a share in the enterprise.

The early missionaries were often unaware of the conflicts the gospel caused in societies unlike their own. Most of them took the Western form of the faith for the faith itself, so that to make an Indian or a Malay a Christian was largely to make him into a Portuguese or a Dutchman. Condemning this is easy, Shelley says, yet every Christian and every Christian society mixes cultural

tradition with the faith, a problem as old as missions. The results can still be disastrous: if the faith arrives in Western habits that others find shocking, such as eating meat or freer contact between the sexes, it is condemned before it is examined. On the other hand the Christian community has a distinctiveness that comes from the gospel itself, which is a revolutionary power, and to disguise that is to turn the faith into something else.

The Marks of Modern Christianity

The movement kept expanding, and it brought out several marks of modern Christianity. First, the expansion came by voluntaryism, not compulsion. Since Constantine the spread of the faith had enjoyed the support of Christian rulers and often meant mass conversions; these missionaries, with few exceptions, went without state support or control and advanced only by persuasion, so that mission and religious freedom went together. Second, it drew on the money and abilities of ordinary Protestants. Earlier missions were led by monks and bishops, whereas the societies were organized on the broadest base, and the church's primary task, preaching the gospel, fell to its people. Third, humanitarian work went with the preaching. The agencies founded schools, hospitals and training centers for nurses and doctors, reduced languages to writing, translated the Bible and other Western books, and introduced public health measures and better farming. Some of this served conversion; much sprang simply from need that a Christian conscience could not pass by. By all this the missionary movement put the gospel back at the center and regained something the divisions of the Reformation had hidden, the catholicity of the church: a universality like that of the map over Carey's bench, reaching out to new peoples in new lands.

KEY PEOPLE

William Carey; Andrew Fuller; Joshua Marshman; William Ward; Henry Martyn; Robert Morrison; Adoniram Judson; Alexander Duff; Robert Moffat; Reginald Heber; David Livingstone; Samuel J. Mills; Kenneth Scott Latourette.

KEY DATES

1792	Carey's *Enquiry*; Baptist Missionary Society founded
1793	Carey sails for India
1795	London Missionary Society founded
1799	Marshman and Ward join Carey at Serampore
1810	American Board of Commissioners for Foreign Missions founded
1841	David Livingstone arrives in Africa
1857	Livingstone's appeal at Cambridge for "commerce and Christianity"
1873	Death of Livingstone

KEY TERMS

Modern missions; local ministry; Serampore trio; millennialism; "the evangelization of the world in this generation"; voluntary society; missionary society; lay leadership; voluntaryism; humanitarian ministries; catholicity.

CHAPTER

39

The Destiny of a Nation

A Christian America

IN BRIEF

The dream of a Christian America, a "righteous empire," is a dominant theme of nineteenth-century American Protestantism. The chapter traces its rise on the western frontier through voluntary societies and revivals, its great crisis over slavery and the Civil War, and its decline under three cultural shocks: Darwin, the industrial city with its immigrants, and the higher criticism of the Bible.

THE QUESTION

How did Evangelicals try to shape the destiny of the American nation, and why did the vision fade?

"Shall a nation be born at once?" asked Isaiah, and in 1835 Lyman Beecher, the well-known Presbyterian and Congregational minister, preached on the text a sermon called *A Plea for the West*. A vast empire was opening in the wilderness and a whole culture was at stake; Christians should shape "the religious and political destiny of the nation." His means were preaching, distributing Bibles, planting churches, founding schools and reforming morals, for, Puritan that he was, he knew that a free society needs just laws and that in a democracy just laws need popular support informed by Christianity. He spoke for a host of Baptists, Methodists, Congregationalists, Presbyterians and Episcopalians.

The Challenge of the American West

The evangelical dream, like the plans of Innocent III for medieval Europe and of Calvin for Geneva, was an expression of Christian concern for society, and the West gave it the greatest opportunity ever to press the gospel on a whole nation. The vision has faded, Shelley writes, but the impulse remains, since Christ calls his people light and salt. The great fact of the century was the moving frontier. Early visitors praised the land beyond the Alleghenies, with its streams and meadows of wild rye, bluegrass and clover. After the Revolution the continent seemed to tilt toward the Pacific: nine states were added between 1792 and 1821, and by mid-century half the population lived west of the Appalachians. The frontiersman, driving out the Indians and subduing the wilderness, gained a name for lawless living; an English visitor described backwoodsmen fighting over trifles with hands, teeth, knees and feet and gouging out eyes. At the nation's birth the churches seemed ill prepared. Only 5 or 10 percent of Americans were church members. Yet the crude and godless West was tamed, and evangelical Christianity did more than any other force to tame it.

It had two instruments. The first was the voluntary society. The Bill of Rights, by guaranteeing religious liberty, sanctioned the denominational idea of the church and ruled out direct church influence on government. Carey and the English Evangelicals had devised the voluntary society for missions and for the fight against the slave trade; Americans took it over to influence public opinion, support missionary and educational work and spread reform, uniting Christians of different denominations for a common concern such as temperance or the Sabbath. So arose a whole family of national societies, for Bibles, Sunday schools, education, the colonization of freed slaves and much else. By 1830 Beecher credited the church's "grand influence" to "the voluntary association of Christians."

The second was the revival, to which the churches could look, Beecher said, for members, pastors and power over public opinion. In 1790 two tasks lay ahead: the East had to be won back

and the West won for the first time. Eastern colleges in particular showed new spiritual life before 1800, the Second Great Awakening, which supplied leaders for the western crusade. The frontier revival, centered in Kentucky and Tennessee, was as rugged, wild and boisterous as the people. Timothy Flint described the western preacher, made pensive and romantic by months of travel through dark forests, whose first aim was to stir the feelings with "strong, earnest and unlettered eloquence." Among a largely illiterate people the frontier preacher, white or black, was the chief channel of Christianity.

The Inflammable James McGready

One of the most pungent was James McGready, a tall, angular Presbyterian of Scotch-Irish stock from Pennsylvania, with keen black eyes and an uncompromising manner. He first preached in North Carolina, where his stress on God's wrath lit a revival; when he left abruptly for Kentucky in 1798, it was said that the suggestion had come in a letter written in blood. In Logan County, a "Rogues' Harbor" of horse thieves and murderers, he served three little flocks on the Red, Gasper and Muddy rivers. He painted heaven so vividly that hardened hearers longed for it, and hell so that they trembled before the lake of fire. In July 1800 came his Pentecost. After a revival at Red River he sent out notice of the next sacramental service at Gasper River, and pioneers came by wagon, on horseback and on foot from as far as a hundred miles, with tents and provisions, ready to stay. This was the first camp meeting: a religious service of several days held outdoors for people who had come a distance and camped on the spot.

Revival preacher and camp meeting have lasted in America for nearly two centuries. The heat cooled, as it had to, and Charles Finney, then D. L. Moody and in the end Billy Graham took the camp meeting indoors, to rural chapels and city auditoriums. Not everyone approved. Many Lutherans and Presbyterians thought revivals slighted sound doctrine, and Catholics and Episcopalians thought them emotional outbursts, not worship. The revivalists and

missionaries went on preaching, planting churches and founding colleges, and by the 1830s Tocqueville found no country in the world where Christianity kept "a greater influence over the souls of men."

But Christian America carried a spreading cancer. How could a democracy that professed Christian principles go on enslaving millions? American slavery began on August 20, 1619, when twenty Africans were landed from a Dutch ship at Jamestown; by 1830 there were about two million slaves. With each new state and each move onto new land the question burned deeper: slave or free? If liberty and union could not both be kept, which came first? The struggle was so basic and so religious that all sides turned to the Bible.

Christianity among the Slaves

The slave turned to the Bible out of necessity, because his master had stripped him of everything else, including his African gods. Uprooting had shattered the Africans' culture, their social organization and their sense of a place in the world. Some killed themselves on the "middle passage" across the Atlantic and others tried to escape, but most submitted and sought a meaning for life in the white man's world. Christianity gave them a new center. Some owners at first opposed teaching slaves the Scriptures for fear they would find there ideas of equality and rebel. The opposition faded as masters decided that the New Testament supports slavery and that the best slaves were those who knew the Bible best. Since every other form of organized life was forbidden, the black preacher became the central figure of the "invisible institution," the slave church. He was "called" by an experience showing that God had chosen him, which gave him great influence, and he learned to dramatize the Bible in terms of the slaves' own life. As Dean Willard Sperry explained, the chief event was the Exodus and the chief character Jesus. Bondage in Egypt, the Red Sea, the drowning of Pharaoh's army, the desert and the crossing of Jordan into the Promised Land were the constant themes of sermons and spirituals. Because there

was little hope of deliverance on earth, emancipation was linked with death, when Jesus would strike off the shackles.

Most Christians did not try to defend slavery before the 1830s, and until about 1830 opposition to slavery had more strength in the South than in the North. Then it faded there and a Southern defense arose, partly from the Bible. Richard Furman, South Carolina's leading Baptist, argued that Israel was told to buy bondmen who were to be "bondmen for ever," and that the apostles never demanded emancipation but only that masters give slaves what is "just and equal." In the years of the Cotton Kingdom the tie between evangelical religion and race became part of the Southern way of life. The South grew isolated from the North and from a Western world that condemned slavery, and isolation made it defensive. Harriet Martineau, visiting in the 1830s, said a "magic ring" seemed drawn around those who lived amid slavery, so that few saw anything beyond it.

In the North evangelical feeling against slavery flowed largely from the revival preaching of Charles G. Finney, especially around Oberlin College, of which he was president. His disciple Theodore Weld led the crusade with two books, *The Bible against Slavery* of 1837 and, after it, *Slavery as It Is*. Beecher's daughter, Harriet Beecher Stowe, lived with the latter book "day and night till its facts crystallized into *Uncle Tom's Cabin*." Her novel reminds Christians that prophecy joins the day of vengeance with the year of the redeemed. In the common millennialist reading of Revelation the fall of Babylon would be marked by the convulsion of nations, and America, with its part in God's plan, must be purged of its guilt. The guilt was national, not Southern only, and she struck at the national conscience hoping that a cleansing of the soul might avert a scourging of the body.

All sides thus used the same symbols—one Bible, one heaven and hell, one Christ—for opposite causes. No one felt this more than Abraham Lincoln. Formed by evangelical culture and by the language of the Bible, he never joined a church or held a particular creed, and he learned that no one can say precisely what God wills for the nation. "In great contests each party claims to act

in accordance with the will of God. Both may be, and one must be wrong." In his second inaugural address he said that North and South shared one Bible and prayed to one God; the prayers of both could not be answered, for "the Almighty has his own purposes." The war was fought and the nation endured. The vision of a Christian America survived as well, but much weakened. Black churches arose in great numbers, the chief institutional expression of freedom and a standing reminder of the vision's blind spot.

Cultural Shocks for Evangelical America

Hardly was the war over when three shocks called traditional evangelical beliefs into question. The first was Charles Darwin's *Origin of Species* (1859), perhaps the century's most important book. It argued that species evolve by natural selection: those that adapt to their surroundings survive and the weaker die off. Would such a theory leave room for a God who creates and sustains, and how should the Bible's account of creation be read? The second was industrialization and the rush to the cities. Towns became cities overnight, filled from the countryside and from Germany, Norway, Italy and elsewhere, and most immigrants brought religious views foreign to the way Protestant Americans had seen their country and their Bible. The third and most direct was higher criticism. As professors returned with advanced degrees from European universities, critical views came to dominate American higher education and then many denominations. Churches were jolted to hear that Moses did not write the first five books and that Jesus was a somewhat deluded visionary.

Together these belonged to the general shift of Western culture from Christian to secular thought and conduct, and Christians disagreed about the response. In the evangelical denominations two parties formed, one welcoming the changes as blessings from God, the other resisting them as threats to the biblical message. Dwight L. Moody, the leading urban revivalist after the Civil War, and many lesser preachers saw their task as winning souls and preparing them for Christ's second coming. Beecher's dream was

fading. Millennial hopes dissolved in the hatreds of the war, the strikes and financial panics of the 1870s and 1880s and the rise of an urban world that rejected Christian values, and Evangelicals, especially in the urban North, turned more and more to speculation about the future and to the inner life. Two statements measure the change. In 1873 Theodore Woolsey, retired president of Yale, told the Evangelical Alliance that America is a Christian country in that the vast majority believe in Christ and the gospel, Christian influences are universal and the civilization is built on that foundation. In 1924 H. L. Mencken quipped that Christendom is the region where a man who rises to declare on oath that he is a Christian is laughed at by everyone present. Beecher would never have believed it.

KEY PEOPLE

Lyman Beecher; James McGready; Charles G. Finney; Theodore Weld; Harriet Beecher Stowe; Richard Furman; Abraham Lincoln; Charles Darwin; Dwight L. Moody; Theodore Woolsey; H. L. Mencken.

KEY DATES

1619	First African slaves landed at Jamestown, Virginia
1800	First camp meeting, at Gasper River, Kentucky
1835	Lyman Beecher's *A Plea for the West*
1837	Theodore Weld's *The Bible against Slavery*
1859	Darwin's *The Origin of Species*
1873	Theodore Woolsey calls America a Christian country
1924	H. L. Mencken quips that in Christendom a professing Christian is laughed at

KEY TERMS

Christian America; "righteous empire"; frontier; voluntary society; revival; Second Great Awakening; camp meeting; the "invisible institution"; abolitionism; millennialism; natural selection; higher criticism.

CHAPTER

40

A Bridge for Intelligent Moderns

Protestant Liberalism

IN BRIEF

Protestant liberalism tried to lead the churches into the world of modern science, philosophy and history, so that a person could be, in Harry Emerson Fosdick's words, "both an intelligent modern and a serious Christian." The chapter pictures it as a bridge resting on two towers, modern thought (evolution and biblical criticism) and Christian experience (Schleiermacher and Ritschl), and shows the change at work among New England Congregationalists.

THE QUESTION

How can the faith be restated for a new intellectual world without being bent out of shape or lost?

In 1920, on the day he turned eighty-five, Lyman Abbott, who in the 1890s had been among the most influential preachers in America, looked back on his Puritan childhood, when he thought of God as "a kind of awful and omnipresent police justice" and of himself as "a scared culprit" who did not clearly know why he deserved punishment. He had long since given up both pictures. Abbott was typical of many ministers raised in pious Protestant homes who studied in Germany, or in American seminaries that prized German scholarship, and adopted liberal convictions. The twentieth century has been unkind to the liberal creed, yet every major Protestant denomination still shows its mark, and Sydney Ahlstrom judged that the liberals set off the most fundamental controversy in the

churches since the Reformation.

The Aims of Protestant Liberalism

The problem is as old as Christianity. Paul tried to restate the faith for a new world of thought and succeeded; the Gnostics tried and failed. On liberalism no final verdict has been given, though Christian opinion leans heavily toward failure. H. Richard Niebuhr put its irony best: "a God without wrath brought men without sin into a kingdom without judgment through the ministrations of a Christ without a Cross." Many deny that it is a theology at all and call it a spirit; Henry Sloane Coffin of Union Seminary called it the spirit that puts truth above everything and so demands liberty to debate, publish and pursue it.

SIDEBAR **Theological Liberalism**

Theological liberalism takes a progressive ethic from the Christian message and rejects the doctrines in which Christians have traditionally stated that message. Its perfect example is Adolf von Harnack (1851–1930), a pioneer in ethics, theology, New Testament studies and historical theology, which he revolutionized. He argued that Jesus was misunderstood and misrepresented in most Christian sources, the Gospels included. Jesus was a plain Hebrew prophet who summoned people to wake up morally, and his real message can be recovered by stripping off the layers of tradition, the husk from the kernel. Harnack's Jesus proclaimed a kingdom that is moral and present, not a supernatural upheaval still to come; his themes were the fatherhood of God, the brotherhood of mankind and the infinite value of every soul, and called his followers to a higher righteousness rooted in God's command to love.

Shelley holds that the liberal spirit does lead to identifiable convictions and that spirit and convictions together make up liberalism. He likens it to a suspension bridge. One tower stands on modern thought, the other on Christian experience, and the soil shifts under both. Those who use the bridge disagree about which side is safer, which is why Kenneth Cauthen finds two types. Evangelical liberals were serious Christians looking for a theology fit for intelligent

modern people, and they trusted the tower of experience. Modernistic liberals were intelligent moderns who hoped to be counted Christians in some sense, and they trusted the tower of modern thought.

Liberals believed that theology must make its peace with modern science or lose intelligent people. They refused to accept beliefs on authority alone. Faith must pass the tests of reason and experience; the human mind can think God's own thoughts over again, and intuition and reason are the surest clues to his nature. A Christian should be open to truth from any source, and an unexamined faith is not worth having. In yielding so fully to the modern mind they accepted its assumption that the universe is one harmonious machine or growing organism. The biblical account recognizes distinct orders—matter, plants, animals, man and God—but liberal theology pressed for continuity. The lines it blurred were many: revealed and natural religion, Christianity and the other faiths, the saved and the lost, Christ and the rest of humanity, even God and man.

Two terms are crucial. Immanence is God's presence in the world, working through nature; its extreme is pantheism, which identifies God and the world. Transcendence is God's reality apart from the world; its extreme is deism, with God as separate as a watchmaker from his watch. Liberals judged that modern people could not accept a God located somewhere outside the universe (a view of God, Shelley notes, that owes more to deism than to real Christian theology). They linked the divine with human consciousness and called the life running through nature and man God. This fitted science. God had not broken through the clouds to create the world but had worked for ages through natural law. As the poet said, "Some call it evolution, and others call it God." Evolution holds that natural selection has produced every complex organism from simpler ones, so that no species is fixed. In 1785 James Hutton attributed the earth's development to natural causes, and Sir Charles Lyell's *Principles of Geology* (1830) confirmed that the earth's surface was formed by natural causes over a vast time, the time that any theory of evolution needs.

Enter Charles Darwin

Charles Darwin (1809–1882) studied medicine, prepared at Cambridge for the ministry and turned naturalist instead. Between 1831 and 1836 he worked on the specimens gathered during the surveying voyage of the *Beagle* along the coast of South America. *The Origin of Species* (1859) contended that species have been modified over a long line of descent, mainly by the natural selection of many slight, favorable variations. It revolutionized ideas about the origin of life. *The Descent of Man* (1871) applied natural selection to human beings and concluded that their ancestors were probably monkey-like animals. Many religious people were thrown on the defensive. Some rejected the new views outright: if man is not specially created and fallen, what need is there of Christ's salvation? Others tried to reconcile faith and evolution, and liberals came to think that evolution supplements Christianity, growth and development being God's way of revealing himself. In 1892 Lyman Abbott, minister of Plymouth Church in Brooklyn, wrote *The Evolution of Christianity* and spoke of the evolution of the Bible, the church and even the soul.

Serious as it was, the challenge of science was secondary to that of history. Science could question God's rule over the physical world; historical criticism went straight to God's revelation in the Bible. "Criticism" names a method, the subjecting of material to careful scrutiny, for example asking whether there is historical evidence for the church's teaching that the Son is God or whether it rests on tradition. The movement assumed that it was itself free of corrupting traditions, an assumption harder to believe today. Lower criticism tries to reconstruct the exact wording of the lost originals from the many surviving manuscripts, and conservatives, who care greatly about the exact wording, have contributed much to it. Higher criticism is another matter. It asks about meaning and whether the events reported really happened, and studies the background, authorship and setting of each text. The method was not new, but in the nineteenth century it was applied to the Bible as to any other ancient book. In practice, Shelley objects, the critics

did not treat it like any other book: many assumed that God cannot act in history, and others that the Bible's story is untrue unless confirmed by an independent source.

The conclusions shook orthodoxy. The books of Moses were said to be the product of centuries, four great literary traditions combined in the course of Israel's history; some prophecies seemed true because they were written after the events; the accuracy of the Gospels, especially John, was challenged. A central concern was the search for the "historical Jesus," on the assumption that Jesus as he lived differed from the Jesus of the Gospels and that authentic sayings and deeds must be sifted from later additions by the early church. David Friedrich Strauss (1809–1874) rejected the earlier approaches: the straightforward supernaturalist reading, the face-saving rationalism that found natural explanations for miracles (Jesus walking on a jetty, not on the water), and the notion of deliberate fraud by the evangelists. The Gospels, he argued, reflect the mythological outlook of the ancients. Myth was the vehicle by which ancient people grasped great persons and events, and a modern reader who knows this can assess the ideas the myths carry.

The Impact of Biblical Criticism

More important than any single conclusion was that criticism put the general trustworthiness of the Bible in question. Liberals welcomed it. They no longer had to defend every part of the Bible as God's infallible Word, or a God who told Israel to slaughter its enemies, women and children included, or sent bears to maul children who mocked a prophet. Criticism showed, they said, that revelation itself had evolved. Its first notions were crude and bloodthirsty; it advanced as the Jews slowly grasped a righteous God served by doing justly, loving mercy and walking humbly, and reached fulfillment in Jesus, who shows God as the loving Father of all.

When the traditional doctrines no longer gave assurance, liberals turned to the other tower, Christian experience. Early in the century the movement called Romanticism, usually understood as a protest

against the rationalism of the Enlightenment, discerned a dynamic energy surging in nature, not irrational but beyond reason; Romantic painters showed it as a great storm, dangerous and fascinating at once. It is met by intuition, not logical deduction, and to meet it is of first importance. Why trouble about external creeds when so intimate a certainty rules every soul? "Closer is He than breathing," wrote Tennyson, "and nearer than hands and feet." In 1891 Lewis F. Stearns of Bangor Seminary told the International Congregational Council in London that criticism and rationalism could no more disturb the Christian realities in the believer's experience than the surf on the coast of Maine could overthrow its granite cliffs.

Influential Spokesmen for Liberalism

The two chief spokesmen for experience were German theologians, Friedrich Schleiermacher (1768–1834) of the new University of Berlin and Albrecht Ritschl (1822–1889) of Bonn and Göttingen. Following William Hordern's account, Schleiermacher tried to rehabilitate religion among intellectuals. Debates over proofs of God and abstract doctrine are at best secondary. The heart of religion is the awareness of our absolute dependence before the grandeur of God. Cultivated people were right to reject the abstractions of Protestant Scholasticism; their Romantic sensibilities were already religious, and Christianity rightly understood explains that experience better than any other religion. After him it became common to regard the religions as differing expressions of one inner experience shared by all people. Christ's uniqueness lies not in a doctrine or a miraculous origin such as the virgin birth: "The real miracle is Jesus himself," the man with supreme God-consciousness. We glimpse God now and then, while he knew him fully; our obedience comes and goes, while his was entire. Having that knowledge he can communicate God-consciousness to others, and the church is the living witness that through contact with his life people have come to a vital relationship with God and to brotherly living. Schleiermacher is "the father of modern theology" because he moved the basis of faith from Scripture to religious experience.

Ritschl, the most influential theologian of the late century and the chief teacher of American liberals, fixed that experience on the historical Jesus. Religion must be practical. To be saved is not to go to heaven at death, a theoretical matter, but to live a new life, free of sin, selfishness, fear and guilt. Christianity must be built on fact, so he found the quest for the Jesus of history welcome; the great fact is the impact Jesus has made on the church through the centuries. Nature speaks ambiguously of God. We find him in history, where movements arise devoted to the values that give life meaning. Religion rests on values, not on scientific truth: science gives the facts, and religion weighs them. Man, though a product of nature and evolution, has a sense of values, and God is the postulate needed to explain it. Many found this helpful, for it seemed to free faith from the damage done by science and history. Criticism could settle authorship, date and meaning as matters of fact, but it cannot rule on values. If it denies the miracles, the virgin birth and the preexistence of Jesus, he is no less valuable. His divinity lies in the fact that a movement which creates values began with him. The ethical ideals he embodied are so high that they move us to live as he lived, and he is divine in the sense that he does for us what God does: he makes us aware of what is highest in life. The church comes from him, a community that creates values and the vanguard of a society moved by love, which is the kingdom of God on earth.

An Example of Liberal Change

Across Europe and North America liberalism challenged the orthodox churches. The Congregationalists of the United States serve as an example. Among them it appeared as the New Theology, and its advocates came from within New England Calvinism: Theodore Thornton Munger and Newman Smyth, ministers in New Haven; George Angier Gordon of Old South Church in Boston; Washington Gladden, whose great success came at the First Congregational Church of Columbus, Ohio; George Harris, professor of theology at Andover and spokesman through *The Andover Review*; and the

great popularizer, Lyman Abbott, of whom F. H. Foster said that probably no one in America did so much to move people toward a liberal theology. Their allies included William Newton Clarke, Henry Ward Beecher, William Jewett Tucker and Egbert Smyth, among others. The movement was a protest, in the name of modern thought, against the "old theology" of evangelical Puritanism, the New England Theology. Its last outstanding spokesman, Edwards Amasa Park, resigned his chair at Andover in 1881, and Harris succeeded him two years later, the watershed between old and new.

Before 1880 most New England ministers held the sovereignty of God, the innate depravity of mankind traced to the first man's sin, the atonement of Christ as the ground of forgiveness, the Holy Spirit's necessary part in conversion, and the eternal separation of saved and lost. After 1880 every one of these came under fire. The most famous controversy broke out at Andover Seminary, founded by Congregationalists in 1808 to counter the Unitarian drift of Harvard, whose founders had required the faculty to subscribe to a Calvinist creed. By 1880 professors found this impossible and said so. What set it off was an article series in the *Andover Review* in which Egbert C. Smyth, Tucker and Harris argued that heathen who die without knowing the gospel will be given the chance, after death and before the last judgment, to accept or refuse it. In the debate that followed the faculty moved step by step to the open defense of liberal theology. The seminary's Board of Visitors charged Smyth with departing from the creed, as a test case, and dismissed him; after years of maneuver the Supreme Court of Massachusetts voided the dismissal in 1892. By then almost every American denomination had its own celebrated heresy case.

KEY PEOPLE

Lyman Abbott; Harry Emerson Fosdick; H. Richard Niebuhr; Adolf von Harnack; Charles Lyell; Charles Darwin; David Friedrich Strauss; Friedrich Schleiermacher; Albrecht Ritschl; Washington Gladden; George Harris; Egbert C. Smyth; Edwards Amasa Park.

KEY DATES

1830	Lyell's *Principles of Geology*
1834	Death of Schleiermacher, "father of modern theology"
1859	Darwin's *The Origin of Species*
1871	Darwin's *The Descent of Man*
1889	Death of Albrecht Ritschl
1892	Massachusetts court voids the dismissal of Egbert Smyth at Andover Seminary; Lyman Abbott's *The Evolution of Christianity*

KEY TERMS

Protestant liberalism; evangelical and modernistic liberalism; immanence and transcendence; evolution; natural selection; lower and higher criticism; historical Jesus; myth; Romanticism; religious experience; God-consciousness; value judgments; kingdom of God on earth; New Theology.

CHAPTER

41

Nothing to Lose but Chains

The Social Crisis

IN BRIEF

Industry made nations rich and packed their workers into mills and slums. For the churches this was a test as severe as the intellectual one of the same century. The chapter sketches factory life and the doctrine of *laissez faire*, the socialist reply and Karl Marx, and then the Christian responses: Catholic social teaching, English Nonconformity, the Salvation Army, the Christian Socialists and the American Social Gospel.

THE QUESTION

What did Christians do about the misery of the industrial city?

The chapter opens in the factory town of Dickens's *Hard Times*, with its sooty brick, its chimneys trailing "interminable serpents of smoke," its dyed river and its shuddering mills. New ways of manufacturing lie behind most of the century's upheavals, hence the name industrial revolution. Factories created cities, and cities concentrated human need. Critics have long said that the church ran away from the problem. Shelley notes two facts on their side: lands with a long Christian past later fell to Marxist regimes, and in the West itself most people see no link between their faith and their daily work.

The New World of Factories

Christians often regard the industrial city with bewilderment and fear. Shelley reminds them that their faith has acted in history both as a brake and as a spur, and that it did both in this case. Industrialization started in England because England had the trade, the capital and the markets. The key invention was the improved steam engine of the Scot James Watt (1736–1819), which freed manufacturers from wind, water and season and soon drove mills, railways and ships. Workers left cottage and field for the factory. A life once timed by daylight and harvest was now timed by the whistle; the chapter calls it man's time in place of God's.

For the workers the cost was high. Early mills had neither sanitation nor safety devices. The law blamed injuries on the injured, so that a maimed hand meant dismissal without compensation, and a replacement was always waiting. Women worked almost until they gave birth and came back days later; children of four and five were employed; shifts ran to fifteen hours at the lowest wages. Families lived a room apiece in tenements on unsewered streets heaped with refuse.

The middle class had by now won its long contest with the aristocracy, and its creed was *laissez faire*. Adam Smith's *Wealth of Nations* taught that competition benefits everyone by rewarding efficiency, and that the state should guard life and property and otherwise leave supply and demand alone. The creed implied that nothing could be done about industrial misery. Those who suffered it owned nothing and therefore could not vote, which is why the workers of this century fought for the franchise or for some other lever of power.

Socialism was the first challenge to this creed. Its early form was a theory more than a movement. It condemned concentrated wealth, proposed ownership by the public or by the workers, and wanted cooperation in place of rivalry. The founders of its model communities are called utopians because they assumed that people are loving by nature and are set against each other only by capitalism. Everything thus turned on property. The church had always

defended private ownership, citing the tenth commandment, and had branded its deniers heretics. But the old teaching had never faced a situation in which so much was owned by so few and millions owned nothing. Rome at least fed and amused its poor.

The churches, moreover, had lost their public voice. America had no national church by constitutional rule, the Church of England lost many privileges in the reforms of the 1830s, and anticlericalism hemmed in the bishops of France and Italy. Excluded from the places where decisions were made, Christians increasingly limited their faith to "spiritual" matters, and a growing number of workers concluded that it had nothing to say to the machine age.

Marx, Prophet of the New Age

In 1848, hardly noticed, a new and harder socialism found its prophet. Karl Marx (1818–1883) accused Christianity of taking the oppressor's side. Religion, he held, serves the rich by promising the poor a reward in heaven and by diverting them with fine ideas from the real cause of their condition, the struggle of classes; the poor must now make history by force. Marx was born in Trier of Jewish parents who had turned Christian, studied Hegel's philosophy and earned a doctorate, failed to obtain a professorship and became a journalist. In Paris he adopted socialism and met Friedrich Engels (1820–1895), a manufacturer's son, who became his lifelong friend and patron. France expelled him in 1845, and the two moved to Brussels.

There, in January 1848, they issued the *Communist Manifesto*, which already holds nearly the whole of their "scientific" socialism. It begins with the specter of Communism haunting Europe, declares war on the bourgeoisie, predicts a revolution that cannot fail, and closes with the summons from which the chapter takes its title: "The proletarians have nothing to lose but their chains. They have a world to win. Working men of all countries, unite!" After a brief return to Germany Marx settled in London for good. He lived there close to destitution, on the help of Engels and other friends, and worked day after day in the British Museum on *Das Kapital*

(1867–1894). Shelley ranks it among the most influential books of the modern age: for part of the twentieth century, governments that appealed to Marx ruled almost half of humanity.

Christians reacted as variously as they had to slavery. Many were factory owners and defended *laissez faire*. From about 1850, however, a growing number of Catholics and Protestants took up the workers' cause. The chapter lists four things they could do: criticize *laissez faire* on Christian grounds, create institutions to relieve the poor, back trade unions, and press the state for protective laws.

On the Catholic side the pioneer was Wilhelm Ketteler (1811–1877), a German bishop who preached and wrote on the factory question from 1848. He distrusted unbridled competition and an all-powerful state alike, and so upheld both state intervention and private property. His program included workers' associations, profit sharing, shorter hours, days of rest, factory inspection and limits on the labor of women and children. In England Cardinal Henry Edward Manning (d. 1892), a former evangelical Anglican, sided publicly with farm laborers at a meeting in December 1872, something no Catholic prelate there had done before. He lobbied Gladstone on child labor and housing and argued in an 1874 lecture for the right to organize and for legal limits on working hours. In the United States a Catholic layman, Terence Powderly, headed the Knights of Labor, the first effective union, which had many Catholic members. Rome was suspicious of such bodies because of its experience with Italian Masons and nationalists, and the Knights were probably saved from condemnation by the archbishop of Baltimore, the future Cardinal Gibbons.

The papacy itself spoke in 1891. Leo XIII (1878–1903), by then an old man, published the encyclical *Rerum Novarum*, which remains the foundation of Catholic teaching on capital and labor. It surveys the evils of industrialism, rejects socialism and names the family as the basic cell of society. It also binds employers to justice and affirms the worker's right to organize, to bargain, to earn enough to live on and to rest. Monopoly and industrial servitude were thereby censured along with socialism.

Laboring Men in England

In Protestant England the workers' best allies were the Nonconformists, above all the Primitive Methodists. Unions were illegal until the middle of the century, but chapel life trained their future leaders: many had been lay preachers and brought to the labor movement the fervor, the habits of organization and the practice in public speaking they had acquired there. Nonconformists also led the temperance campaign and built orphanages, among them George Müller of the Plymouth Brethren, the Baptist preacher Charles Haddon Spurgeon and the Methodist T. B. Stephenson.

Onward, Christian Soldiers!

No ministry to the outcast matched that of William Booth (1829–1912), an Evangelical of pietist stamp. He left the Methodist New Connection to work among the London poor, and his street preaching in the East End from 1864 succeeded so well that eleven years later he ran thirty-two stations combining evangelism with social service. Their military organization gave the movement its name, the Salvation Army, and its founder the title of General. By 1888 there were a thousand corps in Britain and outposts abroad. In *In Darkest England and the Way Out* (1890) Booth likened the slums to the Africa of Livingstone's reports and backed the comparison with a year's figures for London: more than two thousand bodies found dead, a slightly larger number of suicides, 30,000 prostitutes, 160,000 convictions for drunkenness and over 900,000 paupers. The rest of the book describes the Army's rescue work.

The Church of England moved slowly. Since every new parish needed an act of Parliament, the people of the new industrial towns mostly grew up beyond its reach. The exception was the Christian Socialists: the theologian F. D. Maurice (1805–1872), the novelist Charles Kingsley (1819–1875) and the lawyer John Malcolm Ludlow (1821–1911). Between 1848 and 1854 they attacked the whole outlook of *laissez faire*. "Competition is put forth as the law of the universe," Maurice told Kingsley. "That is a lie." Human beings, they held, are created for fellowship and fulfill their nature by work-

ing together as God's children. They chose the word socialism to provoke, and meant by it the art of making people partners, a fruit of Christianity itself. Their cooperative workshops were poorly run and expected too much of the workers, so that their influence was felt chiefly through their ideas, especially in America. English workers, meanwhile, gained the vote and better conditions by stages, as successive laws barred young children from work, shortened the day for women and children and imposed safety inspections. Shelley observes that England had done a good deal before most Americans admitted that a social crisis existed.

Social Gospel in America

The American counterpart was the Social Gospel. Its spokesmen were liberal Protestant pastors and professors, who founded no body of their own and worked through denominations and political agencies. Their central conviction was that salvation concerns the structures of society as well as individual souls. If good and evil are embedded in institutions and are more than the total of personal acts, Christians have a duty to rebuild the social order. The movement had three roots: the older revivalism, which before the Civil War had joined conversion to reform (Finney sent his converts into the antislavery cause), although under Moody it had become individualistic; the English Christian Socialists; and the New Theology of Andover and the New England pulpits, which supplied its doctrine.

Its father was Washington Gladden (1836–1918), a New Englander who wrote on the subject from 1876 and did his chief work as pastor of a Congregational church in Columbus, Ohio. His congregation included both employers and employed, and he was troubled to see "the widening of the breach between these classes" in times of conflict. In evening lectures on labor he maintained that Jesus' teaching holds the principles of a just society. Gladden was not a socialist. He accepted private property and enterprise, but he favored cooperatives in many industries and public operation of railroads, mines and city utilities. He is also remembered for the

hymn "O Master, Let Me Walk with Thee."

The movement's most lasting voice was Walter Rauschenbusch (1861–1918). He learned the problems of the city as a young German Baptist pastor in Hell's Kitchen, a New York slum, and later taught church history at Rochester Theological Seminary, where he wrote *Christianity and the Social Crisis* (1907) and two further books (1912 and 1917) on a Christian social order and on the theology of the Social Gospel. He did not rely on the era's easy belief in progress but on the biblical idea of the kingdom of God. He called the social gospel "the old message of salvation, but enlarged and intensified." The gospel of the individual, he argued, had taught people to see sin in every heart and to trust God to save each person who turns to him. It had not taught them to see sin in the social order or their own part in it. The social gospel aimed at repentance for these shared sins and at a conscience fit for modern conditions. Its preachers treated capitalism as the leading case of social sin. They disagreed about how far it had to be changed and agreed that the kingdom of God required the change.

Seminaries revised their courses in response, and in 1908 the new Federal Council of Churches adopted, almost as its first act, a "Social Creed of the Churches." The creed asked for safe workplaces, provision for old age, a minimum wage and arbitration, all of which later became normal. Shelley closes with a balance. The church has always tried both to improve life here and to prepare people for the life to come. One danger is to speak so much of heaven that present suffering goes unnoticed; the opposite danger, which these movements ran, is to shrink the gospel into social action. What they rightly teach is that care for a person's eternal future is not credible without care for that person's needs on earth.

KEY PEOPLE

James Watt; Adam Smith; Karl Marx; Friedrich Engels; Wilhelm Ketteler; Cardinal Manning; Terence Powderly; Cardinal Gibbons; Leo XIII; William Booth; F. D. Maurice; Charles Kingsley; Washington Gladden; Walter Rauschenbusch.

KEY DATES

1848	Marx and Engels publish the *Communist Manifesto*
1848–1854	Christian Socialist movement in England
1864	William Booth begins preaching in London's East End
1867	First volume of Marx's *Das Kapital*
1890	Booth's *In Darkest England and the Way Out*
1891	Leo XIII's encyclical *Rerum Novarum*
1907	Rauschenbusch's *Christianity and the Social Crisis*
1908	Federal Council of Churches adopts the "Social Creed of the Churches"

KEY TERMS

Industrial Revolution; *laissez faire*; bourgeoisie; proletariat; utopian socialism; "scientific" socialism; communism; labor unions; Salvation Army; Christian Socialism; Social Gospel; kingdom of God; social sin.

PART EIGHT

The Age of Ideologies

1914–1989

From the First World War to the fall of the Berlin Wall the world was shaped by mass movements that asked for total loyalty: Communism, Nazism and, in Shelley's term, Americanism. The book sees in them new forms of paganism, which worshiped economic law, race or the unlimited rights of the individual. Under this pressure Christians suffered, rethought their theology and sought each other out. Protestants built the ecumenical movement, and the Roman Catholic Church undertook its own renewal at the Second Vatican Council. When the ideologies lost their force at the end of the 1980s, another fact came into view: a young, fast-growing Christianity in the Third World. The book adds that this growth matters more than the militant Islam that fills the headlines, and that the churches read that militancy as a threat and a mission field at once.

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CHAPTER

42

Graffiti on a Wall of Shame

Twentieth-Century Ideologies

IN BRIEF

The twentieth century set political creeds beside the Christian faith, and they demanded the kind of devotion a religion asks. Two of them, German National Socialism and Soviet communism, grew out of the First World War, built total states and turned on the churches. The chapter explains how the two systems arose, how Christians behaved under Hitler and under Stalin, what the Second World War cost the churches and how the Cold War froze the division.

THE QUESTION

How did a faith that preaches peace and freedom come through decades of war between nations and ideologies?

The chapter starts at the Berlin Wall. In the summer of 1961 East Germany, pressed by the Soviet leader Nikita Khrushchev to stop its citizens from escaping to West Berlin, found that travel restrictions were not enough and ran barbed wire and concrete for twenty-six miles through the city. Berliners named the barrier the *Schandmauer*, the wall of shame. On one side stood the gray blocks of a system that promised a classless paradise later; on the other the stores and movie houses of a West that wanted prosperity now; and beside it lay the forgotten bunkers of Hitler's Reich. Shelley uses the scene as a picture of the century. On such a wall the gospel is one scrawl among several, and its rivals (Nazism, Marxism, capitalism) catch the eye just as well and ask no less.

Post-Christian Gods for the Masses

Arnold Toynbee proposed that in the twentieth century three ideologies born on Christian soil pushed the old world religions aside: nationalism, communism and individualism. Each works like a faith. It asks for a final loyalty (to the fatherland, to the class struggle, to secular humanism) and has its own rites and emblems, scriptures, doctrines, saints and prophets. The book accepts the thesis only in part. It fits the West, where the century can be read as steady secularization and where many expected the trend to go on, with science explaining more, the educated believing less, and God shrinking even for those who kept him. As a forecast for the world it proved "ridiculously inaccurate." The world is more religious than before, Christianity has expanded as never in its history, and by the century's end scholars were saying that religion and culture, more than politics and economics, would shape the future.

What the ideologies did produce was the totalitarian state. A dictator or a small ruling group commands the armed forces and uses refined psychological techniques to direct the hatred of the population against the enemies of the regime. Propaganda, a controlled press and a planned economy are meant to form a new human type that no longer misses its freedom.

The origins lie in the First World War, and behind it in nationalism, which the book calls the new religion of Europe around 1900. German and Slavic nationalisms collided in the Balkans, and arms races, colonial rivalry and power politics had made the continent explosive. On June 28, 1914, a Serbian nationalist student shot the Austro-Hungarian heir. By August the Central Powers, Germany and Austria, were fighting the Allies, France, Russia and Britain, and twenty-seven countries were finally involved. It was the first "total war." Civilians surrendered goods and liberties, and both camps were sure of fighting a holy cause; when the United States joined on April 6, 1917, Woodrow Wilson, the son of a Presbyterian minister, spoke of making the world "safe for democracy." Russia meanwhile broke down. The Bolsheviks, who saw themselves as the advance guard of a socialist society, took power in November

1917 and left the war early in 1918. A million fresh American troops helped force Germany to an armistice. The peace made at Paris mixed idealism with vengeance. Wilson got his League of Nations, which his own country then declined to join, and the other victors imposed an admission of guilt and burdens that crippled Germany for years. German resentment of that settlement was the soil in which Nazism grew.

The Rise of Nazism

The Nazis showed the world what totalitarian rule is. Theirs was the right-wing variety, fascism, which meets private frustration and social strain by preaching the unity of all classes and a return to old values. It exalts the nation, whether understood as a mission, a race or the state, and it leaves property and business in private hands under close direction. Regimes of this type appeared across Europe after 1918; the German one was the most formidable. It cost the Protestant churches of Luther's country millions of adherents. Some church people were won over or used, and others gave up historic Christianity. The ground had been prepared. Most pastors were monarchists who disliked both democracy and socialism, which made the church hateful to factory workers, and the educated had long been drawn to a romantic, heroic and often pantheistic picture of the Germanic past.

Adolf Hitler, an Austrian by birth, became chancellor on January 30, 1933, and needed only two years to control the whole government. National Socialism taught that the German people must be perfectly united under one leader, *der Führer*, and that the same leadership principle must govern every institution, until an ideal community emerged. It threw away the Enlightenment's aims, liberty and tolerance, and kept its tool, the rational criticism of biblical tradition. With that tool the movement made a Christianity of its own, in which Jesus scorned the Jews and their Scriptures and had only been misplaced in a Jewish setting. The book observes that this was not criticism of tradition at all but the substitution of one tradition for another: for Jesus and Israel, the legendary past of the

sagas and of Wagner's operas. Race stood at the center. "Blood" and "soil" made Germans unique, and whatever was foreign, especially whatever was Jewish, defiled them.

A savage anti-Semitism followed. Germany was to regain its purity by cleansing itself, and the Jews were cast as the "culture-destroying race" responsible for capitalism and Marxism alike. Hitler called Christianity a Jewish scheme, "the heaviest blow that ever struck humanity," with Bolshevism as its bastard offspring. Jews in Germany first lost their citizenship and were pushed to leave. Once German armies held eastern Europe, where far more Jews lived, mobile squads murdered them by the thousand. Concentration camps had existed from the start for political opponents. From 1940 camps of another kind were built for the "final solution," the killing of every Jew in Europe, and Auschwitz in Poland was the biggest. People of every age were shipped to these "death factories" to be starved, shot, gassed or subjected to medical experiments. The usual estimate of the Jewish dead is six million.

Christians under Hitler

Committed Christians were in the end hardly safer than Jews. Hitler had been brought up a Catholic and had replaced that faith with another, the rebirth of Germany through his movement. On the way to power he flattered the churches, playing on patriotism and posing as a friend of their public role, and many churchmen, who shared the humiliation of 1918, hoped for a national revival. The Catholics, a political force in the republic of the 1920s, accepted the new government and welcomed the concordat of 1933 with the Vatican, which promised free exercise of their religion. For Hitler the treaty brought respectability and took Catholics out of politics. He did not mean to honor it.

Among Protestants a party called the German Christians wanted to go further. They aimed to merge the twenty-eight regional churches under a single bishop and gave the office to Ludwig Müller, an ardent Nazi. They ran the church by the leadership principle and adopted an "Aryan paragraph" removing people of

Jewish descent from church posts. In 1933 about three thousand of the seventeen thousand Protestant pastors were on their side. Martin Niemöller rallied the opposition in a Pastors' Emergency League, from which came the Confessing Church with its own governing bodies; at its strongest it roughly equaled the German Christians in size. Most pastors belonged to neither and did what Hitler required without public objection.

The Confessing Church set down its beliefs at Barmen in May 1934, in a declaration composed mainly by Karl Barth. It summoned the churches to the heart of the faith and denied the state's total claim. The church, it said, lives from revelation, above all from God's self-disclosure in Jesus, and may not build on natural theology, which reasons from features of the world to God. Barth held that such reasoning always ends by picturing God in human terms. He saw the same fault in liberalism, which kept those parts of the Bible that suited an enlightened idea of God, and in Nazi religion, where the fault became monstrous. The chapter puts the result in one line: "God not only likes us, he is like us." Genocide carried out as a sacred cleansing shows where false theology can lead.

Yet Barmen did not launch a political resistance. The Confessing Church fought the heresies of the German Christians, and its leaders kept assuring the state of their loyalty and even applauded Hitler's foreign successes. True to the Lutheran custom of obeying rulers, it thought of itself as the guardian of sound doctrine and not as a counter-church. The Gestapo harried it, most Protestant leaders disowned it, and seven hundred of its pastors were arrested in 1935. Its mere existence nevertheless discomfited the regime, because to confess that Christ is lord of the world is to deny that any state is. After Müller failed to unify the Protestants, Hitler listened more and more to the openly anti-Christian wing of his party. A Ministry of Church Affairs was set up in 1935 under the lawyer Hanns Kerrl, who announced: "National Socialism is the doing of God's will. God's will reveals itself in German blood. True Christianity is represented by the party."

Catholic bishops, disturbed by this "new heathenism" and by mounting restrictions, appealed to Rome. In 1937 Pius XI, assisted

by Cardinal Eugenio Pacelli, his secretary of state and successor as Pius XII, wrote *Mit brennender Sorge* ("With deep anxiety"). No important church document had attacked Nazism before. It entered Germany secretly and was read out in all Catholic churches on Palm Sunday without the authorities having seen a copy beforehand. Following Richard Pierard, the chapter summarizes its content: a protest against the church's oppression and an appeal to Catholics to refuse the worship of race and state, to oppose the corruption of doctrine and morals, and to stay true to Christ, the church and Rome. Hitler raged, then decided to say nothing and so avoid a break. He knew that Catholic lay people stood behind him, and he tightened the screws until no organized opposition was possible.

The Russian Revolution

During the same years the Bolsheviks constructed the left-wing counterpart. The resemblances to Hitler's state were many: one-man rule, a single centralized party, terror, propaganda and censorship, a directed economy and enmity toward organized religion. The ideology was different. It spoke for the working class, expected change through revolution and looked toward a society without classes. Its architect until 1924 was Lenin (Vladimir Ilich Ulyanov, 1870–1924), who came back from Swiss exile in 1917. Lenin regarded violence as Marxism's principal instrument and forged a tightly disciplined Communist party to bring down the old order and afterward to govern, so that party and state fused. When he died, Leon Trotsky and Joseph Stalin struggled for his place, and by 1927 Stalin ruled alone. Resolved to turn the Soviet Union into an industrial power equal to the capitalist states, he outdid even Hitler in ruthlessness, and his secret police and labor camps removed every dissenter and possible rival.

Communism met Christianity with a philosophy built on atheism. According to Marxist-Leninist doctrine religion is a false consciousness that mirrors a class society and will fade by itself when that society disappears. In practice the party attacked it, since a party that claims to embody Marxism tolerates nothing beyond its

reach and regards the institutional church as a reactionary power to be broken. For centuries Orthodoxy had been Russia's established church, with the tsar as its nominal head. The new rulers took its land, stopped its subsidies, made marriage a civil matter and banned the religious teaching of the young, which raised the question how a church can live if it may not instruct its own children. Tikhon, the newly chosen patriarch, answered in his first pastoral letter with a declaration of war on the government, and riots broke out in nearly every city. During the first six years, before the violence was even systematic, more than a thousand priests and twenty-eight bishops were killed.

A Law on Religious Associations of 1929 confined the churches so narrowly that they could no longer affect society. The collectivization of the farms and Stalin's purges then brought prison or death to thousands of clergy. The constitution of 1936 gave priests back the vote and left them second-class citizens, denounced as exploiters of the ignorant and pursued by the police as "clerico-fascists." By 1939 the Orthodox Church was close to collapse, the Lutherans had nearly vanished, and the Baptists and Evangelical Christians were devastated. Western opinion recoiled. In March 1937 Pius XI issued *Divini Redemptoris* on the "errors of communism." It sympathized with the Russian people, set Catholic social teaching against the Soviet system, and, at a time when Stalin was inviting "popular front" alliances, called communism "intrinsically wrong" and forbade anyone who cared for Christian civilization to cooperate with it. Published only days from the letter on Germany, it placed the Vatican beside the persecuted in both dictatorships.

The Impact of World War II

War came in 1939, when Germany invaded Poland. Hitler was allied with Mussolini's Italy and with the military rulers of Japan, and he had secured a nonaggression treaty with Stalin on the eve of the attack. Within two years he broke it, and the Soviet Union found itself fighting alongside Britain, France and the United States. Christians again served on both sides, with less talk of crusade than

in 1914. Church leaders in Germany remained accommodating and did nothing for suffering fellow believers. Hitler's inner circle (Bormann, Himmler, Heydrich) prepared a "final settlement" of the church question for the time after victory: churches absorbed into the new order, clergy without privileges, and Christianity allowed to die what Hitler called "a natural death." In the conquered East clergy and devout lay people were handled as criminals and killed or deported in the thousands; at home only the war effort and the need for public support held the party back. The book finds the resistance of the German churches astonishingly weak and gives three reasons: a piety focused on the individual soul, the habit of obeying the state, and a conservatism so opposed to the left that it believed the Nazis when they presented themselves as the sole defense against communism.

In Russia the war had the opposite effect. Stalin realized that the churches could strengthen morale, help to integrate newly won territories and serve his diplomacy. He let them reorganize, raise money and teach children privately to a limited extent. State councils were created in 1943 for the Orthodox Church and in 1944 for the other bodies, to handle relations and enforce the rules, and in 1945 the churches again became legal persons able to own property and to produce what worship requires. Supervision stayed close, but the Orthodox had not been so well placed since 1917.

Taken as a whole the war was a catastrophe for Christianity, materially and morally. Churches lay in ruins by the thousand, pastors were dead, congregations scattered. Tanks, fire-bombing, rockets and finally the atomic bomb multiplied the killing. The book refuses the opinion, common in American universities, that the Soviet Union and the United States were moral equals, a flawed socialism and a flawed capitalism; the victims of communism, still being counted, outnumber Hitler's six million at least tenfold. The slaughter made many Christians doubt that any war can now be just and suspect that religious approval only makes wars fiercer. Some worked for institutions meant to unite nations and churches, the United Nations of 1945 and the World Council of Churches of 1948, but national passion blocked them.

Japan yielded to the atomic bomb, the Reich fell to armies from west and east, and the victors slid into the "Cold War." The United States led the democracies in a policy of containment and was prepared to oppose communism anywhere, by arms if need be, until hydrogen bombs and long-range missiles made a direct war unthinkable. As Pierard describes it, a contest of great powers soon turned into a contest of ideologies, and Christians backed their own side. Soviet spokesmen preached communism and the freeing of peoples from "imperialists" with a messianic zeal. Russian Orthodox leaders tried to extend their authority over churches abroad, echoed Moscow's line, praised conditions at home and joined the Soviet peace campaigns. When "peaceful coexistence" became the slogan after Stalin died in 1953, they entered ecumenical life and in 1961 the World Council of Churches. The West replied with anticommunism, a counter-creed that traced every revolutionary stirring to a conspiracy run from Moscow. The book reads it chiefly as an American reaction to stalemate, the frustration of a nation unable to export liberal democracy everywhere. And so the wall stood.

KEY PEOPLE

Arnold Toynbee; Woodrow Wilson; Adolf Hitler; Ludwig Müller; Martin Niemöller; Karl Barth; Hanns Kerrl; Pius XI; Lenin; Joseph Stalin; Patriarch Tikhon; Nikita Khrushchev.

KEY DATES

1914	Outbreak of the First World War
1917	Bolshevik Revolution in Russia; the United States enters the war
1929	Soviet Law on Religious Associations
1933	Hitler becomes chancellor; concordat with the Vatican
1934	Barmen Declaration of the Confessing Church
1937	Pius XI's encyclicals against Nazism and communism

1939–1945	Second World War; the Holocaust
1953	Death of Stalin
1961	Berlin Wall built; Russian Orthodox Church joins the World Council of Churches

KEY TERMS

Ideology; secularization; totalitarianism; nationalism; fascism; Nazism; leadership principle; anti-Semitism; Holocaust; German Christians; Confessing Church; Barmen Declaration; natural theology; Bolsheviks; false consciousness; Cold War; containment; anticommunism.

CHAPTER

43

Rootless Immigrants in a Sick Society

American Evangelicals

IN BRIEF

In the 1970s conservative Protestantism in the United States turned out to be large, confident and growing, and still it counted for little in politics, the universities and the press. To explain the gap the chapter looks back to the decades after the Civil War, when revivalist Protestants gave up social reform, to the fundamentalist controversy and to the humiliation of William Jennings Bryan. It then describes the recovery after 1945 around Billy Graham and the spread of Pentecostal experience into the older churches.

THE QUESTION

Evangelicals could give millions a personal faith. Could they also renew the public ideals of the nation, as earlier awakenings had done?

The chapter begins with the election of 1976, in which the born-again faith of Jimmy Carter became a campaign topic. Watergate was recent, and many voters wanted moral leadership above all. Others thought religion had no business in an election. Arthur M. Schlesinger Jr., the historian who had advised Kennedy and Johnson, dismissed Carter's talk of closeness to God: "If he feels that, bully for him, but it's totally irrelevant to the campaign!" As a statement about qualifications he was correct, because the Constitution excludes religious tests. Yet convinced Christians cannot regard the state, the family, the courts and the schools as purely secular matters. That tension, Shelley says, was the evangelical

predicament throughout the Age of Ideologies.

Return of the Old-Time Religion

Carter, a former governor of Georgia, stood for a revived evangelical Christianity that took much of the country by surprise. Revivalism had been pictured as the world of tent healers and frauds, loud, tasteless and naive. Now politicians, athletes and entertainers talked openly about conversion, and the religion of the "Bible Belt" was visible in every region. A generation of growth had brought the number of Evangelicals to some forty-five million. The chapter sorts American Protestants into two camps. The mainline bodies of the National Council of Churches (Episcopal, Methodist, Presbyterian, American Baptist, United Church of Christ), which Martin Marty calls public Protestants, had thirty-six million members, of whom perhaps a third were evangelical in conviction. Another thirty-three million Evangelicals stood outside the Council. Taken together these "private Protestants" came close to the forty-six million Roman Catholics.

They were not of one mind about the nation's troubles. The fundamentalists among them were militant conservatives who rejected every compromise with modern culture. The Pentecostals, or charismatics, spoke of a "baptism in the Holy Spirit" and practiced tongues and healing; they included Episcopalians and close to a million Catholics as well as traveling healers. The majority were ordinary Protestants who trusted the Bible, held orthodox doctrine and expected each believer to make a deliberate commitment to Christ, whether suddenly or over time, which is what "born again" means.

Numbers and publicity did not give the movement influence over the nation's thinking, and the reason lies some eighty years back. The chapter's title comes from George M. Marsden of Notre Dame, who likens Evangelicals to immigrants without roots in a strange country, with the difference that they had not moved: the country had changed around them. After the Civil War the Southern churches lived with defeat, and many Northern revivalists

SIDEBAR **Who Are the Charismatics?**

The label has several uses. Some denominations are charismatic as a whole (the Assemblies of God are an example), and many others, such as the Episcopal Church, contain a sizable charismatic minority. A workable rule of thumb is this: Christians are charismatic when the more spectacular gifts of the Spirit, among them tongues, healing and prophecy, belong regularly to their public worship and to their private prayer.

adopted premillennialism, the expectation that Christ will return soon and that the world will get worse until he does. D. L. Moody put the mood in a famous image: "I look on the world as a wrecked vessel. God has given me a lifeboat and said, 'Save all you can.' " Conservatives left social reform to others, a retreat the historian Timothy Smith named the Great Reversal, and in the 1880s and 1890s they gave their energy to Bible study and personal holiness. Fundamentalism grew from this soil.

Summer Bible conferences on the second coming began with a small gathering at Swampscott, Massachusetts, in July 1876. The Boston Baptist A. J. Gordon helped to arrange big prophecy conferences at New York in 1878 and Chicago in 1886, and there the premillennial scheme took firm shape: sin increases until the Antichrist is let loose for a final devastation, and then Christ comes with his saints to reign on earth for a thousand years. The same meetings refined a special version of it, dispensationalism. In its classic form everything turns on the last three dispensations, or ages, of history. Jesus came offering to rule Israel as an actual king in Jerusalem. His people refused, so that age broke off, or was put on hold. He then turned to the Gentiles with a covenant of grace in place of the covenant of law, and the age of the church began. Like every earlier age it is expected to end in failure. When Christ returns he will govern the world for a millennium through Israel. The book lays the scheme out in a table called "Three Crucial Ages of Dispensationalism," which is given here in shorter form.

Shelley regards the scheme as a sharp break with older premillen-

THREE CRUCIAL AGES OF DISPENSATIONALISM

	Age of Israel	Age of the church	Millennium
God's people	Israel	The church	Israel, with the nations
Made up mainly of	Hebrews	Gentiles	Hebrews, with the nations
What Jesus does	Offers himself as Israel's king	Refused by Israel, he goes to the Gentiles and dies for sin	Comes again and reigns a thousand years

nialism. It needs two peoples of God, Israel and the church, living under two separate covenants and two principles, law and grace. In its first form it therefore gave up several things Christians had long believed: that the promises of the Old Testament are fulfilled in Jesus and his church, that Scripture is one book, that the Old Testament knows grace and that the New demands obedience. It even handed large parts of the New Testament, including the Sermon on the Mount, to Israel instead of the church. Later revisions made the theory acceptable to more traditional believers, Presbyterians for instance, and it is now common among conservative Protestants. The chapter notes an irony. Dispensationalists agree with liberal scholars that Jesus first presented himself in earthly and political terms, and, like the doctrine that miraculous gifts have ceased, their system accounts for the distance between church life today and church life in the Bible.

Other Evangelicals of the period went to holiness conferences. Methodist revivalism had always taught a "second blessing," also called entire sanctification or Christian perfection, and the theme now spread. New holiness bodies, the Church of the Nazarene among them, and "deeper life" meetings called believers to surrender to the Spirit and so to live victoriously. Both interests, prophecy and holiness, were biblical. Shelley adds that they also helped conservative Protestants to keep their faith while losing their hold on the culture: people who could no longer direct public life found consolation in the life of the Spirit.

The Appearance of Fundamentalism

The name fundamentalism goes back to *The Fundamentals*, twelve paperback volumes of essays defending basic doctrines, which appeared between 1910 and 1915. The idea and the money came from Lyman Stewart, a California oil millionaire who believed that higher criticism and liberal theology had to be answered, and from his brother Milton. Stewart heard Amzi C. Dixon preach in August 1909 and engaged him for the project. Dixon, then pastor of Moody Church in Chicago, formed an editorial committee on which the evangelist R. A. Torrey sat. The sixty-four contributors included many premillennialists from America and Keswick teachers from England, and also conservative scholars of other kinds, such as the Southern Baptist E. Y. Mullins and Princeton's Benjamin B. Warfield. Three million copies were mailed free of charge to pastors, missionaries and students of theology across the world.

The open conflict with "modernism" waited until after the First World War and then broke out among Baptists, Presbyterians, Methodists and Disciples of Christ. In 1920 Curtis Lee Laws, who edited the Baptist *Watchman-Examiner*, summoned the "fundamentalists" of the Northern Baptist Convention to meet at Buffalo, and the moderate conservatives who formed the Fundamentalist Fellowship there were the first to use the word of themselves. In their judgment the modernists were giving away the core of the gospel: human sinfulness, the impossibility of salvation without grace, the death of Christ as the source of new life for persons and for society, and the Bible as authoritative revelation. They could not persuade the Convention to adopt a confession of faith. Laws nonetheless wrote in 1924 that liberalism had been halted in some Baptist schools and that an inquiry into the mission boards had achieved enough to make a separate mission needless. Harder-line Baptists thought otherwise and organized the General Association of Regular Baptists.

Among Presbyterians the leading conservative was J. Gresham Machen, a professor at Princeton Theological Seminary. The General Assembly approved in 1929 a reorganization of the seminary

that combined its governing boards. Machen and several eminent colleagues believed the change favored the liberals, resigned and opened Westminster Theological Seminary in Philadelphia. Later he would not leave the Independent Board for Presbyterian Foreign Missions, and a church court convicted him of defying his superiors. The Orthodox Presbyterian Church and the Bible Presbyterian Church were the conservatives' reply.

The real dispute concerned the Bible. Shailer Mathews, dean of the University of Chicago Divinity School, set out the liberal position in *The Faith of Modernism* (1924) and claimed the support of "scientific investigations." Where the confessions treat Scripture as given from above, the modernist reads it as "the trustworthy record and product of a developing religion." To be a Christian, on this view, is to share the attitudes and trust of the biblical writers, "those ancient men of imperfect morals whose hearts found God," and not to accept a body of writings. Shelley finds the three marks of liberalism here: evolution applied to religion, a hopeful estimate of human nature centered on religious experience, and a moral God who is easy to "find." Machen, whom the book considers the ablest spokesman of orthodoxy, had stated the other side in the *Princeton Theological Review* in 1915. The New Testament scholar, he wrote, must be a historian before anything else, because the Bible reports an event, the life, death and resurrection of Jesus, which puts "a new face upon life." Its authority should be judged by whether it is right about him: was he a teacher to imitate or a Savior? From this the book derives the marks of early fundamentalism: a supernatural Christ vouched for by the resurrection, a reliable Bible as the source of faith, and a humanity that needs to be made new.

William Jennings Bryan, Symbol of Change

These church quarrels reflected a change in the whole country, and the chapter traces it through the career of William Jennings Bryan. He is remembered, through the play and film *Inherit the Wind*, for a few July days in 1925 at Dayton, Tennessee. John Scopes was on trial there for teaching evolution in a state school, contrary to law,

and Bryan clashed with the defense attorney Clarence Darrow over the creation story in Genesis. Darrow was at his best, Bryan was old, and the reporters, nearly all against him, wired millions of words about his discomfiture. The image of Bryan sweating under cross-examination became a byword for the supposed stupidity of people who believe the Bible. Shelley calls its reputation inflated and mostly undeserved and the film misleading: it casts Bryan as a reactionary facing a man of progress, and it invents an episode in which he browbeats the fiancée of the accused.

The historical Bryan was the progressive. He spoke for ordinary people throughout his life, led the reforming wing of the Democratic party, was three times its candidate for president and served Woodrow Wilson as secretary of state. He fought social Darwinism and campaigned for woman suffrage, two causes with a connection, since opponents of the vote claimed that women were too emotional, too little evolved, to use it. As a man of peace he concluded arbitration treaties with thirty nations, and he resigned in 1915 when Wilson and the cabinet refused to apply them after a German submarine sank the *Lusitania* on May 7. He then worked for Prohibition, which became law nationwide in January 1920 through the Eighteenth Amendment. The book calls it probably the last evangelical crusade for a moral America that succeeded. That later generations saw only sour puritanism in it shows, Shelley thinks, how far the culture had moved. For Bryan it was one more battle against interests that valued profit above people: "It is not injustice to any man to refuse him permission to enrich himself by injuring his fellowmen."

The campaign against the teaching of evolution, his last, made him a fundamentalist leader. He had worried about Darwinism for years; on reading *The Descent of Man* in 1905 he predicted that its view of human origins would undermine democracy. A set of speeches in the spring of 1921 placed him at the head of the cause. His case was moral, not scientific. "The objection to evolution is not, primarily, that it is not true. The principal objection is that it is highly harmful to those who accept it." His lecture "The Menace of Darwinism," which circulated widely, reasoned that

virtue rests on belief in God, so that anything that erodes the belief erodes character. Applied to society, evolution reduces human beings to animals, leaves no room for spiritual values and removes the strongest motive for a good life; the strong may then prosper without a thought for the weak. In 1921–1929 twenty state legislatures received thirty-seven bills against evolution. Their sponsors belonged to the generation that had passed Prohibition and trusted law to support morals.

Tennessee's statute forbade teachers in public schools to present any theory that contradicts the biblical account of man's creation by God and to teach in its place descent from lower animals. Whether Scopes, a young biology teacher, had done so hardly mattered once local promoters and the press had turned the trial into a show. Bryan joined the prosecution, announcing that he had come "to protect the Word of God against the greatest atheist or agnostic in the United States," to the applause of the courtroom. Darrow replied that freedom of thought was the real issue, put Bryan in effect on trial and used his answers to make fundamentalism look foolish. Scopes was convicted and fined a nominal amount. Bryan carried Dayton, and Darrow carried the nation. Bryan died in his sleep five days afterward, and in the book's judgment the evangelical campaign for a Christian America died then too. The Depression followed. Conservative Protestantism lived on in its voluntary agencies and on the radio, while public opinion fixed on a caricature of the fundamentalist as ignorant, narrow, quarrelsome and separatist.

The Renewal of Evangelical Christianity

Evangelical religion came back into public view after the Second World War, and the voice most people associated with it spoke with a soft North Carolina accent. Billy Graham grew up in Southern Baptist and Southern Presbyterian surroundings, studied at three conservative schools (Bob Jones University, the Florida Bible Institute and finally Wheaton College), was briefly a pastor at Western Springs, Illinois, and then became an evangelist for Youth for Christ.

His Los Angeles meetings of 1949 made national news. Crusades in the great stadiums of America and in cities overseas, a weekly radio program, network television and the magazine *Decision* made him known in almost every household.

Graham was the public face of a wider change. A number of conservatives had grown unhappy with the direction fundamentalism took between the wars. They kept its doctrines and regretted its attitudes. Carl F. H. Henry said so as early as 1947 in *The Uneasy Conscience of Modern Fundamentalism*, which complained that the movement no longer brought Christian truth to bear on the great questions of the age. In 1956 a group led by Graham founded the magazine *Christianity Today*, and Henry left Fuller Theological Seminary to edit it. Free copies went at first to ministers and seminarians of every theological color, which gave it an immediate readership. According to Henry's first editorial it meant to present historic Christianity to a new generation. Its founders held that liberal theology had not answered people's moral and spiritual needs; its editors affirmed the "complete reliability of the written Word of God" and proposed to apply the gospel to the whole of life.

Help came in 1960 from a direction nobody expected, Pentecostalism. The experience itself, "the baptism of the Holy Spirit with the evidence of speaking in tongues," was older. Isolated cases aside, the worldwide movement started in 1906 with three years of revival at a Los Angeles mission on Azusa Street, to which visitors came from several continents and from which they took the message home. Denominations formed, in the United States chiefly the Church of God in Christ, the Assemblies of God, the Pentecostal Holiness Church and the Church of God, and their members were mostly poor. It was therefore news when, in 1960, tongues appeared in comfortable Lutheran and Episcopal parishes. The newspapers spoke of neo-Pentecostalism. Charismatic prayer groups soon met all over the country, made up largely of mainline Protestants who said their Christian life had gained a new dimension.

The chapter follows the renewal through two church families, as examples of what also happened in other mainline churches and in

Roman Catholicism. Among Lutherans it first stirred the American Lutheran Church, where a dispute in 1963 calmed down once the leadership published guidelines. It entered the Missouri Synod in 1967, and several pastors there lost their ministry over what they said in public. In 1972 an international Lutheran conference on the Holy Spirit drew over ten thousand people to Minneapolis. The United Presbyterian Church studied the question for two years, and the report its General Assembly received in 1970, "The Work of the Holy Spirit," was praised as one of the best official treatments and encouraged further growth. By 1975 an estimated ten to fifteen thousand members of the two large Presbyterian bodies had received the Pentecostal baptism.

The chapter ends in doubt. Evangelicals had long supposed that a large enough body of converted people would change the moral tone of the country. At the end of the 1970s they had the numbers, and crime, divorce, racism, violence, sexual disorder, alcoholism and drug abuse were as prevalent as ever. Some of them asked whether Schlesinger's taunt applied to the whole movement, and whether their faith, however deeply felt, made any public difference.

KEY PEOPLE

Jimmy Carter; Dwight L. Moody; A. J. Gordon; Lyman Stewart; Amzi C. Dixon; Curtis Lee Laws; J. Gresham Machen; Shailer Mathews; William Jennings Bryan; Clarence Darrow; John Scopes; Billy Graham; Carl F. H. Henry; George M. Marsden.

KEY DATES

1878	Prophecy conference in New York (Chicago followed in 1886)
1906	Azusa Street revival begins in Los Angeles
1910–1915	*The Fundamentals* published
1920	Baptist conservatives first call themselves "fundamentalists"; Prohibition takes effect
1925	Scopes trial at Dayton, Tennessee; death of Bryan
1929	Machen leaves Princeton and founds Westminster Seminary

1949	Billy Graham's Los Angeles campaign
1956	*Christianity Today* founded
1960	Neo-Pentecostalism appears in mainline churches
1976	Jimmy Carter's evangelical faith an issue in the presidential campaign

KEY TERMS

Evangelicals; born-again experience; mainline (public) and private Protestants; premillennialism; dispensationalism; the Great Reversal; holiness movement; fundamentalism; modernism; Prohibition; Pentecostalism; charismatics; neo-Pentecostalism.

CHAPTER

44

New Creeds for Breakfast

The Ecumenical Movement

IN BRIEF

From the Reformation onward Protestantism kept dividing. The twentieth century brought a countermovement in which churches sought one another's company in councils, unions and joint work. The chapter follows that movement from the Evangelical Alliance and the Edinburgh missionary conference of 1910 to the World Council of Churches, surveys church mergers and worldwide confessional families, and compares the route Evangelicals preferred, cooperation in evangelism.

THE QUESTION

In what forms did twentieth-century Christians act on their desire to be one?

The title refers to a breakfast in Leningrad. Not long before the World Council of Churches met at New Delhi in 1961, its general secretary, Willem Adolph Visser 't Hooft, sat in a hotel there with leaders of the Russian Orthodox Church. The Council's basis at that time described it as "a fellowship of churches which accept our Lord Jesus Christ as God and Saviour." His hosts missed the Trinity in that sentence, and he remembered that Protestants had often missed the Bible. "So I took the breakfast menu and wrote out a new formula." Within months the Council had adopted the enlarged wording, which speaks of confessing Christ "according to the Holy Scriptures" and of a common calling "to the glory of one

God, Father, Son and Holy Spirit." Thirty million Russian Orthodox came in on those terms, and the movement looked different from then on.

The Reformation left four Protestant families: Lutheran, Reformed, Anabaptist and Anglican. Others were soon added, usually by people who thought some biblical teaching was being neglected, until the United States alone counted over two hundred denominations. That was a force pushing outward. The force pulling inward is called ecumenism.

Movements toward Christian Unity

The word *ecumenical* means universal. Used of the church it points to the unity of all believers, and Christians understand that unity in two ways. Evangelicals usually see it as a spiritual fact that does not depend on organization; others want it made visible through federations or mergers. The book distinguishes ecumenicity (the attitude), the ecumenical movement (the organized effort) and conciliar ecumenism (the forming of national and world councils). Since believers treat their views on doctrine, ethics, worship and church order as matters of conscience, they also judge their separations differently. For some a denomination guards a truth; for others the divisions are a sin and a scandal.

Modern Protestant cooperation began in London in 1846 with the Evangelical Alliance. Individuals from some fifty British and American bodies founded it, branches arose in nine countries of Europe, and it worked for religious freedom and common projects until its energy faded late in the century. A federation of churches, as distinct from individuals, came next. Thirty-one American denominations set up the Federal Council of Churches in 1908. It spoke often on social and political questions, drew conservative fire for theological liberalism, and in 1950 was merged into the National Council of Churches of Christ.

The boldest venture was the World Council of Churches, founded at Amsterdam in 1948. Shelley describes it as a river with three sources (the International Missionary Council, Life and Work,

and Faith and Order), all of which spring from one height, the missionary conference held at Edinburgh in 1910. Over a thousand delegates gathered there to plan Protestant and Anglican missions, and in doing so they found how much they had in common. Four men dominate the early history: John R. Mott of the United States, Charles H. Brent of Canada, Nathan Söderblom of Sweden and Visser 't Hooft of the Netherlands.

Mott (1865–1955) was a Methodist layman, an evangelist at heart and a master of large meetings. He went to work for the international YMCA at twenty-three as its secretary for students and later founded, in Sweden, the World's Student Christian Federation, which connected student movements in America, Britain, Germany and Scandinavia. With the acquaintances he made in that work he was the obvious person to preside at Edinburgh. He led the committee that continued its work and then, for its first twenty years, the International Missionary Council formed in 1921. In the book's judgment no one in the conciliar movement did more to spread the faith.

Brent (1862–1929), an Anglican missionary bishop in the Philippines, felt the weight of doctrinal disagreement more than Mott did and hoped that Anglicanism could serve as a bridge. Edinburgh had resolved to look for ways of ending friction between mission agencies. Brent took the matter to his church's convention in Chicago, which named a committee to invite every church confessing Jesus Christ as God and Savior to confer about the faith and the order of the church. War postponed the meeting. The first World Conference on Faith and Order finally assembled at Lausanne in August 1927, with 150 delegates from sixty-nine denominations, and its resolutions prepared the ground for the later World Council. Brent's principle was that churches can work together only when they agree on essentials. Division is finally a matter of creed, and unity will be genuine only when the creeds have been reconciled. In practice "faith and order" stands for doctrine and worship.

The Life and Work Movement

Söderblom (1866–1931) took another road. The Swedish king surprised the church by naming him archbishop of Uppsala in 1914, and conservatives doubted his orthodoxy with good cause. He considered the doctrine of Christ's two natures impossible for modern people, thought of revelation as still in progress, and located true religion in character and conduct more than in belief. He therefore expected unity to come through history and mutual respect instead of through agreed doctrine. His gift was for getting Christians to act together. The first Conference on Life and Work, which he inspired, met in Stockholm in August 1925. Its five hundred delegates represented ninety-one denominations in thirty-nine countries. They agreed that social evils are beyond the reach of individuals and that the churches must accept responsibility for the common good.

In 1937 both movements, meeting in Britain, recognized that they needed a single, broader organization and proposed a World Council of Churches. Hitler's war delayed it until 1948, when 351 delegates from 147 denominations and forty-four countries constituted it at Amsterdam. Roman Catholics, the Russian Orthodox and many conservative Evangelicals stayed away. Visser 't Hooft (1900–1985) guided the Council through its formative period. Like Mott he had served the YMCA and then the student federation, and he had led the provisional committee since 1938. Theologically he was a disciple of Karl Barth, who, he said, saw a church that had almost lost its soul by adapting to the times and "called the church again to be itself." The founders' informal motto was "Let the Church be the Church," by which they meant not flight from the world but refusal to be its echo.

Among his cherished postwar plans was a school for ecumenical leaders in Switzerland. When he explained it at an American dinner, John D. Rockefeller Jr. advised him, "You must ask for more money," and went on to give about a million dollars, with which the Ecumenical Institute at Bossey was founded. Visser 't Hooft's diplomacy turned the Council's assemblies into a mosaic: Orthodox conservatives of the Middle East and eastern Europe, Western

theologians of a secular bent, Scandinavian Lutherans loyal to their confessions, Evangelicals of Europe and the Third World, and Latin American advocates of liberation. The Council never called itself a super-church. Its constitution gives it no power to make laws for its members; it exists to further understanding, cooperation and, where it can be had, unity. Its pronouncements are consequently compromises, as the menu in Leningrad illustrates.

Assemblies followed at Evanston in Illinois (1954), New Delhi (1961), Uppsala (1968) and Nairobi (1975). New Delhi admitted the Russian church and brought the International Missionary Council under the World Council's roof. As time passed, the doctrinal interest of Faith and Order receded and the social interest of Life and Work advanced. By Uppsala and Nairobi the agenda was filled with racism, war, poverty, unemployment, addiction and women's liberation, a sign in Shelley's eyes of secular influence in the churches, and the work of actually reuniting separated bodies fell increasingly to others.

Denominational Mergers

The same desire produced organic unions. The United States, the classic land of denominations, saw more than thirty mergers between 1900 and 1970, including those that formed the United Methodist and United Presbyterian churches. Some healed nineteenth-century splits, such as the Methodist division over race; others brought together immigrant churches of one confession and several homelands, as among the Lutherans. The outstanding union abroad was the Church of South India (1947). It combined Anglicans, Methodists and the South India United Church, which already contained Presbyterians, Congregationalists and Dutch Reformed.

An American plan of comparable scope would have yielded a church of nineteen million. Eugene Carson Blake, the chief officer of the Northern (United) Presbyterians and afterward general secretary of the World Council, proposed in 1960 that Presbyterians and Episcopalians jointly invite two more bodies, the United Church of Christ and the Methodists, into one new church. "I don't believe

it is God's will," he said, "to have so many churches in the United States." Bishop James A. Pike of the Episcopal Church welcomed the proposal as a work of the Holy Spirit. When the Episcopal convention took it up at Detroit in September 1961, a full day had been reserved for debate among the bishops and spectators crowded in to watch a fight. The vote was unanimous and took about half a minute. "I'm quite speechless!" said the presiding bishop, Arthur C. Lichtenberger, who had just prayed, "Look mercifully, O Lord, on the broken body of Thy Church." The bishops closed the convention with a call to pray and labor until the divisions that dishonor Christ were ended. A Consultation on Church Union (COCU) set to work and later renamed itself the Church of Christ Uniting, to leave the door open for others. The enthusiasm did not last. Twenty years on, the negotiators had still not found a formula.

Churches of the same tradition also drew together across national borders in bodies that meet from time to time for consultation and fellowship. The book names six: the Congregational council, the Mennonite and Methodist world conferences, the Lutheran World Federation, the Baptist World Alliance and the alliance of Reformed and Presbyterian churches.

Conservative Evangelicals have been the steadiest critics of conciliar ecumenism. They do not forget Christ's prayer that his followers be one. They doubt that federation is the way, consider the World Council's doctrinal basis too thin and its interest in evangelism too weak, and dislike its entanglement in the politics of the developing world. After Uppsala, as they read it, the Council came to treat church unity as a token of the unity of all humanity. On that view the goals of society replace a specifically Christian witness, the line between church and world is drawn between oppressed and oppressor and no longer between faith and unbelief, and salvation is redefined as liberation.

Evangelical Expressions of Unity

Evangelicals are children of the revivals. They ask about a person's experience of God and about the church's mission and care much

less about its correct structure. Shelley lets George Whitefield speak for them. Preaching from a courthouse balcony in Philadelphia, he called up to Abraham in heaven to ask whether Episcopalians, Presbyterians, Independents or Methodists were there, and gave the answer himself: "we don't know those names here. All who are here are Christians." His conclusion was a prayer that God would help his hearers forget party names and be Christians in fact.

In the early 1940s Americans of this persuasion founded two bodies, the American Council of Christian Churches and the National Association of Evangelicals. They shared an orthodox creed and differed in organization and in tone; the American Council attacked the National and World Councils and anyone connected with them. On the world level Evangelicals preferred congresses devoted to evangelism. The first, at Berlin in 1966, grew out of Billy Graham's crusades, brought together people from over a hundred countries and led to regional meetings on most continents. The second, the International Congress on World Evangelization held at Lausanne in 1974, was a more mature event. With Graham as honorary chairman, 142 leaders invited 2,700 participants, who drafted the Lausanne Covenant, and nearly all of them signed it.

The Covenant states "that the church's visible unity in truth is God's purpose" and gives a theological and a practical reason. Unity is God's gift through the Spirit and was won at the cross by Christ, who "is our peace"; it can take several forms, and a merger does not guarantee unity "in truth." And "evangelism summons us to unity," because people who are not reconciled to each other preach reconciliation badly. The congress appointed a continuing committee of forty-eight with an African executive secretary, Gottfried Osei-Mensah, to foster committees for evangelization in every region. The chapter closes with the contrast as it stood about 1980. The World Council increasingly expressed unity through social action, at times by political means. Conservative Evangelicals wanted evangelism back at the center of the church's task and trusted that unity would grow from the shared work.

KEY PEOPLE

Willem A. Visser 't Hooft; John R. Mott; Charles H. Brent; Nathan Söderblom; Karl Barth; Eugene Carson Blake; James A. Pike; Arthur C. Lichtenberger; Billy Graham; Gottfried Osei-Mensah.

KEY DATES

1846	Evangelical Alliance organized in London
1908	Federal Council of Churches formed in the United States
1910	International Missionary Conference at Edinburgh
1925	First Conference on Life and Work, Stockholm
1927	First World Conference on Faith and Order, Lausanne
1947	Church of South India formed
1948	World Council of Churches formed at Amsterdam
1961	New Delhi assembly of the World Council: new basis; Russian Orthodox Church joins
1966	World Congress on Evangelism, Berlin
1974	International Congress on World Evangelization and the Lausanne Covenant

KEY TERMS

Ecumenical; ecumenicity; ecumenical movement; conciliar ecumenism; Faith and Order; Life and Work; International Missionary Council; World Council of Churches; denominational merger; confessional alliances; Lausanne Covenant.

CHAPTER

45

The Medicine of Mercy

Roman Catholicism: Vatican II

IN BRIEF

Between 1962 and 1965 the Roman Catholic Church stopped describing itself as a fortress under siege and began to speak of a "Pilgrim People" on the road with the rest of humanity. The chapter presents John XXIII, who summoned the Second Vatican Council to renew the church, the contest between conservative and progressive bishops through four sessions, and the turmoil over worship, authority and the priesthood that the council set loose.

THE QUESTION

What caused this upheaval in Rome, and what broke the church's long habit of defense?

The council opened with pageantry. For four hours a tide of bishops in white miters moved across St. Peter's Square, the pope was carried above them on his throne between fans of ostrich plumes, and the choir sang the old hymn that says God is present where charity and love are. Shelley insists that the event was more than ceremony. It showed a Catholicism impatient for reform, it ended the Protestant notion of Rome as a single-minded absolutism, and it contained the church's first implied concession that those who had departed in earlier centuries might have had reasons. Since Trent the church had seen itself as a citadel holding God's unchanging truth, the sacrifice of the Mass and an infallible pope against secularism, modernism and individualism. As late as 1950

Pius XII (1939–1958) used *Humani Generis* to censure theologians who wanted to restate dogma in the language of Scripture and the Fathers. Vatican II talked instead of travelers who look after the weak, and it made modest claims, since travelers have not yet arrived.

The Good Shepherd, Pope John

The windows were opened by Angelo Roncalli, who became John XXIII on October 28, 1958, and announced a council on January 25, 1959, not quite three months later. He always said the thought had come suddenly, from the Holy Spirit. His career, however, had fitted him for it by giving him an instinctive sense of what people hoped for. As a young priest he lectured on the church fathers at the Lateran seminary for one year, until his superiors judged his opinions risky (he thought mixed marriages might be permitted in some cases). He was then a copyist in a Vatican office, the pope's representative in distant Bulgaria from 1925 to 1934 and for a decade in Muslim Turkey, and finally nuncio in France at the close of the war, a thankless assignment for which Rome would not release anyone more senior. The French were won by his modesty and skill, and in 1953 he was made cardinal and patriarch of Venice.

Wherever he served he had friends outside his church. From Turkey he helped Jewish refugees from Hitler to escape and survive. In France, shown films of the dead in the camps, he cried out, "How could this be? The mystical body of Christ!" He once welcomed Jewish visitors with Joseph's words in Genesis, "I am Joseph, your brother." As pope he wanted to be neither a statesman nor a scholar but "the good shepherd defending truth and goodness." He visited prisons, orphanages, schools and parishes, received a circus and petted its lion cub, and abolished the rule that tourists must leave the dome of St. Peter's when the pope walked in the gardens beneath it: "Why shouldn't they look? I'm not doing anything scandalous."

He gave the council one word for its task, *aggiornamento*, updating, which in his use meant a change of mind as well as of outward

forms. He seems to have wanted the church to move from legal rigidity to pastoral care. Observers expected a turning point on the scale of Constantine or the Reformation, one that would undo the alliance of religion and political power dating from Constantine and the narrowness left by the Counter-Reformation. What is certain is that John wanted his church in step with its time.

Of 2,908 prelates entitled to attend, 2,540 arrived in October 1962. No council had been so large or so international; the First Vatican Council had numbered six or seven hundred, and only some two hundred bishops voted on the decrees of Trent. The Italians were the largest group, 430, but there were 230 Americans, whose country Rome had classed as a mission field until 1908, as many Africans and over 300 Asians. It was also the first council that met without a heresy to condemn, a dogma to define or an enemy to resist. In his opening address John asked for a pastoral council. The era of state churches was finished, he said, and in the new age the church should not defend its authority by repression but should "rule with the medicine of mercy rather than with severity." A renewed church would hasten the day when Christians are again one.

The test came at the first business meeting two days afterward. The bishops were to elect ten standing commissions, and each found at his place, as a help, the names of those who had served on the preparatory commissions. These had been led by cardinals of the Curia, the Vatican's largely Italian administration. The hint was plain, and so was the question behind it: would the Curia or the bishops direct the council, and how far would Rome open itself? Before a ballot could be taken, Cardinal Achille Liénart of Lille, aged seventy-eight, stood up at the presidents' table and said, "We will not accept the lists of candidates prepared for us before the Council opened." He moved a postponement so that the bishops could draw up lists of their own. The motion carried and the meeting was over within thirty minutes. Liénart had studied the preparations for half a year, and where others saw a timesaving convenience he saw an attempt to steer the council. The commissions chosen two days later were mixed in outlook and nationality.

Conservatives and Progressives

From that morning two parties faced each other. The Jesuit scholar Francis J. McCool defined them neatly: conservatives "see in the future a threat to the past," progressives "see in the future the promise of the future." The conservative party was essentially the Curia, elderly Italians remote from modern life who nevertheless shaped Catholic affairs everywhere and influenced the pope. They were content with things as they were and hostile to proposals for change. Their spokesman was the learned Cardinal Alfredo Ottaviani, seventy-two, a baker's son from the Roman district of Trastevere who had passed nearly his whole life inside the Vatican. His office made him the guardian of doctrine and the judge of heresy, and the papal yearbook listed him twenty-three times, as member of congregations, commissions and a tribunal and as protector of twenty-two orders. His critics claimed that he held every novelty to be wrong; his own formulation was that not every novelty is right. Officials of this kind had never wanted a council. Privately they spoke of "the Pope's folly," they dragged out the preparations lest disagreements become public, and they intended to keep decisions in Italian hands. The progressives had no one leader. They looked to capable cardinals of France, Germany, Austria and the Low Countries, among them the tall Dutchman Jan Alfrink, whom an Italian paper called "anti-Roman" because of his dealings with Protestants.

The council met in four autumn sessions from 1962 to 1965. In the first, which ran from October 11 to December 8, the progressives proposed reforms of worship, namely the people's languages in place of Latin and a more active role for the laity at Mass, and the conservatives resisted. A deeper conflict concerned revelation. Ottaviani's theological commission had submitted a draft, or *schema*, that restated Trent's two sources, Scripture and tradition. The progressives did not want to underline what separated Catholics from Protestants and preferred to speak of two channels carrying one stream. The underlying question was whether tradition contains truths that Scripture does not. After almost two weeks 1,368 bish-

ops voted to set the draft aside, which was a majority but less than the required two-thirds. John, who had followed the debate on closed-circuit television, stepped in and assigned the rewriting to a new committee under two chairmen, Ottaviani and Cardinal Augustin Bea, the Jesuit who led the new Secretariat for Promoting Christian Unity and was a leading progressive. The Canadian theologian Gregory Baum said the day would be remembered "as the end of the Counter Reformation."

John died on June 3, 1963, mourned far beyond his own communion. Cardinal Montini of Milan was elected on June 21, took the name Paul VI and declared at once that the council would go on. The second session, in the fall of 1963, argued about the nature of the church. The earlier Vatican council had defined the pope's primacy and infallibility; this one asked how the bishops as a body, or college, share in governing with him. Conservatives defended the pope's sole sovereignty and progressives a larger part for the bishops, called collegiality. The third session, from September 14 to November 21, 1964, took up religious freedom, which some feared would make truth relative and encourage the idea that sincerity matters more than what is believed. It also treated the ministry of priests, the calling of lay people and missions.

Religious freedom was settled in the fourth session, from September 14 to December 8, 1965. The declaration on liberty of conscience, promulgated on December 7, denied every state the right to hinder by force the preaching or acceptance of the gospel. With it the church abandoned a claim as old as Constantine, that where it is able, as in Italy or Spain, it may employ public power to enforce its requirements. Rome thereby renounced in principle all outward coercion of conscience and broke with fifteen centuries of its own practice. The council closed the next day with a celebration in the square. Shelley thinks "revolutionary" claims too much. Traditional doctrine and papal government were left standing, and nearly all of the sixteen documents were compromises between the two parties.

A Tidal Wave of Change

Even so, the council dropped the anger of Trent and the defensiveness of 1870 and turned toward the world with sympathy. The effect was a flood. No decade in the modern history of the church was as turbulent as the one that followed, and ordinary Catholics lost so many familiar markers that they hardly knew where they were. Worship changed first. They had been brought up to think the Mass a sacred rite fixed since Christ. Now the altar was moved out from the wall, the priest stood behind it looking at the congregation and spoke the prayers aloud in the language of the country, old ceremonies vanished, and people accustomed to praying privately in their pews were invited to exchange a "sign of peace" with their neighbors.

The gravest question was authority. Before John the average Catholic assumed that the church's chain of command belonged to revelation itself. The pope seemed more than human and his every utterance carried divine weight; the bishop was held in awe and ran his diocese like an estate, as the pastor ran his parish; and almost nobody objected to procedures that struck outsiders as medieval. The council raised expectations among progressives, who then discovered how little had changed. Power still descended from an infallible head, whose prerogatives the council had carefully protected, and the bishops had received only an advisory role, which the pope might use or ignore. Many found this unbearable in view of what the council itself had said about the church, and they pressed for democratic reform through protests, sit-ins and the media.

The strain peaked in 1968 with *Humanae Vitae*, in which Paul VI condemned artificial contraception. He decided against the large majority of the commission he had appointed to study the matter and committed his authority to the result, which produced a crisis of confidence in the papacy as serious as any since Luther. Much of the criticism was that he had acted without the bishops. Its foremost voice was Cardinal Suenens of Malines in Belgium, one of the council's architects, who used speeches, interviews and books

to demand the end of a medieval papacy that behaved as if it stood over the church or apart from it. The ban on divorce caused nearly as much trouble. Canon law holds a sacramental marriage of two baptized Catholics to be indissoluble even by the pope: spouses may be allowed to live apart but may not marry again while the other lives. Hard as the rule was, few had contested it. When the church no longer looked unchangeable, priests and theologians began to question both its prudence and its basis in Scripture. They did not ask the church to stop teaching that marriage is a sacrament and lasts for life. They asked for gentler pastoral treatment of people whose marriages had broken down.

The Crisis of Identity

In these years priests and members of religious orders left their vocations in great numbers. The United States had 31 percent fewer seminarians in 1974 than in 1962, and from 1966 to 1972 almost eight thousand American priests gave up public ministry. The chapter finds the cause in uncertainty about what a priest is. The sacred aura of the office fitted poorly with the New Testament's picture of a minister, and a democratic age found a clerical caste outdated. In a secular society, moreover, belonging to the church had become a personal decision more than an inheritance, so that the mission no longer rested on the priest alone. Suenens explained the struggle over authority by the collision of two theologies. The traditional one imagines the church as a superstate under an absolute monarch who imposes his will on members and on society. The newer one imagines a communion of spiritual communities united in essentials by their acknowledgment of the pope's primacy.

Suenens saw promise in a movement of personal faith, the Catholic Charismatic Renewal. By its own account it started in the spring of 1966 at Duquesne University in Pittsburgh, where two lay teachers, conscious that they lacked the power with which the first Christians had preached, began to pray and to talk with colleagues. That August two young men at a national convention of the Cursillo, a renewal movement that had arisen in Europe

in the late 1940s, gave the group *The Cross and the Switchblade* by the Protestant David Wilkerson. Through local Protestant charismatics some of the teachers received the baptism in the Spirit and spoke in tongues, and at a retreat in February 1967, remembered as the "Duquesne weekend," the experience spread to students and other faculty. Word traveled to Notre Dame, where Catholics were baptized in the Spirit at prayer meetings in homes, assisted by the Full Gospel Business Men's Fellowship, a Protestant body. Soon after Easter about a hundred people, mostly from Notre Dame and Michigan State, met there for the first National Catholic Pentecostal Conference. The meeting became a yearly one, and the sixth, in June 1972, drew 11,500, among them four hundred priests and seven bishops. Catholic Pentecostalism had become a lively international movement.

By the end of the 1970s, the chapter concludes, Rome had gone some distance outside its medieval walls, and it was learning what its Protestant "separated brethren" already knew, that the way through the Age of Ideologies was dangerous and seldom clearly marked.

KEY PEOPLE

John XXIII (Angelo Roncalli); Pius XII; Paul VI; Cardinal Liénart; Cardinal Ottaviani; Cardinal Alfrink; Cardinal Bea; Cardinal Suenens; Gregory Baum; David Wilkerson.

KEY DATES

1950	Pius XII's encyclical *Humani Generis*
1958	Election of John XXIII
1959	John XXIII announces a general council
1962–1965	Second Vatican Council
1963	Death of John XXIII; election of Paul VI

1965	Vatican II's declaration on religious freedom; close of the council
1967	The "Duquesne weekend": Catholic Charismatic Renewal begins
1968	Paul VI's encyclical *Humanae Vitae*

KEY TERMS

Vatican II; "Pilgrim People"; *aggiornamento*; Curia; conservatives and progressives; Scripture and tradition; collegiality; religious liberty; "separated brethren"; new liturgy; *Humanae Vitae*; Catholic Charismatic Renewal.

PART NINE

The Age of Global Expansion and Relocation

1900–

Never have so many people turned to Christianity as in the past hundred years, and by that measure this may be the most eventful century the church has known. Most of the increase lies south of the Equator. The missionary movement of the decades around 1900 prepared it, yet the newer churches have grown under their own leaders and, as the book sees it, by the Spirit's own initiative. Meanwhile the lands that once sent the missionaries, Europe and North America, stand still or shrink.

The book leaves two matters open. Will the churches of the Global South hold to the historic faith as they grow? And will the West see a new awakening? If it does not, the authors expect the description "post-Christian" to become steadily more accurate.

IN THIS PART

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CHAPTER

46

Christianity in the West

Decline and Reconstruction

IN BRIEF

Nobody is sure where religion in the West stands. To some observers the West has left Christianity behind; to others it is on the eve of a fresh movement of the Spirit. The chapter looks back over the twentieth century, defines secularization, records the passage of strength from the mainline to the conservative churches, and weighs three evangelical strategies, which it calls rescue, reclaiming and relevance. It finds that none has reversed the decline and asks whether the Western church is dying or taking a new shape.

THE QUESTION

Is Western Christianity being defeated, or is it being rebuilt?

Assessments differ widely. One view holds that Christianity no longer shapes Western culture. Another says that Evangelicals have prevailed, at least in the sense that the public now takes their beliefs, and not liberal ones, to be what "Christian" means. A third admits the shrinking numbers and still looks for a great awakening in North America. Borrowing the imagery of Revelation, the chapter says that many church people cannot tell whether they belong to the new Israel or to the old Babylon.

Around 1900 the conservatives' opponent was liberal Christianity, which appeared to be winning the culture. Liberals shared the age's confidence in moral and spiritual progress. They believed they could keep the ethical cause of Jesus while leaving doctrine

and liturgy aside, and some taught that the inward experience of a Baptist and of a Buddhist is finally one. Such views, or a materialism with no room for spirit at all, came to prevail in the universities and other leading institutions. Conservatives replied with revival and with argument. The fundamentalists resisted as well as they could, although they held more of modernity's assumptions than they knew. Preaching proved the strongest reply: about a million people are thought to have answered Billy Sunday's appeals, and Billy Graham preached on every continent. The ablest defender of the faith was a university teacher, C. S. Lewis. The theologian of greatest influence was Karl Barth, who was not an Evangelical but helped the cause when, after two world wars had shown what religion of human making can do, he recalled church and university to revelation.

The wars discredited liberal optimism, and for a while Evangelicals seemed to have outlasted their rivals. They then discovered other adversaries and a general cooling of living faith. Analysts propose several explanations. An individualism absorbed in its own rights and fulfillment wears away community and morals. Prosperity keeps raising the level of what people think they need, and rich and poor alike pursue possessions without end; the book calls this consumerism a failure of virtue and notes that most churches approve it and pass over what Jesus said about money. Technology has entered daily life to an extent few foresaw. Television and the Internet belong to the last century, and the iPhone, on sale only since 2007, is already carried by most college students, giving each of them private and portable entertainment, information and immediate reactions from friends. It is part of a globalization that is reshaping commerce and producing one youth culture. Its admirers compare it to the alphabet and the printing press, which also spread knowledge. Its critics cite signs that it shortens attention and dulls creativity, and suspect that it expresses and worsens a self-absorbed society. Others again fault the church, which too often mirrors its culture when it should be changing it. Secularism is one name for the whole process.

Secularization

The concept has a tangled history. At its core is the belief that religious matters can be neatly separated from all others. Knowing God was once understood as the work of a lifetime, which engaged every branch of learning and required a particular manner of life, holy practices and a new community. It is now treated as a subject of study that calls for no conversion and no faith; some even hold that faith makes a scholar unfit for it. Historians have traced the change to medieval Scholasticism or to its breakdown, which left God as one cause among others, to the dry logic of Protestant Scholasticism, and to the nation-state, which narrowed both the idea of God and the space in which he could be served. Any of these may have contributed to making religion one specialty beside physics and biology and a private concern.

In present usage secularism denotes the movements that seek to reduce or remove religion's influence, so that the advance of the one is the retreat of the other. Its advocates tell a story that comes from the Enlightenment: nature explains more each year, and in the end no one will need the supernatural. The more aggressive of them call religion harmful as well as superfluous and blame it for most of what has gone wrong in the world. The book grants that the church has had more intelligent atheist opponents. But the present ones want religion gone, and would even strike Christianity from the public record, so that it is hardly too much to call Western culture "christophobic."

Indifference may be as serious as hostility. Society in general pays religion no attention, and biblical phrases, once part of every educated person's speech, have dropped out of common use. Surveys find believers less informed about basic doctrine and less attached to it than at any earlier time. Even its defenders often justify the faith on secular grounds and make it a kind of self-help with divine backing. Attendance and membership figures tell the same story. In Europe fewer than one person in ten usually goes to church, in some places fewer than one in twenty, and in many capitals the biggest congregations consist of immigrants from the

SIDEBAR **Smarter Atheists**

David Bentley Hart's book *Atheist Delusions*, subtitled *The Christian Revolution and Its Fashionable Enemies*, argues that the angry critics of recent years get history wrong when they charge religion, and Christianity above all, with nearly every human evil. He contrasts them with Friedrich Nietzsche (1844–1900), who was better educated and saw further. The "madman" of Nietzsche's parable is not mad because he denies God; the educated public, Nietzsche assumed, had stopped believing already. He is treated as mad because his hearers will not face what follows from their unbelief. Nietzsche understood that Western morality had grown from one particular idea of God and could not survive unchanged without it. His reading of history therefore leads away from the modern critics' conclusion: faith in God is the ground on which Western values stand, not the defect in them. Alister McGrath suggests that the shrill tone of the new atheism betrays alarm. Christianity is expanding, and more scientists of the first rank than ever profess belief in God, which refutes the secular legend that education drives faith out.

Global South and are led by them.

Shift in Western Christians and Churches

Secularism altered the balance among the churches. The old Protestant establishment suffered most: Episcopalians, Methodists, Presbyterians, the United Church of Christ, the larger Lutheran bodies and the Disciples of Christ. They looked like monuments of a respectable past with nothing to say, and from about 1965 they lost members and income; the joke was that the mainline had become the sideline. Conservative bodies of evangelical, fundamentalist, charismatic and Pentecostal type did well on the whole. The Assemblies of God went from 500,000 members to over four million. Roman Catholics in the United States numbered fifty-five million by 1990, a rise due mainly to the rapid increase of the Latino population, which would come to exceed a third of American Catholicism. The conservative churches credited their faithfulness to Scripture. Other observers pointed to their clear answers and their efficient

organization.

Evangelical Responses: Rescue, Reclaiming, and Relevance

Conservative churches reacted to the secular advance in three ways. The first was to expect the end. In a widely held scenario the world is sinking beyond recovery and has little to do with God's purpose for the church, which will shortly be taken out of it in the Rapture. Hal Lindsey's enormous best sellers, beginning with *The Late, Great Planet Earth* and continuing with titles such as *Satan Is Alive and Well on Planet Earth*, taught a generation to expect Christ at any hour and to regard the repair of society as wasted effort; the church's business was to get souls ready. Some Christian critics detected a trace of Gnosticism in this low estimate of creation and of God's intention to redeem bodies as well as souls. Repeated disappointments over dates drained the movement, though news from the Middle East or about the European Union can still revive it and sell another book. Evangelicals kept the doctrine but mostly concluded that they had applied it badly. Many of them also took part in the second response, with some inconsistency, for in practice the three overlap.

The second response was to contest the secular trend in politics and culture. Jerry Falwell, a Baptist pastor in Lynchburg, Virginia, launched the Moral Majority in 1979 and became the first well-known voice of what was soon called the Religious Right, an alliance of fundamentalists, Pentecostals, Evangelicals and Catholics who were dismayed by the country's morals and new to political action. Allied groups included Robert Grant's Christian Voice, Beverly LaHaye's Concerned Women for America and the Freedom Council of Pat Robertson, a television preacher who sought the Republican nomination for president in 1988 and lost. All were convinced that secular humanism was taking over the nation and that the press and the public schools were undermining the traditional family.

Three events provoked them. In *Roe v. Wade* (1973) the Supreme Court ruled for an unmarried Texas woman, named in the case as "Jane Roe," that the right of privacy covers the decision to end a

pregnancy, a verdict that appalled Catholics and Protestants who believe life starts at conception. In 1978 California voted on a measure concerning legal protection for homosexuals. Conservative pastors who campaigned on it were told by the Internal Revenue Service that their churches might lose tax-exempt status, and they organized the Christian Voice in order to continue. The third was the Equal Rights Amendment. Falwell and others read the text passed by Congress as opening the way to same-sex marriage and adoption and to conscripting women, and he led a successful fight against ratification in Virginia. Abortion, gay rights and feminism thus brought conservative Christians into politics, and further causes followed. Broadcasting carried the movement: Falwell's *Old Time Gospel Hour*, Robertson's Christian Broadcasting Network with its *700 Club*, many smaller stations, and *Focus on the Family*, the radio program through which the child psychologist James Dobson became a major advocate of traditional family life. The book judges that the chief political effect was to inform and activate fundamentalists and Pentecostals, who had previously stayed out of public affairs.

The third response avoided confrontation and tried to meet the culture halfway. In a time that prized self-expression, some pastors designed "user-friendly" churches in which religion was almost entirely a matter of personal preference. Because they wanted to evangelize, they studied their market and shaped services that the intended audience would like and an inquirer would find unthreatening. Sermons often took a practical, self-help line and, by a kind of allegory, turned the Bible into a handbook of techniques for successful living.

The megachurch is the clearest example. As denominations lost public standing and faith became more private, very large congregations attracted a rising share of worshipers, or of "the religious market," as it was bluntly put. They were free of the stale image of the denominations and they suited popular taste. Like the seventy-six million Americans born in the years after the Second World War, they thought of themselves as independent and individual. Their campuses were in use every day for Bible study, support groups,

children's programs, trips for the elderly and even weight-loss classes. The chapter lists four typical features. The name avoided any denomination and used words such as "chapel," "center" or "community," to signal a welcome for people of any background and with any trouble, whether divorce, addiction or depression. The music was popular, energetic and quick, and was more and more supplied by a commercial Christian recording industry. An attractive, gifted preacher stood at the center and applied the Bible to everyday life. And everything suggested competence and means: new buildings, professional staff, a program for each need.

Historians generally read this as one more step in the privatizing of faith. Even among thousands the worshiper looked for help with private matters, with children, family harmony and emotional life, and people who came from small neighborhood churches found the large ones simpler. The chapter connects this with the American preference for private houses, cars, gardens and laundries, for self-service shops, and, inside the home, for a room, a television, a telephone and a car for each member of the family. Many megachurches continue to thrive, while many have stopped growing. A younger generation may want community as a remedy for isolation. In Britain and the United States hundreds of new congregations set out to reach postmodern young people, arguing that old methods of ministry now conceal the gospel behind ways of thinking and speaking that no longer communicate. These "emerging" churches put feeling before linear reasoning, experience before propositions, inclusion before exclusion, and shared participation in worship before the anonymity of the megachurch crowd.

Troubling Signs

Neither waiting for rescue, nor winning elections, nor adapting to the culture has turned the tide. The evidence suggests that the "old-time religion" is fast becoming a minority faith. Conservatives used to regard decline as a liberal disease. Many of their own denominations are now shrinking too, and a pause in the losses during the early 1990s offers little reassurance. The chapter asks

whether they will go the way of the mainline, and North America the way of Europe. The Pew Research Center reports the lowest level of religious affiliation since its records begin in 1930: a fifth of all Americans, and a third of adults younger than thirty, claim none. The Religious Right has also lost ground on its three issues. In June 2013 the Supreme Court struck down California's Proposition Eight together with the federal Defense of Marriage Act, a heavy blow to legal restrictions on same-sex marriage.

Ongoing Struggles

Marriage and family life have been weakened. The older convictions, that marriage comes before living together and that it lasts, are no longer held with any consistency, even among church members, and the book observes that the culture had given up the traditional understanding of marriage well before the campaign for same-sex unions challenged it. One family in five now has a single parent, and women are at least two-fifths of the labor force; both facts add to the strain on the home.

On September 11, 2001, Americans met radical terrorism at first hand and learned that religion, in fanatical forms too, would shape politics for years to come. Two fully fueled airliners were flown into the twin towers of the World Trade Center in New York and destroyed them, which a bombing in 1993 had not managed to do. A third struck the Pentagon. A fourth, aimed at the White House, came down in southwestern Pennsylvania when its passengers resisted the hijackers. President George W. Bush, in office for less than a year, declared war on the terrorists within days. A largely Western coalition under his leadership entered Afghanistan, where the Taliban had sheltered and trained them, removed the Taliban in a few months with the help of Afghan warlords and set up a new government in Kabul. Osama bin Laden, the most dreaded of the jihadist leaders, was eventually tracked down and shot, though not before he had inspired and directed more attacks on "infidels." The coalition next invaded Iraq, said to harbor other jihadists, and overthrew Saddam Hussein. In that bigger and stronger country

SIDEBAR **Modernity and Islam**

Modernity is often defined in religious and political terms: a state is modern when it shelters several religions under one national roof and stays more or less neutral among them, so that Christians and Muslims, for example, can live together. The definition sheds light on Islam. After the First World War nearly all Arabs found themselves in states supervised by European powers, which they considered Christian. Some of these states were artificial and joined hostile groups under a single flag; the arrangement was one instance of imperialism. Christians had come to terms with the modern state long before, in the aftermath of the Reformation and the Thirty Years' War. Islam is social and political almost by nature, and its teachers usually insist that faithfulness requires laws enforced by government. For a period Muslims lived in modern states that Europeans had imposed by force. Egypt's Sadat, Iran's Shah and rulers like them kept those states going by harshly silencing radicals, and both countries passed for westernized. With independence the radicals proved able to take power, and the Iranian revolution changed a westernized country overnight into a strict Islamist one. Which nations will choose an Islamic state and which a modern settlement is not yet known. For now, the sidebar says, radical Shiite voices appear to set the tone of politics and culture, and the moderate Muslims whom most scholars believe to be the majority seem unable to make themselves heard. Radical Islam has altered the religious map of the world and radicalized many Arab countries. Muslim rulers have historically tolerated Christian subjects only as second-class citizens.

the war turned out to be much harder.

Arab Christians are paying a heavy price. They were 15 percent of the population of the Middle East and North Africa in 1900 and are estimated at 5 percent a hundred years later, having been cowed, driven out or killed. Of comparable importance is the arrival in the West of Muslims with a missionary, and sometimes a militant, aim. The chapter advises vigilance toward radical Islam in both regions and then names a worse danger, that of being unfaithful to Christ: Muslims ought to meet his love in the concrete witness and care of Christians. Reports of conversions are difficult to verify. There

are nevertheless encouraging accounts of Muslims who encounter Jesus in dreams, of an unexpectedly friendly hearing for some Evangelicals in Arab lands, of underground churches that endure and of Christians who choose to live and serve among Muslims. The book counts these last among the heroes of the missionary enterprise.

Immigration has posed another test. The Hart-Celler Act, passed with the civil rights laws, opened the United States to people from Asia, Africa and the Middle East, and unauthorized entry from Latin America increased the country's diversity further. Church voices had led the struggle for racial justice, yet evangelical congregations have mostly stayed divided by race and by income, which are linked, since a mainly white church accepts a black family more easily when its style of life is similar. Western Christians also began to have difficulties with foreign missions just as missions were expanding everywhere else. Budgets were cut. People asked whether humanitarian aid should take precedence over evangelism and how much of their own culture missionaries press on others, and closer acquaintance with other world religions was humbling. Zeal for missions had been easier when the mission field was far away; travel and technology have now brought it next door.

Defeated or Reconstituting?

The chapter's answer is that reports of Christianity's death in the West may be premature. Western churches will at least keep the influence that comes from wealth and from schools whose degrees still carry weight in the Global South. But the climate is growing more secular and less friendly. Anyone hoping for a restored Christendom, in which church and state cooperate as partners, will be disappointed. Christians should expect to be pushed to the margins and to face penalties; the book thinks prosecutions of pastors for hate speech and the loss of federal funds by Christian schools all but inevitable. The mainline bodies will go on shrinking, some adjusting to cultural expectations more than others, while a few may find their way back to the central tradition of the church and to the

gospel, a course known as post-liberalism. Some Pentecostal, independent and conservative churches will keep growing. The most important gains, however, are the newly planted congregations, which statistics badly undercount. They are flexible and mobile, gather in rented shops and in small groups, and can scarcely be tallied.

R. L. Hatchett, who revised the book, adds a recollection of his own. In the modest neighborhood of his childhood the normal churches were Baptist (his own), Methodist and Church of Christ, and their buildings looked like churches and were finer than the houses of their members. Then a charismatic congregation without denominational ties began to meet in a former grocery. It had a long, wordy sign, people poorer than the rest, no connection with any seminary or mission board, and above all the status of an oddity. Nearly fifty years later congregations of that kind are the majority, and the near future belongs to such independent, enterprising groups.

Pentecostal and nondenominational churches are thus the new normal, and their rise marks a change in what Western Christianity is. A time of rebuilding follows this social revolution, and most Evangelicals will be found in these mobile churches with their many members from minorities. The book sees something Anabaptist in them. They are not all pacifist, although many Pentecostals refused to bear arms in the First World War, and some feel nostalgia for a Christian America; but they regard themselves as a counterculture, concentrate on discipleship and fellowship, and cooperate to meet human need without the political ambitions of the earlier Evangelicals. Other hopeful signs are mentioned: a numerous body of young American Catholics who are serious about study and devotion; student gatherings such as Passion, which brought sixty-four thousand young adults to Atlanta in 2013 and fills its conferences at home and abroad; frequent calls for renewal; and Renovaré, an ecumenical fellowship devoted to spiritual formation. The chapter ends with a prayer that the Spirit will move.

KEY PEOPLE

Billy Sunday; Billy Graham; C. S. Lewis; Karl Barth; Friedrich Nietzsche; David Bentley Hart; Alister McGrath; Hal Lindsey; Jerry Falwell; Pat Robertson; James Dobson; George W. Bush; Osama bin Laden.

KEY DATES

1973	*Roe v. Wade* decision on abortion
1979	Jerry Falwell founds the Moral Majority
1988	Pat Robertson seeks the Republican presidential nomination
2001	Terrorist attacks of September 11; war in Afghanistan
2007	The iPhone introduced
2013	United States Supreme Court sets aside Proposition Eight and the Defense of Marriage Act

KEY TERMS

Post-Christian; secularization; secularism; consumerism; mainline and conservative churches; Rapture; Religious Right; Moral Majority; televangelists; megachurch; privatization of faith; emerging churches; radical Islam; modernity; post-liberalism; new church starts.

CHAPTER

47

Shift to the Global South

What Is the "New Christianity"?

IN BRIEF

During the twentieth century most of the world's Christians came to live in Africa, Asia and Latin America instead of Europe and North America. The chapter draws a profile of this southern Christianity. It is Pentecostal or charismatic in practice; it inherited from Western missionaries a voluntary and personal kind of faith; it reads the Bible as a book about its own world; it connects the gospel with justice and with Christ's triumph over hostile powers; and it worships with the whole body and sends out missionaries of its own.

THE QUESTION

What kind of Christianity is growing in the Global South?

A map of the Christian world as D. L. Moody or Lenin knew it would be useless today. In 1900 nine Christians in ten lived in Europe or North America; by 2000 at least seven in ten lived elsewhere. The chapter gives examples. Nigeria's Anglican churches hold more worshipers in a week than all the Anglican and Episcopal churches of Britain, Europe and North America combined. The Assemblies of God are ten times larger in Latin America than in the United States, their country of origin. Congo has more Baptists than Britain. And on any Sunday communist China has more people in church than western Europe has, or North America.

The historian Philip Jenkins of Baylor University argued in *The Atlantic Monthly* that religion was taking the place of ideology as

the main driving force in world affairs, and that a Christian revolution was under way outside the liberal West. This revolution was turning toward the supernatural and toward the New Testament's own outlook, which Jenkins summed up as "a vision of Jesus as the embodiment of divine power, who overcomes the evil forces that inflict calamity and sickness upon the human race." With the faith's center of gravity in the former Third World, the Christian globe had become "pear-shaped." About the year 2000 Latin America counted 480 million Christians, Africa 360 million and Asia 313 million, compared with 260 million in North America. The liberal church leadership of the North Atlantic felt the consequences first at the Lambeth Conference of 1998, when Anglican bishops from the south used their majority on behalf of views long out of favor in the West; in Jenkins's phrase, "Queen Victoria's ex-empire, from southern Africa to Singapore, struck back." Africa after colonial rule shows the steepest climb, from 10 million Christians among 107 million people in 1900 (some 9 percent) to 360 million among 784 million (46 percent) a hundred years later, and the proportion should keep rising, since Christian countries in Africa have very high birth rates. Forecasts for the first quarter of the twenty-first century reached 2.6 billion Christians worldwide, far more than any other religion.

Global Christianity as a Pentecostal or Charismatic

The first mark of the churches south of the equator is that the gifts of the Spirit have a regular place in their services and in private prayer. To understand them one needs the history of Pentecostalism. Its ancestors were Methodism and the Holiness movement, which had flourished on the American frontier because they ignored distinctions of class, race and sex. Around 1900, after a century and a half of Holiness teaching, Pentecostals took over that heritage and extended it into a doctrine of three blessings: conversion; then sanctification, Wesley's theme; then baptism in the Spirit, which equips the believer for service, as the Keswick teachers stressed, and which is shown by speaking in tongues. Many believers linked this out-

pouring with the end of the age. Prophecy conferences and renewed premillennial hopes raised expectations, healing ministries seemed to confirm that God was making his people ready, and revivals in Wales, India and Korea lent support. Evan Roberts, the voice of the Welsh revival, taught that no revival comes without such an experience of the Spirit. The "Korean Pentecost" introduced customs that Korean churches have kept, including prayer meetings at dawn and prayer spoken aloud by all at once.

SIDEBAR **Pentecostal and Charismatic**

People sometimes use the two words as synonyms. Strictly, *Pentecostal* points to the Azusa Street revival of the early twentieth century and to the denominations that came out of it, the Assemblies of God and the Church of God for example, which generally teach that tongues are the sign of receiving the Spirit. *Charismatic* is the broader word. It is applied to anyone for whom the more striking gifts (tongues, healing, prophecy) are a normal part of congregational worship and of personal devotion, and it covers the teaching, practices and style of worship that began with Pentecostalism and have since spread well outside those denominations.

The usual account centers on two men. Charles Parham, who had been a Methodist minister, laid his hands on a woman named Agnes Ozman, and she spoke in tongues; he took the language for Chinese. Others had the same experience, Parham among them, whose tongue was supposed to be Swedish. He believed that these were actual foreign languages given by miracle, the phenomenon called *xenolalia*, and that they were meant for missionary work overseas. William Seymour, a black preacher, attended a three-month Bible course of Parham's at Houston, where segregation obliged him to sit apart from the white students. He was then called to a black Holiness congregation in Los Angeles, which would not accept what he taught about tongues. But at a meeting in the house of Edward Lee, where he was staying, Seymour laid hands on Lee, who sank into a trance-like state and began to speak in tongues, and seven others, Seymour included, received the same baptism

that evening. Crowds of every race soon overflowed the house, and the Azusa Street revival grew from those gatherings.

The book considers the rise and outreach of the Pentecostal and charismatic movements perhaps the single most important development of the twentieth century for anyone who wants to understand the church now. Pentecostal denominations are only a small part of it. The same impulse produced most of today's nondenominational churches and has shaped many members of the older Protestant churches and of the Catholic Church. American scholars count three waves: Azusa Street and the denominations it generated; the charismatic renewal in mainline Protestantism and Catholicism during the 1960s and early 1970s; and, from the 1980s, the acceptance of "signs and wonders" among conservative Evangelicals, which started with John Wimber's teaching at Fuller Seminary in California and lives on in the Vineyard churches. Historians have suggested wider settings as well. Azusa Street might be the Jerusalem of a second Pentecost, or just one of several outpourings that happened in different countries in the same years. The movement might be the largest part of a general turn to the Spirit that also includes contemplative writers such as Henri Nouwen and Richard Foster. Or it might be one episode in the long replacement of a fading liberalism by conservative and evangelical vigor. The book allows each of these some truth and thinks the sheer size of the movement outweighs them.

Counting it is hard, because it runs through so many denominations. A cautious estimate is a little over a quarter of all Christians, and the real figure may be much higher. The increase is the more remarkable in a century when Christianity as a whole grew faster than ever. The book prints David Barrett's regional figures for charismatic and Pentecostal Christians, which the table repeats in millions.

It is only a small overstatement, scholars say, to call the worldwide growth of Christianity a growth of Pentecostalism.

CHARISMATIC AND PENTECOSTAL CHRISTIANS, IN MILLIONS

Region	1900	2000
Africa	0.9	126
Asia	0	135
Europe	0	37.6
Latin America	0	141.4
North America	0	79.6
Oceania	0	4.3

Roots in Western Missionary Ventures

Missionaries have often been charged with working for trade and empire as much as for Christ and with confusing the gospel with their own customs. Jomo Kenyatta of Kenya gave the charge its classic form: "When the missionaries came to Africa they had the Bible and we had the land. They said 'Let us pray.' We closed our eyes. When we opened them we had the Bible and they had the land." Recent research is kinder and shows that missionaries frequently pleaded for justice and for independence. That they left a mark is beyond dispute. Mark Noll separates what they did directly from the pattern they left, which lasted longer. The East African Revival serves as his test case. On the surface it could not have been more Western. Joseph Church and his colleagues deliberately imitated the American revivalist Charles Finney and read him aloud, and Church himself brought Keswick teaching, a Scofield Bible, Western medicine and Western political ideas. It would still be a mistake to say that foreigners engineered the revival. Many influences met in it, the fact that Africans listened to these voices and not to others says something about Africa, and well-informed observers regard the revival as truly African. In *The New Shape of World Christianity* Noll therefore changes the question. He asks less what the missionaries did than what form of Christianity they showed to the people of the south.

That form was American. Christianity reached America as a European mission, but it changed there, and the change explains the

missionaries' deepest influence. Put briefly, American Christianity is voluntary and owes less to Christendom.

SIDEBAR **Christendom**

At its simplest the word means the territory where Christians, as distinct from followers of other faiths, live. It now usually has a cultural and political sense. A society may adopt Christian values and write them into law; Sunday trading restrictions, the so-called blue laws, are an instance. For some the word implies that Christianity created Western civilization. The general idea is that the church as a religious arm and the government as a secular arm have separate tasks and yet cooperate in a single order. Carried to its limit, in a state church, every Christian of the territory is a citizen and every citizen is counted a Christian.

No group rejected Christendom as completely as the Anabaptists. For them the church had no bond with a state or a territory and consisted of those who freely joined it by covenant. The idea seems obvious to Americans today. In the sixteenth century it was perilous, and Catholics and Protestants alike hunted down those who held it and put them to death. Present-day Anabaptists maintain that America has an unofficial Christendom of its own: no church is established, yet Christians think of the country as somehow Christian and of the church as owing service to the nation, in the manner of a chaplain. American believers thus stand somewhere between Anabaptist separation and the complete Christendom of old Europe, a position the chapter considers essential for understanding them.

The kind of Christianity that spread most rapidly in North America, and that the Global South has most readily adopted, was this voluntary kind. It also laid stress on the conversion of the single person. Americans loved John Bunyan's *Pilgrim's Progress* (1678), which remains Puritan and yet tells the Christian life as one individual's conversion and journey, and the awakenings pressed the same point. Southern churches have often accepted this emphasis although their own instincts are more communal. American churches, further, were ready to follow leaders because of their

gifts and energy, whatever their rank; Wesley is remembered for his inventive organization and not for his attempts to remain within the Church of England. What the missionaries passed on most durably, the chapter concludes, was this voluntary, independent and inventive temper.

Enacting the Bible

Scripture speaks with unusual force in the south. Missionaries nearly always set about translating it into the local tongue. The work gave them many chances to slip in their own assumptions, yet the result, as several scholars have shown, was to strengthen independent thinking. People who receive the Bible in their mother tongue gain confidence and a new respect for their own traditions, especially when they meet similar customs in its pages. The chapter contrasts Islam, whose attachment to the Arabic Koran works toward uniformity. Translation also let readers check their teachers. Africans noticed that the patriarchs had several wives and asked why the missionaries were so strict about monogamy.

Christianity became truly indigenous when readers made the Bible's speech, images and world their own. Noll has described how differently this happens. Western Christians usually read the whole through Paul's letters. Some Africans give that central place to Leviticus, because they recognize its concern for holiness and ritual and learn from it that distinctions like clean and unclean are biblical and need not be dismissed as heathen superstition. Some Asian believers turn first to Proverbs and find there a God who values the wisdom they used to look for in Confucius. Southern readers take the text as addressed to themselves, while Western readers are conscious of the centuries that separate them from it. A Pentecostal does not find the New Testament world of tongues, healings, demons and spiritual combat foreign. It is the pattern of normal Christian living. Interpreters in the West tend to convert such things into terms they know and say, for example, that a case once handled by exorcism would now be diagnosed as mental illness.

Conservative Westerners have their own ways of accounting for the distance. Classical dispensationalism divided what the Bible says to the church from what it says to Israel, allowed no mixture and regretted that Christians apply to themselves a Sermon on the Mount that was meant for Israel. Cessationism goes further and teaches that miracles and charismatic gifts have come to an end. Its best-known advocate, B. B. Warfield, a pillar of fundamentalist scholarship and an opponent of the dispensationalists, held that miracles occurred in three clusters, each certifying a new stage of revelation (the law given through Moses, the prophecy of Elijah and Elisha, and the kingdom proclaimed by Jesus), and should not be expected now. The chapter remarks that such theories do for very conservative Christians what liberal theories do for others: they relieve the unease of people whose experience of church is unlike what they read in Scripture.

Behind this lies a difference about what is real. Believers in the Global South see the spiritual and the material worlds constantly acting on each other. Westerners generally assume that the better they control matter, through science for instance, the less they need spirit. The chapter imagines a tribe whose shaman explains an epidemic as the gods' punishment for treachery toward an ally. A Western scientist then analyzes the well, finds the water polluted and announces that the gods were not involved. The reasoning rests on a false choice between natural and supernatural causes, which the chapter compares to asking a child whether he will take the bus to school or take his lunch. Western Christians often make concessions to this materialism. Afraid that knowledge leaves God nothing to do, they let go of doctrines such as God's upholding of the world, or forget that God is not simply one actor beside others; some abandon belief, and some keep a working deism in which God remains in the wings and angels and demons are hardly mentioned. In the south the two realms meet, so that spirits can affect how a person feels and fares, and readers there step into the biblical text with fewer obstacles.

The Gospel and Social Justice

Most southern churches live among the poor, as the old term Third World suggests. Not all their members are poor, but injustice is the setting they cannot escape, and they are more inclined than northern Christians to believe that the gospel has to do with poverty. Liberation theologians teach that Jesus aimed at deliverance from oppressive economic structures, find the Bible full of concern for justice and demand that Christians do justice as well as preach it. Evangelicals in the south listen to them more than North American Evangelicals do, without ceasing to put the saving work of Jesus first.

Their situation even colors their view of that work. Christian theology has explained the atonement in three principal ways. In the first, typical of Evangelicals, Christ stands in for sinners and bears on the cross the penalty or debt that was theirs. In the second, favored by modern liberals, the cross displays God's love so powerfully that it overcomes human distrust and calls forth love in answer; what it cures is the inability to accept love and to give it. These two prevail in the West. The third was the ordinary teaching of the Eastern church for a thousand years and has never died out there. It sees humanity as enslaved: to an evil that includes a personal adversary, Satan, with his demons; to sin, which no one overcomes unaided; and to death, which claims everyone. Left alone, these powers would have the last word on every life. By coming, dying and rising, Jesus broke their hold. His resurrection proves him the victor, and those united with him share his victory.

This view goes by the Latin name *Christus Victor*, and southern Christianity is largely rooted in it. Its prayers, its liturgies and its daily practice are full of triumph over enemies, and believers there do not have to strain to imagine who the enemies are. Unstable governments, corruption, violence and an economic oppression that seems to offer no exit are read as symptoms of a damaged creation. In the Gospels Jesus attacks evil with power as a sign that the kingdom is coming, and Paul writes of a creation that groans to be set free. The West has long neglected this understanding

of Christ's mission. In the south it underlies both theology and worship.

Other Characteristics: Whole-Bodied Worship for the Whole World

Non-Western churches have a feeling of solidarity that Westerners, who belong to the most individualistic culture known to history, find hard to enter. A Western student grants that he is a member of groups and yet thinks he has not explained himself until he has said what sets him apart. Most of humanity does the reverse and identifies itself by naming the groups to which it belongs. Entire communities may therefore convert together, and to be one body in the church is for them a plain reality, where a Westerner hears a figure of speech. Worship shows it. The singing is lively, uses the body and sounds noisy to Western ears, though it can go together with sacramental forms. Intercession takes a large place, and special times of prayer may continue for hours. Many are convinced that God speaks today as he spoke to the prophets. This does not push the Bible aside, since a prophetic message often grows out of Bible study, from a phrase of the text. David Yonggi Cho, who leads the largest congregation in the world, in South Korea, was asked why women share in its leadership in so male-centered a society, and replied, "God told me."

These Christians also have a sharper awareness of evil and practice the spiritual warfare described in Ephesians 6. Facing demonic manifestations during public worship is characteristic of world Christianity generally and of Pentecostalism especially. Allan Anderson, a leading scholar of the movement, traces its character and its growth to the belief that God has given healing back to the church: "in many cases, the ability of the preacher to heal is the primary cause of church growth." Prayers for healing and the renunciation of evil spirits accordingly belong to the service.

Lastly, southern churches take up missionary work almost as soon as they exist. In common with Pentecostals, many of them believe they are living at a decisive hour of the last days, when

God is gathering a people from every race to finish his work. The chapter's example is the house church movement of China. Its first groups went on foot from one village to the next and were met with fury; villagers turned out in a body to pelt the believers, whom they despised as cripples, beggars and blind people, with stones and spoiled fruit. They persevered, lived underground for decades and multiplied under Communist government. Many came to be known as the "Back to Jerusalem" movement, a name Westerners often misread. It has nothing to do with evangelizing Jerusalem or Israel. The thought is that the gospel set out from Jerusalem and traveled mostly westward, through North Africa and Europe, and that the Great Commission will be complete when it has gone round the earth and come back to its starting point. At the end of the twentieth century the movement hoped to send 100,000 missionaries into the fifty-one countries that lie between China and Jerusalem. Their route is the ancient Silk Road, once the trade link between China and the Middle East, along which some 5,200 tribes and peoples, many of them Muslim, have not yet been reached.

KEY PEOPLE

Philip Jenkins; Charles Parham; Agnes Ozman; William Seymour; Evan Roberts; John Wimber; David Barrett; Mark Noll; Jomo Kenyatta; Joseph Church; John Bunyan; B. B. Warfield; David Yonggi Cho; Allan Anderson.

KEY DATES

1678	Bunyan's *Pilgrim's Progress*
1900	Ten percent of Christians live in the south and east; Africa about 9 percent Christian
1906	Azusa revival: the "first wave" of Pentecostalism
1960s	"Second wave": charismatic renewal in mainline churches and Catholicism

1980s	"Third wave": signs and wonders among conservatives; John Wimber and the Vineyard
1998	Lambeth Conference: southern Anglicans assert themselves
2000	At least 70 percent of Christians live in the Global South; Africa 46 percent Christian

KEY TERMS

Global South; Pentecostal; charismatic; third blessing; Spirit baptism; *xenolalia*; three waves; Christendom; voluntary Christianity; indigenization; cessationism; liberation theology; *Christus Victor*; spiritual warfare; "Back to Jerusalem" movement.

CHAPTER

48

Windows to the Christian World

Places and Persons of Faith

IN BRIEF

The closing chapter turns from statistics to a handful of places and people. It follows the church in China through the Communist decades, tells of Cardinal Kung's long imprisonment, traces Korean Christianity from its lay beginnings to the praying megachurches of Seoul, and recounts the friendships behind the East African Revival. All three regions owe a debt to missionaries, have made the faith their own, have grown beyond expectation and have produced Christians who suffered without bitterness.

THE QUESTION

What do individual places and lives reveal about the church of the Global South that a general description cannot?

The authors first admit a limitation. Their portrait of world Christianity uses Western categories, and broad statements about it, in a phrase they borrow from Randy Richards, "are always wrong and usually helpful." A few close-up views are offered as a corrective.

China

China receives the longest treatment. Its past gave Christians little reason for confidence. Religious conflict there had been bloody (a single sectarian rising is said to have killed twenty-five million), missionaries had been expelled in the ninth century and again in

the thirteenth, and the Jesuits of the 1600s won a small following while fellow Christians accused them of bending doctrine to suit their hosts. The large Western missions of the decades around 1900 ended when Mao Zedong's Communists defeated the Nationalists of Chiang Kai-shek, who withdrew to Taiwan. The People's Republic sent the missionaries home in 1949. Observers doubted that a church regarded as an arm of foreign empire, and burdened with many shallow converts, could outlast an atheist state.

The state tried management before it tried destruction. Mao expected religion to wither once it lost its social power, and patriotic associations were set up to supervise believers: the Three-Self Patriotic Movement for Protestants and the Catholic Patriotic Association (the book dates them 1955 and 1957). The Protestant name came from a missionary formula for independent churches, "self-governing, self-supporting, and self-propagating," which Communists read as a rejection of everything Western. Christians split over these bodies. Some registered, hoping to keep a public witness alive; others refused and met in homes at great risk; and each side distrusted the other. Today the two are usually called the registered and the unregistered church. The Cultural Revolution of 1966–1976, which Mao launched with mass violence, forced re-education and a cult of his own person, then struck both. Church buildings were seized, and even registered believers suffered.

Mao's death brought the more pragmatic Deng Xiaoping to the fore. After the United States restored relations in January 1979, Deng asked President Jimmy Carter what favor he could do in return. Carter, who as a boy had put aside a nickel a week for hospitals and schools in China and had looked on missionaries as heroes, asked for three things: missionaries, Bibles and freedom of worship. The next day Deng refused the first and granted the other two. Bibles were soon being printed, and a law of 1982 began to widen the freedom to worship. Conditions still differ from region to region, but unregistered congregations increasingly gather in the open, registered ones have more room, and the old hostility between them is giving way to cooperation. International congregations of foreign business people, who may worship legally, add

a third strand. The book cites a cautious estimate of 89 million Christians in 2000, about 7 percent of the population.

Cardinal Kung: Faithful Resolve

Ignatius Kung Pin-Mei, a priest since 1930, became in 1950 the first bishop of Shanghai who had been born in China. He would not break with the pope or accept a Catholic Church run by the state, and in 1955 he was arrested. Brought before a crowd in a stadium to renounce Rome, he shouted instead, "Long live Christ the King, long live the pope." A conviction for treason followed in 1960, and for a quarter of a century he lived in isolation, with hard labor and without Bible, rosary, mail or family visits.

In 1984, as China cautiously opened, Deng gave a banquet for Cardinal Jaime Sin of Manila, a leader of the movement that had toppled Ferdinand Marcos, and the aged prisoner was produced as a guest. The two could not speak privately. Kung asked to sing, and chose the Latin text of Matthew 16:18 about the rock on which the church is built. He was freed the following year on grounds of health. No one at the table knew that John Paul II had already made him a cardinal *in pectore*, that is, secretly, as is done when an announcement would be dangerous. Kung had begun by trying to cooperate and ended in open resistance. The chapter draws a lesson about hasty judgments from his story: critics once feared that the Jesuits, and later the registered churches, had sold the faith, yet strong believers grew from those doubtful beginnings.

Korea

Korea is the rare country that largely evangelized itself. Yi Sung-hun was baptized in 1784 while serving on an embassy to China and returned with books by the Jesuit Matthew Ricci. Lacking clergy, the first believers baptized each other and celebrated Mass on their own, and when a Chinese priest, James Chou, slipped into the country in 1794 he found some four thousand of them. Catholics were suspected of serving foreign interests and were killed in repeated persecutions over almost fifty years; Chou was

among the martyrs. The climate eased under King Kojong from 1873. John Ross, a Scottish Presbyterian working in China, prepared a Korean New Testament, and Protestant missionaries arrived in numbers from the 1880s.

The American Presbyterians who reached Pyongyang in 1885 backed Bible translation and applied the method of John Nevius, which aimed at churches able to stand on their own feet. They came when many Koreans were weary of being overshadowed by China, Russia and Japan. One such Korean was Kil Sun-ju (Sun Chu Kil in the book), a Taoist seeker to whom the missionary Samuel Moffett gave *Pilgrim's Progress*; he was converted after a night of tears and prayer. He became an evangelist among laborers, entered the Presbyterian seminary in Pyongyang in 1903 and, stirred by news of the Welsh revival, started dawn prayer meetings. During a ten-day course for new believers a missionary confessed his pride in public. Others followed, Kil among them (he admitted having mishandled a will), and the meeting ran for six hours into the night, with everyone praying aloud at once. This simultaneous prayer is often regarded as a hallmark of Korean piety, although it is known elsewhere too.

Japan annexed Korea in 1910 and treated the churches harshly until 1945. Christians were prominent in the independence movement, and Kil, by then pastor of the influential Central Presbyterian Church, was one of its strongest and most consistently nonviolent voices. Here, for once, Christians were known as opponents of colonial rule. He surrendered when his colleagues were arrested and died from the effects of his treatment in prison; a son also lost his life. Mark Noll credits him with more than seventeen thousand sermons and a share in sixty new churches.

After the division of the peninsula and the war that ended in 1953, the Communist North, where two-thirds of the Christians had lived, turned on the church, and its present condition can hardly be known. In the South Presbyterians, Pentecostals and lately Catholics have multiplied: one Korean in a hundred was Protestant in 1914, one in three Christian in 2010. The Yoido Full Gospel Church counts over a million members, and its system of

cells is copied worldwide. Only the United States founds more seminaries and sends more missionaries. Korean missionaries take with them the ideal of self-reliant churches and a spirituality of prayer, which visitors meet in the retreat centers of Prayer Mountain, where people reserve time to fast and pray. Yoido's pastor, David Yonggi Cho, attributes the growth of his church to prayer rather than to organization.

East African Revival

The revival that swept East Africa began with two discouraged men. Simeon Nsibambi, born in 1897 and converted in 1922, was passed over for a scholarship abroad and came to terms with the loss through a vision that set the award beside the gospel. Joseph Church was converted at Cambridge in August 1920. The university had an evangelical tradition reaching back to D. L. Moody's visit four decades earlier, which had sent the Cambridge Seven to China and George Pilkington to Uganda, where he saw a revival in 1893. Church went to Africa as a missionary doctor.

In 1929, worn out and lonely, he met Nsibambi. They spent two days in prayer and Bible study, and both were changed; Church later spoke of being brought "to the end of myself" and given a part in Pentecost. The circle grew. In September 1935 a group influenced by the Keswick teaching, which holds that full surrender to Christ precedes spiritual power, planned the meetings usually counted as the start of the revival. Church was its only white member. William Nagenda, who joined soon afterward, became its most effective preacher. Its members were known as *abaka*, "on fire," and *balokole*, "the saved."

The leaders showed practical sense as well as zeal, and sent out teams in which lay people served. From Uganda the movement passed to Kenya, Rwanda, Burundi and Tanganyika, the present Tanzania. By the end of the century Christians made up between 79 and 90 percent of the population in four of those countries and 51 percent in Tanzania. A crisis came in 1941, when Bishop Tucker Theological College expelled twenty-nine students, Nagenda included,

for their zeal. The college's white leadership found a way to take nearly all of them back, and that flexibility allowed the revival to stay inside the churches. It also crossed their boundaries: at least five other denominations report a share in it.

Its best-known later voice was Festo Kivengere. He came from a ruling family, tended a flock as a boy and first read about Jesus in children's books while minding the animals. Converted at a revival meeting, he became a pastor, an Anglican bishop, and Billy Graham's friend and interpreter. When Idi Amin had his archbishop, Janani Luwum, killed, Kivengere went into exile for the rest of Amin's rule and became a spokesman for justice and for Africa. His preaching centered on the cross, and he held that Christ required him to love even Amin.

The chapter ends with what China, Korea and East Africa share: churches that are grateful to the missionaries and fully at home in their own cultures, extraordinary growth, and believers who answer suffering with grace.

KEY PEOPLE

Mao Zedong; Deng Xiaoping; Jimmy Carter; Cardinal Ignatius Kung; Cardinal Jaime Sin; Yi Sung-hun; James Chou; John Ross; Samuel Moffett; Kil Sun-ju; David Yonggi Cho; Simeon Nsibambi; Joseph Church; William Nagenda; Festo Kivengere; Janani Luwum.

KEY DATES

1784	Yi Sung-hun baptized in China; Christianity enters Korea through Koreans
1885	American Presbyterian missionaries arrive in Korea
1910	Japan annexes Korea
1929	Joseph Church and Simeon Nsibambi meet and pray together for revival
1935	Meetings that begin the East African Revival
1949	People's Republic of China expels the missionaries
1955	Bishop Kung of Shanghai imprisoned

1966–1976	Cultural Revolution in China
1979	The United States normalizes relations with China; Bibles and freedom of worship promised
1985	Bishop Kung released after thirty years

KEY TERMS

Registered and unregistered churches; three-self principle; house church; Cultural Revolution; *in pectore*; self-reliant churches; simultaneous prayer; Prayer Mountain; cell structure; East African Revival; *balokole*.

Epilogue

The book ends with two short epilogues. The first was added by the reviser for this edition; the second is the survey with which Shelley closed his own text.

Epilogue, by R. L. Hatchett

Hatchett starts from a passage in Gordon Fee's study of Paul and the Spirit. For Paul, Fee argues, salvation is not only the rescue of individuals. It places them in a community, which the apostle pictures as a family, a body and a temple, and whose shared life is meant to show what God is like.

Seen from there, the history just told has a point of view. Its heroes are the early defenders of orthodox belief about Christ, the Reformers who went back to Scripture, the conservatives who resisted liberal theology and the revivalists who shaped North American culture. Put together, they are the family tree of an orthodox, Protestant, evangelical, North American reader, which is what most of Shelley's students were.

Hatchett does not object to people telling their own story. His warning concerns what follows when they admire it too much. It then looks like the goal toward which everything was moving, other Christians drop out of sight, and when the favored tradition falters its members lose heart. The expansion of the faith during the past century is a reason to look again. In one respect the present resembles the beginning: now, as in the first century, a people is being gathered from every nation, many of them poor and without standing. Western churches that are losing privileges, and in places meeting hostility, can understand their situation as one part of that larger movement.

He grants that hard questions may be put to the newer churches. Is their faith mixed with superstition, or only nominal? Can it stand against its own culture? How could genocide occur in Rwanda, a country marked by the East African Revival? Yet the West must face questions of the same kind, about the effect of wealth on its religion and about Christians who killed one another in the American Civil War. It also has lessons to receive from the Global South, about solidarity and about openness to the Spirit.

History and Scripture, he concludes, interpret each other, and both are read best when the church is understood as God's people drawn from all nations. His last word is 1 Peter 2:4–10, the passage about living stones built into a spiritual house, which ends: "Once you were not a people, but now you are God's people."

Epilogue, by Bruce Shelley

Shelley begins with a contrast. A movement that started with a few obscure men in a minor Roman province is now, in name at least, the religion of about a third of humanity, and yet most of its members know little of how it came to them. That was understandable when believers rarely met people of another faith. In a world joined by mass communication it is harder to excuse. Public schools no longer teach religion, church teaching seldom goes beyond a child's level, and so serious errors pass for orthodoxy and pagan habits for Christian behavior.

He does not think this a reason for despair, because failure is never the whole account. The church has repeatedly harmed itself and has repeatedly been renewed from a direction nobody expected. Persecution cleansed it, heresy forced it to say what it believed, and the barbarian invasions turned into a mission field. In his view this power of recovery, which usually began with a fresh look at Jesus, is one of the secrets of Christianity's growth.

A rapid review of the ages follows, and it repeats the outline of the book. The time of Jesus and the apostles became the standard for all later times, above all in Paul's conviction that grace has no frontiers. Catholic Christianity defended that message against

Gnostics, Marcionites and Montanists with the apostolic writings and the bishops, and its martyrs outlasted Rome. After Constantine the church served an empire, defined its faith in councils and produced the monks. In the East the union of church and state lasted until Constantinople fell in 1453 and Moscow took its place. In the West the popes and the Benedictines built Christendom; reform spread from Cluny to Gregory VII; and the papacy reached a height of power that bred corruption and protest. The Reformation ended religious unity, Rome rallied with the Jesuits and with missions overseas, and after the wars the denominational idea replaced the old order. Reason then pushed God into private life. The revivals answered with preaching and conversion, and the nineteenth century with missions and social work, but the question remained how Christians can influence societies that no longer share their assumptions. The twentieth century made it sharper, since state, party and individual were now worshiped in God's place. Whether the young churches of the Third World are the faith's future, Shelley leaves to time.

His final ground of hope is a person and not a trend. No one, he writes, has affected so many people, in such varied circumstances and over so long a period, as Jesus Christ. Each age has seen him in its own way: as Messiah, as Wisdom, as King of the universe, as divine Word, as ruler of the nations, as the pattern of holy poverty, as personal Savior. That record persuades Shelley that Jesus will not fade from history, and he ends: "His title may change, but his truth endures for all generations."

The Notes of the Original

The original ends with a section headed "Notes." It is not reproduced here. This account says what the section contains, which works the book rests on, and what the few notes that go beyond a reference add to the chapters.

What the Notes Are

The notes are not numbered footnotes. Following the plan set out in the foreword and prologue, which keeps references out of the reader's way, they are short paragraphs gathered at the back of the book under chapter headings. Each names the source of a particular description, anecdote, quotation, table or text box in its chapter, usually with publisher, year and pages. There are about 130 of them, for thirty-nine of the forty-eight chapters; chapters 22, 26, 27, 29, 30, 31, 34, 35 and 45 have none. Most chapters have between one and five notes. The longest groups belong to chapter 5 and to the new chapters 47 and 48. A last group, headed "For Further Study," recommends reference works.

The Sources Behind the Chapters

The notes bear out what the prologue admits, that Shelley borrowed freely to keep the story moving. He says where a passage is "reshaped," condensed, abridged or adapted from another writer, and where the quotations of a section all come from one book. A handful of works return again and again. *Eerdmans' Handbook to the History of Christianity*, edited by Tim Dowley, which he rates among the best first books on the subject, lies behind the portraits of Irenaeus and Tertullian (chapter 3), the Christological debate (11), the account of icons (15), the summary of Anabaptist beliefs

(25) and the section on Christians under Hitler (42). Paul Hutchinson and Winfred Garrison's *20 Centuries of Christianity* supplies the contrast between Jewish and Christian proselytizing (4), the picture of Diocletian and Galerius (9) and the attitude of the East India Company (38). Roland Bainton's *Christendom* is used for Cyprian on forgiveness (7), for Jerome (12) and for the baptism of Clovis (16), and his *Here I Stand*, in Shelley's judgment the best biography of Luther, for the quotations of chapter 24. Williston Walker's *Great Men of the Christian Church* stands behind Benedict (12), the contrast of Pelagius and Augustine (13) and Zinzendorf (33), and William Hordern's *A Layman's Guide to Protestant Theology* behind the description of orthodoxy (5), an anecdote about the Trinity (10) and the spokesmen for liberalism (40).

For political history Shelley leans on a standard college text, *Civilization Past and Present* by Wallbank, Taylor and Bailkey. From it come Charlemagne's rise, the explanation of feudalism and the conflicts of the Germanic kingdoms (18), Urban's call to the crusade (19), the scholar Olbert (20), the quotation from Holbach (32), the events of the French Revolution (36), and Dickens, Marx and Engels (41). Other debts are to August Franzen's *A History of the Church* (8, 36), Friedrich Gontard's *The Chair of Peter* (14, 18), Robert Payne's *The Fathers of the Western Church* (9, 17), Philip Schaff (10, 17), Henry Bettenson's *Documents of the Christian Church* for the Old Roman Creed and the Definition of Chalcedon (5, 11), Anne Fremantle's *Age of Faith* (19, 20), Stephen Neill (15, 38), Herbert Workman (6, 23), Ernest Marshall Howse's *Saints in Politics*, which Shelley found most helpful for the Clapham chapter (37), and two articles in *Time* magazine, on Luther (24) and on Loyola and the Jesuits (28). The first two chapters take their vivid detail from the Reader's Digest volume *Great People of the Bible*, and Bamber Gascoigne's *The Christians* is used in chapters 1 and 9.

Ancient and original writers are cited directly: *The Martyrdom of Polycarp*, Pliny's letter to Trajan, Eusebius's *Ecclesiastical History* and *Life of Constantine*, Origen's *Against Celsus* and *On First Principles*, Tertullian's *Prescriptions Against the Heretics*, Sozomen, Augustine's *Confessions* and *City of God*, Loyola's *Spiritual Exercises*, Pascal's

Pensées, the Anabaptist *Martyrs' Mirror* and Rauschenbusch's *A Theology of the Social Gospel*.

The notes added for this edition name the sources of the new text boxes and chapters. Rodney Stark's *The Rise of Christianity* lies behind the box in chapter 3. J. N. D. Kelly's *Early Christian Doctrines*, Craig Evans's *Fabricating Jesus* and a lecture given by Simon Gathercole in 2012 lie behind the three boxes on Gnosticism in chapter 5. Handbooks of doctrine by Justo González, Roger Olson, Allan Coppedge, A. H. Strong and Tony Lane are named for the Trinity and the person of Christ (10, 11), Everett Ferguson's *Church History* for chapter 7, and Alister McGrath's *Historical Theology* for the theology and the boxes of chapter 24 and for Renaissance humanism (32). David Bentley Hart's *The Story of Christianity* (18, 21), Robert Wilken (19, 32), Glenn Sunshine on the Inquisition (23), Thomas Kidd's *The Great Awakening* (37), James Leo Garrett's *Baptist Theology* on Andrew Fuller (38) and Garry Wills's *Under God* on the Scopes trial (43) are cited in the same way, and in chapter 38 the reviser points to an essay of his own, "The Hermeneutics of Conversion," on the immediacy with which Scripture is read. For chapter 46 the notes name George Weigel's *The Cube and the Cathedral*, Hart's *Atheist Delusions* and McGrath's *The Twilight of Atheism* on the "smarter" atheism, and Tom Doyle's *Dreams and Visions* on stirrings among Muslims. For chapters 47 and 48 they name Philip Jenkins, Mark Noll's *The New Shape of World Christianity*, Allan Anderson on Pentecostalism, the Pew Forum's report *Global Christianity* of 2011, David Aikman's *Jesus in Beijing*, and Noll and Carolyn Nystrom's *Clouds of Witnesses*.

Remarks That Add to the Text

A few notes say more than where a passage comes from. In chapter 18 Shelley remarks that the politics of the Holy Roman Empire can confuse the layman, which is why he followed a textbook there.

One note to chapter 47 enlarges on the Pentecostals, who stood "in the vanguard of the Southern Counter-Reformation." The movement itself dates from the first years of the 1900s and arose mainly

in North America. A century later it counted at least 400 million people, heavily concentrated in the Global South, and by about 2040 there could be as many as a billion, far more than the world's Buddhists and roughly as many as its Hindus. Other notes explain the chapter's figures. The estimate that charismatics are about one in four of all Christians is the Pew Forum's, and the table of Pentecostal numbers is adapted from Mark Noll, who relies on David Barrett's *World Christian Encyclopedia*.

Two notes printed under chapter 47 belong with the account of the emerging churches in chapter 46. D. A. Carson describes the heart of the movement, which some of its leaders prefer to call a "conversation," as the belief that a changed culture calls for a new kind of church. Leaders are expected to adapt; those who refuse, the argument runs, do not see how far inherited forms have hidden the gospel from a younger generation. Many observers, the note adds, have associated the emerging church with postmodernity. David Wells is then quoted on the postmodern outlook. It takes so many shapes that there are only postmodern perspectives, but all of them hold that meaning has died, above all the rational meaning the Enlightenment provided, and they find no grounds for any other kind.

A note to chapter 48 adds that South Korea's churches were still gaining almost 6 percent a year after 2000, thanks to energetic evangelism and to a government that valued Christianity as a counterweight to communism. Another says that the chapter's "conservative numbers" are those of the Pew Forum, and a last one recommends the online *Dictionary of African Christian Biography*.

For Further Study

The section closes with two paragraphs of advice for readers who want more than the reading lists at the end of the chapters and the notes supply. For any topic in the book they recommend two reference works with articles and further reading: *The Oxford Dictionary of the Christian Church*, third edition, of which F. L. Cross and E. A. Livingstone are the editors, and J. D. Douglas's *The New*

International Dictionary of the Christian Church. For the chapters on American Christianity they add the *Dictionary of Christianity in America*, edited by Daniel G. Reid, and for maps Franklin H. Littell's *The Macmillan Atlas History of Christianity*.

The Reading Lists

Every chapter of the original also ends with a short list of suggested books, more than three hundred entries in all. About sixty of them carry the asterisk that marks the titles newly recommended by the reviser. Those lists, like the notes, are left to the original.

Chronology

This chronology gathers the key dates of all forty-eight chapters. The number in parentheses is the chapter that treats the event. Dates follow the book: "c." marks an approximate date, and a span of years stands at its first year.

BEFORE CHRIST

332 BC	Alexander the Great founds Alexandria (ch. 3)
29 BC	First temple to the divinity of the emperor, at Pergamum (ch. 4)

FIRST CENTURY

c. 36	Death of Stephen; the Hellenist believers scatter and begin missions (ch. 2)
c. 41	James the son of Zebedee killed by Herod Agrippa I (ch. 2)
c. 44	Saul joins Barnabas at Antioch (ch. 2)
c. 60–70	The first gospels written (ch. 6)
62	James, the brother of the Lord, murdered in Jerusalem (ch. 2)
64	Nero's persecution of Christians in Rome (ch. 2)
	Fire of Rome; Nero's persecution; probable martyrdom of Peter and Paul (ch. 4)
66	Jewish revolt against Rome begins (ch. 2)
70	Destruction of the temple; only the Pharisees' form of Judaism survives (ch. 1)
	Titus destroys Jerusalem and the temple; end of the apostolic age (ch. 2)
c. 96	Clement of Rome writes to Corinth (ch. 6)

SECOND CENTURY

2nd century	The Old Roman Creed, ancestor of the Apostles' Creed, used at baptisms in Rome (ch. 5)
c. 112	Pliny writes to Trajan about the Christians of Bithynia (ch. 3)
	Pliny asks Trajan how to treat Christians (ch. 4)
c. 140	Marcion comes to Rome (ch. 6)
	The *Shepherd of Hermas* speaks of a higher and a lower morality (ch. 12)
144	Marcion excommunicated (ch. 6)
c. 150	Birth of Tertullian at Carthage (ch. 3)
c. 150–200	Probable date of the *Gospel of Thomas* (ch. 5)
156–172	Montanus begins to prophesy in Asia Minor (ch. 6)
c. 180	Alexandria receives a single bishop (ch. 7)
	Pantaenus opens his Christian school at Alexandria (ch. 8)
185	Birth of Origen (ch. 8)
c. 185	Pantaenus teaching at Alexandria (ch. 3)
c. 190	The Muratorian Canon lists the Christian books (ch. 6)

THIRD CENTURY

c. 200	Serapion of Antioch consecrates Palut bishop of Edessa (ch. 3)
c. 202	Persecution at Alexandria; Clement flees and Origen, aged 18, heads the school (ch. 8)
217–222	Callistus, bishop of Rome, readmits penitent adulterers and claims Peter's keys (ch. 7)
c. 220	Decline of moral discipline in the churches evident (ch. 7)
c. 229–230	Origen ordained at Caesarea, condemned by Demetrius, settles in Palestine (ch. 8)
249–251	Decius makes Caesar worship compulsory throughout the empire (ch. 4)
250	At least 30,000 Christians in Rome (Harnack's estimate) (ch. 3)
	Decius orders universal sacrifice; many Christians lapse (ch. 7)
c. 250	Birth of Anthony, regarded as the first monk (ch. 12)

251	Decius killed by the Goths; dispute over readmitting the lapsed (ch. 7)
254	Death of Origen at Tyre after torture under Decius (ch. 8)
284–305	Reign of Diocletian; four-man rule; the last great persecution begins about 303 (ch. 9)

FOURTH CENTURY

311	Galerius's edict of toleration (ch. 9)
312	Constantine defeats Maxentius at the Milvian Bridge (October 28) (ch. 9)
314	Three British bishops attend the Council of Arles (ch. 3)
	Council of Arles, a general council of the western churches (ch. 14)
c. 318	Arius begins to teach that the Son is a created being (ch. 10)
c. 320	Synod of Alexandria excommunicates Arius (ch. 10)
	Pachomius founds the first monastery with a common rule (ch. 12)
321	Sunday made a public holiday (ch. 9)
325	Council of Nicaea; the Nicene Creed ("of one substance with the Father") (ch. 10)
	Nicaea recognizes the leading sees of Alexandria, Antioch and Rome (ch. 14)
330	Constantinople inaugurated as the new capital (ch. 9)
335	Athanasius, exiled to Trier, brings monasticism to the West (ch. 12)
337	Baptism and death of Constantine (ch. 9)
354	Birth of Augustine at Tagaste (November 13) (ch. 13)
367	Easter letter of Athanasius: first list of the 27 New Testament books (ch. 6)
374–383	Augustine a Manichean (ch. 13)
c. 374	Jerome's dream: "a Ciceronian, not a Christian" (ch. 8)
376	The Visigoths cross the Danube into the empire (ch. 16)
378	Battle of Adrianople: the emperor Valens killed (ch. 16)
379	Death of Basil, author of the Rule of Eastern monasticism (ch. 12)
380	Theodosius makes Catholic Christianity the religion of the empire (ch. 9)

381	Council of Constantinople, the second general council; the Nicene faith prevails (ch. 10)
	Council of Constantinople rejects Apollinaris's teaching (ch. 11)
	Council of Constantinople ranks its bishop next after Rome's (ch. 14)
382	A Roman synod first speaks of the "primacy of the Roman church" (ch. 14)
387	Augustine baptized by Ambrose at Milan (ch. 13)
390	Massacre at Thessalonica; Ambrose forces Theodosius to do penance (ch. 9)
393	Council of Hippo lists the same 27 New Testament books (ch. 6)
395	Theodosius divides the empire between East and West (ch. 15)
397	Council of Carthage confirms the list of 27 books (ch. 6)

FIFTH CENTURY

406–407	Roman troops withdrawn from the Rhine and from Britain (ch. 16)
410	Alaric and the Visigoths sack Rome (ch. 13)
415	John Cassian founds the monastery of St. Victor near Marseille (ch. 12)
419	The emperor Honorius banishes the Pelagians (ch. 13)
428	Nestorius becomes bishop of Constantinople (ch. 11)
430	Death of Augustine (August 28) during the Vandal siege of Hippo (ch. 13)
431	Council of Ephesus deposes Nestorius (ch. 11)
	Council of Ephesus condemns Pelagianism; Hippo falls (ch. 13)
440–461	Leo I bishop of Rome (ch. 14)
445	Valentinian III makes the primacy of the Roman see imperial law (ch. 14)
449	The "Robber Council" of Ephesus restores Eutyches (ch. 11)
451	Council of Chalcedon: one person in two natures (ch. 11)

451 Chalcedon: "Peter has spoken through Leo"; Constantinople made equal to Rome (ch. 14)

452 Leo persuades Attila to spare Rome (ch. 14)

455 The Vandals plunder Rome for fourteen days; Leo prevents burning and massacre (ch. 14)

476 Odovacar deposes Romulus Augustulus: end of the empire in the West (ch. 16)

481–511 Clovis, king of the Franks, the first orthodox barbarian king (ch. 16)

SIXTH CENTURY

527–565 Reign of Justinian (ch. 15)

529 Benedict founds Monte Cassino and writes his Rule (ch. 12)

538 Hagia Sophia consecrated (ch. 15)

c. 540 Birth of Gregory the Great in a senatorial family of Rome (ch. 17)

570 Birth of Muhammad (ch. 19)

573 Gregory, the future pope, prefect of Rome (ch. 17)

579 Gregory sent to Constantinople as papal ambassador (ch. 17)

590 Gregory the Great consecrated pope (September 3) (ch. 17)

595 Gregory makes peace with the Lombards; the pope a political force in Italy (ch. 17)

596 Gregory the Great sends Augustine to England (ch. 16)

SEVENTH CENTURY

604 Death of Gregory the Great, "God's Consul" (ch. 17)

632 Death of Muhammad (ch. 19)

664 Synod of Whitby: England adopts Roman practice (ch. 16)

EIGHTH CENTURY

717–741 Reign of the emperor Leo III; the attack on icons begins (ch. 15)

729 Boniface commissioned to evangelize Germany (ch. 16)

732 Charles Martel defeats the Muslims near Tours (ch. 18)

751 Pepin the Short crowned king of the Franks (ch. 18)

754 Martyrdom of Boniface in Frisia (ch. 16)
756 Donation of Pepin: origin of the Papal States (ch. 18)
768 Charlemagne becomes king of the Franks (ch. 18)
780–823 Nestorian missionaries reach Tibet and central China (ch. 11)
787 Seventh general council (Nicaea) approves the veneration of icons (ch. 15)

NINTH CENTURY

800 Charlemagne crowned emperor by Leo III on Christmas Day (ch. 18)
843 Final restoration of the icons: the Feast of Orthodoxy (ch. 15)

TENTH CENTURY

910 Monastery of Cluny founded (ch. 18)
962 Otto the Great revives the empire in the West (ch. 18)
988 Baptism of Vladimir of Kiev (ch. 15)
999–1003 Gerbert of Rheims reigns as Pope Sylvester II (ch. 20)

ELEVENTH CENTURY

1054 Humbert's bull of excommunication: break between East and West (ch. 15)
1059 College of Cardinals created to elect the pope (ch. 18)
1071 Battle of Manzikert: the Seljuk Turks defeat Byzantium (ch. 19)
1073–1085 Pontificate of Gregory VII (ch. 18)
1077 Henry IV does penance at Canossa (ch. 18)
1079–1142 Peter Abelard (ch. 20)
1095 Urban II proclaims the First Crusade at Clermont (ch. 19)

TWELFTH CENTURY

1121 Council of Soissons condemns Abelard's book on the Trinity (ch. 20)
1122 Concordat of Worms settles the investiture dispute (ch. 18)
1140 Council of Sens condemns Abelard (ch. 20)

c. 1140	Gratian's *Harmony of Discordant Canons* (ch. 20)
1147	Second Crusade, preached by Bernard of Clairvaux (ch. 19)
1155	Arnold of Brescia burned at Rome (ch. 21)
1163–1235	Notre Dame of Paris built (ch. 19)
1179	Waldenses appeal to the Third Lateran Council (ch. 21)
1184	Lucius III excommunicates the Waldenses and orders bishops to "inquire" into heresy (ch. 21)
1187	Saladin recaptures Jerusalem (ch. 19)
1189	Third Crusade (ch. 19)
1198–1216	Pontificate of Innocent III (ch. 19)

THIRTEENTH CENTURY

1204	Fourth Crusade captures Constantinople; Latin Empire founded (ch. 19)
1209	Francis of Assisi wins approval for his first Rule (ch. 21)
1215	Fourth Lateran Council provides for the punishment of heretics; Albigenses crushed in Toulouse (ch. 21)
1220	Dominican order approved; Inquisition entrusted to the Dominicans (ch. 21)
1223	Honorius III confirms the new Franciscan Rule (ch. 21)
1224–1274	Thomas Aquinas, author of the *Summa Theologica* (ch. 20)
1226	Death of Francis of Assisi (October 3) (ch. 21)
1252	Innocent IV authorizes torture in the Inquisition (ch. 21)
1291	Fall of Acre: end of the crusades (ch. 19)
1296	*Clericis laicos*: Boniface VIII forbids taxing the clergy (ch. 22)

FOURTEENTH CENTURY

1300	Boniface VIII proclaims the first Jubilee (Holy Year) (ch. 22)
1302	Boniface VIII's *Unam sanctam*; Philip the Fair calls the first Estates-General (ch. 22)
1303	Boniface VIII seized at Anagni; he dies within weeks (ch. 22)
1305	Clement V elected: the Avignon papacy ("Babylonian Captivity") begins (ch. 22)
1326	Marsilius of Padua's *Defender of the Peace* (ch. 22)
1372	Wyclif takes his doctorate at Oxford (ch. 23)

1377	Gregory XI returns the papacy to Rome (ch. 22)
	The pope condemns Wyclif's teaching on dominion (ch. 23)
1378	Two popes elected: the Great Schism begins (ch. 22)
1380	Tamerlane's persecution destroys the Nestorian mission in Asia (ch. 11)
	Wyclif's twelve arguments against transubstantiation (ch. 23)
1382	Wyclif silenced at Oxford (ch. 23)
1384	Death of Wyclif at Lutterworth (ch. 23)

FIFTEENTH CENTURY

1409	Council of Pisa elects a third pope (ch. 22)
1414–1417	Council of Constance ends the schism; Martin V elected (ch. 22)
1415	John Hus burned at Constance (July 6) (ch. 23)
1453	Constantinople falls to the Turks (ch. 15)
1483	Birth of Martin Luther (ch. 24)
1492	Columbus lands in the West Indies (October 12) (ch. 29)
1492–1503	Pontificate of Alexander VI (Roderigo Borgia) (ch. 22)

SIXTEENTH CENTURY

1505	Luther enters the Augustinian monastery at Erfurt (ch. 24)
1509	Birth of John Calvin (ch. 26)
1515	Luther grasps justification by faith from Romans 1:17 (ch. 24)
1517	Luther posts the Ninety-five Theses (October 31) (ch. 24)
1519	Luther debates John Eck at Leipzig (ch. 24)
	Zwingli begins preaching reform at the Great Minster in Zurich (ch. 25)
1520	Papal bull against Luther; his three great pamphlets; he burns the bull (ch. 24)
1521	Luther excommunicated; "Here I stand" at the Diet of Worms; Wartburg (ch. 24)
	Henry VIII named "Defender of the Faith" for writing against Luther (ch. 27)
	Ignatius Loyola wounded at Pamplona; his conversion begins (ch. 28)

1521	Cortes destroys the Aztec empire (ch. 29)
1524	Erasmus's *Diatribe on Free Will* marks his break with Luther (ch. 32)
1525	The Peasants' Revolt crushed (ch. 24)
	First believers' baptisms in Zurich (January 21); first free church at Zollikon (ch. 25)
1526	Tyndale's English New Testament smuggled into England (ch. 27)
1527	Felix Manz drowned (January 5); Schleitheim Confession (ch. 25)
	Sack of Rome by the emperor's troops (May 6) (ch. 28)
1529	Diet of Speyer makes Anabaptism punishable by death; Blaurock burned (ch. 25)
1530	Augsburg Confession drafted by Melanchthon (ch. 24)
1531	Zwingli killed at the battle of Kappel (October 11) (ch. 26)
1533	Henry VIII marries Anne Boleyn; his first marriage annulled (ch. 27)
	Pizarro overthrows the Inca empire (ch. 29)
1534	Act of Supremacy: the king supreme head of the Church of England (ch. 27)
1534–1535	The Münster rebellion under Jan of Leiden (ch. 25)
1534–1549	Paul III, the first reforming pope (ch. 28)
1536	Death of Jakob Hutter, organizer of the Hutterites (ch. 25)
	First edition of Calvin's *Institutes*; Farel keeps him in Geneva (ch. 26)
	Smaller English monasteries suppressed; Tyndale burned (ch. 27)
1537	Report of the papal reform commission under Contarini (ch. 28)
1538	Calvin and Farel expelled from Geneva (ch. 26)
1539	Statute of Six Articles upholds Catholic doctrine in England (ch. 27)
1540	Paul III approves the Society of Jesus (ch. 28)
1541	Calvin returns to Geneva (ch. 26)
1542	Francis Xavier lands at Goa; Charles V issues the Laws of the Indies (ch. 29)
1545–1563	Council of Trent, in three periods (ch. 28)

1546	Death of Luther (ch. 24)
1547	Death of Henry VIII; Edward VI turns England toward Protestantism (ch. 27)
1549	Xavier lands in Japan (ch. 29)
1550	Las Casas debates Sepúlveda at Valladolid (ch. 29)
1552	Xavier dies off the coast of China (ch. 29)
1553	Michael Servetus burned in Geneva (ch. 26)
	Forty-two Articles; Mary I restores Catholicism in England (ch. 27)
1555	Peace of Augsburg: each ruler decides the religion of his territory (chs. 24, 31)
1556	Death of Ignatius Loyola (ch. 28)
1558–1603	Reign of Elizabeth I (ch. 27)
1560	The Scottish parliament adopts Knox's articles of religion (ch. 26)
1561	Death of Menno Simons (ch. 25)
1563	Thirty-nine Articles of the Church of England (ch. 27)
1564	Death of Calvin (ch. 26)
1572	Massacre of Huguenots on St. Bartholomew's Day (ch. 26)
1583	Matthew Ricci allowed to settle in China (ch. 29)
1598	Edict of Nantes grants the Huguenots freedom (ch. 31)

SEVENTEENTH CENTURY

1600	Ricci enters Peking (ch. 29)
1603	James VI of Scotland becomes James I of England (ch. 30)
1604	Hampton Court Conference (ch. 30)
1607	Jamestown, Virginia, the first permanent English settlement (ch. 31)
1609	John Smyth forms the first Baptist church in Amsterdam (ch. 30)
1611	King James Version of the Bible (ch. 30)
1614–1642	Persecution in Japan: 4,045 martyrs (ch. 29)
1618–1648	Thirty Years' War (ch. 31)
1619	First African slaves landed at Jamestown, Virginia (ch. 39)
1620	The Pilgrims sail in the *Mayflower* and land at Plymouth (ch. 30)
1625	Charles I becomes king of England (ch. 30)

1630	Great Puritan migration to Massachusetts Bay begins (ch. 30)
1632	Gustavus Adolphus killed at Lützen (ch. 31)
1640	Jansen's *Augustinus* published (ch. 33)
1643–1649	Westminster Assembly: Confession and Catechisms (ch. 30)
1648	Peace of Westphalia: Calvinism recognized; the pope excluded from German affairs (ch. 31)
	Cambridge Platform: conversion required for church membership (ch. 35)
1648–1789	The Age of Reason (ch. 32)
1649	Charles I executed; the Commonwealth proclaimed (ch. 30)
1653	Cromwell becomes Lord Protector (ch. 30)
	The pope condemns five Jansenist propositions (ch. 33)
1654	Pascal's night of fire (November 23) (ch. 33)
1658	Death of Cromwell (ch. 30)
1660	Monarchy and bishops restored in England (ch. 30)
1662	Death of Pascal (ch. 33)
	Half-Way Covenant in New England (ch. 35)
1669	Spener's preaching at Frankfurt brings the first Pietist gatherings (ch. 33)
1678	Bunyan's *Pilgrim's Progress* (ch. 47)
1684	Massachusetts Bay loses its charter (ch. 31)
1687	Newton's *Mathematical Principles of Natural Philosophy* (ch. 32)
1689	Act of Toleration in England (ch. 31)
1691	New Massachusetts charter bases the vote on property (ch. 35)
1692	Chinese imperial edict of toleration for Christianity (ch. 29)
	Francke called to the University of Halle (ch. 33)
1694–1778	Voltaire (ch. 32)

EIGHTEENTH CENTURY

1703	Birth of John Wesley (ch. 34)
1704	Death of John Locke (ch. 32)
1705	Death of Spener; Halle Pietists go as missionaries to India (ch. 33)
1722	Herrnhut founded on Zinzendorf's estate (ch. 33)

1732	First Moravian missionaries sail for St. Thomas (ch. 33)
1734	Revival begins at Northampton under Jonathan Edwards (ch. 35)
1736	The Wesleys sail to Georgia; the storm and the Moravians (ch. 34)
1738	Wesley's heart "strangely warmed" at Aldersgate (May 24) (ch. 34)
1739	Whitefield and Wesley begin field preaching near Bristol (ch. 34)
1739–1740	Whitefield's preaching tour unites the regional revivals (ch. 35)
c. 1740	The word "denomination" comes into use (ch. 31)
1741	Height of the Great Awakening; conversion of Isaac Backus (ch. 35)
1744	First Annual Conference of Methodist preachers (ch. 34)
1752	Death of Bishop Joseph Butler, author of *The Analogy of Religion* (ch. 32)
1769	New England Baptists form the Warren Association (ch. 35)
1770	Death of George Whitefield (ch. 34)
1773	First American Methodist conference, Philadelphia (ch. 34)
1776	American independence; the seal's "new order of the ages" (ch. 35)
1784	Christmas Conference at Baltimore: American Methodism a separate church (ch. 34)
	Yi Sung-hun baptized in China; Christianity enters Korea through Koreans (ch. 48)
1789	Fall of the Bastille (July 14); Declaration of the Rights of Man (ch. 36)
	Wilberforce's first speech against the slave trade (ch. 37)
1791	Death of John Wesley (March 2) (ch. 34)
1792	Carey's *Enquiry*; Baptist Missionary Society founded (ch. 38)
1793	Carey sails for India (ch. 38)
1795	London Missionary Society founded (ch. 38)
1799	Church Missionary Society founded (ch. 37)
	Marshman and Ward join Carey at Serampore (ch. 38)

NINETEENTH CENTURY

1800	First camp meeting, at Gasper River, Kentucky (ch. 39)
1801	Napoleon's Concordat with the pope (ch. 36)
1804	British and Foreign Bible Society founded (ch. 37)
1807	Parliament abolishes the British slave trade (ch. 37)
1810	American Board of Commissioners for Foreign Missions founded (ch. 38)
1830	Lyell's *Principles of Geology* (ch. 40)
1832	British Reform Act shifts power to the middle class (ch. 37)
1833	Emancipation of slaves in the British Empire; death of Wilberforce; Keble's sermon and the first "Tracts for the Times" (ch. 37)
1834	Death of Schleiermacher, "father of modern theology" (ch. 40)
1835	Lyman Beecher's *A Plea for the West* (ch. 39)
1837	Theodore Weld's *The Bible against Slavery* (ch. 39)
1841	Newman's Tract 90 (ch. 37)
	David Livingstone arrives in Africa (ch. 38)
1845	Newman enters the Roman Catholic Church (ch. 37)
1846	Evangelical Alliance organized in London (ch. 44)
1848	Liberal revolutions across Europe; Pius IX flees Rome (ch. 36)
	Marx and Engels publish the *Communist Manifesto* (ch. 41)
1848–1854	Christian Socialist movement in England (ch. 41)
1854	Pius IX defines the immaculate conception of Mary (ch. 36)
1857	Livingstone's appeal at Cambridge for "commerce and Christianity" (ch. 38)
1859	Darwin's *The Origin of Species* (chs. 39, 40)
1861	Victor Emmanuel II proclaimed king of Italy (ch. 36)
1864	Pius IX's *Syllabus of Errors* (ch. 36)
	William Booth begins preaching in London's East End (ch. 41)
1867	First volume of Marx's *Das Kapital* (ch. 41)
1869–1870	First Vatican Council: papal primacy and infallibility (ch. 36)
1870	First Vatican Council defines papal primacy (ch. 14)

1870	Rome falls to the Italian nationalists (September 20); end of the Papal States (ch. 36)
1871	Darwin's *The Descent of Man* (ch. 40)
1873	Death of Livingstone (ch. 38)
	Theodore Woolsey calls America a Christian country (ch. 39)
1878	Prophecy conference in New York (Chicago followed in 1886) (ch. 43)
1885	American Presbyterian missionaries arrive in Korea (ch. 48)
1889	Death of Albrecht Ritschl (ch. 40)
1890	Booth's *In Darkest England and the Way Out* (ch. 41)
1891	Leo XIII's encyclical *Rerum Novarum* (ch. 41)
1892	Massachusetts court voids the dismissal of Egbert Smyth at Andover Seminary; Lyman Abbott's *The Evolution of Christianity* (ch. 40)

TWENTIETH CENTURY

1900	Ten percent of Christians live in the south and east; Africa about 9 percent Christian (ch. 47)
1906	Azusa Street revival begins in Los Angeles (ch. 43)
	Azusa revival: the "first wave" of Pentecostalism (ch. 47)
1907	Rauschenbusch's *Christianity and the Social Crisis* (ch. 41)
1908	Federal Council of Churches adopts the "Social Creed of the Churches" (ch. 41)
	Federal Council of Churches formed in the United States (ch. 44)
1910	International Missionary Conference at Edinburgh (ch. 44)
	Japan annexes Korea (ch. 48)
1910–1915	*The Fundamentals* published (ch. 43)
1914	Outbreak of the First World War (ch. 42)
1917	Bolshevik Revolution in Russia; the United States enters the war (ch. 42)
1920	Baptist conservatives first call themselves "fundamentalists"; Prohibition takes effect (ch. 43)
1924	H. L. Mencken quips that in Christendom a professing Christian is laughed at (ch. 39)
1925	Scopes trial at Dayton, Tennessee; death of Bryan (ch. 43)

1925	First Conference on Life and Work, Stockholm (ch. 44)
1927	First World Conference on Faith and Order, Lausanne (ch. 44)
1929	Lateran Treaty creates the Vatican State (ch. 36)
	Soviet Law on Religious Associations (ch. 42)
	Machen leaves Princeton and founds Westminster Seminary (ch. 43)
	Joseph Church and Simeon Nsibambi meet and pray together for revival (ch. 48)
1933	Hitler becomes chancellor; concordat with the Vatican (ch. 42)
1934	Barmen Declaration of the Confessing Church (ch. 42)
1935	Meetings that begin the East African Revival (ch. 48)
1937	Pius XI's encyclicals against Nazism and communism (ch. 42)
1939–1945	Second World War; the Holocaust (ch. 42)
1945	The *Gospel of Thomas* discovered in Egypt (ch. 5)
1946	Discovery of the Dead Sea Scrolls (date as given in the book) (ch. 1)
1947	Church of South India formed (ch. 44)
1948	World Council of Churches formed at Amsterdam (ch. 44)
1949	Billy Graham's Los Angeles campaign (ch. 43)
	People's Republic of China expels the missionaries (ch. 48)
1950	Pius XII's encyclical *Humani Generis* (ch. 45)
1953	Death of Stalin (ch. 42)
1955	Bishop Kung of Shanghai imprisoned (ch. 48)
1956	*Christianity Today* founded (ch. 43)
1958	Election of John XXIII (ch. 45)
1959	John XXIII announces a general council (ch. 45)
1960	Neo-Pentecostalism appears in mainline churches (ch. 43)
1960s	"Second wave": charismatic renewal in mainline churches and Catholicism (ch. 47)
1961	Berlin Wall built; Russian Orthodox Church joins the World Council of Churches (ch. 42)
	New Delhi assembly of the World Council: new basis; Russian Orthodox Church joins (ch. 44)
1962–1965	Second Vatican Council (ch. 45)

1963	Death of John XXIII; election of Paul VI (ch. 45)
1965	Vatican II's declaration on religious freedom; close of the council (ch. 45)
1966	World Congress on Evangelism, Berlin (ch. 44)
1966–1976	Cultural Revolution in China (ch. 48)
1967	The "Duquesne weekend": Catholic Charismatic Renewal begins (ch. 45)
1968	Paul VI's encyclical *Humanae Vitae* (ch. 45)
1973	*Roe v. Wade* decision on abortion (ch. 46)
1974	International Congress on World Evangelization and the Lausanne Covenant (ch. 44)
1976	Jimmy Carter's evangelical faith an issue in the presidential campaign (ch. 43)
1979	Jerry Falwell founds the Moral Majority (ch. 46)
	The United States normalizes relations with China; Bibles and freedom of worship promised (ch. 48)
1980s	"Third wave": signs and wonders among conservatives; John Wimber and the Vineyard (ch. 47)
1985	Bishop Kung released after thirty years (ch. 48)
1988	Pat Robertson seeks the Republican presidential nomination (ch. 46)
1998	Lambeth Conference: southern Anglicans assert themselves (ch. 47)

TWENTY-FIRST CENTURY

2000	At least 70 percent of Christians live in the Global South; Africa 46 percent Christian (ch. 47)
2001	Terrorist attacks of September 11; war in Afghanistan (ch. 46)
2007	The iPhone introduced (ch. 46)
2013	United States Supreme Court sets aside Proposition Eight and the Defense of Marriage Act (ch. 46)

List of Popes from Leo I to the Present

The book closes with this list, which is given here in full and unchanged: 247 names with their years in office, the antipopes among them. The Roman Catholic Church lists forty-eight popes before Leo I.

440–461 Leo I
461–468 Hilary
468–483 Simplicius
483–492 Felix III
492–496 Gelasius I
496–498 Anastasius II
498–514 Symmachus
498 Laurentius*
514–523 Hormisdas
523–526 John I
526–530 Felix IV
530–532 Boniface II
530 Dioscorus*
533–535 John II
535–536 Agapetus I
536–537 Silverius
537–555 Vigilius
556–561 Pelagius I
561–574 John III
575–579 Benedict I
579–590 Pelagius II
590–604 Gregory I†
604–606 Sabinianus
607 Boniface III
608–615 Boniface IV
615–618 Deusdedit
619–625 Boniface V
625–638 Honorius I
640 Severinus
640–642 John IV
642–649 Theodorus I
649–655 St. Martin I
654–657 Eugenius I
657–672 Vitalianus
672–676 Adeodatus
676–678 Domnus I
678–681 Agatho
682–683 Leo II
684–685 Benedict II
685–686 John V
686–687 Conon
687–692 Paschal*
687 Theodorus*
687–701 Sergius I
701–705 John VI
705–707 John VII
708 Sisinnius
708–715 Constantine I
715–731 Gregory II
731–741 Gregory III
741–752 Zacharias
752 Stephen II
752–757 Stephen III
757–767 Paul I
767–768 Constantine II
768–772 Stephen IV
772–795 Adrian I
795–816 Leo III
816–817 Stephen V
817–824 Paschal I
824–827 Eugenius II
827 Valentinus
827–844 Gregory IV
844–847 Sergius II
847–855 Leo IV
855–858 Benedict III
855 Anastasius
858–867 Nicholas I
867–872 Adrian II
872–882 John VIII
882–884 Marinus
884–885 Adrian III
885–891 Stephen VI
891–896 Formosus
896 Boniface VI
896–897 Stephen VII
897 Romanus
897 Theodorus II
898–900 John IX
900–903 Benedict IV
903 Leo V
903–904 Christopher
904–911 Sergius III
911–913 Anastasius III
913 Lando
914–928 John X
928–929 Leo VI

929–931 Stephen VIII
931–936 John XI
936–939 Leo VII
939–942 Stephen IX
942–946 Marinus II
946–955 Agapetus
955–964 John XII
963–965 Leo VIII
964–965 Benedict V
965–972 John XIII
973–974 Benedict VI
974–983 Benedict VII
983–984 John XIV
984–985 Boniface VII
985–996 John XV
996–999 Gregory V
997–998 John XVI*
999–1003 Sylvester II‡
1003 John XVII
1003–1009 John XVIII
1009–1012 Sergius IV
1012–1024 Benedict VIII
1012 Gregory VI*
1024–1033 John XIX
1033–1045 Benedict IX
1045 Sylvester III
1045–1046 Gregory VI
1046–1047 Clement II
1048 Damasus II
1049–1054 Leo IX
1055–1057 Victor II
1057–1058 Stephen X
1059–1061 Nicholas II
1061–1073 Alexander II
1061 Honorius II*
1073–1085 Gregory VII§
1086–1087 Victor III
1088–1099 Urban II
1099–1118 Paschal II
1100 Theodoricus*
1102 Albertus*
1105–1111 Sylvester IV*
1118–1119 Gelasius II
1118–1121 Gregory VIII*
1119–1124 Calixtus II
1124 Celestine*
1124–1130 Honorius II
1130–1143 Innocent II
1130–1138 Anacletus II
1138 Victor IV*
1143–1144 Celestine II
1144–1145 Lucius II
1145–1153 Eugenius III
1153–1154 Anastasius IV
1154–1159 Adrian IV
1159–1181 Alexander III
1159–1164 Victor IV*
1164–1168 Paschal III*
1168–1178 Calixtus III*
1178–1180 Innocent III*
1181–1185 Lucius III
1185–1187 Urban III
1187 Gregory VIII
1187–1191 Clement III
1191–1198 Celestine III
1198–1216 Innocent III
1216–1227 Honorius III
1227–1241 Gregory IX
1241 Celestine IV
1243–1254 Innocent IV
1254–1261 Alexander IV
1261–1264 Urban IV
1265–1268 Clement IV
1271–1276 Gregory X
1276 Innocent V
1276 Adrian V
1276–1277 John XXI
1277–1280 Nicholas III
1281–1285 Martin IV
1285–1287 Honorius IV
1288–1292 Nicholas IV
1294 Celestine V
1294–1303 Boniface VIII
1303–1304 Benedict XI
1305–1314 Clement V
1316–1334 John XXII
1334–1342 Benedict XII
1342–1352 Clement VI
1352–1362 Innocent VI
1362–1370 Urban V
1370–1378 Gregory XI
1378–1389 Urban VI
1389–1404 Boniface IX
1394–1423 Benedict XIII
1404–1406 Innocent VII
1406–1415 Gregory XII
1409–1410 Alexander V*
1410–1415 John XXIII*
1417–1431 Martin V
1431–1447 Eugene IV
1439–1449 Felix V*
1447–1455 Nicholas V
1455–1458 Calixtus III
1458–1464 Pius II
1464–1471 Paul II
1471–1484 Sixtus IV
1484–1492 Innocent VIII
1492–1503 Alexander VI
1503 Pius III
1503–1513 Julius II
1513–1521 Leo X
1522–1523 Adrian VI
1523–1534 Clement VII
1534–1549 Paul III
1550–1555 Julius III
1555 Marcellus II
1555–1559 Paul IV
1559–1565 Pius IV
1566–1572 Pius V
1572–1585 Gregory XIII
1585–1590 Sixtus V
1590 Urban VII
1590–1591 Gregory XIV
1591 Innocent IX
1592–1605 Clement VIII
1605 Leo XI
1605–1621 Paul V
1621–1623 Gregory XV
1623–1644 Urban VIII
1644–1655 Innocent X
1655–1667 Alexander VII
1667–1669 Clement IX

1670–1676 Clement X
1676–1689 Innocent XI
1689–1691 Alexander VIII
1691–1700 Innocent XII
1700–1721 Clement XI
1721–1724 Innocent XIII
1724–1730 Benedict XIII
1730–1740 Clement XII
1740–1758 Benedict XIV
1758–1769 Clement XIII
1769–1774 Clement XIV
1775–1799 Pius VI
1800–1823 Pius VII
1823–1829 Leo XII
1829–1830 Pius VIII
1831–1846 Gregory XVI
1846–1878 Pius IX
1878–1903 Leo XIII
1903–1914 Pius X
1914–1922 Benedict XV
1922–1939 Pius XI
1939–1958 Pius XII
1958–1963 John XXIII
1963–1978 Paul VI
1978 John Paul I
1978–2005 John Paul II
2005–2013 Benedict XVI
2013– Francis I

* indicates Antipope
† Gregory I is called Gregory the Great
§ Gregory VII is known as Hildebrand
‡ Sylvester II is known as Gerbert